

Importance of Education in Personality Development

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Richard Moore



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TABLE OF CONTENTS

Preface

xv

Chapter 1	The Essence and Role of Education	1
	Meaning and Importance of Education	3
	Meaning	3
	The Importance of Education	4
	Aims and Objectives of Education	6
	Individual Development	6
	Social and National Development	7
	Social Transformation	8
	Acquisition of Values	9
	Summing up	9
	Technical Education	10
	Literacy	10
	Development of Comparative Education	15
	Objectives	15
	The Genesis of Comparative Education	15
	The Phase of Traveler's Tales	16
	The Phase of Selective Education Borrowing (1817-1900)	18
	The Phase of Cultural Context or the Period of Philosophers (1900-1945)	21
	The Phase of Social Science Perspectives -1945 to present	23
	The Future of Education	27
	Lessons from the Ancient World	28
	Eight Driving Forces	29
	The Age of Hyper-Individuality	35

Transition from Consumers to Producers	36
Archiving Knowledge	39
Defining the New, New Era in Learning	39
Twelve Dimensions of the Future Courseware Architecture	40
Standard Courseware Unit	40
Understanding the System Entry-Point	42
The Social Environments of Learning	44
Thinking Through the Transition for Existing School Systems	44
Changing Revenue Streams	45
Chapter 2 Theory of Intelligence	47
Intelligence as a Process	48
Nature of Intelligence	48
Social Intelligence	50
Scientific Studies	51
Measuring Social Intelligence	52
Emotional Intelligence	53
History	53
Definitions	53
Criticisms of the Theoretical Foundation of EI	58
Criticisms of Measurement Issues	59
Distribution of Intelligence	61
Theory of Intelligences: Single, Two Factor and Multifactor Theories ..	61
Development of the Theory	62
Chapter 3 Education and Learning of Life-style	63
Vocational Passion	63
Growth from Discontent	66
The Affirmation Technique	67
Learning	69
Types of Learning	70
Domains of Learning	74
Active Learning	74
Active Learning Exercises	74
Active Learning Method: Learning by Teaching (LDL)	76
Active Learning and Policy	76
Research Supporting Active Learning	77
Challenge-Based Learning	77
Collaborative Learning	78
Examples of Collaborative Learning	79
Cultural Examples of Collaborative Learning	80
Collaborative Scripts	81
Auditory Learning	82

Characteristics	82
Recommended Techniques	82
Lack of Evidence	83
Life after Life	83
Environmental Factors Affecting Learning	86
Heredity	86
What Learning Involves	89
Different Psychological Approaches to Learning	90
Psychoanalysis	91
Behaviourism	91
Humanistic Psychology	92
The Neurobiological Approach	93
Cognitive Psychology	93
Models of the Learning Process	94
Learning and Motivation	96
Ethology	97
Chapter 4 Communication Skills Training	98
Communication Skills	98
Commonly Known Types of Communications	99
Basic Communication	100
Excellent Communication Skill	100
Play Back for Confirmation	102
Write Back for Confidence	102
Give Background for Context	102
Let others Speak	104
Meeting Management	104
Agenda	105
Improving Communication Skill	106
Assertiveness Training	106
Tailored and In-House Assertiveness Training	106
Assertiveness Training Objectives	107
Assertiveness Training-The Art of Saying No	107
Tailored Assertiveness Training	107
Personal Impact Course	107
Personal Impact Course Programme:	108
Interview Skills Training	109
Interview Skills Training	109
Interview Skills	110
Measuring Body Language Quotient	110
Communication Barrier	111
Listening Barriers	111
Barriers while Speaking	111

The other Barriers Include	111
Voice Culture	111
Public Speaking	112
Importance of Communication	114
Effective Communication Skill	114
Barriers of Communication	115
The Verbal Barriers are	115
Good Communication	116
Speak and Touch the Heart	116
Conceptualizing Communication Competence	117
Scale Development and Pilot Test of Questionnaires	120
Data Analysis	122
Interpersonal Skills Training	130
Behaviour Modeling Training	131
Mass Media/Interpersonal Connections	133
Chapter 5 Motivation Theory of Personality Development	139
Indigenous Education, Learning, and Motivation	147
Sudbury Model Schools' Approach	148
Business	149
Motivation in Educational Psychology	150
Research Methodology in Educational Psychology	151
Quantitative Methods	152
Qualitative Methods	153
Motivational Theories in Educational Psychology	153
Incentive Theory	153
Escape-seeking Dichotomy Model	155
Drive-reduction Theory	155
Need Theories	156
Personality Theories	158
Trait Theories	158
Type Theories	161
Psychoanalytic Theories	163
Behaviourist Theories	164
Social Cognitive Theories	165
Humanistic Theories	167
Biopsychological Theories	168
Genetic Bases of Personality	169
Evolutionary Theory	170
Chapter 6 Body Language	172
Importance of Body Language	177

Understanding Body Language	179
Message Clusters	179
Key Elements of Body Language	197
Communication with Body Language	199
Chapter 7 Life Skills and Soft Skills	207
Soft Skills	207
Mis-communication is Normal	208
Communication Skills Course Objectives	210
The Second Law of Presentation Skills	214
Self-experimentation	218
Psychology	219
Self-Confidence Building	220
Develop the Self-Confidence	220
Balanced Self-Confidence	221
Step 1: Preparing for Your Journey	222
Step 2: Setting Out	223
Step 3: Accelerating Towards Success	224
Skills, Screening, and Hiring Decisions	224
Chapter 8 Personality Psychology and Attitudes	229
Meaning of Personality	229
Evidence of the Relationship between Personality Traits and Organisational Behaviour	230
Criticisms of Personality Assessment in Organisational Settings	235
Future Research	237
Prediction of Behaviour	239
Moderators of Attitude-Behaviour Consistency	239
Theories of Reasoned Action and Planned Behaviour	240
From Intentions to Actions	243
Functions of Attitudes	244
Biasing Effects of Attitudes	244
Attitudes and Values	245
Nature and Operation of Attitudes	245
Conceptualisation of Attitude	246
Attitude Objects	246
Evaluation versus Affect	247
Personality Development	247
Personality Development	248
Freud's Psychoanalytic Theory	248
Psychosexual Stages	249
Attitude Strength	249

Consequences of Attitude Strength	250
Attitudinal Ambivalence	251
Consequences of Ambivalence	252
Attitude Formation and Activation	253
The Expectancy-Value Model	253
Automatic Attitude Activation	255
Affect Versus Cognition as Antecedents of Evaluation	256
Accessibility of Beliefs	258

Chapter 9 Self-confidence Training..... 260

How to Help Build, Boost, and Develop Self-Confidence and Assertiveness	260
Assertiveness and Self-Confidence Methods and Techniques	262
Know the Facts and Have Them to Hand	262
Anticipate Other People's Behaviour and Prepare Your Responses	262
Prepare and Use Good Open Questions	263
Re-Condition and Practice Your Own New Reactions to Aggression ...	263
Have Faith That Your Own Abilities Will Ultimately Work If You Use Them	264
Feel Sympathy Rather Than Fear Towards Bullies	264
Building Self-Confidence	264
So how Confident do you seem to others?	265
What is Self-Confidence?	265
Balanced Self-Confidence	266
Checking Relationship Building Skills	268
Features of Training	269
A Personality Enhancement Programme	270
For Whom	270
Benefits	271
GD, Resume, Job Interview, Training	271
Employee Personality Development Training	271
Training Methods Include	272
Training Programmes Include	272
Strategic Leadership Programme: (SLP)	273
Focus.....	273

Chapter 10 Personality Development through Education 274

Introduction	274
Personality Development-The Benefits at a Glance	275
Importance of Personality Development	276
In Today's Context: Personality Development	277
Meaning of Holistic Education	277

Social, Moral and Cognitive Development	283
Senses of Seriousness and of Fantasy	284
Individual Differences and Disabilities	284
Learning and Cognition	285
Behavioural Perspective	285
Cognitive Perspective	286
Developmental Perspective	287
Social Cognitive Perspective	287
Constructivist Perspective	288
Personality Models	289
Extraversion and Introversion	290
Varieties	290
Personality Development: A New Perspective	291
Personality Type	292
Criticism	293
NPA Personality Theory	293
Chapter 11 Leadership Development Training	295
Training	296
Focus	296
Importance of Leadership	296
Significance of Effective Leadership	297
Voice Training Tips	297
How to Train Your Voice	297
How to Stay Positive	299
Tips on Staying Positive	299
Leadership Communication Skills	300
Skills for Effective Leadership Communication	300
How to Achieve Goals	301
Achieving Goals	301
How to Learn To Love Yourself	302
Accept Your Personality	303
Be Happy With Your Body Size	303
Built Confidence	303
Find Out Your Good Qualities and Achievements	303
Stop Regretting On Your Mistakes	304
Don't Let Others Dominate You	304
How to Become Smarter	304
Exercise Your Brain	304
Read Quality Books	304
Avoid the Idiot Box	305
Learn a Foreign Language	305

Identify Your Qualities	305
Role of Yoga in Personality Development	305
Do I Need Personality Development?	306
The Yogic View of Personality	306
How Yoga can nourish these Personalities?	307
The Perceptual Approach to Leadership	307
Impression Formation Process	308
Impression Formation Process and Leadership	309
Behavioural Salience	309
Method for Assuming Leadership	311
Lewin's Research	313
Advance in Leadership Theory	314
Leader Emergence	315
The Style Approach to Leadership	318
Findings	319
Contingency Theory of Leadership	320
Six Important Managerial Skills for Successful Leadership	325
Observation	326
Monitor Employee Performance	326
Implementation of Professional Development Programmes	326
Demonstrates Working Knowledge and Expertise	326
Good Decision Making	326
Ability to Conduct and Evaluate Research	326
Chapter 12 Personal Development in Counselling	327
Basic Perspective of Personality Development	335
Self Awareness	336
What Comprises Self Awareness?	336
Importance of Self Awareness	337
How to Develop Self Awareness	337
Adhering to Good Values	337
Using Self-Help Books	337
Getting a Life Coach.	337
The Art of Persuasion: 7 Tips to Successfully Persuade Anyone	338
Living in the Moment	339
Tips for Living in the Moment	340
Benefits of Living in the Moment	340
Online Counselling	340
Packaging Personality: Era of Packaging	341
Human Psychology	342
Research Proves It too	342
What to Do	342
Importance of Personal Development	343

Set Goals	344
Action Plan	344
Be Ready to Work Hard	344
Get Information	344
Right Circle of People	344
Time for Personal Development Articles	344
Passion, Comfort Zone and Achieving Goals	345
Action Plan	345
Discipline	345
Passion	345
Comfort Zone	345
Be a Fighter	345
Personal Grooming and Social Etiquette-Improving Personal Image and Developing Self Confidence	346
Counselling Services and Psychological Counselling of Personality ...	347
<i>Bibliography</i>	348
<i>Index</i>	354

Preface

The educational process aids in developing the person's independence and capacity for self-decision-making. He gains it through accepting accountability for others and offering his unique perspective to the tasks he must complete in school and during his time in college. Therefore, this learning style is given much consideration in contemporary education.

Education will be employed as a fundamental transformation agent for women's status. There will be a carefully considered advantage in favor of women to balance out the cumulative distortions of the past. In order to empower women, the National Education System will play a constructive, interventionist role. It will promote the formation of new values through revised textbooks and curricula, teacher training and orientation, and the active participation of educational institutions. Both social engineering and an act of faith will be involved. Women's studies will be emphasized in various courses, and educational institutions are urged to launch proactive initiatives to support women's advancement.

The success in the life of an individual is greatly influenced by their education. Students receive education to equip them with the social, emotional, and physical abilities necessary to succeed in the workplace later in life. Education is widely viewed as the cornerstone of society, which promotes economic prosperity, social prosperity, and political stability. The preparation of healthcare professionals, education of healthcare consumers, and maintenance of a healthy population are all made possible by higher education. Any modern society's progress depends heavily on its ability to educate its population since, without educated individuals, development will stall. Therefore, the government should take education seriously and provide it with moral and financial support nationwide.

Learning is obtaining new information, including knowledge, behaviors, abilities, beliefs, preferences, and understanding. It may also involve the synthesis of many sorts of data. Humans, animals, and some machines can all learn new things. Learning curves are generally followed by progress over time. Human learning can take place via training, education, or personal growth. It might be motivation-driven and goal-oriented. Learning theory, pedagogy, educational psychology, and neuropsychology all study how learning takes place. Learning can be the consequence of more sophisticated activities like play, which are only observed in somewhat intelligent animals, or it can be the result of habituation or classical conditioning, both of which are seen in many animal species. Learning can take place consciously or unconsciously.

Individuals' persistent personal traits are referred to as their personalities. The psychodynamic method is a frequently used explanation for personality formation, even though some psychologists disagree with the premise. Any theory emphasizing the ongoing change and development of the individual is referred to as psychodynamic. Freudian psychoanalysis is perhaps the most well-known of the psychodynamic theories.

The enduring personal qualities of people are known as their personalities. The psychodynamic method is a frequently used theory to explain how personalities evolve, even though some psychologists disagree with the premise. Any theory emphasizing the ongoing evolution and development of the individual is referred to

as an ambot. The Freudian psychoanalysis is arguably the most well-known psychodynamic theory.

The fundamental purpose of communication is to communicate thoughts, messages, or knowledge from one person to another. When the intended action or response is obtained, it is effective. Success in life, whether personally or professionally, depends on having a solid foundation in communication. Therefore, understanding the communication process is fundamental.

So, the question of what communication abilities are arises. Communication involves the sender and receiver relationship, much like a two-way street. This procedure generates a cycle of communication between the sender and receiver. First, the message the sender wants to deliver must be thought up, encoded, and transmitted. Then, the recipient must understand and communicate the message to others.

The language of postures and gestures is known as body language. Body language studies examine the emotions communicated by movements, including those of the hands, feet, legs, and eyes, as well as facial expressions. These studies demonstrate how a person's intents, mental state, and personality qualities like self-assurance, shyness, aggression, avarice, and rivalry can all be distinguished from their body language. The necessity of human perfection through learning and achievements with the aid of education, character building, and all significant aspects of educational psychology are covered in this book.

Author

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CHAPTER

The Essence and Role of Education

In our national perception education is essentially for all. This is fundamental to our all-round development, material and spiritual. Education has an acculturating role. It refines sensitivities and perceptions that contribute to national cohesion, a scientific temper and independence of mind and spirit— thus furthering the goals of socialism, secularism and democracy enshrined in our Constitution. Education develops manpower for different levels of the economy. It is also the substrate on which research and development flourish, being the ultimate guarantee of national self-reliance. In sum, Education is a unique investment in the present and the future. This cardinal principle is the key to the National Policy on Education.

Education for Equality

Disparities

The new Policy will lay special emphasis on the removal of disparities and to equalise educational opportunity by attending to the specific needs of those who have been denied equality so far.

Education for Women's Equality

Education will be used as an agent of basic change in the status of woman. In order to neutralise the accumulated distortions of the past, there will be a well-conceived edge in favour of women. The National Education System will play a positive, interventionist role in the empowerment of women. It will foster the development of

new values through redesigned curricula, textbooks, the training and orientation of teachers, decision-makers and administrators, and the active involvement of educational institutions. This will be an act of faith and social engineering. Women's studies will be promoted as a part of various courses and educational institutions encouraged to take up active programmes to further women's development.

The removal of women's illiteracy and obstacles inhibiting their access to, and retention in, elementary education will receive overriding priority, through provision of special support services, setting of time targets, and effective monitoring. Major emphasis will be laid on women's participation in vocational, technical and professional education at different levels.

The policy of non-discrimination will be pursued vigorously to eliminate sex stereo-typing in vocational and professional courses and to promote women's participation in non-traditional occupations, as well as in existing and emergent technologies.

The Education of Scheduled Castes

The central focus in the SCs' educational development is their equalisation with the non-SC population at all Stages and levels of education, in all areas and in all the four dimensions - rural male, rural female, urban male and urban female.

The measures contemplated for this purpose include:

- Incentives to indigent families to send their children to school regularly till they reach the age of 14;
- Pre-matric Scholarship scheme for children of families engaged in occupations such as scavenging, flaying and tanning to be made applicable from Class onwards. All children of such families, regardless of incomes, will be covered by this scheme and time-bound programmes targetted on them will be undertaken;
- Constant micro-planning and verification to ensure that the enrolment, retention and successful completion of courses by SC students do not fall at any stage, and provision of remedial Courses to improve their prospects for further education and employment.
- Recruitment of teachers from Scheduled Castes;
- Provision of facilities for SC students in students' hostels at district headquarters, according to a phased programme;
- Location of school buildings, Balwadis and Adult Education, Centres in such a way as to facilitate full -participation of the Scheduled Castes;
- The utilization of N.R.E.P. and R.L.E.G.P. resources so as to make substantial educational facilities available to the Scheduled Castes; and
- Constant innovation in finding new methods to increase the participation of the Scheduled Castes in the educational process.

The Education of Scheduled Tribes

The following measures will be taken urgently to bring the Scheduled Tribes on par with others:-

- Priority will be accorded to opening primary schools in tribal areas. The construction of school Buildings will be undertaken in these areas on a priority basis under the normal funds for education, as well as under the N.R.E.P, R.L.E.G.P, Tribal Welfare schemes, etc.
- The socio-cultural milieu of the STs has its distinctive characteristics including, in many cases, their own spoken languages. This underlines the need to develop the curricula and devise instructional materials in tribal languages at the initial stages, with arrangements for switching over to the regional language.
- Educated and promising Scheduled Tribe youths will be encouraged and trained to take up teaching in tribal areas.
- Residential schools, including Ashram Schools, will be established on a large scale.
- Incentive schemes will be formulated for the Scheduled Tribes, keeping in view their special needs and life styles. Scholarships for higher education will emphasise technical, professional and paraprofessional courses. Special remedial courses and other programmes to remove psycho-social impediments will be provided to improve their performance in various courses.
- Anganwadis, Non-formal and Adult Education Centres will be opened on a priority basis in areas predominantly inhabited by the Scheduled Tribes.
- The curriculum at all stages of education will be designed to create an awareness of the rich cultural identity of the tribal people as also of their enormous creative talent.

MEANING AND IMPORTANCE OF EDUCATION

MEANING

To know the meaning of education we discuss about it's etymological, narrow and broader meaning of education.

- *Etymological meaning of education:* The term education is derived from Latin word educere, educare, and educatum which means 'to learn', 'to know', and to 'lead out'. That is education means to lead out internal hidden talent of a child or person.
- *Narrow meaning of education:* The education provided under the premises of schools, colleges and universities is the narrow concept of education. The narrow meaning of education limited under the premises of educational institutions. It doesn't include the education outside of four walls of institution. Narrow meaning of education emphasize on bookish knowledge.

- *Broader meaning of education:* Opposite of narrow meaning of education is broader meaning of education. That is the education provided under the educational institution's premises is only education is wrong. According to its concept education is universal, we can gain education from anywhere, anytime. There is no bound of place and time. Education is the long life process. It starts from cradle and ends to the grave.

THE IMPORTANCE OF EDUCATION

Education is very important for an individual's success in life. Education provides pupils teaching skills that prepare them physically, mentally and socially for the world of work in later life. Education is generally seen as the foundation of society which brings economic wealth, social prosperity and political stability. Higher education helps in maintaining a healthy society which prepares health care professionals, educated health care consumers and maintaining healthy population. Education is major aspect of development of any modern society since if there is a deficit of educated people then society will stop its further progress. Government should pay serious attention to education and support it economically and morally all over the country.

Education is the best investment for the people because well educated people have more opportunities to get a job which gives them satisfaction. Educated individuals enjoy respect among their colleagues and they can effectively contribute to the development of their country and society by inventing new devices and discoveries. Today's ever growing numbers of people mostly are not satisfied with their basic education and try to get secondary or tertiary education in order to meet the demands of contemporary society. Some of them enter higher educational institutions and some search additional information on the internet. Good People sacrifices their time and money and sometimes even their health to raise educational level because they realise that education is their passport to the future and for tomorrow.

Main purpose of education is to educate individuals within society, to prepare and qualify them for work in economy as well as to integrate people into society and teach them values and morals of society. Role of education is means of socializing individuals and to keep society smoothing and remain stable. Education in society prepares youngsters for adulthood so that they may form the next generation of leaders. It will yield strong families and strong communities. Indeed, parents taking an active role in their child education produce a willingness in children to learn. Education and society provides a forum where teachers and scholars all over the world are able to evaluate problems in education and society from a balanced and comparative social and economic perspective. Education is an important aspect of the work of society and it will raise the countryside issues and promote knowledge and understanding of rural communities. One of the education essential tasks is to enable people to understand themselves. Students must be equipped with knowledge and skills which are needed to participate

effectively as member of society and contribute towards the development of shared values and common identity. Education has a vital role to play in assisting students to understand their cultural identity. Education acts as the distribution mechanism of the cultural values such as it more layered the society and participate in society that carries the culture. Education and society provides a forum where teachers and scholars all over the world are able to evaluate problems in education and society from a balanced and comparative social and economic perspective. Education is an important aspect of the work of society and it will raise the countryside issues and promote knowledge and understanding of rural communities. One of the education essential tasks is to enable people to understand themselves. Students must be equipped with knowledge and skills which are needed to participate effectively as member of society and contribute towards the development of shared values and common identity.

Education has a vital role to play in assisting students to understand their cultural identity. Education acts as the distribution mechanism of the cultural values such as it more layered the society and participate in society that carries the culture. In our culture today, there is a great emphasis on higher education. In a society, more educated you are, better off you are.

Every society has specialized individuals that require extended education to fulfill certain main positions. These persons are normally known as professors, priests, doctors, mechanics or artists. Education has been a higher part of every culture on earth and education is a systemic project. Whole society should care for and support the education patriotism, cause and socialism among the young people.

Everyone must do work hard to cultivate moral conduct. Education mainly begins at home; one does not acquire knowledge from a teacher, one can learn and get knowledge from a parent or a family member. In almost all societies, receiving education and attending school is very necessary is one wants to achieve success. Education is the key to move in the world, seek better jobs and ultimately succeed in life. Schools play a vital role in preparing our children and young people for effective participation and responsible citizenship in society. The development of education and educational opportunities is built on creativity tempered by knowledge and wisdom gain through the experience of learning.

Investment in human capital, life long learning and quality education help in the development of society. Teachers are the most important factors for an innovative society because teachers' knowledge and skills not only enhance the quality and efficiency of education, but also improve the prerequisites of research and innovation. Many members of our society are not provided with a safe and secure environment in which children can develop, child abuse, violence against women and interpersonal violence cause a cancer on our society.

Society play a key role in the realization of life long learning. The improvement of social education facilities such as libraries and the learning opportunities are implemented

by the local governments. Students today are exposed to loads of technology and information at everywhere.

AIMS AND OBJECTIVES OF EDUCATION

The importance of aims and objectives of education is recognised by all the educational, professional, political, non-political and religious associations, organisations and groups at various levels in their memoranda, letters and brochures. It is said that education without clear cut aims is like a rudderless ship. The following comparisons emphasise this point fully well.

Every pilot has a route-chart and set timing of landing at predetermined destination. There is constitution or set of Principles and traditions through which a country is governed. Similarly, there should be properly defined and declared principles, aims and objectives of education or the basis of which policies and programmes of education have to be formulated to achieve the set goals without wasting scarce energies and resources in chasing the wild goose.

It is generally felt that our educational system has not followed the desired aims as a result that it does not produce ideal citizens in the country. It has followed, rather a narrow aim of preparing individuals for livelihood, as mentioned in one of the documents received from an organisation.

The main reason of failure of educational system is that it basically stands on pre-independence system. The main Objective of its products was how to take degree and to earn money and to be careerist without consideration of ethical values and national spirit. On the other hand, it has also been pointed out that it is unreasonable to criticise educational system alone because it is based on the other subsystems accepted by us. On the one hand we are developing and cultivating the British given economy, judicial system and system of administration and parliament, and on the other we are decrying and Criticising the education system which merely fulfils the needs of the British systems that we are propagating. As pointed out in a memorandum of an association, “the main defect of the old. education policy is that it had completely ignored the Indian culture and the interest of the masses of India and have left them economically too backward and socially too fragmented to articulate their miseries....” The aims and objectives of education, suggested in the documents, include individual as well as social aims, with emphasis of social transformation aiming at reconstructing society to make it modernised, productive, participative, and value oriented nation committed to its constitutional obligations.

INDIVIDUAL DEVELOPMENT

Development of an individual - physically, mentally and spiritually is well known aim of education.

Objectives related to this aim of individual development have been expressed in various ways in the memoranda:

- Developing physical and mental faculties
- Acquiring the capacities of understanding, appreciation and expression through word and act, are the fundamental aims of education
- Aim of education should be to make children self- confident and self dependent, and to make them strong physically and mentally
- Education is meant to develop every child's character, personality and culture and as much knowledge as the child can assimilate not merely memorize.

The best expression of complete development of an individual and the harmonious development of personality, however, is found in the following paragraph.

The policy should be directed to the aim of enlightenment of head and heart; illumination of consciousness for allround development of individual personality. Education should enable a human being to attain the greatest possible harmony, internal and external, spiritual and material, for the fullest possible development of human potentialities and capacities.

SOCIAL AND NATIONAL DEVELOPMENT

Social, aim of education is equally important because an individual lives in society and has his obligations towards his nation. There is a realisation that, "The present education system does not yield required results mainly because it is divorced from the real social content and social goals". It has, therefore, been suggested that education should be able, to discharge its natural functions and must correspond to its structure, goals and content in the interest of national development and social progress. It has also been suggested in this connection that students from young age should be made aware of the social responsibility cast on them.

At the same time, there are certain constitutional commitments, which are intimately related to this aim.. We as the citizens of the republic, are constitutionally Committed to democracy, social justice, equality of opportunity, secularism and all to a welfare state. It has, therefore, been suggested that, "Educational policy and educational programme should clearly reflect these commitments".

The objectives of developing a sense of national identity, unity and patriotism are advocated by many associations. It is pointed out that the national objectives of planning and programmes and development with special emphasis on popular participation and the national problems that we face in different fields should. be taught at relevant stages. Individual and social aims of education are not contrary to one another. In fact they are complementary to one another. The following view strikes a balance between individual and social aims of education.

The purpose of education should be the development of the fullest possible capacities and potentialities physical and spiritual of a 'total man'. It should make a man capable

of earning his livelihood reasonably well to enjoy a happy and secure life while making effective contributions to the society and national effort of making India strong# advanced and prosperous.

SOCIAL TRANSFORMATION

Education should not merely equip an individual to adjust with society to its customs and conventions, but it should enable him to bring desirable changes in the society. It has been, therefore, suggested that, “Every educational institution from secondary school to university college should be developed to become an agency of change....”

However, it is essential that we should be quite clear about the purpose of change. It is, therefore, natural to ask the, question, “Reform and change to achieve what”? What type of society we aim at and what type of citizens we wish to produce? The following ideas give an indication of the kind of changes education is expected to bring about.

Modernisation

Modernisation of society in terms of scientific and technological advancement is a view which seems to be quite popular. It is though that education should enable us to move with times and attain excellence in, science and technology. To quote an expression of this kind. Scientific and technological advances are, gaining momentum and conscious efforts are made to incorporate them into the development sectors. This calls for modernisation of education in order to make. it in conformity with the modern times and to keep pace, with the advances in the world. Modernisation, however, is not interpreted and equated with westernisation. In fact, lot of emphasis is given to ‘Indianness’ while talking about modernisation. One of the suggestions explicitly points out that, hour education should integrate and unite the people of India, modernise society while preserving what is authentically Indian in our cultural and spiritual heritage”.

The following suggestion beautifully reconciles the twin objectives of modern technical sophistication and the ancient spirituality. “New education policy of India should be built on the foundation of ancient spirituality and modern culture and technical sophistication. It should develop scientific temper and spirit of enquiry in the students”.

Productivity

Some documents have insisted on linking education with productivity and thus making individuals as productivie citizens to build a productive society. One of the suggestions, in a memorandum, for example, says. “It should bring about a social transformation, and enhance greater efficiency and productivity in all sectors: agri- cultural, industrial and service”. It is in this context that Mahatma Gandhi’s system of basic education is still considered as a basically sound system and a suggestion has been made that with necessary modification elements of basic education may form part of education not only at the primary stage but at all stages in our national system of education.

These elements are:

- Productive activity in education.
- Correlation of the curriculum with productive activity and physical and social environment.
- Intimate contact between the school and the local community.

Community Participation

In a democracy education without community participation is barren. This aim of education is, therefore voiced by a number of groups and organisations. The change that is envisaged on this front is that of Integrating education with community in all respects. To quote a suggestion in this regard:

The education system in all its branches and sectors should get itself involved in activities related to problems of local Community life and shall thus endeavour through the desirable community participation community involvement in the educational field to bring all education of its rightful place in community life.

ACQUISITION OF VALUES

Moral, cultural and spiritual values in education have been given immense importance in the Memoranda documents. One of the expressions emphatically point out that, “certain basic values as respect for others, responsibility, solidarity, creativity and integrity must be fostered in our children”.

It is interesting that a number of specific values have been suggested in the documents. Emphasis should be given in cultivating good qualities like cooperation, good will, forgiveness, tolerance, honesty, patience etc. in order to encourage universal brotherhood and to prepare students worthy citizens of the country.

Values of optimism and secularism, and service to the poor should be stressed on the young minds.

SUMMING UP

It is worth reproducing what a document mentions about the aims of education:

The aim of education is two-fold:

1. Development of the individual in society and
2. Consequent development of the society.

The aim of education in relation to individual may be spelt out as follows:

- To produce full human personality with courage, conviction, vitality, sensitivity and intelligence so that men and women may life in harmony with the universe;
- To bring out the fullest potential of child and prepare him. for life and its varied situations so that he becomes a cultured and responsible citizen dedicated in the service of community.

In relation to the society, the aim of education is to create:

- A sane and learning society where made of material production will be such that no part of the society remains unemployed. In the Indian context such a made of production will be necessarily based on a decentralised economy utilising all available manpower;
- A society. where the conditions of work and general environment will offer psychic satisfactions and effective motivations to its members.
- A society reconciling technological and scientific advancement with general well-being and securit of its members, enhancing joy of life and eliminating all forms of exploitation.

The broad objective of education should, therefore, be to look beyond the existing society and to develop men and. women amenable to the advent of a sane and healthier society of tomorrow. While summing up, it may be pointed out that various dimensions individual and social development, social transformation, value- acquisition etc. have been well identified in the memoranda documents. The following words briefly summarise the various dimensions which are considered important indeed for marching into the 21st century:

We are of the opinion that Indian education should aim at producing men and women of knowledge, character and cultural values and trained skills to achieve excellence in their career and life. Let us make it clear that we wish to prepare youth to march into the 21st century on the ideals of truth and non-voilence as shown to us by our great leaders.

TECHNICAL EDUCATION

From the first Five Year Plan onwards India's emphasis was to develop a pool of scientifically inclined manpower. India's National Policy on Education (NPE) provisioned for an apex body for regulation and development of higher technical education, which came into being as the All India Council for Technical Education (AICTE) in 1987 through an act of the Indian parliament. At the level of the centre the Indian Institutes of Technology and the Indian Institutes of Information Technology are deemed of national importance. The Indian Institutes of Management are also among the nation's premier education facilities. Several Regional Engineering Colleges (REC) have been converted into National Institutes of Technology. The UGC has inter-university centres at a number of locations throughout India to promote common research, eg. the Nuclear Science Centre at the Jawaharlal Nehru University, New Delhi.

LITERACY

2001 government statistics hold the national literacy to be around 64.84 per cent. Government statistics of 2001 also hold that the rate of increase of literacy is more in

rural areas than in urban areas. Female literacy was at a national average of 53.63 per cent whereas the male literacy was 75.26 per cent. Within the Indian states, Kerala has shown the highest literacy rates of 90.02 per cent whereas Bihar averaged lower than 50 per cent literacy, the lowest in India. The 2001 statistics also indicated that the total number of 'absolute non- literates' in the country was 304 million..

Attainment

World Bank statistics found that fewer than 40 per cent of adolescents in India attend secondary schools. *The Economist* reports that half of 10-year-old rural children could not read at a basic level, over 60 per cent were unable to do division, and half dropped out by the age 14.

Only one in ten young people have access to tertiary education. Out of those who receive higher education, *Mercer Consulting* estimates that only a quarter of graduates are "employable". An optimistic estimate is that only one in five job-seekers in India has ever had any sort of vocational training.

Private Education

According to current estimates, 80 per cent of all schools are government schools making the government the major provider of education. However, because of poor quality of public education, 27 per cent of Indian children are privately educated.

According to some research, private schools often provide superior results at a fraction of the unit cost of government schools. However, others have suggested that private schools fail to provide education to the poorest families, a selective being only a fifth of the schools and have in the past ignored Court orders for their regulation. In their favour, it has been pointed out that private schools cover the entire curriculum and offer extra-curricular activities such as science fairs, general knowledge, sports, music and drama. The pupil teacher ratios are much better in private schools (1:31 to 1:37 for government schools and more teachers in private schools are female. There is some disagreement over which system has better educated teachers. According to the latest DISE survey, the percentage of untrained teachers (paratechers) is 54.91 per cent in private, compared to 44.88 per cent in government schools and only 2.32 per cent teachers in unaided schools receive inservice training compared to 43.44 per cent for government schools. The competition in the school market is intense, yet most schools make profit. Even the poorest often go to private schools despite the fact that government schools are free. A study found that 65 per cent of schoolchildren in Hyderabad's slums attend private schools.

Private schools are often operating illegally. A 2001 study found that it takes 14 different licenses from four different authorities to open a private school in New Delhi and could take years if done legally. However, operation of unrecognized schools has been made illegal under the Children's Right to Free and Compulsory Education Act

Rural Education

Following independence, India viewed education as an effective tool for bringing social change through community development. The administrative control was effectively initiated in the 1950s, when, in 1952, the government grouped villages under a Community Development Block—an authority under national programme which could control education in up to 100 villages. A Block Development Officer oversaw a geographical area of 150 square miles which could contain a population of as many as 70000 people.

Setty and Ross elaborate on the role of such programmes, themselves divided further into *individual-based*, *community based*, or the *Individual-cum-community-based*, in which microscopic levels of development are overseen at village level by an appointed worker: The community development programmes comprise agriculture, animal husbandry, cooperation, rural industries, rural engineering (consisting of minor irrigation, roads, buildings), health and sanitation including family welfare, family planning, women welfare, child care and nutrition, education including adult education, social education and literacy, youth welfare and community organisation. In each of these areas of development there are several programmes, schemes and activities which are additive, expanding and tapering off covering the total community, some segments, or specific target populations such as small and marginal farmers, artisans, women and in general people below the poverty line.

Despite some setbacks the rural education programmes continued throughout the 1950s, with support from private institutions. A sizable network of rural education had been established by the time the *Gandhigram Rural Institute* was established and 5, 200 Community Development Blocks were established in India. Nursery schools, elementary schools, secondary school, and schools for adult education for women were set up. The government continued to view rural education as an agenda that could be relatively free from bureaucratic backlog and general stagnation. However, in some cases lack of financing balanced the gains made by rural education institutes of India. Some ideas failed to find acceptability among India's poor and investments made by the government sometimes yielded little results. Today, government rural schools remain poorly funded and understaffed. Several foundations, such as the Rural Development Foundation (Hyderabad), actively build high-quality rural schools, but the number of students served is small.

Issues

One study found out that 25 per cent of public sector teachers and 40 per cent of public sector medical workers were absent during the survey. Among teachers who were paid to teach, absence rates ranged from 15 per cent in Maharashtra to 71 per cent in Bihar. Only 1 in nearly 3000 public school head teachers had ever dismissed a teacher for repeated absence. A study on teachers by Kremer etc. found that 'only about half

were teaching, during unannounced visits to a nationally representative sample of government primary schools in India.’.

Modern education in India is often criticized for being based on rote learning rather than problem solving. *BusinessWeek* denigrates the Indian curriculum saying it revolves around rote learning. and *ExpressIndia* suggests that students are focused on cramming.

A study of 188 government-run primary schools found that 59 per cent of the schools had no drinking water and 89 per cent had no toilets. 2003-04 data by National Institute of Educational Planning and Administration revealed that only 3.5 per cent of primary schools in Bihar and Chhattisgarh had toilets for girls. In Madhya Pradesh, Maharashtra, Andhra Pradesh, Gujarat, Rajasthan and Himachal Pradesh, rates were 12-16 per cent.

Fake degrees are a problem. One raid in Bihar found 0.1 million fake certificates. In February 2009, the University Grant Commission found 19 fake institutions operating in India. Only 16 per cent of manufacturers in India offer in-service training to their employees, compared with over 90 per cent in China.

Initiatives

Following India’s independence a number of rules were formulated for the backward Scheduled Castes and the Scheduled Tribes of India, and in 1960 a list identifying 405 Scheduled Castes and 225 Scheduled Tribes was published by the central government. An amendment was made to the list in 1975, which identified 841 Scheduled Castes and 510 Scheduled Tribes. The total percentage of Scheduled Castes and Scheduled Tribes combined was found to be 22.5 per cent with the Scheduled Castes accounting for 17 per cent and the Scheduled Tribes accounting for the remaining 7.5 per cent. Following the report many Scheduled Castes and Scheduled Tribes increasingly referred to themselves as *Dalit*, a Marathi language terminology used by B. R. Ambedkar which literally means “oppressed”.

The Scheduled Castes and Scheduled Tribes are provided for in many of India’s educational programmes. Special reservations are also provided for the Scheduled Castes and Scheduled Tribes in India, eg. a reservation of 15 per cent in *Kendriya Vidyalaya* for Scheduled Castes and another reservation of 7.5 per cent in *Kendriya Vidyalaya* for Scheduled Tribes. Similar reservations are held by the Scheduled Castes and Scheduled Tribes in many schemes and educational facilities in India. The remote and far-flung regions of North East India are provided for under the Non- Lapsable Central pool of Resources (NLCPR) since 1998-1999. The NLCPR aims to provide funds for infrastructure development in these remote areas.

The government objective for the *Sarva Shiksha Abhiyan* (SSA), started in 2001, is to provide education to children between 6–14 years by 2010. The programme focuses specially on girls and children with challenged social or financial backgrounds. The SSA also aims to provide practical infrastructure and relevant source material in form of free textbooks to children in remote areas. The SSA also aims at widening computer

education in rural areas. SSA is currently working with Agastya International Foundation-an educational NGO-to augment its efforts in making science curriculum current and exciting. However, some objectives of the SSA, eg. enrollment of all children under the scheme in schools by 2005 remain unfulfilled. Education Guarantee Scheme and Alternative and Innovative Education are components of the SSA.

Women from remote, underdeveloped areas or from weaker social groups in Andhra Pradesh, Assam, Bihar, Jharkhand, Karnataka, Kerala, Gujarat, Uttar Pradesh, and Uttarakhand, fall under the *Mahila Samakhyas Scheme*, initiated in 1989. Apart from provisions for education this programme also aims to raise awareness by holding meetings and seminars at rural levels. The government allowed 340 million rupees during 2007–08 to carry out this scheme over 83 districts including more than 21, 000 villages.

Currently there are 68 *Bal Bhavans* and 10 *Bal Kendras* affiliated to the *National Bal Bhavan*. The scheme involves educational and social activities and recognising children with a marked talent for a particular educational stream. A number of programmes and activities are held under this scheme, which also involves cultural exchanges and participation in several international forums.

India's minorities, especially the ones considered 'educationally backward' by the government, are provided for in the 1992 amendment of the Indian National Policy on Education (NPE). The government initiated the Scheme of Area Intensive Programme for Educationally Backward Minorities and Scheme of Financial Assistance or Modernisation of Madarsa Education as part of its revised Programme of Action (1992). Both these schemes were started nationwide by 1994. In 2004 the Indian parliament allowed an act which enabled minority education establishments to seek university affiliations if they passed the required norms.

Women's Education

Women have much lower literacy rate. Compared to boys, far fewer girls are enrolled in the schools, and many of them drop out. According to a 1998 report by U.S. Department of Commerce, the chief barrier to female education in India are inadequate school facilities (such as sanitary facilities), shortage of female teachers and gender bias in curriculum (majority of the female characters being depicted as weak and helpless)

The number of literate women among the female population of India was between 2-6 per cent from the British Raj onwards to the formation of the Republic of India in 1947. Concerted efforts led to improvement from 15.3 per cent in 1961 to 28.5 per cent in 1981. By 2001 literacy for women had exceeded 50 per cent of the overall female population, though these statistics were still very low compared to world standards and even male literacy within India. Recently the Indian government has launched Saakshar Bharat Mission for Female Literacy. This mission aims to bring down female illiteracy by half of its present level.

Sita Anantha Raman outlines the progress of women's education in India:

Sita Anantha Raman also maintains that while the educated Indian women workforce maintains professionalism, the men outnumber them in most fields and, in some cases, receive higher income for the same positions.

DEVELOPMENT OF COMPARATIVE EDUCATION

OBJECTIVES

After reading this chapter you should be able to:

- Identify and explain the various developmental stages in comparative education.
- Describe the major characteristics of each developmental stage.
- Assess the relevance of each developmental stage in the study of comparative education.

THE GENESIS OF COMPARATIVE EDUCATION

Many scholars of comparative education have ventured into the discovery of the genesis of comparative education. On the whole there seems to be no specific time in which the discipline of comparative education originated. However the search for the origins of comparative education has made many scholars to look back hopefully to time immemorial. For example, Fredrick Schneider and Franz Hilker of Germany sought European precedents in education. William Brickmann in the U.S.A., led the quest and search for the origin of comparative education and educators. His work includes several articles on the subject which dates back as far as to Herodotus (484-425Bc) as a competent cultural comparativist was assumed in the ancient world. For purpose of this course, the genesis of comparative education will therefore be looked at in light of phases or stages based on major characteristics activities of each phase.

These phases are;

- The phase of Travelers Tales *i.e.*, Pre-history to end of 18th century.
- Period of Pioneers or Phase of Selective Education Borrowing *i.e.*, during the 19th century.
- The phase of concern for Cultural Context or Period of Philosophers *i.e.*, from 1900 to end of World War II.
- The phase of Social Science perspective *i.e.*, from 1945 to the present.

The phases used here are to signify changes in the historical development of comparative education and are actually retrospective and imposed ones. They do not indicate precise or sudden turning points. These changes are gradual. This means that towards the end of one phase the next phase was already evident in the work perspective observers. At the same times entry into a new phase does not mean a complete break from the previous phase. There is always an over-lap of the phases in time and space. We now look at each phase at independently;

THE PHASE OF TRAVELER'S TALES

Historically people visited places for various reasons such as commerce, conversation, curiosity or conflict. However everyone who has ever been interested in the upbringing of children or in education in general has always tended to find out what goes on in other communities. Studies of early writers of comparative education indicate that they drew examples from other societies that they visited or heard about. They actually tended to look for differences and similarities in respect to education of other communities and their own.

This phase was marked by descriptive reports of travelers who comprised military conquerors, business expeditions and even explorers. The motives for accounts of travelers' tales were partly curiosity and the need for comparison. They gave descriptive account of features in foreign systems of educational as they saw them. Their reports on education was fragmental, generally unsystematic, exaggerated at times and understatements at other times. Although they were stimulating they were superficial and piecemeal and as such were of little comparative value but worth considering. Some of the contributors during this phase were;

Herodotus (484-425 BC): In his commentaries on the Persian wars he attempted a comparison of culture.

Xenophon (430-355 BC): An Athenian, he gave a detailed account of the education for citizenship given to the youth in Persia. He compared the aims and structure of education in Persian and Sparta. According to him, he admired the Spartan education and wished that the Athenians could copy it.

Plato: A Greek philosopher compared the aims and structure of the Spartan and Greek systems. In his two books *i.e.*, "The law" and "The Republic" he compared education system in Sparta and Athens. Like Xenophon he admired the Spartan education system which was state controlled and emphasized on discipline which was military type. He went ahead and argued that the Athenian education was likely to bring about permissiveness and lack of social order. He therefore recommended that the Athenians should copy Sparta.

Julius Caesar (102-42BC): As the Roman emperor he also described how children were educated in countries beyond Rome. He also admired especially the Spartan state controlled education system. He also commented on education of the Belgian, Aquitanians and Celts as indicated in his writings on Gallic wars.

Cicero (106-43BC): He made comparisons between Greek and Roman education. In his book "De Republica" (57BC) he explained that he favoured state controlled system as opposed to a family centered system. In his "De Oratore" he claimed that Greece was far better than every other nation in the practice of eloquence and hence in education.

Tacitus (AD 55-116): He contrasted the education in his own day with that of earlier periods, He even began the long history of the "past versus the present" debate.

Marco Polo (13th century): He traveled to the court of Kublai Khan in China and reported about the Chinese education system. He observed that there were no quarrels in schools in China and that honesty and truthfulness were emphasized. He further observed that men and women lived together peacefully in China a fact he attributed to the education system. However in the 19th century it was noted that the Chinese education system contributed to the corrupt government system and breaking of laws such as cruelty to prisoners.

Ibn Khaldun (1332-1506): A Tunisian born scholar who made comparison between the Eastern Moslem culture and that of the west. He emphasized the need to establish similarities and differences between the present and the past. He also advocated for the need to know the causes of the similarities in certain cases and of the differences in others.

Jacop Middendorp (German): Was sent by his government to find information about universities in France, Italy, Denmark, Poland and Bohemia.

Erasmus (1496-1536): A scholar during the Renaissance, he gave detailed information about education in different countries, comparing the state of education in England in his time with that of Italy.

Montaigne (1533-1592): From France he traveled widely to Germany, Italy and other European countries and gave account on the education of the people he visited.

William Petty (1623-1687): A professor of Anatomy at Oxford University and founder of the Royal society, presented a more scholarly approach to the observation of foreign countries in his book "The methods of enquiring into the state of any country."

Le Chatolais (1773) and Diderot (1776): From Russia, they compared the Russian education with that of France.

Condorcet (France): After the French Revolution, he compared the French education system with that of England, Italy and Germany. He gave his report to the National Assembly. From the account of the scholars mentioned above, it should be noted that during ancient time, there were examples of individuals with interest in comparisons of all kind. During the (13th-15th centuries) travel of one kind or another became greater in length and more comprehensive in character. During the 16th century cases of embryonic comparative education research became more frequent. This was partly due to the impetus of geographical exploration and discovery of the time. As such there were writings, of traveling scholars and others sent to other countries to study education. During the 17th century there was increasing and more significant international contacts as foreign travel not only became more possible, but more and more common. During this time, travelers guide books, became available and recommended that the travelers should observe school activities in the countries they toured.

They were also to consider and gather information on libraries, lectures, school debate, among other key educational activities. Learning institutions especially universities during this period and after the Renaissance and Reformation in Europe also made some contributions to the development of comparative education.

Is this phase relevant to the present day theory and practice of education?

From the above accounts of the travelers' tales phase, the present day theory and practice can derive the following relevance;

- Features of traveler's tales still remain with us in the work of journalists and other education trippers.
- The report of travelers' tales is an informal way of getting to know the experience of other societies. They actually form the first step of understanding education in other countries.
- Teachers can use stories given by these travelers on their return from visits to other countries, as an addition to their learning experience in schools.

The eye-witnesses accounts are still deemed as valuable and relevant in research today. In fact the novels and stories about other countries are all commendable in our present day educational practice.

Activity

Please explain whether this phase relevant to the present day theory and practice of education?

THE PHASE OF SELECTIVE EDUCATION BORROWING (1817-1900)

Historically the 19th century Europe was characterized by the aftermath of the French Revolution, Industrial Revolution, Agrarian Revolution and the Colonization process. Education reformers at this time were concerned with the social and political conditions of these revolutions and the reaction of the masses. In education they saw the means of moral improvement and social amelioration. Education reformers were concerned that the ability of individual school system to improve themselves faced a lot of oppositions even where there were good intentions. This brought the need to share the best ideas and practices available in many countries. In this regard there was a significant change of approach that suggested a more systematic and comprehensive collection of data and in turn "selective borrowing" in education.

This phase can be said to have been characterized and motivate by two main factors. The first, being the efforts aimed at developing a methodology or a system of rules and regulations that ought to be followed when studying foreign systems of education. The second, being the drive to learn lessons from foreign systems for the sole purpose of borrowing educational ideals. These two factors resulted in journey to foreign countries by travelers with special interest in educational matters. At this time, there were serious attempts of observations and study of other systems of education. In this phase travelers no longer traveled for general curiosity and enlightenment, but rather they wanted to discover what was going on in education in other countries in order to identify what aspects they would borrow for improving their own systems of education.

Some of the scholar attributed to this phase and hence the development of comparative education include;

Victor Cousin (1792-1867) - He lived in France at time when Europe was in chaos after the Napoleonic wars. He was a professor of philosophy and head of France's normal school. After the Napoleonic wars there was need to bring reform in France. He visited Prussia and investigated its education with the aim of finding out areas of relevance for reform of education in France. In (1813) he wrote a report and recommended selective education borrowing from Prussian experience. He believed that with this borrowing rivalry and antipathies would be out of place. As such he said people of stature should not be afraid to borrow from wherever and whatever is appropriate. Horace Mann (1796-1859) - From America, he visited Prussia, Scotland, Ireland, France, Germany, Holland and England. His experience in these foreign countries led him to conclude that history provided an explanation for the conditions which he saw. According to him he saw the role of history in comparative education studies as that of illuminating present problems. He argued that many features of Prussian education could be useful in America despite the gap he saw between the political and social ideas of the two countries.

Henry Barnard (1811-1900) - From America, he visited Europe and was impressed with the Prussian education ideas on education like his colleague Horace Mann. He actually founded the "Connecticut common school journal" where he prepared and published many of his report and details on foreign systems of education, and between 1856-1881, he edited and published a journal entitled "The American journal of Education". He also presented statistical material from various education systems in his publications as well as historical and descriptive data of a comparative nature.

Mathew Arnold (1822-1888) - From England, he advocated for an expansion of state activities in education because of what he had seen for himself on tours which took him several times to the continent of Europe. He recommended that the people of England should look at what the French and other countries on the continent of Europe were doing. According to him if this was done in England or a similar thing on the same principle then he said that the English system of education would be better off. For him he advocated for the borrowing of positive points of continental systems of education. However, he cautioned on the dangers of making comparisons based on analysis of inadequate statistical data.

K.D. Ushinsky (1824-1870) - From Russia, he read works of European educational reformers and attempted to introduce many views into the schools with which he was associated. He also visited foreign countries in order to observe educational institutions and so conduct educational studies. He acknowledged national differences in systems of education. As a result he emphasized the non-transferability of national traditions as they affected education. However, he suggested the possible transfer of general schemes across national boundaries.

Marc Antoine Julian de Paris (1775-1848)-He was born in 1775 in Paris and as he grew up, he distinguished himself as a scholar. He lived during the time of Napoleon and the Napoleonic wars. He actually became a diplomat in Napoleon's government. In his travel, he noticed the crisis created by the Napoleonic wars. He was concerned about deterioration of the society after wars. He was further disturbed by the social and political conditions of revolution in the early 19th century in Europe. He believed that the political and business life of France was based on oneself interest. He saw educations as a provider of solution to those problems and a positive science which could be used to improve the French society through systematic and rigorous approach of comparative analysis. In 1817, he published a book entitled "Plan and Preliminary views of work in Comparative Education".

His plan gave a comprehensive scheme for a comparative study of foreign systems of education. The purpose of his visits to other countries was to use foreign examples, to stimulate the French system of education. However he was concerned that the ability of individual school system to improve themselves was limited. He actually proposed the established of an Educational commission to collect and distribute information among member educational states. The collection of facts and observations arranged in analytical charts would permit both to be related and compared. The establishment of a National Institute of Education as a demonstration centre for the best teaching methods in Europe.

As a result of his recommendations Jullien is said to have impacted greatly on the development of comparative education in the following ways;

- From his works "Comparative Educational Plans and Preliminary View on Comparative Education" comparative methodologies and analytical methods emerged. These have continued to influence the development and study of comparative education to date.
- From the recommendation that a Bureau of Education be started in Europe, which came to being, this latter culminated into the establishment of UNESCO as part of the United Nations programmes.
- From the recommendation of collection of facts and observations arranged in analytical charts, which enable one to relate and compare issues, educational borrowing became a method in comparative education. The aim was transplanting. This kind of borrowing involves cataloguing of data and lessons on borrowing.
- Scholars such as Victor Cousin and others used his recommendations to study foreign education system with an intention to transplant. However their studies were more descriptive and not analytical.
- Following the industrial Revolution, came Imperialism and the Missionary movements. These took their education systems and planted them in the new lands. They were actually influenced by the work of Jullien.

- Educational administrators, reformers, politician, and experts in various field no longer traveled for general curiosity, but they did this to specifically discover what was happening in education overseas in order to improve their own systems.
- From his recommendations also, various national agencies were established for the collection and distribution of information about education, for example, the United States Office of Education (1867), the Mussee Pedagogique in Paris (1879), and the Office of Special Enquiring and Reports in London (1895).
- Also by the end of the 19th century most governments were increasingly funding and encouraging studies on foreign education system and as a result promoting the development of comparative education.

Does the phase of selective Education Borrowing have relevance to present day theory and practice of education? A thorough look into this phase reveals that the accounts given were both “descriptive” and “utilitarian” in purpose. In education today, descriptive studies are considered valuable and relevant. Also all educational stake holders endeavor to make education useful and hence utilitarian. People still make visits to other countries or institutions for the purpose of observing what they may consider to be of value to them and bring it back to be used at the home situation. This further implies the importance of learning from experiences of others in order to improve institutions and even on own system of education.

THE PHASE OF CULTURAL CONTEXT OR THE PERIOD OF PHILOSOPHERS (1900-1945)

This phase or period is also referred to as the period of cultural analysis. There was general uneasiness by many scholars about descriptive studies. During this period emphasis in comparative education shifted from description to analysis. Scholars at this time were mainly interested in the relations between education and the society. In practice governments were encouraging and even sponsoring studies of foreign system of education and those who got involved in these studies became more concerned with problems, of comparison. It was observed that, it was not enough to only accumulate masses of information about education practices in other countries or simply borrow practices indiscriminately. The question of interpreting observed practices in context and of judging or predicting whether a particular arrangement or practice could be transplanted successfully in the home situation had to be dealt with critically.

The desire to move from the descriptive and sometimes uncritical approach of the earlier phase to a more analytical approach can be said to be the major motivation and characteristic of this phase. During this phase there was an increasing trend towards analytical studies of interrelationships between education practice and the society. This became more generally recognized and accepted. There also grew a major concern to understand some of factors which helped to shape systems of education in different countries. At this time the problem for comparative educationist was no longer one of

selective educational borrowing alone, but also one of predicting the possible success of educational transplant through a thorough knowledge of cultural contexts in both the donor and the recipient country. Many comparative educationists were concerned with accounting for the features of existing systems of education in terms of the forces or factors that shaped them to be the way they were. Some of the scholars who made their contributions during these phase include;

Michael Saddler (1886-1943): From England, he noted that “*in studying foreign systems of education we should not forget that the things outside the school matter even more than the things inside the schools, and in most cases they actually govern and interpret the things inside the school*”. He argued that education and society are closely related and that schools must be studied in the context of the society. He further stated that comparisons cannot be made on statistics only, but that the social, political, economic and other factors should be looked into as well. He pointed out that a national system of education is a living thing. It often lays special emphasis on those parts of training which the national character particularly needs. He argued that the value of studying foreign systems of educationist often results in our being better fitted to study and understand our own system. He cautioned on the dangers of piecemeal education borrowing while maintaining the importance of the schools cultural context. His main theoretical emphasis was that schools of society must be studied in the context of the society. He used sociological and historical data to explain trends in education.

William Torrey Harris (1835-1909): From America, he cautioned on the need for care in the use of statistics in education particularly statistics of foreign systems of education. He argued that each individual state puts its own stamp on its education system. According to him, it is not possible to borrow from another system as easily and as really as one might like to, because, what may work in one social situation may not be suitable for another. He further argued that comparative studies could reveal universal relations between education and society. This is because a nation's system of education is strongly affected by its culture and consequently embodies ideals reflecting that culture and in turn it gives a basis for comparative enquiry for those who are interested in the outcome of educational policies in different countries. To a great extent, he said that education does break down the caste system and also brings democracy in society.

Isaac Kandel (1881-1965): From America, at Teachers' college in Columbia University. He published many journals and wrote numerous books. In 1933, he published a book entitled “*Studies in Comparative Education*” which for a long time was a standard textbook in comparative education. In 1954 he revised and published the first work and entitled it “*The New era in Education: A comparative study*”. His main concern was on the forces and factors which shaped and account for the existing system education. To him he sought to find out why events occurred, when and as they did occur, and which characteristics occurred in the place they did. He argued that every nation has a

character, which is a result of its history and philosophy. This he emphasized it should be studied because the character of the school can only be understood through understanding the country's national character. He also argued that the school cannot be understood outside society. He also observed that broad social movements and political wars across national boundaries affect national systems differently. To him he did not believe in borrowing.

Nicholas Hans (England): He worked at the University of London, King's college and he published a work on "World Year book of Education" He became a regular contributor to the annual issues of the year book of education. In 1949, he published his book entitled "Comparative Education: A study of Educational Factors and Traditions". This book has also been used as a textbook of comparative education in many institutions of learning. Hans, like his contemporarily Soddler and Kandel was also more concerned with accounting for the existing systems of education in terms of the force and factors which shape these systems of education of different countries.

With the works of Kandel and Hans courses in comparative education became part of teacher training programmes, in many colleges and universities around the world during this period. In fact those that taught comparative education tend to follow the format, content and style of textbooks authored by scholars during this period. As more scholars and individuals got interested in the development of comparative education some national and international agencies were also formed. For example, the International Bureau of Education (IBE) was established in Geneva in (1925). Some of the main functions of these agencies included; to study education problems of international concern and dissemination of education data world-wide.

THE PHASE OF SOCIAL SCIENCE PERSPECTIVES -1945 TO PRESENT

This is the period that is presumed to have just started after the Second World War. It brought about a completely new scenario. In essence there has been an increase in interest and activity in comparative education. Two main aspects stand out in this phase. The first one is the establishment of new and influential national and international agencies that are involved in educational enquiry, planning and programme implementation. Also closely related are comparative educationists who see the field of comparative education as most productive in the future in terms of more involvement in international projects in education that are potentially of a reformative kind. The second aspect is the recognition and increased activity in the study and teaching of comparative education as a discipline in colleges, universities and establishment of comparative educational centers for research. With this new emphasis, there was a shift from descriptive accounts to a social science approach.

In this period, concern for the analysis of the antecedent factors became less and more emphasis lay on analyzing the relationship of the contemporary issues in society and education. In terms of methodology the mode of analysis has shifted from historical

to more quantitative and empirical, using techniques such as sociology, economics, philosophy and political science approaches. Comparative educationists emphasize the need to organize and interpret facts collected so that, the collected information or data can be translated into systems that offer explanation and theories regarding the collected data. As a result, comparative educationists have been pre-occupied with debates in an effort to identify the best method of conducting comparative education studies so as to yield the most valid data and information that can be used by all stake holders in terms of education practice and reforms.

With the emergencies of a new scenario in the world order, a new generation of scholars also emerged. Faced with the problem of educational reforms, the scholars and educational administrators took a new look and interest in comparative education. This has also brought in various experts who prefer to use their own techniques as they deal with comparative education issues. Among them are those scholars who still use the historians' mode of analysis, philosophers who use philosophical techniques, sociologists who use sociological techniques and even the psychologists and economists have entered into the field of comparative education and are known to use their research techniques. This therefore calls for the use of inter -disciplinary method of enquiry where social scientists collaborate with comparative educationist to analyze common problems and examine various national solutions with the intention of increasing the theoretical insight that will promote education reform. Some of the scholars who have made substantial effort in the development of comparative education during this phase include;

Vernon Mallinson (Britain): He uses the concept of national character as a means of explaining the similarities and differences that exist in systems of education. In 1957, he published a book entitled "An Introduction to the Study of Comparative Education" where he explains the concept of "national character" and how it determines the kind of education that a country follows. In this concept of national character he shows how differences between education systems come about. He also published several other articles that mainly emphasized aspects, of the French, Belgian, German, Dutch and Italian education systems.

Joseph A. Lauwerys (Britain): He was a professor of comparative education at the University of London, Institute of Education (1947). He is known for his devotion and contribution to the continuation of the World year book of Education period in association with Columbia University, New York, This work contributed to the support of the much needed international data collection and expansion of comparative education courses. He actually stressed the need to collect reliable data on an international scale in orders to facilitate comparisons in education.

George Z. F. Beredy (1920-1983): An American professor of comparative education at the Teachers' College, Columbia University, New York. He edited many publications including "Comparative Education Review" and "Yearbook of Education". In 1964 he

published a book entitled “Comparative Methods in Education.” In this book he stated clearly his beliefs about the purposes that comparative education should seek to achieve and the methods it should follow. He is actually remembered for the “Systematic Area Studies Approach” in comparative education that he popularized as a scholar.

Brian Holmes (England): He was a professor of comparative education and worked closely with Hans and Lauwerys, at the University of London, Institute of Education. His major contribution was in the search for a comparative education methodology. He eventually popularized the “Problem Solving Approaches as a Methodology in comparative education research. He published two books one in 1965, entitled “Problems in Education: A comparative Approach” and the second one in 1981, entitled “Comparative Education: Some consideration of Methods”. Both books reflect his major interest in the methodology of comparative education and are major textbooks used by students of comparative education even today.

Edmond J. King (England): He was a professor of Education, at the University of London, King’s college. He inherited the legacy of Nicholas Hans who was also at the King’s College. He wrote several books including “Other schools and ours” (1958) and “Comparative Studies and Educational Decision” (1968). He was the general editor of the Pergamon press “Society and school Progress” series which covered a number of countries by way of area studies. He distinguished between what was appropriate for students who were beginners in the field of comparative education and those who already had some background in comparative education, and those who were engaged in research work. Harold Noah from Columbia University and Max Eckstein from the City University of New York. They advocated for methods of comparative education which they offered to be characterized by systematic, controlled, empirical and where possible apply quantitative investigations. They co-authored two books *i.e.* “Towards science of comparative Education” (1969) and “Scientific Investigations in Comparative Education” (1969), which was a collection of readings that illustrated their general approach. These works also contributed to the refinement of methodology in comparative education. Institutions of higher learning also contributed to the development of comparative education during this phase. Some of the renown universalities that established comparative education studies included among others, London, Columbia, Berlin, Chicago, Syracuse, Pittsburgh, Pennsylvania, Hamburg, Nashville, Reading and Salzburg. In African, Asia and Latin America, many universities have also established comparative education centers and they even teach it as an academic discipline today.

Other players to the development of comparative education during this phase include; International, regional and national agencies, for example, the International Bureau of Education, UNESCO, UNICEF among others. Their main functions include, collecting analyzing and disseminating educational documentation and information. These are also involved in undertaking surveys and project studies in the field of comparative Education. A number of Education Societies have also been formed by individuals,

interested in the field of comparative education. Their main aims include; initiating and coordinating researched and also to co-operate with other persons, and organizations interested in international and comparative studies. Some of the comparative education societies that were established include comparative education society New York (1958). British and German sections of the society were also established. Canada, Korea, Japan and Africa have also established similar comparative education societies. All these societies are affiliated to the World Council of Comparative Societies.

Besides the contribution of individual, and educations organizations to the development of comparative education during this phase, this phase was and is also marked by very many characteristics which include;

- An explosion of knowledge-the challenge of this is how this knowledge ought to be disseminated. This would imply that teachers have to acquire new roles.
- Drive for knowledge world wide-a common phenomenon where everybody everywhere wants education both in the developed and developing world.
- Drive for liberty through liberation struggles both political and ideological. Education has been at the centre of these struggles. This has also witnessed the emergence of education for the masses, for political, economic, cultural and intellectual liberalization.
- Rapid urbanization and Industrialization which has greatly impacted on education.
- Population explosion-this has led to population related problems. For example, in Kenya over 50% of the population is of school-going age. This means that their education and upkeep has to be catered for by a very small working population.
- Increasing concern for quality education. There has been need to emphasis on education that is relevant to the life and needs of the students and the society they are to serve. This has created a lot of interest in education worldwide. Comparative educationists have been called upon by international agencies to help solve these myriad educational challenges.
- Comparative education as an academic discipline has become part f the development of specialized interdisciplinary fields of study that emerged with the expansion of graduate education in North America, Europe, Asia, and Africa among others.
- The world power shifts. After the two world wars, there was an accelerated shift of world power from the Great Britain to the U.S.A., and U.S.S.R. Communism and Capitalism took centre stage and the world was divided accordingly. This had a big effect on national systems of education.
- As time went by the U.S.A assuming centre place in world politics, there has been great need for American presence in and understanding of the cultures and education of other countries. In this regard many universities have established departments of comparative education.

- With the collapse of communism in the mid 1980s the power structure in the world changed. The new world order has the U.S.A., in a steering position with its loyal lieutenants, *i.e.*, IMF and World Bank. Their policies have made significant impacts in education the world over. For example the Structural Adjustment Programmes (SAPS) led to the freezing of employment of teachers in Kenya in 1998 among other impacts.
- Arising from the cold war there was a great concern for scientific and technological development especially after the launch of the Sputnik in 1957 by Russia. This concern led to massive funding of research in science education. The third world countries also experienced increased funding and as such comparative educationists were in the centre of these endeavors. In this regard many agencies such as the Ford Foundation, Carnegie foundation and many others funded research and development of comparative education as part of a wider U.S.A., foreign policy.
- A major issue on methodology in comparative education emerged and researchers and scholars like Beredy, Holmes and Arnold Noah were engaged in active debate on this.
- Today comparative education is taught in many universities at both undergraduate and graduate levels. There are also many publications *i.e.*, books, journals and magazines on comparative education. This has been propagated by the numerous national, regional and international comparative education societies and associations that bring together scholars in comparative education.

THE FUTURE OF EDUCATION

While many people are making predictions about the direction that education systems are headed, we have found the best predictors to be hidden in the participative viral systems springing to life in the online world, such as iTunes and Amazon. These bottom-up approaches are quick to develop, participant-driven systems that are closely aligned to the demands of the marketplace. In this paper we will focus on the key missing elements that will cause the disruptive next generation education systems to emerge. These missing pieces will likely be created within the next two years through private funding and will cause a dramatic educational shift in less than five years. The primary missing pieces are a standard architecture for an organic courseware module and the software necessary to build this courseware. The solution to these missing pieces will be a participative courseware-builder that allows the general public to create courses on any conceivable topic. We expect many companies will attempt to solve this problem, but the market will quickly gravitate towards the one it likes best. Once the market begins to gravitate towards a favourite courseware-builder, a number of new systems will be developed to grow the courseware library, build integrity, make it universally distributed, archive results, and add functionality.

LESSONS FROM THE ANCIENT WORLD

During the time of the ancient Greek civilization, several mathematicians became famous for their work. People like Archimedes, Pythagoras, Euclid, Hipparchus, Posidonius and Ptolemy all brought new elements of thinking to society, furthering the field of math, building on the earlier work of Babylonian and Egyptian mathematicians.

A few generations later the Romans became the dominant society on earth, and the one aspect of Roman society that was remarkably absent was the lack of Roman mathematicians. Rest assured, the scholarly members of Roman society came from a good gene pool and they were every bit as gifted and talented as the Greeks. But Roman society was being held hostage by its own systems. One of the primary culprits for the lack of Roman mathematicians was their numbering system – Roman numerals and its lack of numeric positioning.

While it's easy for us today to look at Roman numerals and say that it was a pretty stupid numbering system, it was just one of many inferior numbering systems in ancient times. But the feature that made Roman numerals so bad was the fact that each number lacked specific numeric positioning and was in fact an equation, and this extra layer of complexity prevented people from doing higher math.

Roman numerals were a system problem, and a huge one at that. They prevented an entire civilization from furthering the field of math and science. Romans were so immersed in their numbering system that they had no clue that it was preventing them from doing even rudimentary math such as adding a column of numbers or simple multiplication or division, a feat still handled by abacus. It also prevented them from creating some of the more sophisticated banking and accounting systems and restricted academia from moving forward in areas of science, astronomy, and medicine.

Ratchet forward to today. We live in a society where virtually everything is different from the days of the Roman Empire. But what seems so counterintuitive to most is that we are even more dependent today on our systems than the Romans ever were. Most of these systems we take for granted – systems for weights and measurement, accounting, banking, procurement, traffic management, and food labeling. With each of these systems we are much like the Romans, immersed in the use of these systems to a point where we seldom step back and question the reasoning and logic behind them.

Our systems govern virtually every aspect of our lives. They determine how we live and where we live, what we eat and where we work, where and when we travel, how much money we will make, the job we do, the friends we have, who we marry, and even how long we will live. But much like fish not understanding what water is, we seldom step back to fully understand the context of our existence.

As a starting point, one question we should be asking is, “What systems do we employ today that are the equivalent of Roman numerals, preventing us from doing great things?” This simple question is very revealing. It has a way of opening a Pandora's box full of friction points, inefficiencies, and flow restrictors that we contend with

every day. Our systems are what control the flow of commerce, govern our effectiveness as members of society, and create much of the stress we face on a daily basis.

After studying American systems and applying this “equivalency to Roman numerals” test, it is easy to conclude that we, as a society, are operating at somewhere just between 5-10 percent efficiency, maybe less. The upside is huge. So what are some examples of restrictive systems that are preventing us from doing great things?

Here are just a few examples:

- *Income Tax System:* The income tax system is currently the mother of all boat anchors, slowing commerce and the pace of business to a crawl. Currently somewhere in the neighbourhood of 64, 000 pages in length, the United States tax code in use today will stand as a shining example throughout history as one of the world’s most incomprehensible systems.
- *Half-Implemented Metric System:* We are using a half-implemented metric system where we are purchasing cars with 3.2 litre engines and filling them with quarts of oil.
- *Keyboards:* We use keyboards that were designed to slow the speed of typing by placing the most frequently used keys randomly across the face of the keyboard. Keyboards in any configuration are an extremely inefficient way to transfer knowledge from one person to another.
- *Laws:* We now have more laws on the books in the United States than any country at any time in history. There aren’t even any good estimates as to the number of laws on the books in the United States. With each city, county, state, federal agency, and taxing district able to issue their own regulations, mandates, ordinances, rules, and law, we have created a legal snake pit of intertwined and overlapping rules that we are expected to live by.

Lest you think the United States is the only country with system problems, consider some of the major issues plaguing other countries:

- *Chinese Alphabet:* The number of Chinese characters contained in the Kangxi dictionary is approximately 47, 035, although a large number of these are rarely-used variants accumulated throughout history. Studies carried out in China have shown that full literacy requires knowledge of between three and four thousand characters.

So as you can see, we are a long way from optimizing the systems that govern our lives. The freedom that we value so highly in the United States is only a fraction of what it can be if we begin to seriously reinvent society one system at a time. And the system that we see as the highest leverage point for improving society is our education system.

EIGHT DRIVING FORCES

The following are eight key trends that are driving change in the world of education. These trends will eventually define the size, scope, and speed of the emerging new system along with the characteristics needed for a global-scale adoption.

As you read through the following trends, it is our hope that you will begin to feel the forces at play, gain a sense of the undercurrent of influencers, and begin to understand the dramatic changes that will be happening only a few short years ahead.

Transition from Teaching to Learning

Education has traditionally consisted of the two fundamental elements of teaching and learning, with a heavy emphasis on teaching. Throughout history, the transfer of information from the teacher to the learner has been done on a person-to-person basis. A teacher stands in front of a room and imparts the information for a student to learn. Because this approach requires the teacher to be an expert on every topic that they teach, this is referred to as the “sage on stage” form of education.

While lecture-style teaching has been used for centuries to build today’s literate and competent society, it ends up being a highly inefficient system, in many respects, the “equivalent of using Roman numerals.” For any new topic to be taught, a new expert needs to be created, and this universal need for more and more experts has become a serious chokepoint for learning. To illustrate this point, let’s look at the example of a new topic that cannot be taught because the expert on this topic lives on the other side of the world. A teacher-dependent education system is also time-dependent, location-dependent, and situation-dependent. The teachers act as a control valve, turning on or off the flow of information. The education system of the future will undergo a transition from a heavy emphasis on teaching to a heavy emphasis on learning. Experts will create the courseware and the students will learn anytime or anywhere at a pace that is comfortable for them, learning about topics that they are interested in. In the future, teachers will transition from topic experts to a role in which they act more as guides and coaches.

Exponential Growth of Information

During the time of Gutenberg, people tended to live and die within 20 miles of where they were born, not because they were afraid to travel, but because they had no reliable maps. People during this era had a very limited understanding of the world around them. The flow of information was controlled by just a few elite members of society, and they understood well the concept of knowledge equaling power. We have gone from that time, just 500 years ago, where information was precious and few, to today, a time where information is so plentiful that we feel like we are drowning in it – information overload.

However, we still see many of the same “information control” issues permeating society today. Elite members of society still control the flow of information, perpetuating the notion that only doctors can understand medicine, only physicists can understand how the universe works, and only teachers know how to prepare us for the world to come.

There are many ways to talk about the rapid growth of information that we have experienced over the past few years. But it is important to pay attention to the changing dimensions of information as well as the sheer volume of it. Information is no longer just text-based, but graphical, musical, audio and visual.

Consider the following statistics:

- The number of songs available on iTunes – over 3.5 million.
- The number of books on Amazon – over 4 million.
- The number of blogs available online – over 60 million.
- The number of entries on Wikipedia – over 4 million.
- The number of user accounts on MySpace – over 100 million
- The number of videos on YouTube – over 6.1 million.

Courseware Vacuum

After viewing the data above and thinking about the size and shape of information around the world, now consider the number of courses available, either online or in a classroom. Information is exploding around us in every possible form. Yet, we do not have an easy way to translate these blocks of information into courseware. While some attempts are currently being made to unleash the public on this problem, we remain a long ways from solving the problem.

Open Education Movement – The open-education movement was inspired by the open-source software movement (*i.e.*, Linux). It mixes in the powerful communication abilities of the Internet and applies the result to teaching and learning materials, such as course notes and textbooks. Open educational materials include text, images, audio, video, interactive simulations, and games that are free to be used and also re-used in new ways by anyone around the world.

It is estimated that more than 150 well-intentioned initiatives have been launched in this area. Over time, the increasing levels of attention and activity will cause one initiative to stand out and become the “industry leader.” This leader will, by default, set the standards for everyone that follows.

Some open-education projects are already attracting a large number of users per month. Some, like the MIT OpenCourseWare project and its OCW Consortium, are top-down organized institutional repositories that showcase their institutions’ courses. Others, like Rice University’s Connexions, Wikiversity, and Moodle are grassroot efforts that encourage contributions from all comers.

- MIT Open Course Ware makes the course materials that are used in the teaching of almost all MIT’s 1, 400 undergraduate and graduate subjects available on the Web, free of charge, to any user anywhere in the world. MIT now claims 1.4 million visits per month from learners “in every single country on the planet.”
- The Open Course Ware Consortium is an extension of what MIT began. Students don’t have to register for classes but need only to log on to more than 1, 800

potential courses at 12 universities that provide the course materials such as syllabi, video or audio lectures, notes, homework assignments, and illustrations.

- Connexions claims more than one million people from 194 countries are tapping into its 3, 768 modules and 199 courses developed by a worldwide community of authors.
- Wikiversity is a division of Wikipedia serving as a community for the creation and use of free learning materials and activities. Wikiversity is a multidimensional social organization dedicated to learning, teaching, research and service. Its primary goals are to create and host free content, multimedia learning materials, resources, and curricula for all age groups in all languages.
- Moodle is a course management system using a free, Open Source software package designed to help educators create effective online learning communities. Moodle claims over 20, 000 participating sites listing over 820, 000 courses.
- Curriki.org is an education development resource with over 3, 000 members and 450 courses in development.

While we applaud these efforts, there are some critical elements missing. The learning system of the future will have a single access point for all of its courses. Moodle is claiming over 820, 000 courses but they are spread over 20, 000 sites and many courses are duplicates. We estimate the number of unique and different courses to be less than 50, 000, not in the millions like the number of available books and songs.

Using books as a close analogy, it can be argued that every available book has the potential of being translated into courseware and, most often, multiple courses. There are currently far more topics discussed in books than there are courses to teach the material. This leaves an obvious courseware vacuum waiting to be filled, and the key to unlocking this vacuum is the participative courseware-builder described below.

Expanding Gulf Between Literates and Super-Literates

According to the New York Times, there are an additional 20, 000 new words added to the English language every year. The primary driver behind this ever-expanding dimension of vocabulary is the ongoing development of science and technology. Along with the creation of new science and technology comes the need to explain its attributes, its function in technical terms, and its overall purpose. New words and their associated colloquialisms help create meaning and structure around the emerging new concepts as they attract more research and come into focus.

Young students can learn new words quickly: on average, 3, 000 new words each year, which works out to 8 words a day. This, of course varies significantly from one student to the next. In the English language, the 2, 000 most frequently used words account for 80-85 percent of the words used in non-specialized written texts and about 90-95 percent in conversational speech.

However, the total number of words in the English language tops out around one million words, and the vocabulary of some of our most gifted scientist and engineers tops out around 200, 000 words. The distance between the functionally literate and the super literate is growing. Some people who have become expert on a specific topic have pushed the envelope of understanding far beyond the comprehension of the rest of the world. And in doing so, have created whole new vocabularies to describe the concepts and phenomenon they encountered. These super experts often live in a research community where they are often the only living person who truly understands the topic of their research.

Until now the primary tool for these super literates to pass along their understanding of research to future generations has been through papers that are published in technical journals. Because of the rigid requirements for publication, these papers often take months to compose, and are written in a vocabulary few can comprehend.

An alternative to publishing papers will soon be the creation of courseware. While developing courseware in the past has been laborious and poorly utilized, the new courseware builder described below has the potential to change all that. Courseware will become an alternative to publishing papers or writing books, and will serve as an additional channel for the super literates to disseminate their understanding of the world.

Our “Touch Points” for Interfacing with Society are Changing

“Touch points” are the places where we come in contact with the rest of the world. As an example, the average person comes in contact with the physical world through three primary physical touch points or interfaces – the shoes that we walk in, the bed that we sleep in, and the chairs that we sit in. These are the primary touch points for our physical body. While it is important to study the touch points for our physical body, it is even more important to understand the touch points for our mind. How does our mind interface with the rest of the world, and how can we improve the touch points to improve our abilities and capabilities?

The Classroom Touch Point: There has long been the pervasive notion that learning can take place only in a classroom. Even though schools use field trips and outdoor experiences to enhance education, the classroom remains the dominant central fixture of today’s educational systems.

Classrooms are designed to focus attention, close off the rest of the world, and create a controllable environment where learning can take place. Architects refer to schools as a “place, ” and over the years place-makers have attempted to create the ultimate classroom – a place where learning can be optimized and students can excel.

Most educators will argue that the real learning takes place inside the classroom. Even though external activities such as doing homework, reading assignments, or writing papers happen outside the bounds of the school, the primary education interface remains the classroom.

Using classrooms as the primary “touch point” for learning creates many problems. The person or education system that controls the classroom also controls the time when learning can take place, the students who will participate, the lighting, the sounds, the media used, the tools, the pace, the subject matter, and in many cases, the results.

However, classroom-centric education is not necessary for learning.

Learning takes place from the moment a person wakes up in the morning until they fall asleep at night. In fact, learning continues even while a person is sleeping. We may not be learning about math and science while we watch a movie, but we learn about the characters in the movie, the plot, the setting, the drama, the resolution of the problem, the kind of popcorn a theater serves, and how comfortable the seats are.

Indeed some topics like math and science require a more structured form of learning for most students to grasp the information being imparted, but learning is not dependent upon the classroom. In some cases the classroom may be the optimal environment for learning to take place, but most often it is not.

Important new touch points for our mind include our computers, electronic newspapers, video magazines, handheld televisions, cellphones, MP3 players, video games, artwork, and much more.

Learning Drivers

Why do people need to learn? Why do people want to learn? What are their motivations? What are the drivers that control a person’s desire to fill their minds with knowledge and information?

Maslow’s Hierarchy of Human Needs is a theory in psychology that Abraham Maslow proposed in his 1943 paper *A Theory of Human Motivation*. His theory contends that as humans meet ‘basic needs’, they seek to satisfy successively ‘higher needs’ that occupy a set hierarchy. Maslow’s initial hierarchy was based on two groupings: deficiency needs and growth needs. Within the deficiency needs, each lower need must be met before moving to the next higher level. Once each of these needs has been satisfied, if at some future time a deficiency is detected, the individual will act to remove the deficiency. The first four levels were:

- Physiological: hunger, thirst, bodily comforts, etc.;
- Safety/security: out of danger;
- Belonginess and Love: affiliate with others, be accepted; and
- Esteem: to achieve, be competent, gain approval and recognition.

According to Maslow, an individual is ready to act upon the growth needs if and only if the deficiency needs are met. Maslow’s early thinking included only one growth need – self-actualization.

Self-actualized people were characterized by:

- Being problem-focused;
- Incorporating an ongoing freshness of appreciation of life;

- A concern about personal growth; and
- The ability to have peak experiences. Maslow later add a new dimension to the growth need of self-actualization, defining two lower-level growth needs below self-actualization and one above that level. They were:
 - Cognitive: to know, to understand, and explore;
 - Aesthetic: patterns, symmetry, order, and beauty;
 - Self-actualization: to find self-fulfillment and realize one's potential; and
 - Self-transcendence: to connect to something beyond the ego or to help others find self-fulfillment and realize their potential.

Our motivations for learning form similar patterns. Maslow's basic concept is that the higher needs in the hierarchy come into focus only once all the needs that are lower down in the pyramid are mainly or entirely satisfied.

For this reason, our desires to learn, and the topics we want to learn about, transition depending on the situation we find ourselves in. As an example, we will have very little desire to learn math and science if we are worried about survival. However, we will have a great desire to learn about survival topics.

The problem sets that surround us, and our ability to solve those problems, are a constantly refocusing lens into our learning motivators.

Maslow's basic position is that as people become more self-actualized and self-transcendent, they develop wisdom and automatically know what to do in a wide variety of situations. His ultimate conclusion that the highest levels of self-actualization are transcendent in their nature may be one of his most important contributions in this area of study.

THE AGE OF HYPER-INDIVIDUALITY

As a society we are less and less interested in the status competition involved in "keeping up with the Joneses." We are not all that concerned about what kind of car our neighbour drives, what kind of TV they are watching, or what kind of cell phone they are using. Instead, we are much more concerned about finding products that will satisfy our own particular needs.

We live in an era where we are approaching 100 million products in the marketplace, and depending on how you define a product, some would argue that we have already far exceeded that number. Suffice it to say that we now have products that are much more aligned with the needs of a very wide range of consumers, and consumers are voting with their debit cards for uniqueness and individuality. So much so that we have dubbed this the age of hyper-individuality.

When the cable TV companies started offering 500 different channels they found that all of the channels had an audience. When Amazon started offering over 2 million different books for sale on its web site it found that all of the books had a market. This phenomenon is best described in Chris Anderson's book "The Long Tail" which explains

how the Internet has driven the cost of shelf space in the online world to a number approaching zero, and in doing so has enabled online merchants like iTunes, Amazon, Buy.com, and YouTube to carry millions of different products.

Our need for hyper-individualized solutions is driven by several factors including our time, our personality, and an overwhelming need to feel special in a world of over 6 billion other people wanting many of the same things.

Today the average person sleeps two hours less than a person in the 1920s. We have gone from 8.9 hours per night to 6.9 hours per night, and many people today, if they could do without, would skip sleeping altogether.

With time being one of our major constraints, we are continually searching for products that will save us time, and if we can find that left-handed, counter-balanced, pocket-sized device that we can operate efficiently on moon-lit nights when the stars are aligned, we will make the purchase.

TRANSITION FROM CONSUMERS TO PRODUCERS

As we transition from a predominantly passive society to a more active one, people no longer want to just sit on the sidelines and watch. They want to participate. And a whole new generation of tools and equipment are allowing people to shift their role from consumer to producer. This transition began with the introduction of comment sections at the end of online news posts. People began to voice their thoughts on whether or not a piece of news was accurate, timely, or in any way news-worthy. Many commenters added additional information.

When Evan Williams and Meg Hourihan's company, Pyra Labs, launched Blogger (later purchased by Google) in 1999, a major shift began in the world of user-generated content for the Web. Suddenly it became easy for anyone to create a blog site, and millions of people began to experiment. In July of 2003, MySpace was founded by Tom Anderson, Chris DeWolfe, and a small team of programmers. As a site that allowed users to generate their own web site and connection to friends, MySpace quickly became the dominant player in the emerging category of social networking with the 100 millionth user account created in August 2006.

Similarly, when Chad Hurley, Steve Chen, and Jawed Karim launched YouTube in February of 2005, it became very easy for people to produce and post videos online. As an enormously popular and free video sharing web site, YouTube lets users upload, view, share, and rate video clips. As a result, millions of people have transitioned from video consumers to video producers with an average of 65,000 new video clips uploaded onto YouTube every day. While each of these are examples of runaway success stories, the world of user-generated content is not without its own set of problems. Each has managed to handle the challenges in their own unique way. But what these examples best illustrate is the public's driving need to participate and lend their own thoughts and ideas to the world around them.

Setting the Stage

It is easy to fall into the trap of thinking in terms of past top-down approaches. Instead, we need to focus on the key elements, the seeds of innovation, which will allow this new organic form of education to spring to life. New forms of education are not achieved by putting an umbrella over our existing education systems and networking them with hopes that they will get better. And they're not achieved by simply recording the lectures for later broadcast. Education in its current state is the equivalent of Roman numerals, a system that is preventing us from achieving great things.

Unlimited Shelf Space

Since most people still believe that education must take place in the classroom, and only educators can create new courses, we have placed a very constrictive valve on the inflow of new courseware. The retail world had very similar restrictions just a few years ago, with the cost of shelf space being one of the primary constraints to the introduction of new products. But the online marketplace has given us unlimited shelf space at a near-zero cost. This combination of super cheap and unlimited shelf space has caused an exponential growth curve in the introduction of new products.

The notion that education can take place only in a classroom is similar to the notion that purchasing a product can only take place when you see it on a store shelf. Removing the classroom constraints to learning is similar to removing the shelf space constraints to the marketplace.

At the same time that we have been experiencing the exponential growth of information, the amount of available courseware has remained rather static and consequently, our education systems have not kept pace.

Only a small percentage of the information being developed today is being passed on to future generations in the form of classes or courseware. This growing gap between information and courseware is what we call a "courseware vacuum," where supply has clearly not kept up with demand.

Certifying Accuracy – Truth vs. Untruth

As we contemplated the education system of the future, one of our biggest concerns was finding a way to ensure the accuracy of the information presented. Initially our thinking centered around the idea of selecting a central authority, some sort of governing truth authority, to authenticate the accuracy of information in each of the courseware modules. But this approach became unworkable as we considered the implications.

To begin with, a high percentage of what is taught in classes today is theoretical, ranging from theories of gravity, to theories of evolution, to music theory. None of these topics end up being 100 percent provable, and so from the standpoint of passing muster with a governing truth authority, none of these topics could be included.

Further, we realized that virtually every aspect of society has its own version of truth – religious truths, scientific truths, legal truths, etc.

For this reason we concluded that any governing truth authority would quickly deteriorate into a highly politicized authority, and the politicalization of any aspect of this future learning system will quickly compromise its usefulness.

As an alternative, we are proposing a checks-and-balances system where individual groups can create their own central truth authority and place their tags of approval or disapproval on courses. These tags will be a central feature of the search criteria used by the smart profiler and the recommendation engine.

For example, organizations like the American Chemical Society, People for the Ethical Treatment of Animals, Focus on the Family, American Civil Liberties Union, National Rifle Association, National Education Association, or the Catholic Church can all review the new courseware that is being introduced and make a determination as to whether or not it meets their criteria.

We think that such organizations will quickly gear up to develop their own line of courseware so they can have better control of the content.

This type of tagging system holds value on many levels. First, it creates ways for virtually everyone to participate, and in fact, demands participation. Participation is an essential ingredient in a truly pervasive education system. It allows the learning system to develop organically without any central gatekeepers telling people what they can and can't learn.

Confidence-Based Learning

While many different learning methodologies will be experimented with, one that holds considerable promise is confidence-based learning. Some experiments in this area have demonstrated a significant reduction in learning time.

The first Confidence-Based Assessment study appeared in the *Journal of Social Psychology* in 1932 by Kate Hevner. Her goal was to improve the validity and reliability of standard musical assessments at the time. She did so by adding confidence assessment to knowledge. From 1932-1967, Confidence-Based Assessment focused on statistical validity and reliability. In 1967 it was discovered that Confidence-Based Assessment also improved memory retention. This is the discovery where people began to realize that the process of taking a test can and will make you smarter.

What started as a breakthrough approach for measuring knowledge and confidence is now moving front-and-center into corporate training centers in the form of a fast and accurate learning methodology. Confidence-based learning is on the rise among organizations that are transitioning their companies from training organizations to learning organizations.

Confidence-based learning is designed to ensure that learning actually takes place and mastery of a topic is achieved. It is much more than simply delivering information

to students. It ensures learning by assessing precisely what people know and what they don't know without guesswork and doubt skewing the results. It then works to rapidly remediate a learner's gaps in knowledge and confidence. Here's a summary of how it works. Determining what people need to learn starts by understanding what ignorance, doubts and misinformation presently exists.

Unlike traditional learning methodologies that measure only how many questions someone answers correctly, confidence-based learning assesses:

- Correct answers that are answered with confidence, indicating competency;
- Correct answers that are answered with doubt;
- Correct answers that are total guesses, equivalent to no knowledge;
- Incorrect answers that are answered with confidence, indicating misinformation.

Distinguishing between a person guessing correctly and one who answers correctly with confidence can have a major impact. An assessment process that is built into the system can capture and validate knowledge confidence because of the unique structure of its multiple-choice questions and detailed analysis.

With the completion of an assessment, confidence-based learning is designed to close knowledge gaps at the moment users are most inclined to learn – right after being evaluated and their own misinformation and doubt has been exposed.

We have speculated that if confidence-based learning is somehow designed into the courseware-builder that the speed of learning can be increased dramatically, by as much as 50% or more.

ARCHIVING KNOWLEDGE

While rarely viewed as such, education is a system for archiving a culture by passing down the knowledge of one generation to the next. Museums, written documents, books, photos, videos and audio recordings typically come to mind when considering a cultural archive. But certain aspects of a culture need to be experienced in order to be preserved, and that's where the notion of education as an archival medium comes in. Craftsman guilds such as tilers and bricklayers are a good example of trades that require hands-on experience. The intricacies and nuances of piecing together building materials into artistic patterns cannot be adequately conveyed through books or even video. The tactile feel of textures, tapping, testing for hollow spots, and cleaning off excess material are all part of the experiential learning that cannot be conveyed through some other medium.

The concept of archiving knowledge is just one of many theories that will emerge as strategies around the new system begin to develop.

DEFINING THE NEW, NEW ERA IN LEARNING

As we begin to peel back the layers of the system we are envisioning, we will use a number of different descriptors and definitions to describe the nature of the new, new era of learning.

The key to this whole system is an easy-to-use courseware builder that catches the imagination of the general public and inspires participation. Several features will be necessary to give this system both the range and functionality of a truly rich learning environment.

TWELVE DIMENSIONS OF THE FUTURE COURSEWARE ARCHITECTURE

We have identified 12 critical dimensions of the future learning system. However, only the first two need to be in place for the revolution to begin.

The two critical components that will define education for centuries to come will be a standardized architecture for developing a courseware unit, and an organic distribution system that allows anyone around the world access to it.

STANDARD COURSEWARE UNIT

In the past, creating a standard was often a long and tedious process where smart people gathered around tables and argued about where to place the comma in a sentence. But times have changed, and so has the development process for standards. Very likely the development of a standard will happen concurrently with the early testing of courseware modules, with the drafting of the standard document happening in parallel to the testing of the architecture. The final standard may not be finished for several years. The reason it's important to create a standard is simply to focus energy. Competing standards can be divisive, creating temporary chaos in the industry, and greatly delaying market acceptance. Also, the path to market acceptance would end up being far more expensive. So, what will a standard courseware unit look like? The short answer is that it is too early to know, but we have to have a starting point. For this reason we have put together a list of attributes and features that we think will be necessary components:

- *The Courseware Builder*: Envisioned as a smooth, fill-in-the-blanks templated process, the courseware builder will carefully step courseware producers through the design, build, and launch phases of each course.
- *60 Minute (Approx) Learning Experience*: An hour is an international unit of measurement recognized around the globe. We schedule our time in one-hour units, we plan our days in one-hour units, so building educational modules around one hour units makes sense. Some learning experiences may involve a grouping of 2, 5, or even 10 units, but the majority will be centered around the basic one-hour unit.
- *Modality Agnostic, Language Agnostic*: Learning comes in many forms ranging from reading text, to listening to audio, to watching video, to hands-on experiences, and more. The Standard Courseware Unit needs to accommodate all modes of sensory input and learning experiences.
- *Confidence-Based Learning*: All units will use some form of testing to validate competency or fluency in the topic, as well as the student's confidence in their

answers. Test scores that are lower than minimum required proficiency levels will force students to repeat portions of the learning experience until students have achieved mastery.

- *Smart Profiler*: In addition to the basic name and address type of information found in most profiles, students will be asked to participate in regularly scheduled assessment surveys to determine primary and secondary areas of interest. The smart profiler will continually expand the profile of the student throughout their life, recalibrating topical interest levels, building a comprehensive understanding of the individual student as they evolve over time. The Smart Profiler will feed information directly to the Personal Recommendation Engine for prioritizing course selections.
- *Multi-Dimensional Tagging Engine*: Much of the system usability will be driven by the multi-dimensional nature of the tagging engines. Attributes include:
 - *Personal rating tags*: Upon completion, each student will be asked to rate the courseware. Courses will be graded on accuracy, quality of the learning experience, ease of use, and overall effectiveness.
 - *Approval and Disapproval Tags*: Each courseware unit will be set up to allow various organizations to either put their stamp of approval or disapproval on it. Since every political interest group will want to influence the direction of courseware development, it will be impossible to build courses around the likes and dislikes of all of the various interest groups. For this reason, each course will allow groups to place their stamp of approval or disapproval on it.
 - *Taxonomy Tags–Folksonomy*: Folksonomy is the emerging science of user generated taxonomies. Since each courseware topic will be understood differently by each student, it will be necessary to allow students to place descriptor tags on all completed courses. This self-tagging approach will create the necessary taxonomy for the Personal Recommendation Engine as well as other search engines.
 - *Prerequisite and Post-Requisite Tags*: Knowledge builds on knowledge. As an example, students cannot study literature until they know how to read, and they cannot study computer programming until they know math and algebra. Much of today's learning needs to happen sequentially. Therefore it becomes imperative to create some system for sequencing courses based on the order of which learning must take place.
 - *Comment Tags*: Comment sections will allow students to voice their thoughts on each course
- *Personal Recommendation Engine*: Each time the student completes a course, the Personal Recommendation Engine will present a number of possible future courses based on personal interests and past courses. This engine should offer

an expanded view of possible directions the student can take, listing a variety of learning options as well as the certification endpoints.

- *Certification Inputs:* Every profession, personal skill, or area of learning has logical points where experts in that field would consider the necessary learning to be sufficiently complete. But every profession or skill is different. As an example, the courses necessary to become a master cigar maker are vastly different than the courses need to become a C+ programmer or airline pilot or registered nurse. Most professions and skills will use a combination of courses completed and a certification exam to validate student proficiency.
- *New Achievement Standards:* Descriptors like grade-level, graduate-level, and undergraduate-level will begin to disappear from our vocabulary. Initially, a set of equivalency units will be used to describe achievements (equivalent to sixth grade, or equivalent to a BA degree). Over time, the systems for illustrating achievement will change with the use of charts and graphs to explain the breadth and depth of a person's understanding.
- *Official Record Keeping System:* Building a system with impeccable integrity means that the system for archiving the accomplishments of every participant must be secure, private, and managed by an organization with impeccable credentials. While many people will think that a government-run archive is the best solution, the best possible record-keeping system will be one that transcends governmental boundary lines.
- *Participative Wealth Pricing:* The revenue stream generated by each courseware unit will be divided between the courseware producer, distribution company, transaction company, system operations company, and the official record keeping system. Maybe more. Courseware prices need to be kept low to make courseware accessible to anyone interested in learning.
- *Global Distribution System:* Think of the nature and functionality of iTunes with the following features:
 - A single online access point
 - Content aggregator
 - Search/sort capabilities
 - Accepting user generated content
 - Recommendation engine
 - Uniform pricing.

UNDERSTANDING THE SYSTEM ENTRY-POINT

Before a child can tap into a system with courseware as described above, a certain number of skills must first be in place – ability to read, follow directions, and respond to questions. However, once basic motor skills have been mastered, it is conceivable that very young children can begin this type of learning with the aid of some future

design of the early childhood workstation. Since age is not a good way to determine a child's capabilities, new systems will need to be created to assess the overall readiness of a young student to participate.

Priming the Pump

Creating the initial Standard Courseware Units will be time-intensive, poorly understood, and topically spotty. People creating the first units will most likely be educators working on a tiny budget. Budget limitations will cause courseware development to happen slowly, and this will leave gaps in many topical areas. Gaps will include areas such as craftsman trades that use more of an apprentice-style approach to learning, personal interest topics such as gardening and home repair, and social system education on topics like water law and import-export laws.

One way to "prime the pump" will be through a system of grants. Perhaps the creation of the first 1, 000-3, 000 Standard Courseware Units could be funded through a system offering \$5, 000-\$10, 000 individual development grants. Once the initial courseware is developed and tested, smaller amounts of grant money could be made available in the range of \$2, 000-\$5, 000 depending on whether it's a new topic or degrees of improvement over past courseware. For example, a Courseware Unit using a combination of video animation, expert interviews, and advance mathematical modeling will naturally provide a superior, content-rich learning experience over a standard text-based course and could therefore be eligible for a larger grant. With this approach there should be a sufficient critical mass of courseware to inspire other people to begin creating their own courses without grants.

The After Effects

We are on the verge of radical shifts in our education systems, and not everyone will be happy to see them develop. Teacher unions and other people dependent upon the existing education system will provide much of the early resistance. Because of the many facets of the architecture outlined above, the system will not be created all at once. It will be phased in, starting with the courseware builder and distribution system, and later followed by the official record keeping system and various groups providing inputs. Adoption will be spotty at first. We see home schoolers and foreign students as being some of the earliest adopters, followed by private schools and charter schools, and later public schools. Initially these courses will be used to supplement traditional classroom-based courses, but will later develop into a complete learning curriculum.

Learning Camps

Many kinds of learning camps are already in existence, but we will go through an explosive growth in this area. Many kinds of learning are best achieved through hands-on touch and feeling experiences. Marine biology is best learned through working with

marine life in all its many forms. The best way to learn history is to travel to the battlefields, take tours of the castles, walk through the ancient ruins, dress up in the ancient clothing, and sleep overnight in a wigwam or cliff dwelling. The best way to become a plumber is to work with a skilled plumber and perform hands-on work-related tasks to fix real world plumbing problems. Learning camps, ranging from one-day camps to multi-week camps, will begin to proliferate around specific topics. Some camps will be more academic-related areas of study such as math and science, while others will deal with more skill-related topics like woodworking or auto repair. Each camp will have its own identity, use its own in-house experts, and will focus on a specific learning experience that is tied to courseware with a built-in testing system to validate competency.

THE SOCIAL ENVIRONMENTS OF LEARNING

Much of today's learning happens inside a social context. When a classmate asks a question, the whole class learns. When one student laughs at a teacher's joke, all the rest of the students perk up. These are pieces of a learning environment that may disappear if the learning process becomes too hyper-individualized and too much of a solemn, one-person experience. Technology has a way of isolating people. As an example, many young girls today grab their cell phone and start talking as soon as the final classroom bell rings. This makes them unapproachable to boys who would like to find a good time to strike up a conversation with them. Sitting at a classroom computer or watching a video are other forms of technology isolation created by placing social barriers around individuals. However, lasting relationships are based on common, shared experiences, and any learning system that does not address the need for building social relationships will be missing a critical dimension of the learning environment. Learning camps are only a partial answer. Courseware designed around strengthening relationships may address this problem, but the power of socialization and the need for building relationships cannot be underestimated.

THINKING THROUGH THE TRANSITION FOR EXISTING SCHOOL SYSTEMS

We see the existing school systems going through a complicated transition which may not always be smooth. Below is a description of some of the anticipated changes that will happen to students, teachers, buildings, and school districts or systems. Students – Perhaps the people who will be quickest to adapt to the new system will be the students. Instead of being forced to learn specific courses that are often of little interest to them, students will be free to select the topics that they are most interested in.

Most students will have the opportunity to travel to various learning camps around the country. As more and more students begin using the system, the demand for new courses will cause more and more people to develop courseware.

School Buildings – Some school buildings will transition into learning centers that are open 24 hours a day, accommodating both child and adult learners, providing support staff to assist people who struggle with the system or on a specific topic.

Other school buildings, or portions of buildings, will transition into production centers filled with the tools and equipment for people to produce new courseware. Staff people will also be on hand to assist in courseware design and creation.

Teachers – Teachers will have many good options to consider as the changes begin to happen. Some teachers will remain with the school buildings and work more as guides, coaches, and tutors for students needing help. Others will move into event planners and experience designers as each facility experiments with re-engineering the social side of learning.

Other teachers will choose to develop their own learning camp or series of camps. Learning camps will specialize in a specific experiential topic that is tied to specific courseware. These teachers will effectively operate their own enterprise with revenues driven by the number of students opting to go to their camp.

Some of the more entrepreneurial-minded teachers may choose to become full-time courseware producers. The techniques for creating good and effective new courseware will be an iterative process going through multiple evolutionary stages as new and better tools become available.

CHANGING REVENUE STREAMS

So how does all this get funded, and how do the existing revenue streams change to accommodate the new era in learning? Because of the sheer volume of students that will be involved, it is recommended that the price point for courseware modules be kept very low – as low as 99 cents per module. Some of the more specialized areas of learning will likely charge a higher amount, but general courseware should be pushed to the lowest possible price point.

Initially people will pay for their own courses, or the courses completed by their children. Later, systems for grants and loans will allow a broader range of students to participate. Eventually government money will begin to shift and cover student expenses.

Because the learning camps will demand a more aggressive involvement of people and technology, the pricing of camps will be done on a camp-by-camp basis according to market demand or according to some district or state pricing schedule, possibly with matching funds available to cover costs.

Speculating on government-sponsored funding mechanisms, students could each be granted an account with sufficient credits to complete the equivalent of a college bachelor's degree, roughly on the order of 20,000 credits. Once those credits have been exhausted, the students would automatically enter into a loan arrangement where any additionally used credits would have to be paid back over time. A second dimension of funding may be an annual amount of credits that could be spent on learning camps.

Since prices of the camps would vary, student would be allowed to roll over funding from one year to the next. Existing streams of funding for school district will not go away, but will be scaled to appropriate levels for staffing and maintaining buildings as each phase of the transition takes place.

2

CHAPTER

Theory of Intelligence

According to Gardner, all human beings possess at least eight intelligences. Thus, intelligence is not a single entity; rather distinct types of intelligences exist. Each type of intelligence is independent one.

It means, if a person exhibits one type of intelligence, it does not necessarily indicate being high or low on other types of intelligences. Gardner also put forth that different types of intelligences interact and work together to find a solution to a problem.

Eight types of intelligence (Gardner):

1. *Linguistic (skills involved in the production and use of language):* It is the capacity to use language fluently and flexibly to express one's thinking and understands others.
2. *Logical-Mathematical (skills in scientific thinking and problem solving):* It is the ability think logically and critically.
3. *Spatial (skills in forming visual images and patterns):* It refers to the abilities involved in forming, using, and transforming mental images.
4. *Musical (sensitivity to musical rhythms and patterns):* It is the capacity to produce, create and manipulate musical patterns.
5. *Bodily-Kinaesthetic (using whole or portions of the body flexibly and creatively):* This consists of the use of the whole body or portions of it for display or construction of products and problem solving.
6. *Naturalistic (sensitivity to the features of the natural world):* This involves complete awareness of our relationship with the natural world.

7. *Interpersonal (sensitivity to subtle aspects of others' behaviours)*: This is the skill of understanding the motives, feelings and behaviours of other people so as to bond into a comfortable relationship with others.
8. *Intrapersonal (awareness of one's own feelings, motives, and desires)*: This refers to the knowledge of one's internal strengths and limitations and using that knowledge to effectively relate to others.

INTELLIGENCE AS A PROCESS

Sternberg's triarchic theory suggests that intelligent behaviour is the product of applying thinking strategies, handling new problems creatively and quickly, and adapting to contexts by selecting and reshaping our environment. Sternberg believes that intelligence is comprised of three separate, though interrelated abilities: analytical, creative, and practical.

Sternberg's view of Intelligence:

- *Componential (analytical) Intelligence*: It is the ability to think abstractly, process information and determine what needs to be done. This intelligence has three components, each serving a different function. First is the knowledge acquisition component, which is responsible for learning and acquisition of the ways of doing things. The second is the Meta or a higher order component, which involves planning concerning what to do and how to do. The third is the performance component, which involves actually doing things.
- *Experiential (creative) Intelligence*: It is the ability to formulate new ideas and combine unrelated facts. It is involved in using past experiences creatively to solve novel problems. It is reflected in creative performance. Persons high on this aspect integrate different experiences in an original way to make new discoveries and inventions.
- *Contextual (practical) Intelligence*: It is the ability to adapt to a changing environment and to shape one's world to optimise opportunities. It may be called '*street smartness*' or '*business sense*'.

NATURE OF INTELLIGENCE

Intelligence is the *manipulation of motor mechanisms* to derive happiness for the organism – inclusive of surviving – and entails the gathering of information external to the organism so by non-verbal communication and wise *motor manipulation*, it can maximize happiness. And, at root, all living organisms are nothing more than a physical organization of their genotype: the initial genetic blueprint of an organism.

Ultimately, at its root, the genotype is actually nothing more than immaterial energy configuring atoms and molecules into genetic code. As it is immaterial – as a thought or idea is immaterial – the genotype is more like a “thought” or “idea” interacting with the

other “thoughts” and “ideas” and set to interact in harmony with its environment – also a “thought.”

Interaction is a “*thought being thought-out.*” This idea is not new nor original. Aristotle theorized that God was pure Thought and prior to the Greeks, the Judeo-Christian idea of the Logos, and Egyptian idea of their God, Amun. The physical is not the blueprint – the immaterial electromagnetic is.

The immaterial is idea-like – a living *thought*. As thinking is mediated by plus and minus ions (NaCl^- , KCl^- , Na^+ , K^+ , Cl^-) moving in and out of the nerve fibres of our brain and nervous system, *thought* and *thinking* is the sophisticated summation of the flows and interplay of positive and negative energies. Both the medium for thinking (*i.e.* the brain) and the ability of thinking itself exist in “seed-like” form in the genotype and is “species-specific.”

The nature of the genotype is that it is a *hand-glove model* of its environment both in the sense that all features of a given animal’s environment are modelled in the genotype’s blueprint and in that the genotype creates the animal’s body and behaviour to fit *hand-glove* into its unique environment. In essence, in tiny cells, genotypes taken as a whole – at some snapshot of geological time – serve as a perfect multimedia picture-record written, imprinted in genetic code, of the heavens, the skies, the waters, and the living earth.

Paul Davies, writing of the ability of birds to use stars in their astro-navigation, comments that, “The necessary astro-navigational information is built in DNA... given a sufficient understanding of the nature of DNA, one could ‘decode’ this information and reconstruct a map of the stars.” DNA is built on an immaterial blueprint. In the case of you and I, we are, in essence, just the immaterial blueprint of the one-celled genotype that became us: eyes, brain, charming smile, wit, and great brilliance included.

Language ability is nothing more than the ability of the genotype to associate random sounds with contemporary objects of evolution (*i.e.* today’s world is different from the first human’s world). Reading and writing is nothing less than the ability of the genome to devise and associate random signs (otherwise known as written alphabets, words, and languages) with contemporary objects of evolution such as the words “ice cream” and the “Internet.” Rats evolve right along with us finding great comfort in living structures and types of food the prehistoric world had no imagination would ever exist. Insects have also kept pace with human evolution. Even viruses: computer viruses.

We are living witnesses of co-evolution. We can observe the ability of organisms worldwide to harmoniously co-evolve ever upwards: *e.g.* in the microscopic-level arm’s race, viral innovations against medicines force humans to develop better medicines. Harmonious tit for tat co-evolution finds origins in the organizational marvel of the immaterial dimension. One unfortunate effect of imbalance is that it creates new “harmonious” balances and the imbalances the human has produced have eliminated many life forms from the environment that man is destroying in 200 years that took 2

million years to create. Nevertheless, for living creatures, harmony and balance with nature are written and achieved in genotypes and together, genotypes make the whole living picture of life on earth – each specie of genotype one piece of the puzzle fitting perfectly with the rest. With the right equipment, the genotype could play an organism's life like a video in a VCR. Through life – via the interaction of living things – Nature manifests on yet another level, the balance and harmony found throughout the universe. Balance is found, for instance, in every animal having a strength of defence against others, but a weakness making it available as fodder and the strong have the greatest likelihood of surviving, but death takes an old life away to make way for new.

While from the perspective of the individual, intelligence serves the purpose of striving for, realizing, and maintaining individual happiness, taken as a whole intelligence serves the greater purpose of bringing the whole of the living world and nature into harmonious oneness. Let us remember several things: living things have not the foggiest idea of the technologies that make their organs and forms and make them interact harmoniously within the organism and with the whole environment from starlight to raindrops.

Differences in Intelligence

In this module, we will consider the extremes of intelligence—from the very bright to the very dull. We will also look at a few of the many studies that have been done with IQ scores, correlating many things from sense of humour (Brumbaugh, 1939) to racial background. A few of these correlation studies and their results will be described in this module. As you read the text, try to answer the following questions.

- When is a child considered gifted? Retarded?
- What are the degrees of mental retardation?
- What were Terman's findings in his study of gifted children?
- How does intelligence correlate with sex? Race? Socioeconomic level?

SOCIAL INTELLIGENCE

Social intelligence just as to the original definition of Edward Thorndike, is “the ability to understand and manage men and women, boys and girls, to act wisely in human relations”. It is equivalent to interpersonal intelligence, one of the types of intelligences identified in Howard Gardner's Theory of multiple intelligences, and closely related to theory of mind. Some authors have restricted the definition to deal only with knowledge of social situations, perhaps more properly called social cognition or social marketing intelligence, as it pertains to trending socio-psychological advertising and marketing strategies and tactics. Sean Foleno, Social intelligence is a person's competence to comprehend his or her environment optimally and react appropriately for socially successful conduct.

SCIENTIFIC STUDIES

There are various types of intelligence. As society became more complex, intellectual competences became more sophisticated. This competence is social intelligence and can be defined as the intelligence that lies behind group interactions and This type of intelligence is closely related to cognition and emotional intelligence, and can also be seen as a first level in developing systems intelligence. Research psychologists studying social cognition and social neuroscience have discovered many principles which human social intelligence operates. In early work on this topic, psychologists Nancy Cantor and John Kihlstrom outlined the kinds of concepts people use to make sense of their social relations and the rules they use to draw inferences and plan actions.

In 2005, business writer Karl Albrecht proposed a five-part model of social intelligence in his book *Social Intelligence: the New Science of Success*, presented with the acronym “S.P.A.C.E.”—(1) Situational awareness, (2) Presence, (3) Authenticity, (4) Clarity, and (5) Empathy. More recently, popular science writer Daniel Goleman has drawn on social neuroscience research to propose that social intelligence is made up of social awareness and social facility. Psychotherapy often involves helping people to modify their patterns of social intelligence, particularly those that cause them problems in their interpersonal relations. Some efforts are also underway to use computer-based interventions to help people develop their own social intelligence. Paul Ekman, for example, has created the MicroExpression Training Tool, to allow people to practice identifying the brief emotional expressions that flit across people’s faces. Educational researcher Raymond H. Hartjen asserts that expanded opportunities for social interaction enhances intelligence.

Traditional classrooms do not permit the interaction of complex social behaviour. Instead children in traditional settings are treated as learners who must be infused with more and more complex forms of information. Few educational leaders he adduces have taken this position as a starting point to develop a school environment where social interaction could flourish. If we follow this line of thinking then children must have an opportunity for continuous every day interpersonal experiences in order to develop a keen well developed ‘inter-personal psychology’. As schools are structured today very few of these skills, critical for survival in the real world, are allowed to develop.

Because we so limit the development of the skills of “natural psychologist” in traditional schools our students as graduates, enter the job market handicapped to the point of being incapable of surviving on their own. In contrast those students that have had an ability to develop their skills as a “natural psychologist” in multiage classrooms and at democratic settings rise head and shoulders over their less socially skilled peers. They have a good sense of self, know what they want out of life and have the skills necessary to begin their quest.

MEASURING SOCIAL INTELLIGENCE

Social IQ is a measure of social intelligence compared to other people of their age. Like IQ, Social IQ is based on the “100 point” scale, in which 100 is the average score. Scores of 140 or above are considered to be very high. Social IQ has until recently been measured by techniques such as question and answer sessions. These sessions assess the person’s pragmatic abilities to test eligibility in certain special education courses, however some tests have been developed to measure social intelligence. One of these is the EQ test. This test can be used when diagnosing autism spectrum disorders, including autism and Asperger syndrome. Other, non-autistic or semi-autistic conditions such as semantic pragmatic disorder or SPD, schizophrenia, dyssemia and ADHD, are also of relevance. People with low social IQ will be considered “child like” and immature, even at the adult age group. This test can also be used when assessing people that might have some sort of a disorder such as schizophrenia or ADHD.

A good way to measure Social IQ is to use the basic IQ system, adapted for social skills. Most people have social IQs from 85-115, but many exceed these limits. People with social IQs below 80 may have an autism spectrum disorder, such as Asperger syndrome or a severe case of some other disorder such as schizophrenia or maybe just generally low in general intelligence. These people may have trouble with making friends, and with communication, and might need some social skill training or extra support from specialists.

These people may not be hired as quickly as other people for employment, since they may not have the require interpersonal communication and social skills for success in the workforce. These people may work well in an office desk job, stay at home job or jobs that don’t require a lot of interaction, such as construction. People with social IQs over 120 are considered very socially skilled and well adjusted, and could work well with jobs that involve direct contact and communication with people.

The following example chart shows how a person’s social age can be higher or lower based on scores in the social IQ test.:

Social IQ	Social Age
120 (above average - socially mature for age)	20.4
110	18.7
100 (average)	17
90	15.3
80	13.6
70 (below this level, help is recommended)	11.9
60	10.2
50	8.5
40	6.8
30	5.1
20	3.4

EMOTIONAL INTELLIGENCE

Emotional intelligence is the ability, capacity, skill; or, in the case of the trait EI model, a self-perceived ability to identify, assess, and control the emotions of oneself, of others, and of groups. Different models have been proposed for the definition of EI and there is disagreement about how the term should be used. Despite these disagreements, which are often highly technical, the ability-EI and trait-EI models enjoy support in the literature and have successful applications in various domains.

HISTORY

The earliest roots of emotional intelligence can be traced to Darwin's work on the importance of emotional expression for survival and second adaptation. In the 1900s, even though traditional definitions of intelligence emphasized cognitive aspects such as memory and problem-solving, several influential researchers in the intelligence field of study had begun to recognize the importance of the non-cognitive aspects.

For instance, as early as 1920, E.L. Thorndike used the term social intelligence to describe the skill of understanding and managing other people. Similarly, in 1940 David Wechsler described the influence of non-intellective factors on intelligent behaviour, and further argued that our models of intelligence would not be complete until we can adequately describe these factors.

In 1983, Howard Gardner's *Frames of Mind: The Theory of Multiple Intelligences* introduced the idea of multiple intelligences which included both interpersonal intelligence and intrapersonal intelligence. In Gardner's view, traditional types of intelligence, such as IQ, fail to fully explain cognitive ability. Thus, even though the names given to the concept varied, there was a common belief that traditional definitions of intelligence are lacking in ability to fully explain performance outcomes.

The first use of the term "emotional intelligence" is usually attributed to Wayne Payne's doctoral thesis, *A Study of Emotion: Developing Emotional Intelligence from 1985*. However, prior to this, the term "emotional intelligence" had appeared in Leuner.

Greenspan also put forward an EI model, followed by Salovey and Mayer and Goleman. The distinction between trait emotional intelligence and ability emotional intelligence was introduced in 2000.

DEFINITIONS

Substantial disagreement exists regarding the definition of EI, with respect to both terminology and operationalizations. There has been much confusion about the exact meaning of this construct. The definitions are so varied, and the field is growing so rapidly, that researchers are constantly re-evaluating even their own definitions of the construct.

Currently, there are three main models of EI:

- Ability EI model
- Mixed models of EI
- Trait EI model

Different models of EI have led to the development of various instruments for the assessment of the construct. While some of these measures may overlap, most researchers agree that they tap different constructs.

Ability Model

Salovey and Mayer's conception of EI strives to define EI within the confines of the standard criteria for a new intelligence. Following their continuing research, their initial definition of EI was revised to "The ability to perceive emotion, integrate emotion to facilitate thought, understand emotions and to regulate emotions to promote personal growth."

The ability-based model views emotions as useful sources of information that help one to make sense of and navigate the social environment. The model proposes that individuals vary in their ability to process information of an emotional nature and in their ability to relate emotional processing to a wider cognition. This ability is seen to manifest itself in certain adaptive behaviours.

The model claims that EI includes four types of abilities:

1. *Perceiving emotions*: The ability to detect and decipher emotions in faces, pictures, voices, and cultural artifacts—including the ability to identify one's own emotions. Perceiving emotions represents a basic aspect of emotional intelligence, as it makes all other processing of emotional information possible.
2. *Using emotions*: The ability to harness emotions to facilitate various cognitive activities, such as thinking and problem solving. The emotionally intelligent person can capitalize fully upon his or her changing moods in order to best fit the task at hand.
3. *Understanding emotions*: The ability to comprehend emotion language and to appreciate complicated relationships among emotions. For example, understanding emotions encompasses the ability to be sensitive to slight variations between emotions, and the ability to recognize and describe how emotions evolve over time.
4. *Managing emotions*: The ability to regulate emotions in both ourselves and in others. Therefore, the emotionally intelligent person can harness emotions, even negative ones, and manage them to achieve intended goals.

The ability EI model has been criticized in the research for lacking face and predictive validity in the workplace.

Measurement of the Ability Model

The current measure of Mayer and Salovey's model of EI, the Mayer-Salovey-Caruso Emotional Intelligence Test is based on a series of emotion-based problem-solving items. Consistent with the model's claim of EI as a type of intelligence, the test is modeled on ability-based IQ tests. By testing a person's abilities on each of the four branches of emotional intelligence, it generates scores for each of the branches as well as a total score. Central to the four-branch model is the idea that EI requires attunement to social norms.

Therefore, the MSCEIT is scored in a consensus fashion, with higher scores indicating higher overlap between an individual's answers and those provided by a worldwide sample of respondents. The MSCEIT can also be expert-scored, so that the amount of overlap is calculated between an individual's answers and those provided by a group of 21 emotion researchers. Although promoted as an ability test, the MSCEIT is most unlike standard IQ tests in that its items do not have objectively correct responses. Among other problems, the consensus scoring criterion means that it is impossible to create items that only a minority of respondents can solve, because, by definition, responses are deemed emotionally "intelligent" only if the majority of the sample has endorsed them. This and other similar problems have led cognitive ability experts to question the definition of EI as a genuine intelligence.

In a study by Føllesdal, the MSCEIT test results of 111 business leaders were compared with how their employees described their leader. It was found that there were no correlations between a leader's test results and how he or she was rated by the employees, with regard to empathy, ability to motivate, and leader effectiveness. Føllesdal also criticized the Canadian company Multi-Health Systems, which administers the MSCEIT test. The test contains 141 questions but it was found after publishing the test that 19 of these did not give the expected answers. This has led Multi-Health Systems to remove answers to these 19 questions before scoring, but without stating this officially.

Mixed Models

The model introduced by Daniel Goleman focuses on EI as a wide array of competencies and skills that drive leadership performance.

Goleman's model outlines four main EI constructs:

1. *Self-awareness*: The ability to read one's emotions and recognize their impact while using gut feelings to guide decisions.
2. *Self-management*: Involves controlling one's emotions and impulses and adapting to changing circumstances.
3. *Social awareness*: The ability to sense, understand, and react to others' emotions while comprehending social networks.
4. *Relationship management*: The ability to inspire, influence, and develop others while managing conflict.

Goleman includes a set of emotional competencies within each construct of EI. Emotional competencies are not innate talents, but rather learned capabilities that must be worked on and can be developed to achieve outstanding performance. Goleman posits that individuals are born with a general emotional intelligence that determines their potential for learning emotional competencies. Goleman's model of EI has been criticized in the research literature as mere "pop psychology".

Measurement of the Emotional Competencies (Goleman) Model

Two measurement tools are based on the Goleman model:

1. The Emotional Competency Inventory which was created in 1999, and the Emotional and Social Competency Inventory which was created in 2007.
2. The Emotional Intelligence Appraisal, which was created in 2001 and which can be taken as a self-report or 360-degree assessment.

Bar-On Model of Emotional-Social Intelligence

Bar-On defines emotional intelligence as being concerned with effectively understanding oneself and others, relating well to people, and adapting to and coping with the immediate surroundings to be more successful in dealing with environmental demands. Bar-On posits that EI develops over time and that it can be improved through training, programming, and therapy. Bar-On hypothesizes that those individuals with higher than average EQs are in general more successful in meeting environmental demands and pressures.

He also notes that a deficiency in EI can mean a lack of success and the existence of emotional problems. Problems in coping with one's environment are thought, by Bar-On, to be especially common among those individuals lacking in the subscales of reality testing, problem solving, stress tolerance, and impulse control. In general, Bar-On considers emotional intelligence and cognitive intelligence to contribute equally to a person's general intelligence, which then offers an indication of one's potential to succeed in life.

Measurement of the ESI Model

The Bar-On Emotional Quotient Inventory is a self-report measure of EI developed as a measure of emotionally and socially competent behaviour that provides an estimate of one's emotional and social intelligence. The EQ-i is not meant to measure personality traits or cognitive capacity, but rather the mental ability to be successful in dealing with environmental demands and pressures. One hundred and thirty three items are used to obtain a Total EQ and to produce five composite scale scores, corresponding to the five main components of the Bar-On model. A limitation of this model is that it claims to measure some kind of ability through self-report items. The EQ-i has been found to be highly susceptible to faking.

Trait EI Model

Petrides and colleagues proposed a conceptual distinction between the ability based model and a trait based model of EI. Trait EI is “a constellation of emotional self-perceptions located at the lower levels of personality”. In lay terms, trait EI refers to an individual’s self-perceptions of their emotional abilities. This definition of EI encompasses behavioural dispositions and self perceived abilities and is measured by self report, as opposed to the ability based model which refers to actual abilities, which have proven highly resistant to scientific measurement. Trait EI should be investigated within a personality framework. An alternative label for the same construct is trait emotional self-efficacy.

The conceptualization of EI as a personality trait leads to a construct that lies outside the taxonomy of human cognitive ability. This is an important distinction in as much as it bears directly on the operationalization of the construct and the theories and hypotheses that are formulated about it.

Measurement of the Trait EI Model

There are many self-report measures of EI, including the EQ-i, the Swinburne University Emotional Intelligence Test and the Schutte EI model. None of these assess intelligence, abilities, or skills but rather, they are limited measures of trait emotional intelligence. One of the more comprehensive and widely researched measures of this construct is the Trait Emotional Intelligence Questionnaire which is an open-access measure that was specifically designed to measure the construct comprehensively and is currently available in many languages.

The TEIQue provides an operationalization for the model of Petrides and colleagues, that conceptualizes EI in terms of personality. The test encompasses 15 subscales organized under four factors: Well-Being, Self-Control, Emotionality, and Sociability. The psychometric properties of the TEIQue were investigated in a study on a French-speaking population, where it was reported that TEIQue scores were globally normally distributed and reliable.

The researchers also found TEIQue scores were unrelated to non-verbal reasoning which they interpreted as support for the personality trait view of EI. As expected, TEIQue scores were positively related to some of the Big Five personality traits as well as inversely related to others. A number of quantitative genetic studies have been carried out within the trait EI model, which have revealed significant genetic effects and heritabilities for all trait EI scores.

Two recent studies involving direct comparisons of multiple EI tests yielded very favourable results for the TEIQue. Alexithymia and EI. Alexithymia from the Greek words *lexis* and *thumos* is a term coined by Peter Sifneos in 1973 to describe people who appeared to have deficiencies in understanding, processing, or describing their emotions. Viewed as a spectrum between high and low EI, the alexithymia construct is

strongly inversely related to EI, representing its lower range. The individual's level of alexithymia can be measured with self-scored questionnaires such as the Toronto Alexithymia Scale or the Bermond-Vorst Alexithymia Questionnaire or by observer rated measures such as the Observer Alexithymia Scale.

CRITICISMS OF THE THEORETICAL FOUNDATION OF EI

EI cannot be Recognized as a Form of Intelligence

Goleman's early work has been criticized for assuming from the beginning that EI is a type of intelligence. Eysenck writes that Goleman's description of EI contains assumptions about intelligence in general, and that it even runs contrary to what researchers have come to expect when studying types of intelligence:

“[Goleman] exemplifies more clearly than most the fundamental absurdity of the tendency to class almost any type of behaviour as an ‘intelligence’... If these five ‘abilities’ define ‘emotional intelligence’, we would expect some evidence that they are highly correlated; Goleman admits that they might be quite uncorrelated, and in any case if we cannot measure them, how do we know they are related? So the whole theory is built on quicksand: there is no sound scientific basis.”

Similarly, Locke claims that the concept of EI is in itself a misinterpretation of the intelligence construct, and he offers an alternative interpretation: it is not another form or type of intelligence, but intelligence—the ability to grasp abstractions—applied to a particular life domain: emotions. He suggests the concept should be re-labeled and referred to as a skill.

The essence of this criticism is that scientific enquiry depends on valid and consistent construct utilization, and that before the introduction of the term EI, psychologists had established theoretical distinctions between factors such as abilities and achievements, skills and habits, attitudes and values, and personality traits and emotional states. Thus, some scholars believe that the term EI merges and conflates such accepted concepts and definitions.

EI has little Predictive Value

Landy claimed that the few incremental validity studies conducted on EI have shown that it adds little or nothing to the explanation or prediction of some common outcomes. Landy suggested that the reason why some studies have found a small increase in predictive validity is a methodological fallacy, namely, that alternative explanations have not been completely considered:

- “EI is compared and contrasted with a measure of abstract intelligence but not with a personality measure, or with a personality measure but not with a measure of academic intelligence.”

Similarly, other researchers have raised concerns about the extent to which self-report EI measures correlate with established personality dimensions. Generally, self-report EI measures and personality measures have been said to converge because they both purport to measure personality traits. Specifically, there appear to be two dimensions of the Big Five that stand out as most related to self-report EI—neuroticism and extroversion. In particular, neuroticism has been said to relate to negative emotionality and anxiety. Intuitively, individuals scoring high on neuroticism are likely to score low on self-report EI measures. The interpretations of the correlations between EI questionnaires and personality have been varied. The prominent view in the scientific literature is the Trait EI view, which re-interprets EI as a collection of personality traits.

CRITICISMS OF MEASUREMENT ISSUES

Ability EI Measures Measure Conformity, Not Ability

One criticism of the works of Mayer and Salovey comes from a study by Roberts, which suggests that the EI, as measured by the MSCEIT, may only be measuring conformity. This argument is rooted in the MSCEIT's use of consensus-based assessment, and in the fact that scores on the MSCEIT are negatively distributed.

Ability EI Measures Measure Knowledge

Further criticism has been offered by Brody who claimed that unlike tests of cognitive ability, the MSCEIT “tests knowledge of emotions but not necessarily the ability to perform tasks that are related to the knowledge that is assessed”. The main argument is that even though someone knows how he should behave in an emotionally laden situation, it doesn't necessarily follow that he could actually carry out the reported behaviour.

Self-Report Measures are Susceptible to Faking

More formally termed socially desirable responding, faking good is defined as a response pattern in which test-takers systematically represent themselves with an excessive positive bias. This bias has long been known to contaminate responses on personality inventories, acting as a mediator of the relationships between self-report measures. It has been suggested that responding in a desirable way is a response set, which is a situational and temporary response pattern.

This is contrasted with a response style, which is a more long-term trait-like quality. Considering the contexts some self-report EI inventories are used in, the problems of response sets in high-stakes scenarios become clear. There are a few methods to prevent socially desirable responding on behaviour inventories. Some researchers believe it is necessary to warn test-takers not to fake good before taking a personality test. Some inventories use validity scales in order to determine the likelihood or consistency of the responses across all items.

Claims for the Predictive Power of EI are too Extreme

Landy distinguishes between the “commercial wing” and “the academic wing” of the EI movement, basing this distinction on the alleged predictive power of EI as seen by the two currents. Landy, the former makes expansive claims on the applied value of EI, while the latter is trying to warn users against these claims. As an example, Goleman asserts that “the most effective leaders are alike in one crucial way: they all have a high degree of what has come to be known as emotional intelligence....emotional intelligence is the sine qua non of leadership”.

In contrast, Mayer cautions “the popular literature’s implication—that highly emotionally intelligent people possess an unqualified advantage in life—appears overly enthusiastic at present and unsubstantiated by reasonable scientific standards.” Landy further reinforces this argument by noting that the data upon which these claims are based are held in “proprietary databases”, which means they are unavailable to independent researchers for reanalysis, replication, or verification. Thus, the credibility of the findings cannot be substantiated in a scientific way, unless those datasets are made public and available for independent analysis. In an academic exchange, Antonakis and Ashkanasy/Dasborough mostly agreed that researchers testing whether EI matters for leadership have not done so using robust research designs; therefore, currently there is no strong evidence showing that EI predicts leadership outcomes when accounting for personality and IQ. Antonakis argued that EI might not be needed for leadership effectiveness.

A recently-published meta-analysis seems to support the Antonakis position: In fact, Harms and Credé found that overall, EI measures correlated only $r = .11$ with measures of transformational leadership. Interestingly, ability-measures of EI fared worst; the WLEIS did a bit better and the Bar-On measure better still. However, the validity of these estimates does not include the effects of IQ or the big five personality, which correlate both with EI measures and leadership. In a subsequent document analysing the impact of EI on both job performance and leadership, Harms and Credé found that the meta-analytic validity estimates for EI dropped to zero when Big Five traits and IQ were controlled for.

EI, IQ and Job Performance

Research of EI and job performance show mixed results: a positive relation has been found in some of the studies, in others there was no relation or an inconsistent one. This led researchers Cote and Miners to offer a compensatory model between EI and IQ, that posits that the association between EI and job performance becomes more positive as cognitive intelligence decreases, an idea first proposed in the context of academic performance. The results of the former study supported the compensatory model: employees with low IQ get higher task performance and organizational citizenship behaviour directed at the organization, the higher their EI.

DISTRIBUTION OF INTELLIGENCE

People who score above 130 on intelligence tests are usually considered gifted. An important study of gifted children was undertaken by who devised the Stanford-Binet test. In the course of developing that test, Terman and his associates tested many thousands of children, and then did further research on those who had IO's of 140 or more. This group of more than 1500 children was in the top 1% of the population. Terman followed most of these children from 1921 until his death in 1956. Some of his associates are still continuing this detailed longitudinal study.

The study revealed an important fact related to the home environments of the children. Approximately one-third were children of professional people and about half were children of persons in business occupations. Only seven percent came from "working classes." These percentages do not agree at all with the distribution of social class membership in the general population. They indicate that relatively more gifted children come from the higher socioeconomic classes, although they do not tell us why.

Another discovery in Terman's study was that gifted children are more successful in later life. Twenty-five years after the study began, about 700 of the original group were still in contact with Terman. Of these, 150 were considered very successful. This distinction was based on such criteria as being listed in Who's Who or having received recognition for outstanding intellectual or professional achievement. Most of the others were much more successful than people of average intelligence. On the other hand, some persons in the gifted group had committed crimes, dropped out of school early, or been unsuccessful at a number of jobs. Those least successful were more poorly adjusted emotionally and less motivated than the others. On the whole, though, the most striking fact revealed in the study was that gifted children made generally outstanding contributions to society in the form of intellectual achievements. In their early years, Terman's gifted children were above average in height, weight, and physical development, and they were also better adjusted. It had been generally believed that very gifted children were likely to be maladjusted and socially backward. Terman's study definitely disproved this notion. The gifted child is liable to encounter serious difficulties in school. He may be bored by children of his own age and his knowledge may even exceed that of his teacher. Teachers may consider him rude or a show-off. He may become a real problem simply because he is bored and loses interest in a class designed for "average" children. Some schools today are facing this problem by planning appropriate programmes for gifted children.

THEORY OF INTELLIGENCES: SINGLE, TWO FACTOR AND MULTIFACTOR THEORIES

The theory of multiple intelligences was proposed by Howard Gardner in 1983, to more accurately define the concept of intelligence and address whether methods which

claim to measure intelligence (or aspects thereof) are truly scientific. Gardner's theory argues that intelligence, particularly as it is traditionally defined, does not sufficiently encompass the wide variety of abilities humans display. In his conception, a child who masters multiplication easily is not necessarily more intelligent *overall* than a child who struggles to do so. The second child may be stronger in another *kind* of intelligence, and therefore may best learn the given material through a different approach, may excel in a field outside of mathematics, or may even be looking through the multiplication learning process at a fundamentally deeper level that hides a potentially higher mathematical intelligence than in the one who memorizes the concept easily.

DEVELOPMENT OF THE THEORY

"Howard Gardner, multiple intelligences and education" by given field (child prodigies, autistic savants);

- Neurological evidence for areas of the brain that are specialized for particular capacities (often including studies of people who have suffered brain damage affecting a specific capacity);
- The evolutionary relevance of the various capacities;
- Psychometric studies; and
- Susceptibility to encoding in a symbol system or notation (*e.g.* written language, musical notation, choreography).
- An identifiable core operation or set of operations.
- A distinctive development history, along with a definable set of 'end-state' performances.

Gardner originally identified seven core intelligences: linguistic, logical-mathematical, spatial, bodily-kinesthetic, musical, interpersonal and intrapersonal.

In 1997 at the symposium "MIND 97" (Multiple Intelligences New Directions) he added an eighth, the "Naturalist" Intelligence. Investigation continues on whether there are Existentialist (existential) and Spiritualist (spiritual) Intelligences.

The theory has been widely criticized in the psychology and educational theory communities. The most common criticisms argue that Gardner's theory is based on his own intuition rather than empirical data and that the intelligences are just other names for talents or personality types. Despite these criticisms, the theory has enjoyed a great deal of popularity amongst educators over the past twenty years. There are several schools which espouse MI as a pedagogy, and many individual teachers who incorporate some or all of the theory into their methodology. Many books and educational materials exist which explain the theory and how it may be applied to the classroom.

3

CHAPTER

Education and Learning of Life-style

Many people have aspirations to get an education for many reasons. Better jobs, more money and social recognition are some of the more predominant explanations. Regardless of how badly many of these people would love to achieve some sort of education beyond high school, attending a college or university is usually not an option because of existing responsibilities. Having bills, children, a job and other responsibilities are typically peoples first priority. The fact that many people are unable to attend a class every week is a HUGE factor preventing people from ever getting the education that they dream of.

In this day and age, with the coming of the Internet, this is no longer a valid excuse. There are many on-line schools where you can obtain your education from the comfort of your own computer. There are many benefits to on-line education. You can spend countless hours with your children, and get your education while relaxing after putting them to bed. You can still work a full time job and then spend a few hours a week learning for the future. I could continue listing the benefits for pages and pages, but then I would be slowing you down from actually potentially taking the first step and pursuing your on-line education.

VOCATIONAL PASSION

There's a famous song lyric that asks: "Is that all there is?" Every seven seconds, an American turns 50 years old. So there's a good chance that song is running through some of their heads. The question captures the ennui that many people feel in mid-life.

They look up at the clock, see it ticking, and begin counting in their heads all the mountains not climbed, the poems not written, and the songs not sung. It's time to stop asking the question idly. I'm offering five initial steps that you can take to evaluate your situation and to begin the transition away from a meaningless grind towards a new life that provides you with energy and fulfillment. Vocational passion is an alignment of your abilities and interests in a role that gives you unlimited energy and happiness. This is not an overnight process. But it's a process you can begin today.

Step One: Evaluate

Lots of people settle for jobs that pay the bills but leave them feeling empty. If you want to break out of this trap and find another kind of life, you need to evaluate where you'd like to go. Examine where your passions lie. On a scale of 1-10, where are you when it comes to vocational passion? A "1" is a living drudgery where you force yourself to your desk every morning and dream about the end of the day; a "10" is a perfect alignment between interests and livelihood.

Too many of us are closer to "1" than "10". Anything lower than a "5" suggests your working life may be feeding your family, but at the expense of starving your soul.

Step Two: Envision Your Future

You may have seen the U.S. Navy ad that asks: "If someone wrote a book about your life, would anyone want to read it?"

Here's your chance to write that book-or at least the outline. Sit down and write a short biography that describes who you are five years from now. Describe exactly the life you wish to lead, doing work that you love. You will know you're done with the exercise when your heart races with excitement. Then imagine and write down your vision of a perfect vocational day. It's difficult to achieve something that you have not clearly envisioned. Make sure your vision has clarity. Then document it and pull it out regularly, to refresh your desire to achieve that vision.

Step Three: Tune Out Negative Feedback

Understand this: The moment you announce plans to make a radical change in your life, many people will find the move threatening and they will not wish you well. They will try to talk you out of it and tell you what a big mistake you're about to make. Never let the naysayers dictate your life. People who listen to negative voices end up with the status quo.

Step Four: Shore Up Your Support Network

Anyone making a change needs supportive friends, and lots of them.

I suggest a three-tiered model for analyzing your personal support network. The three tiers will include people who are (1) "interested" in your work; (2) "supporters"

who are not only interested, but offer creative ideas to move you forward; (3) "believers," which includes your most active supporters. Make your lists now. Examine whom you have in your support network and rank them according to these tiers. Focus on networking with your tier-one supporters, while trying to move those people in tiers two and three up the ladder.

Step Five: Assess Your Risk

When taking action to follow one's passion, people trying to change their life fall into one of four categories. Each requires a different strategy.

- **Category One:** Plenty of money and plenty of time. People in this category have a high tolerance for risk based on their relatively young age and solid financial means.
- **Category Two:** Plenty of money and little time. Because of failing health and/or advancing age, those in category two have some risk tolerance. But they probably lack a solid support network, since most friends will advise against change because they are "too old" or "too sick."
- **Category Three:** Little time and little money. I define "little money" as having less than six months of cash flow in the bank. Risk tolerance is low in this category, and supporters are probably hard to come by. Most people are in this category.
- **Category Four:** No money and no time. I define "no money" as less than three months cash flow in the bank. Anyone in this position will have a very low risk tolerance. They will find little support to help them move towards doing what they love.

What to do?

Take the calculated risks now.

Make solid but flexible plans

Get aligned around your abilities and interests

Get more education if necessary

Talk to people who do what you want to do!

What's the worst that can happen?

Remember This: You won't die or become homeless if you pursue what you love. You may, however, find that your relationship to your money will change. You'll respect money more, and you'll find that you can manage on less of it.

Also understand that pursuing vocational passion doesn't always mean making less money. But it does mean that money is not the only consideration-or even the most important consideration-in choosing your new vocational path.

If you don't act to pursue your vocational passion, then every seven seconds someone else will come along and ask themselves: "Is that all there is?" Many of them will answer, "No," and will do something about it. You can be one of the doers.

GROWTH FROM DISCONTENT

That strange, gut-wrenching feeling you have is not the Sushi you had for lunch. It's your soul trying to give you a nudge to do something. A word for that feeling is "discontent." Discontent is a state of not being satisfied or fulfilled in your current situation. Of course, this same feeling can apply to a hundred different situations, from a work-related issue to a personal issue at home. But, the resulting meaning is still the same: "make a change." Some people listen to that feeling and change their life in such a way as to eliminate that feeling. However, some people that fall into discontent, but tend to remain in that situation as they find it a place of "same-ness" and "safety."

Souler Greenhouse

Discontent is actually a "souler greenhouse" of change. It is the first warnings you receive that things are not what they should be and that a change is required to correct the situation. Discontent comes when there is juxtaposition between needs and desires. Usually, you're pursuing a need, achieve it, and then continue to pursue the ideals of the same need. This occurs because you don't know what to do once you reach the objective. However, once you achieve a need, you need to move on to the next pursuit.

Many people find that discontent for a given situation is acceptable. For instance, discontent with your work might feel acceptable because you have to make money and care for your family. In this way, you learn to overcome the discontent by accepting the obligations. However, while this may work, it is not necessarily the route to take. Indeed, you might need the job, but this feeling is calling for an evaluation as some aspect of the situation needs attention. Discontent can provide you with either a reason to stay right where you are or a fertile environment from which to move forward. While it does provide a way for the Universe to bring attention to a situation, we sometimes become so accustomed to the feeling that it becomes part of our life. In such a case, if we adapt and the discontented feeling is resolved, we will miss it.

Growth

Growth from discontent is an amazing change. Again, comparing to the greenhouse, it can either smother you, or help you grow. However, change from discontent is something that you have to execute consciously, because discontent can also provide you with a safety zone. By accepting discontent in one part of your life, it can spread into other areas of your life. You can become satisfied with the feeling because it becomes familiar. However, you end up working on parts of your life in hopes of resolving the feeling when you find that, once that part of your life has changed, you still feel the same.

Growth occurs because you feel a push, or pull, to move in a direction. The objective is to obtain a balance such that the discontent disappears. Once you achieve the necessary change, you will be able to leave the discontented feelings behind you. Focus on the

situation that makes you feel the discontent, not on other issues that may, or may not, make you feel better. The contented feeling from "doing busy work" or fixing something that isn't broken is fleeting, unless you tackle the core issue.

The growth comes in once you embrace the change. When you move from an area of the familiar, you must learn something new or different to adapt to the unfamiliar. However, in this transition, you are putting your life back in balance and moving forward, which eliminates those feelings of discontent.

What's Next?

Don't let discontent drag you down! Listen to your gut! It will always tell you when change is necessary. It might be a simple gnawing feeling or a twisted knot. In either case, be honest with yourself and trust that feeling. Discontent is the universe's way of telling you that a change is necessary within yourself to resolve the situation. It is there to warn you of situations and guide you when things need to change.

To make the change, you have to know where you are and where you want to be in the near future. However, the one thing to keep in mind is that you want to achieve some type of balance to counter the discontent. Remember that discontent is caused from an imbalance in one or more parts of your life. Ask yourself, and focus on, what it is that is causing you the most concern. Once you are able to determine the issue, only then can you set out on a goal that satisfies the feeling. Such an approach will not only restore balance, but it will also allow you to move forward to a more fulfilling life.

THE AFFIRMATION TECHNIQUE

Affirmation technique has been used by many successful people for centuries. It has helped many ordinary people achieved extraordinary results in their lives. It has turned many failures into successes. It has made many miracles in the history of human revolution. However, majority of the people who have used affirmation find it is not working. Why is this case? What are the elements that people have missed out when they use the affirmation techniques? I constantly ask myself these questions, and seek for the answers. The result is no one book gives the complete answers. Some tips given in this book work for this specific situation, and not for other situation. Another books give other tips work for other situation, but not for this. I have tested and filtered out the ineffective ones, and left only what I call the ultimate secrets for effective technique.

The purpose of affirmation: Before I give you the effective techniques, I must make you understand the true purpose of affirmation. Simply stated, the purpose of affirmation is to pass a command from the conscious mind to the subconscious mind. The subconscious mind has this ability, if anything it accept as true, it will do whatever it takes to turn it into reality. The affirmation is to pass a message to the subconscious mind, and let it believe the message is true.

So this brings to the first element of an effective affirmation.

1. The affirmation must be believable to the subconscious mind. Most of the affirmation the people used fail at this first stage. They tend to give an unrealistic message to the subconscious mind, and hope they can get response. If you are financially broke, you say to yourself "I earn \$100,000 per year." is this believable to your mind? If your body is totally out of shape, you say to yourself "I am very attractive", is this believable to your mind? I doubt it. What if you are currently broke, and you want to make \$100,000 per year? What if you are out of shape, and you want to make yourself attractive? I find the best and easiest way is to use the word "I choose" in your affirmation Instead of saying "I earn \$100,000 per year." Now say "I choose to earn \$100,000 per year" Instead of saying "I am very attractive" Now say "I choose to feel that people find me attractive" Do you feel the differences?
2. The subconscious mind seeks for proof. There is a misconception that the affirmation must be repeated thousands of times before it could be installed in the subconscious mind. This is not necessarily true. You can use the repetition method to embed your affirmation, but there is an easier way. It is at the time you find the proof, state your affirmation. Many people stay in poverty is because they had associated pain to money. Whenever they spend their money, they will think of their bills, loans etc. This will automatically lead to ultimate pain. It is the feeling you attached to money makes you rich or poor. How can we turn this into our advantage? Instead of feeling pain to spend money, what if we associate pleasure to it. Next time when you go out for shopping, at the moment you take out your money or credit card, say this affirmation to yourself "I always have more than enough to spend." See how you will feel. This works because the subconscious mind sees the proof. As long as you have some money left in your pocket, this affirmation is always true, so the subconscious mind will believe. How about we combine the first and second methods together and make an affirmation like this " I choose feel that I am always have more than enough to spend." Say this at the time you spend your money. See how you feel. You don't have to repeat it thousands of times, a few times of real life proof will make your subconscious mind believes.
3. The affirmation must trigger feelings. A fact about the subconscious mind is that it does not speak in words, you can only communicate with it through feelings, emotions. There are two methods that you can use to trigger your feelings. First method is to use words that involve feelings. Words like "fun, enjoyable, comfortable, delightful" will work effectively. Second method is to use imagination. Visualizing the situation stated in your affirmation already comes true. See yourself in that situation and feel the feelings.

4. The affirmation must obey the 3 Ps factors. The 3 Ps are positive, present tense, and personal. Affirmations must be stated positively, instead of saying "I am not fat", say "I choose to stay slim". The reason for this is that before the mind knows the meaning of I am not fat, it must think of what fat means first. So saying that statement will inevitably leads to the feeling of being fat. Affirmations must be in present tense. Many books have mentioned this. However, I only agree to some extent. If you say "I have a luxury car", your mind will not believe you. The reason I include this P here is that once it combined with the first technique, it will work perfectly. Now say "I choose to have a luxury car". Your mind will do its best to bring it into reality. Affirmation must be personal. Your subconscious mind only work for you, not for others. If you say "Ann loves me", it will not effective, because you have no any control on Ann. Now say "I choose to feel that Ann really loves me". This time you are in control, because you can control your own feelings.
5. Personal development affirmation should be stated in comparative. "I am confident" may not be as effective as "I am becoming more and more confident" A even better affirmation could be "I choose to feel more and more confident" The reason to use comparative is because there is no end to how much confident you should become. You mind may think you are already confident enough, and it will not need to do any more work.

These 5 techniques are the most effective ones that I have found from my research on affirmation. If you can use all the 5 techniques, I guarantee your results will be amazing. Even you only use one or two techniques stated here, you will find your affirmations become far more effective.

LEARNING

Learning is acquiring new knowledge, behaviours, skills, values, preferences or understanding, and may involve synthesizing different types of information. The ability to learn is possessed by humans, animals and some machines. Progress over time tends to follow learning curves. Human learning may occur as part of education, personal development, or training. It may be goal-oriented and may be aided by motivation. The study of how learning occurs is part of neuropsychology, educational psychology, learning theory, and pedagogy. Learning may occur as a result of habituation or classical conditioning, seen in many animal species, or as a result of more complex activities such as play, seen only in relatively intelligent animals. Learning may occur consciously or without conscious awareness.

There is evidence for human behavioural learning prenatally, in which habituation has been observed as early as 32 weeks into gestation, indicating that the central nervous system is sufficiently developed and primed for learning and memory to occur very

early on in development. Play has been approached by several theorists as the first form of learning. Children play, experiment with the world, learn the rules, and learn to interact. Vygotsky agrees that play is pivotal for children's development, since they make meaning of their environment through play. While this article describes the different environments in which learning happens, there seems as yet to be no description of how a collection of neurons learns nor where, exactly, in this collection of neurons "memory" is located.

TYPES OF LEARNING

Simple Non-associative Learning

Habituation

In psychology, habituation is an example of non-associative learning in which there is a progressive diminution of behavioural response probability with repetition stimulus. An animal first responds to a stimulus, but if it is neither rewarding nor harmful the animal reduces subsequent responses. One example of this can be seen in small song birds—if a stuffed owl is put into the cage, the birds initially react to it as though it were a real predator. Soon the birds react less, showing habituation. If another stuffed owl is introduced, the birds react to it again as though it were a predator, demonstrating that it is only a very specific stimulus that is habituated to. Habituation has been shown in essentially every species of animal, including the large protozoan *Stentor coeruleus*.

Sensitization

Sensitization is an example of non-associative learning in which the progressive amplification of a response follows repeated administrations of a stimulus. An everyday example of this mechanism is the repeated tonic stimulation of peripheral nerves that will occur if a person rubs his arm continuously. After a while, this stimulation will create a warm sensation that will eventually turn painful. The pain is the result of the progressively amplified synaptic response of the peripheral nerves warning the person that the stimulation is harmful. Sensitization is thought to underlie both adaptive as well as maladaptive learning processes in the organism.

Associative Learning

Associative learning is the process by which an element is taught through association with a separate, pre-occurring element. It is also referred to as classical conditioning. Operant conditioning is the use of consequences to modify the occurrence and form of behaviour. Operant conditioning is distinguished from Pavlovian conditioning in that operant conditioning uses reinforcement/punishment to alter a behaviour. Behaviourism is a psychological movement that seeks to alter behaviour by arranging the environment

to elicit successful changes and to arrange consequences to maintain or diminish a behaviour. Behaviourists study behaviours that can be measured and changed by the environment. However, they do not eliminate that there are thought processes that interact with those behaviours. Delayed discounting is the process of devaluing rewards based on the delay of time they are presented. This process is thought to be tied to impulsivity. Impulsivity is a core process for many behaviours. Making decisions is an important part of everyday functioning. How we make those decisions is based on what we perceive to be the most valuable or worthwhile actions. This is determined by what we find to be the most reinforcing stimuli. So when teaching an individual a response, you need to find the most potent reinforcer for that person. This may be a larger reinforcer at a later time or a smaller immediate reinforcer.

Classical Conditioning

The typical paradigm for classical conditioning involves repeatedly pairing an unconditioned stimulus with another previously neutral stimulus. Following conditioning, the response occurs both to the unconditioned stimulus and to the other, unrelated stimulus. The response to the conditioned stimulus is termed a conditioned response. The classic example is Pavlov and his dogs. Meat powder naturally will make a dog salivate when it is put into a dog's mouth; salivating is a reflexive response to the meat powder. Meat powder is the unconditioned stimulus and the salivation is the unconditioned response. Then Pavlov rang a bell before presenting the meat powder. The first time Pavlov rang the bell, the neutral stimulus, the dogs did not salivate, but once he put the meat powder in their mouths they began to salivate. After numerous pairings of the bell, and then food the dogs learned that the bell was a signal that the food was about to come and began to salivate just when the bell was rang. Once this occurs the bell becomes the conditioned stimulus and the salivation to the bell is the conditioned response.

Another influential person in the world of Classical Conditioning is John B. Watson. Watson's work was very influential and paved the way for B. F. Skinner's radical behaviourism. Watson's behaviourism stood in direct contrast to Freud. Watson's view was that Freud's introspective method was too subjective, and that we should limit the study of human development to directly observable behaviours. In 1913, Watson published the article "Psychology as the Behaviourist Views," in which he argued that laboratory studies should serve psychology best as a science. Watson's most famous, and controversial, experiment, "Little Albert," where he demonstrated how psychologists can account for the learning of emotion through classical conditioning principles.

Imprinting

Imprinting is the term used in psychology and ethology to describe any kind of phase-sensitive learning that is rapid and apparently independent of the consequences

of behaviour. It was first used to describe situations in which an animal or person learns the characteristics of some stimulus, which is therefore said to be “imprinted” onto the subject.

Observational Learning

The learning process most characteristic of humans is imitation; one’s personal repetition of an observed behaviour, such as a dance. Humans can copy three types of information simultaneously: the demonstrator’s goals, actions and environmental outcomes. Through copying these types of information, infants will tune into their surrounding culture.

Play

Play generally describes behaviour which has no particular end in itself, but improves performance in similar situations in the future. This is seen in a wide variety of vertebrates besides humans, but is mostly limited to mammals and birds. Cats are known to play with a ball of string when young, which gives them experience with catching prey. Besides inanimate objects, animals may play with other members of their own species or other animals, such as orcas playing with seals they have caught.

Play involves a significant cost to animals, such as increased vulnerability to predators and the risk of injury and possibly infection. It also consumes energy, so there must be significant benefits associated with play for it to have evolved. Play is generally seen in younger animals, suggesting a link with learning. However, it may also have other benefits not associated directly with learning, for example improving physical fitness.

Enculturation

Enculturation is the process by which a person learns the requirements of their native culture by which he or she is surrounded, and acquires values and behaviours that are appropriate or necessary in that culture. The influences which as part of this process limit, direct or shape the individual, whether deliberately or not, include parents, other adults, and peers. If successful, enculturation results in competence in the language, values and rituals of the culture..

Multimedia Learning

Multimedia learning is where a person uses both auditory and visual stimuli to learn information. This type of learning relies on dual-coding theory.

E-learning and Augmented Learning

Electronic learning or e-learning is a general term used to refer to Internet-based networked computer-enhanced learning. A specific and always more diffused e-learning

is mobile learning, which uses different mobile telecommunication equipment, such as cellular phones. When a learner interacts with the e-learning environment, it's called augmented learning. By adapting to the needs of individuals, the context-driven instruction can be dynamically tailored to the learner's natural environment. Augmented digital content may include text, images, video, audio. By personalizing instruction, augmented learning has been shown to improve learning performance for a lifetime.

Rote Learning

Rote learning is a technique which avoids understanding the inner complexities and inferences of the subject that is being learned and instead focuses on memorizing the material so that it can be recalled by the learner exactly the way it was read or heard. The major practice involved in rote learning techniques is learning by repetition, based on the idea that one will be able to quickly recall the meaning of the material the more it is repeated.

Rote learning is used in diverse areas, from mathematics to music to religion. Although it has been criticized by some schools of thought, rote learning is a necessity in many situations.

Informal Learning

Informal learning occurs through the experience of day-to-day situations. It is learning from life, during a meal at table with parents, play, exploring, etc.

Formal Learning

Formal learning is learning that takes place within a teacher-student relationship, such as in a school system.

Non-formal Learning

Non-formal learning is organized learning outside the formal learning system. For example: learning by coming together with people with similar interests and exchanging viewpoints, in clubs or in youth organizations, workshops.

Non-formal Learning and Combined Approaches

The educational system may use a combination of formal, informal, and non-formal learning methods. The UN and EU recognize these different forms of learning. In some schools students can get points that count in the formal-learning systems if they get work done in informal-learning circuits.

They may be given time to assist international youth workshops and training courses, on the condition they prepare, contribute, share and can proof this offered valuable new insight, helped to acquire new skills, a place to get experience in organizing, teaching, etc.

In order to learn a skill, such as solving a Rubik's cube quickly, several factors come into play at once:

- Directions help one learn the patterns of solving a Rubik's cube.
- Practicing the moves repeatedly and for extended time helps with “muscle memory” and therefore speed.
- Thinking critically about moves helps find shortcuts, which in turn helps to speed up future attempts.
- The Rubik's cube's six colours help anchor solving it within the head.
- Occasionally revisiting the cube helps prevent negative learning or loss of skill.

Tangential Learning

Tangential learning is the process by which some portion of people will self-educate if a topic is exposed to them in something that they already enjoy such as playing a musical instrument.

DOMAINS OF LEARNING

Benjamin Bloom has suggested three domains of learning:

- Cognitive – To recall, calculate, discuss, analyze, problem solve, etc.
- Psychomotor – To dance, swim, ski, dive, drive a car, ride a bike, etc.
- Affective – To like something or someone, love, appreciate, fear, hate, worship, etc.

These domains are not mutually exclusive. For example, in learning to play chess, the person will have to learn the rules of the game; but he also has to learn how to set up the chess pieces on the chessboard and also how to properly hold and move a chess piece. Furthermore, later in the game the person may even learn to love the game itself, value its applications in life, and appreciate its history.

ACTIVE LEARNING

Active learning is an umbrella term that refers to several models of instruction that focus the responsibility of learning on learners. Bonwell and Eison (1991) popularized this approach to instruction. This “buzz word” of the 1980s became their 1990s report to the Association for the Study of Higher Education (ASHE). In this report they discuss a variety of methodologies for promoting “active learning”. While there has been much enthusiasm for active learning, a variety of research studies since the 1990s, has since promoted an important principle: Guidance early, and then practice later is suggested for the best results.

ACTIVE LEARNING EXERCISES

Bonwell and Eison (1991) suggested learners work collaboratively, discuss materials while role-playing, debate, engage in case study, take part in cooperative learning, or

produce short written exercises, etc. The argument is when should active learning exercises be used during instruction. While it makes some sense to use these techniques as a “follow up” exercise or as application of known principles, it may not make sense to use them to introduce material. Proponents argue that these exercises may be used to create a context of material, but this context may be confusing to those with no prior knowledge. The degree of instructor guidance students need while being “active” may vary according to the task and its place in a teaching unit.

Examples of “active learning” activities include:

- A class discussion may be held in person or in an online environment. Discussions can be conducted with any class size, although it is typically more effective in smaller group settings. This environment allows for instructor guidance of the learning experience. Discussion requires the learners to think critically on the subject matter and use logic to evaluate their and others’ positions. As learners are expected to discuss material constructively and intelligently, a discussion is a good follow-up activity given the unit has been sufficiently covered already.
- A think-pair-share activity is when learners take a minute to ponder the previous lesson, later to discuss it with one or more of their peers, finally to share it with the class as part of a formal discussion. It is during this formal discussion that the instructor should clarify misconceptions. However students need a background in the subject matter to converse in a meaningful way. Therefore a “think-pair-share” exercise is useful in situations where learners can identify and relate what they already know to others. So preparation is key. Prepare learners with sound instruction before expecting them to discuss it on their own.
- A learning cell is an effective way for a pair of students to study and learn together. The learning cell was developed by Marcel Goldschmid of the Swiss Federal Institute of Technology in Lausanne. A learning cell is a process of learning where two students alternate asking and answering questions on commonly read materials. To prepare for the assignment, the students will read the assignment and write down questions that they have about the reading. At the next class meeting, the teacher will randomly put the students in pairs. The process begins by designating one student from each group to begin by asking one of their questions to the other. Once the two students discuss the question, the other student will ask a question and they will alternate accordingly. During this time, the teacher is going around the class from group to group giving feedback and answering questions. This system is also referred to as a student dyad.
- A short written exercise that is often used is the “one minute paper.” This is a good way to review materials and provide feedback. However a “one minute

paper” does not take one minute and for students to concisely summarize it is suggested that they have at least 10 minutes to work on this exercise.

- A collaborative learning group is a successful way to learn different material for different classes. It is where you assign students in groups of 3-6 people and they are given an assignment or task to work on together. This assignment could be either to answer a question to present to the entire class or a project. Make sure that the students in the group choose a leader and a note-taker to keep them on track with the process. This is a good example of active learning because it causes the students to review the work that is being required at an earlier time to participate.
- A student debate is an active way for students to learn because they allow students the chance to take a position and gather information to support their view and explain it to others. These debates not only give the student a chance to participate in a fun activity but it also lets them gain some experience with giving a verbal presentation.
- A reaction to a video is also an example of active learning because most students love to watch movies. The video helps the student to understand what they are learning at the time in an alternative presentation mode. Make sure that the video relates to the topic that they are studying at the moment. Try to include a few questions before you start the video so they will pay more attention and notice where to focus at during the video. After the video is complete divide the students either into groups or pairs so that they may discuss what they learned and write a review or reaction to the movie.
- A class game is also considered an energetic way to learn because it not only helps the students to review the course material before a big exam but it helps them to enjoy learning about a topic. Different games such as jeopardy and crossword puzzles always seem to get the students’ minds going.

ACTIVE LEARNING METHOD: LEARNING BY TEACHING (LDL)

An efficient instructional strategy that mixes guidance with active learning is “Learning by teaching”. This strategy allows students to teach the new content to each other. Of course they must be accurately guided by instructors. This methodology was introduced during the early 1980s, especially in Germany, and is now well-established in all levels of the German educational system. “Learning by teaching” is integration of behaviourism and cognitivism and offers a coherent framework for theory and practice.

ACTIVE LEARNING AND POLICY

Policy may be satisfied by demonstrating the instructional effectiveness of instruction. Educational rubrics are a good way to evaluate “active learning” based instruction.

These instructional tools can be used to describe the various qualities of any activity. In addition, if given to the student, they can provide additional guidance.

In the past few years outcome-based education policy has begun to limit instructors to only using those techniques that have been shown to be effective. In the United States for instance, the No Child Left Behind Act requires those developing instruction to show evidence of its “effectiveness.”

RESEARCH SUPPORTING ACTIVE LEARNING

One study has shown evidence to support active learning. Bonwell and Eison (1991) state that active learning strategies are comparable to lectures for achieving content mastery, but superior to lectures for developing thinking and writing skills.

According to another study by Armstrong (1983), students who receive a formal education learn better when they are actively engaged in the learning process as opposed to those who do not partake in the learning process. In addition to that, Armstrong (2012) provided some examples of active tasks as writing papers, problem-based projects, and experiential exercises (*e.g.*, role-playing).

CHALLENGE-BASED LEARNING

Challenge-based learning (CBL) is a pedagogic approach for K12 education pioneered by education staff at Apple, Inc. that has its roots in problem-based learning and the work of John Dewey. The approach focuses on increasing student engagement, especially for students most at risk of dropping out. Unlike problem-based learning, CBL is a collaborative learning experience in which teachers and students work together to learn about compelling issues, propose solutions to real problems, and take action. The approach asks students to reflect on their learning and the impact of their actions, and publish their solutions to a worldwide audience. The approach was detailed in a 2009 paper by Apple, Inc.

As described in the paper, challenge-based learning includes these attributes:

- Multiple points of entry and varied and multiple possible solutions
- Authentic connection with multiple disciplines
- Focus on the development of 21st century skills
- Leverages 24/7 access to up to date technology tools and resources, allowing students to do the work.
- Use of Web 2.0 tools for organizing, collaborating, and sharing
- A focus on universal challenges with local solutions
- Requirement that students do something rather than just learn about something
- Documentation of the experience from challenge to solution.

These attributes are intended to ensure that challenge-based learning engages learners, provides them with valuable skills, spans the divide between formal and informal learning

and embraces a student's digital life. The New Media Consortium published an in-depth study of challenge-based learning in classroom practice in early 2009. The study, which involved 6 schools in the United States, 27 teachers, and 330 students in 17 disciplines, found the approach produced dramatically effective results, especially for the 9th grade students generally considered to be most at risk of dropping out.

COLLABORATIVE LEARNING

Collaborative learning is a situation in which two or more people learn or attempt to learn something together. Unlike individual learning, people engaged in collaborative learning capitalize on one another's resources and skills (asking one another for information, evaluating one another's ideas, monitoring one another's work, etc.). More specifically, collaborative learning is based on the model that knowledge can be created within a population where members actively interact by sharing experiences and take on asymmetry roles. Put differently, collaborative learning refers to methodologies and environments in which learners engage in a common task where each individual depends on and is accountable to each other. These include both face-to-face conversations and computer discussions (online forums, chat rooms, etc.). Methods for examining collaborative learning processes include conversation analysis and statistical discourse analysis.

Collaborative learning is heavily rooted in Vygotsky's views that there exists an inherent social nature of learning which is shown through his theory of zone of proximal development. Often, collaborative learning is used as an umbrella term for a variety of approaches in education that involve joint intellectual effort by students or students and teachers.

Thus, collaborative learning is commonly illustrated when groups of students work together to search for understanding, meaning, or solutions or to create an artifact or product of their learning. Further, collaborative learning redefines traditional student-teacher relationship in the classroom which results in controversy over whether this paradigm is more beneficial than harmful. Collaborative learning activities can include collaborative writing, group projects, joint problem solving, debates, study teams, and other activities. The approach is closely related to cooperative learning.

Alternatively, collaborative learning occurs when individuals are actively engaged in a community in which learning takes place through explicit or implicit collaborative efforts. Collaborative learning has often been portrayed as solely a cognitive process by which adults participate as facilitators of knowledge and children as receivers. However Indigenous communities of the Americas illustrate that collaborative learning occurs because individual participation in learning occurs on a horizontal plane where children and adults are equal. Thus collaborative learning also occurs when children and adults in engage in play, work, and other activities together.

EXAMPLES OF COLLABORATIVE LEARNING

- Collaborative Networked Learning According to Findley (1987) “Collaborative Networked Learning (CNL) is that learning which occurs via electronic dialogue between self-directed co-learners and learners and experts. Learners share a common purpose, depend upon each other and are accountable to each other for their success. CNL occurs in interactive groups in which participants actively communicate and negotiation meaning with one another within a contextual framework which may be facilitated by an online coach, mentor or group leader.”
- Computer-supported collaborative learning (CSCL) is a relatively new educational paradigm within collaborative learning which uses technology in a learning environment to help mediate and support group interactions in a collaborative learning context. CSCL systems use technology to control and monitor interactions, to regulate tasks, rules, and roles, and to mediate the acquisition of new knowledge.
- Learning Management System In this context, collaborative learning refers to a collection of tools which learners can use to assist, or be assisted by others. Such tools include Virtual Classrooms (*i.e.*, geographically distributed classrooms linked by audio-visual network connections), chat, discussion threads, application sharing (*e.g.*, a colleague projects spreadsheet on another colleague’s screen across a network link for the purpose of collaboration), among many others.
- Collaborative Learning Development Enables developers of learning systems to work as a network. Specifically relevant to e-learning where developers can share and build knowledge into courses in a collaborative environment. Knowledge of a single subject can be pulled together from remote locations using software systems.
- Collaborative Learning in Virtual Worlds Virtual Worlds by their nature provide an excellent opportunity for collaborative learning. At first learning in virtual worlds was restricted to classroom meetings and lectures, similar to their counterparts in real life. Now collaborative learning is evolving as companies starting to take advantage of unique features offered by virtual world spaces - such as ability to record and map the flow of ideas, use 3D models and virtual worlds mind mapping tools.
- Collaborative learning in thesis circles in higher education is another example of people learning together. In a thesis circle, a number of students work together with at least one professor or lecturer, to collaboratively coach and supervise individual work on final (*e.g.* undergraduate or MSc) projects. Students switch frequently between their role as co-supervisor of other students and their own thesis work (incl. receiving feedback from other students).

CULTURAL EXAMPLES OF COLLABORATIVE LEARNING

Cultural Variations

There also exists cultural variations in ways of collaborative learning. Research in this area has mainly focused on children in Indigenous Mayan communities of the Americas or in San Pedro, Guatemala and European American middle-class communities.

Generally, researchers have found that children in Indigenous Mayan communities such as San Pedro typically learn through keenly observing and actively contributing to the mature activities of their community. This type of learning is characterized by the learner's collaborative participation through multi-modal communication verbal and non-verbal and observations. They are highly engaged within their community through focused observation. Mayan parents believe that children learn best by observing and so an attentive child is seen as one who is trying to learn. It has also been found that these children are extremely competent and independent in self-maintenance at an early age and tend to receive little pressure from their parents.

Research has found that even when Indigenous Mayan children are in a classroom setting, the cultural orientation of indigenous learners shows that observation is a preferred strategy of learning. Thus children and adults in a classroom setting adopt cultural practice and organize learning collaboratively. This is in contrast to the European-American classroom model, which allocates control to teachers/adults allowing them to control classroom activities.

Within the European American middle-class communities, children typically do not learn through collaborative learning methods. In the classroom, these children generally learn by engaging in initiation-reply-evaluation sequences. This sequence starts with the teacher initiating an exchange, usually by asking a question. The student then replies, with the teacher evaluating the student's answer. This way of learning fits with European-American middle-class cultural goals of autonomy and independence that are dominant in parenting styles within European-American middle-class culture.

Examples from Indigenous Communities in the Americas

Although learning happens in a variety of ways in indigenous communities, collaborative learning is one of the main methods used in indigenous learning styles instead of using European-American approaches to learning. These methods include learning in a horizontal plane where children and adults share contribution in ideas and activities.

For example, Mayan people of San Pedro use collaboration in order to build upon one another's ideas and activities. Mayan mothers do not act as teachers when completing a task with their children, but instead collaborate with children through play and other activities. People of this Mayan community use the shared endeavors method more

than European-Americans who tend to use the transmit-and-test model more often. The shared endeavors model is when people go off of others ideas and learn from them, while the transmit-and-test model is what is used in most American schools when a teacher gives students information and then tests the students on the information. The shared endeavors model is a form of collaborative learning because everyone learns from one another and get to hear and share others ideas.

Indigenous people of the Americas utilize collaborative learning through their emphasis on role sharing and responsibility sharing within their communities. The Mayan community of San Pedro, Guatemala utilize flexible leadership that allow children to take a more active role in their learning. Children and adults work as cohesive groups when tackling new projects. Collaborative learning is prevalent in Indigenous communities due to the integration of children in the daily lives of the adults. This is unique in that age is not a determining factor in whether or not individuals are incorporated into collaborative efforts and learning that occurs in Indigenous communities. Participation of learner is a key component to collaborative learning as it functions as the method by which the learning process occurs. Thus collaborative learning occurs when children and adults in communities switch between “knowledge performers” and “observing helpers”. For example, when parents in an indigenous Mazahua community were assigned the task of organizing children to build a roof over a market stand in such a way that they would learn to do it themselves, parents and children both collaborated on a horizontal structure. Switching between knowledge performer and observing helper, adults and children completed the task peacefully, without assigned roles of educator/student and illustrated that children still took initiative even when adults were still performing.

Adults and children in Indigenous communities of the Americas participate in a horizontal organizational structure; therefore when they work together with one another they are reciprocals of each other. This horizontal structure allows for flexible leadership, which is one of the key aspects of collaborative learning. The Indigenous communities of the Americas are unique in their collaborative learning because they do not discriminate upon age, instead Indigenous communities of the Americas encourage active participation and flexible leadership roles regardless of age. Children and adults regularly interchange their roles within their community. In addition, Indigenous communities consider observation to be a part of the collaborative learning process.

COLLABORATIVE SCRIPTS

Collaborative scripts structure collaborative learning by creating roles and mediating interactions while allowing for flexibility in dialogue and activities. Collaborative scripts are used in nearly all cases of collaborative learning some of which are more suited for face-to-face collaborative learning—usually, more flexible—and others for computer-supported collaborative learning—typically, more constraining. Additionally, there are

two broad types of scripts: macro-scripts and micro-scripts. Macro-scripts aim at creating situations within which desired interactions will occur. Micro-scripts emphasize activities of individual learners.

AUDITORY LEARNING

Auditory learning is a learning style in which a person learns through listening. An auditory learner depends on hearing and speaking as a main way of learning. Auditory learners must be able to hear what is being said in order to understand and may have difficulty with instructions that are written. They also use their listening and repeating skills to sort through the information that is sent to them.

The Fleming VAK/VARK model, one of the most common and widely used categorizations of the various types of learning styles, categorized the various types of learning styles as follows: visual learners, auditory learners, reading/writing-preference learners, and kinesthetic learners (also known as “tactile learners”).

CHARACTERISTICS

Auditory learners may have a knack for ascertaining the true meaning of someone’s words by listening to audible signals like changes in tone. When memorizing a phone number, an auditory learner will say it out loud and then remember how it sounded to recall it.

Auditory learners are good at writing responses to lectures they’ve heard. They’re also good at oral exams, effectively by listening to information delivered orally, in lectures, speeches, and oral sessions.

Proponents claim that when an auditory/verbal learner reads, it is almost impossible for the learner to comprehend anything without sound in the background. In these situations, listening to music or having different sounds in the background (TV, people talking, etc.) will help learners work better.

Auditory learners are good at storytelling. They solve problems by talking them through. Speech patterns include phrases “I hear you; That clicks; It’s ringing a bell”, and other sound or voice-oriented information. These learners will move their lips or talk to themselves to help accomplish tasks.

RECOMMENDED TECHNIQUES

Proponents say that teachers should use these techniques to instruct auditory learners: verbal direction, group discussions, verbal reinforcement, group activities, reading aloud, and putting information into a rhythmic pattern such as a rap, poem, or song.

Proponents recommend techniques like these to auditory learners:

- Record class notes and then listen to the recording, rather than reading notes.
- Remember details by trying to “hear” previous discussions.

- Participate in class discussions.
- Ask questions and volunteer in class.
- Read assignments out loud.
- Study by reading out your notes
- Whisper new information when alone.

An auditory learner may benefit by using the speech recognition tool available on many PCs.

LACK OF EVIDENCE

Although learning styles have “enormous popularity”, and both children and adults express personal preferences, there is no evidence that identifying a student’s learning style produces better outcomes, and there is significant evidence that the widely touted “meshing hypothesis” (that a student will learn best if taught in a method deemed appropriate for the student’s learning style) is invalid. Well-designed studies “flatly contradict the popular meshing hypothesis”. Rather than targeting instruction to the “right” learning style, students appear to benefit most from mixed modality presentations, for instance using both auditory and visual techniques for all students.

LIFE AFTER LIFE

Since I awoke from my three month coma in August of 2004, I have been asked many times about what I remembered and experienced. After looking over my notes and speaking with my wife and some of the medical professionals involved, I decided that it might be a good idea to write a short overview of these experiences. They were both wonderful and frightening, but the lessons I learned and the "gift" I was given are worth more than anything I could ever experience again.

When I awoke, I was told about my wreck and my coma. That wasn't all that exciting. But, what really kicked me in gear was when my wife and the surgeons carefully informed me about my deaths and myriad other events. It was all amazingly like a dream! I couldn't believe it! How could I have died if I feel more alive now than ever before? I remembered everything that happened during the noted coma. But, I never knew I was in a coma because I actually "lived my life" through what I now know were "trips" outside of my comatose state.

The medical professionals were amazed because I not only described activities that occurred to me physically, but I described the nurses and the rooms I was in during my comatose state. I then carried on about where I went, what I did, and what I saw. Mystified and concerned, my wife and the medical staff stepped outside to discuss my mental and physical state. My wife then re-entered and told me that I was never supposed to walk again. I was never to function mentally as I had. I was not to live but five more years on feeding tubes and a respirator in a nursing home. Ouch! I was a power lifter and a

mathematician, writer, and software engineer! It just knocked me for a loop! But, this was not acceptable.

Now, I have to take a tangent to discuss what happened in my "death-zone", comatose excursions. It was an amazing adventure! I visited homes, people, and places of business that had come into existence during my coma and afterwards. For example, I described one house to my wife and how to get to the property. I drew the map and the house's layout. We took a day and drove there to find that the exact house I "visited" was being built where I saw it in my death-zone travels. Another example was a "visit" with my brother, who is alive and well, as we ate at a restaurant, made of coral, by a body of water. Amazingly, in the physical realm, he came to visit and I took a picture of him when we went out to dinner. Upon review of the photo, I noticed that we were next to a lake with a coral statue standing behind him, outside of the restaurant. I've always had a bit of psi ability and have been practicing and studying it for years, but this was beyond me! These events, in addition to many others, caused me to consider that my travels were more than just mental twists and dreams.

However, back to the bad news, I had to deal with all of this without the realizations that slowly came back to me from my trips. I was blank and empty and going to die. What did I have to lose? I demanded the removal of the tubes and other paraphernalia as I didn't want to drag this on for too long for my wife. Let's just do it. I then, went to sleep.

Three days later I woke up in a rehab center. My blood pressure was normal and, having had my tubes removed, I was starving and had to go to the bathroom. It wasn't an easy task to "walk" to the bathroom, but I did. I then decided to take a further trip to the cafeteria. Of course, I didn't make it, but I was so close I could smell the hospital food. One of the assistants at the center caught me, put me in a wheelchair, and rolled me back to the room. Stubbornly, I crawled into bed myself. But, I did it!

After my single attempt to make it on my own, everything else came into place like a puzzle. One piece fit nicely into another. How I made it, no one knows. I was released from the rehab center in three weeks and, two months later, I am doing everything I did before the accident---only better. I'm walking, driving, and traveling with my wife! I'm doing my writing, math, and software engineering again! I am better in the sense that I am a better person than I ever was before. Better in the sense that I have a greater patience and an understanding that I never had before. Smarter in the sense that my mind is more open and I no longer have the fears and baggage that I had before the accident. Richer in the sense that I have my life back.

But, how did I get here? I should be dead---or so I'm told often as my doctors sign off on me. I know now that I was given "a gift". The gift is different for everyone. Some don't understand it and become bitter while others see it and want more of it. Smashing my head into the ground and being stuck on a 750 pound motorcycle during three flips is the hard way to receive a gift. But, it is more of an education and an "essence" than

anything physical. It is me. It is you. It just... is! The gift is very simple and small, but very powerful. It is simply---seeing and feeling. I lost that somewhere along the way. It is knowing what is there and seeing what is here. Feeling everything. Riding in the dream instead of chasing it. The memories, emotions, and feelings that taunted my life and vision are gone. I feel and see like never before. My wife calls my new gift an innocence. I call it a knowledge of all and the wonder of a child.

But, what does all of this mean? During my numerous trips in my dead-zones, I was greeted by many people who would speak to me and then tell me to gather my things. They were angry with me as I was told I was "in the wrong place". My things were these odd bubbles floating over my head that contained visual memories that were part of my life. I simply took out of the clouds those memories I wanted to keep. When I awoke, I was to have suffered horrendous memory loss. However, I've been tested and evaluated to find that I've not lost any mental function or memory. As a matter of fact, I recall things now that were amusing and wonderful parts of my life that I had long forgotten! I have so many new stories about my life that my wife enjoys at every dinner!

However, these people I mentioned would speak to me in my travels. I only remember extreme words and feelings as a flash, but I "feel" the results of these discussions. Issues that have been hidden, yet affective, in my life were discussed and resolved. It was as if I had to re-experience the events of my life, things I had forgotten, and resolve them---Now! Amazingly, I recalled all of those forgotten, painful memories when I awoke. But, the pain was gone! They were just placeholder memories of times gone by. They became educational pictures on the walls of my mind as opposed to blocks in the way and baggage to carry in my life.

But, one of the many questions of my life, that was answered, was about death. Is the afterlife as final and drastic as religion teaches? Is there a heaven and a hell? Will I really see my relatives, my dad, when I die? Call it the ultimate research project, but the results were amazing. From my experiences in my coma and death-zones, I found that death is but a quick change in a dressing room. I merely changed "clothes" to continue down the path I was heading before! It was just life as it was and always will be. It is the life I led and experienced. It is a continuation of everything I was into and everything I wanted to be. Looking for a better life after death is for naught if the life we make in this physical realm is unbearable. If it is hell on Earth, then it will be hell "off Earth" as well. If the physical realm is heaven, then it will be heaven. It is the actions we take and the decisions we make "here" that determine what happens "there".

I learned from my discussions and travels that the body is merely a host and the important elements of our lives reside inside it, and around it. Although it was badly damaged, my body wasn't lacking the ability to walk, eat, and perform the necessities of a physical life. It was my soul, my higher self, that had been in a coma for years and hadn't come around as of yet. As it began to wake, it provided the energy and effort to make the body move and heal in its necessary ways. Now, it's all good and functioning

as it should! Speaking of my soul being in a coma, it is interesting to think that, through the years, we all become so keen at neglecting our higher self and our souls that the physical becomes the core. Feeling and seeing have become secondary to the physical temptations. The physical is only a temporary stage in our existence. It is the spiritual and higher aspects of ourselves that we must attend so that we can ensure that we have the fulfilling life we want now and later. The physical is never fulfilled as once the half-filled glass is full, it wants a bigger glass. The physical only knows the need for survival. It is the "souler" that adds the intelligence and creativity to living. The souler can be fulfilled in the simplest things and is bent on living to the best that it can be in all ways.

Although it is a gift that they gave me---to come back and be---I must add that you should not try my trick at home. Crashing on a mountain, falling into a coma, and then dying is not a way to spend the summer. Although Las Vegas has a hot summer, I could have simply gone to the lake for the time I spent asleep. But, all that I learned and feel now can easily be integrated into any life simply by stepping back and evaluating what is truly important. Let the souler come out and rule the physical! What truly means something to you? Who truly means something to you? Where do you want to go?

In the end, it wasn't a miracle. It was the harshest, yet most rewarding, experience of my life. It is a chance to create my heaven for my next visit. It is a chance to appreciate so much more. It is a chance to give so much more. It is a chance to be so much more. It just... is!

ENVIRONMENTAL FACTORS AFFECTING LEARNING

HEREDITY

Children of bright parents tend to be bright and the children of very inferior parents are often inferior. Though, heredity follows the principle of regression that says that traits when passing from parents to children tend to move towards the average. The genius son of a genius father is a very rare thing. Again, there is a tendency among the off-spring to be higher in the traits in which their parents are low and lower in which their parents are high. They move towards the average that is they regress. The reason for not showing consistency in the attainment is due to the complex nature of heredity, as heredity of a child is not solely determined by his immediate parents but from all his forefathers and ancestors. Apart from this heredity plays an important role in motivating and deciding the future course of learning according to the status of the family and heredity characteristics. Example: Well known cricketers Yuvraj sing and Mohammad Kaif got full support from their family. Kaif's Father had been a good cricketer and he made tremendous efforts to get his son place in Indian squad. Yuvraj got coaching in the early days from his father himself. His father prepared pitch at his home for this purpose.

Environment

Our environment is our habitation in the fullest sense. Not only our physical surrounding but also the people around us, social customs and traditions, culture, education and training all constitute our environment. A number of studies conducted show that environment has remarkable influence on the learning of the individuals.

Example: I.Q. of the fathers corresponds to their occupational status and that the intelligence of the children would correspond to the occupation of the fathers.

Freedom and Self-discipline

Until recently, school discipline was regarded narrowly as merely a means of restraining pupils from creating disorder. So that learning activities may be carried effectively. Restrain commonly took the form of stern teacher imposed authority involving the extensive use of punishments. It was based on the assumption that the child is a bundle of evil qualities and that he should be corrected and moulded into shape by the iron rod of authority. Thus no child could escape beating. But now gone are the days of such beliefs and no truly progressive education or school can tolerate this authoritarian method of life. The education in every child centred school is carried on in an atmosphere of freedom. Freedom means that the child is given opportunity to think for him, to feel for himself and to get for himself. Opportunities are provided for using and developing all his powers. The child is given the chance to develop his own personality, to learn to discipline himself, build up his own character.

Recognition of Teachers' Authority

One should not accrue that the teacher has lost its importance in the modern time. Rather, modern school situations demand a more carefully selected and well prepared teacher than was necessary for the traditional schools. Infact education on an atmosphere of freedom demands on teacher than does education guided by the old ideas of authority imposed. It demands a new atmosphere in the school and a new attitude in the teacher. It also demands new methods which advocate free activity of body, mind and soul of the pupils. The teacher instead of being a slave driver forcing the unwilling pupils to learn becomes a guide, makes himself one of the group, brings to the help of the group his larger experiences and thus helps the group in the search for truth, encourages them in every way to think, feel and work for themselves. Hence the teacher should be given a key place in the modern times. His authority of course is not that of an autocrat but of a leader, friend and a guide.

Nature Neglect

A teacher should have a complete knowledge of the biological laws. He should know how the whole organism works. He should realise that the whole child comes to school and not only his mind. The mind and the body are an entity. They cannot exist

without each other. Latin proverb says that “Mens Sano in Corpore Sano” means “A sound mind in a sound body”. Mind lived in the body as in a clay cottage but it would be more true to say that the mind grows in the body as a plant grows in its soil. Poorer the soil, the more arrested the growth; richer the soil better the growth. Thus the mind and the body are independent, one influences the other. The body responds to various states of mind. Fear, joy, anger and all other emotions are reflected in the body. On the other hand mental activity uses up nervous energy which has to be replenished by the body. These considerations have natural bearing upon education and the teacher being conversant with these laws aims at the development of both, the body and the mind. In brief one should not neglect the laws of nature and should work accordingly.

Physical Environment of School

In general, the school environments present an educative atmosphere. The modern school site, building and equipments are adequate, safe, sanitary comfortable and attractive. It is only in the best environmental setting that the most effective learning takes place.

The improvement of the environment no doubt, lies in the hands of school authorities rather than teachers. Yet, the requisitions, request and suggestions by the teacher can correct the environment to a considerable extent. The teacher can suggest about lighting arrangements in the class, as due to defective lighting and ventilation arrangements the crowded classrooms lead to overheated conditions which reduce working capacity and encourage the spread of respiratory infections. Further, it will amount to restlessness, inattention and unsatisfactory work. It is a well known fact that individuals work much better in a room with an attractive atmosphere. Although a teacher cannot completely recondition a dull and dilapidated room yet a better planning and efforts can work wonders to improve its condition. Actually it all depends upon the upkeep of the room. Careless disorder in the room, waste papers on the floor, and the untidy state of storage space, book shelves, teacher's table and pupils desks definitely give a shabby look to a room.

Thus, the rooms should be attractively decorated. Neatness, cleanliness, orderliness and suitable decoration in a room will induce pupils to take a pride in their room and should largely eliminate scribbling on the wall and desks. This all will prove to be a boosting environment for learning.

Gap between School and Community

The traditional schools are directed from social life and social activities. It has confined itself to book learning which has no utility for the child in his later life. But, the modern school represents the society in miniature. It has an intimate and organic relationship with the society. It incorporates such experiences which are intimately connected with actual living and enable the individual to lead a successful life in society.

Secondary Education Commission points out that there exists a “two way traffic” between the school and the larger community outside and the problems that arise in the home and community life and the realistic experiences gained there should be brought into school so that education may be based on them and be intimately connected with real life and on the other hand the new knowledge, skills and values acquired in the school should be carried into home life, solve its problems, to raise its students and link up the teachers, parents and children in one compact and naturally helpful group.

Wholesome Experiences

Real education is the acquirement of experiences which will help the pupil to adjust himself to his environments. Modern school, therefore, is an experience giving institution where pupils learn things through purposeful experiences. The old conception of the pupils mind as tabula rasa or clean slate, upon which the teacher is to write are gone. Now the school is an institution where learning takes place through experience. The importance of an experiences will be recognised by the child only when it responds to his needs and once the child feels its importance he will really be interested in it. Also the experience provided must have a clear objective. Actually we forget when we do not see clearly what we are supposed to be learning, because in that case we do not know what we are trying to be. We do not know over goal. Apart from this experience should have its value and meaning for use in daily life. We forget when we do not make use of what we have been asked to learn because we cannot make use of it in our daily living or in any other meaningful way.

Thus, wholesome experiences provide a basis for better learning as most of the things common to our daily life situations need some sort of experience this way or that way significant to find a solution of the problems.

WHAT LEARNING INVOLVES

Learning can be defined as ‘a relatively permanent change in behaviour which occurs as a result of practice or experience’. Here, the term ‘relatively permanent’ is usually taken to mean that the learned behaviour can be demonstrated at least a few hours after the learning process occurs. To put it another way, learning can be thought of as a process whereby a person acquires the ability to carry out a task or procedure of some sort in a natural and relatively effortless way, as if it were an innate part of his or her behaviour pattern.

The way in which such learning comes about will, of course, depend on the exact nature of the task or procedure that is being learned. In the case of a relatively simple cognitive task such as learning the names of the various parts of an object or system, for example, it may simply involve scanning the material sufficiently often for it to pass through the short-term memory (where material is stored on a purely temporary basis) into the long-term memory (where material is stored on a long-term or permanent basis).

In the case of a more complicated learning task involving higher-level cognitive activities (such as analysis or synthesis) or a mixture of cognitive and non-cognitive activities, on the other hand, it will probably involve actually carrying out the task sufficiently often for the behaviour patterns needed to perform it without difficulty to become firmly established. This major key to effective learning is called repetition. The other major key relates to the concept of reinforcement, which refers to the consequences

of actions. Behaviour which is rewarded is likely to be repeated. Behaviour which is ignored is likely to fade. Behaviour which is punished tends to be suppressed in the short-term rather than changed in the long-term.

Another feature of the learning process is that both learned material and behaviour tend to disappear with time if the material or behaviour is not revisited periodically. The ability to recall simple factual material, for example, generally falls to something like 25 per cent of its original value roughly a week after the material was learned, and continues to fall thereafter until it eventually disappears completely unless the material is subsequently revisited. If the material is reviewed at suitable intervals, on the other hand (say, after a day, a week, a month, and so on) it will become progressively more firmly lodged in the long-term memory until it eventually becomes permanently fixed. Exactly the same is true of other learned skills, most of which require to be practised or used regularly if they are to become a permanent part of a learner's repertoire.

DIFFERENT PSYCHOLOGICAL APPROACHES TO LEARNING

Psychology is the branch of science that is concerned with the study of behaviour and experience. It is one of the largest and most ubiquitous of all the sciences, and, given its concern with human behaviour and methods of changing same, has had an enormous influence on educational thinking. Although psychology is undoubtedly a well-established and universally-recognised scientific discipline, it is still in many ways an 'immature science', in the sense of the term used by the historian and philosopher of science Thomas S. Kuhn. In a seminal book published in 1962, Kuhn presented the thesis that a branch of science only reaches true maturity when it acquires a paradigm - a generally-accepted underlying model, set of beliefs and methodology.

By Kuhn's criterion, psychology has certainly not yet attained such a status, since it is still characterised by several different approaches, or schools, none of which has gained universal acceptance among practitioners. The most important of these are psychoanalysis, behaviourism, humanistic psychology, the neurobiological approach and cognitive psychology. Let us now take a look at each of these approaches, and see how they have influenced our ideas about the nature of the learning process.

PSYCHOANALYSIS

Psychoanalysis was one of the first schools of psychological thought to develop, and is still what many people think of when the word 'psychology' is mentioned, largely due to the influence of its founder, Sigmund Freud. Freud worked in Vienna at the turn of the century, and developed the theory that the individual human being lives in a continuous state of internal conflict due to demands made by different parts of the personality, particularly at a subconscious level. He identified three basic components of personality, the ego, superego and id. Of these, the ego can be thought of as the rational, conscious part of the mind, whereas the superego and id are conflicting aspects of the subconscious mind. According to Freud, the superego is a primeval, instinctive force which represents a drive towards the individual's ideal self. The id is a similar primeval force which expresses itself either through the love instinct (*eros*) and the internal drive known as the *libido*, or through the destructive or death instinct (*thanatos*). According to Freud, the well-adjusted individual uses the ego to maintain a reasonable balance between the conflicting demands of the superego and id, only encountering problems when the two drives become seriously out of balance. Psychoanalysis involves trying to resolve such internal conflicts by looking for clues as to what is happening within the individual's subconscious mind.

The ideas of Freud were developed by a number of 'post-Freudians' such as Carl Jung, Erik Erikson and Alfred Adler, who modified and extended his ideas and founded their own 'schools' of psychoanalysis. Although many modern psychologists disagree profoundly with several of the ideas put forward by Freud and his successors, the psychoanalytic approach has had an enormous influence both on psychology and on society at large. It has not, however, had very much influence on mainstream educational thinking or the theory of learning, and is not an approach that teachers and tutors are advised to have anything to do with. Without proper training in psychoanalysis, any attempt to 'play the therapist' with one's students could be extremely dangerous, and could cause permanent psychological damage. In other words, psychoanalysis should be left to the experts. If a student does start to become introspective during a tutorial or counselling session, suggest a break or use the appropriate referral system.

BEHAVIOURISM

Origins of behaviourism lie in the Russian psychologist, Pavlov's, work with dogs. At about the same time as Freud was developing his basic ideas of psychoanalysis in Vienna, an American psychologist, John Watson, was laying the foundations for the development of Pavlov's and Freud's work into what was to become a whole new - and highly influential - school of psychology. Watson argued that the Freudian approach based on self-observation (introspection) had yielded poor results, and that if psychology was to be considered to be a true science, its data would have to be both observable and measurable, like Pavlov's. His approach, which was later to become known as 'behaviourism', thus adopted the systematic study of observable behaviour as its focus.

Behaviourists argue that nearly all behaviour is learned, and that the main function of psychology should be to seek to discover what the basic laws of learning are. Largely because of the work of the later American behavioural psychologist B.F. Skinner during the 1950's, behaviourism has had a tremendous influence on educational thinking.

Behavioural psychological theory is based on what is commonly referred to as stimulus/response or S-R learning. It assumes that learning has occurred if a specific response is elicited from a learner when he or she is placed in a particular situation and is given a particular stimulus. Learning of relatively complex behaviour can (it is claimed) be achieved through an appropriate series of stimulus-response situations. At each stage, the learner must actively participate by performing a set task, after which he or she is then supplied with immediate feedback in the form of the correct answer. This is known as successive reinforcement. Skinner also argued that each successive stimulus-response step should be small enough to ensure that the learner is almost always correct in their response. Use of these small steps, plus successive reinforcement, led to what behavioural psychologists believed was an efficient way of 'shaping behaviour'. Skinner's original work was with animals, mostly with pigeons. His later work, which evolved from this, was with humans, and was largely responsible for triggering the bandwagon programmed learning movement that so dominated progressive educational thinking during the 1960's and early 1970's. This, in turn, led to more recent developments such as open learning, distance learning, computer-based learning and multimedia. Although Skinner's original behavioural model of learning has since been rejected or at least greatly modified by many educational psychologists, he has probably had a greater influence on educational thinking than any other psychologist. Indeed, every teacher who makes use of individualised learning methods today owes him a very real debt.

HUMANISTIC PSYCHOLOGY

Humanistic psychology emerged during the 1950's and 1960's out of a reaction against the two schools that had dominated psychology up till then - psychoanalysis and behaviourism. Humanistic psychologists such as Abraham Maslow and Carl Rogers rejected the psychoanalytical approach as regarding human beings as being little better than animals, driven and controlled by a bundle of unconscious, instinctive forces. They similarly rejected the behaviourist approach as regarding people as nothing more than unthinking products of their environment, shaped and programmed by the patterns of rewards and punishments that they receive in the course of their lives. Humanistic psychologists rejected these two models of man in favour of one which emphasized the uniqueness and essential 'humanness' of every individual person, and concerned themselves mainly with concepts such as self-fulfilment and actualisation, the importance of subjective experience, and the development of human values. As an ex-Freudian, Rogers developed a new, 'client-centred therapy' in which he aimed to give his patients the self-knowledge and skills needed to find their own solutions to their problems rather

than simply telling them what to do. Humanistic psychology has had a considerable influence on progressive educational thinking since the early 1970's, when the early research findings of people like Rogers started to feed back into educational development. Just as the earlier work of Skinner led to the programmed learning movement, so the work of Rogers led to the modern student-centred learning approach. In this, the teacher is no longer seen as an expert who hands down knowledge and understanding to the student. Rather, the teacher facilitates learning, first providing the student with guidance on how to learn and then providing a variety of learning opportunities and experiences through which such learning can occur. One of the most important manifestations of the student-centred learning approach has been the dramatic increase in the use of group learning since the mid-1970's, and the more recent appearance of flexible learning and competence-based learning. This last attempts to link student-centred learning with behaviourist reinforcement.

THE NEUROBIOLOGICAL APPROACH

This essentially physiological approach to psychology attempts to relate human behaviour to electrical and chemical activities taking place in the brain and central nervous system. Much of what has been discovered via this approach has proved extremely useful in improving the effectiveness and efficiency of human learning. Increased knowledge about how the eyes, ears and other sensory organs work and pass information to the brain, for example, has led to a greater understanding of how to attract and maintain a learner's attention. Similarly, increased knowledge about how sensory information and other types of information is actually processed in the brain is leading to a greater understanding of such things as the nature of memory.

Ultimately, it may be possible to explain complex human behaviour purely in terms of neurobiological activities, but, at present, such a prospect seems highly remote. In the meantime, the neurobiological approach is proving extremely useful in providing basic data for the fifth and last major branch of psychology - cognitive psychology.

COGNITIVE PSYCHOLOGY

The early behavioural psychologists treated the human mind as a 'black box', being concerned only with the relationship between the input to the system (the stimulus) and the output from the system (the response). None of the processes that occurred between the stimulus and the response were considered to be the legitimate concern of psychology, since they could not be directly observed. Dissatisfaction with this strict view, together with an increasing realisation that internal higher-order mental processes are an important part of psychology, has since led to the development of cognitive psychology. This is concerned with what actually happens within the mind/brain system when we think, reason, remember, develop language skills, etc., as well as with how we process information received from the outside world. Cognitive psychology is currently having

an increasing influence on educational thinking, especially through the burgeoning field of artificial intelligence and the design of expert systems.

Intelligence. A concept which does not fit neatly into any of the above perspectives of psychology but which has profound implications for educational practice is the idea of intelligence, whereby verbal, numerical, reasoning and spatial skills can be measured to give a quotient of a person's ability. Intelligence Quotient (IQ) is supposedly normally distributed amongst the population, and is the concept that ostensibly justifies selection at both secondary school and university level.

MODELS OF THE LEARNING PROCESS

Let us now turn our attention to some of the models of learning that educational psychologists and educationalists have developed over the years. We will start by examining the three that have probably proved most influential - Gagné's 1956 hierarchy of learning, Piaget's 1969 model of cognitive development and Kolb's 1984 experiential cycle - before turning to one of the most recent - Race's 1993 'ripples' model of learning.

Gagné's Hierarchy of Learning

In 1956, the American educational psychologist Robert M. Gagné proposed a system of classifying different types of learning in terms of the degree of complexity of the mental processes involved. He identified eight basic types, and arranged these in the hierarchy shown in Figure.

According to Gagné, the higher orders of learning in this hierarchy build upon the lower levels, requiring progressively greater amounts of previous learning for their success. The lowest four orders tend to focus on the more behavioural aspects of learning, while the highest four focus on the more cognitive aspects.

Increasing complexity

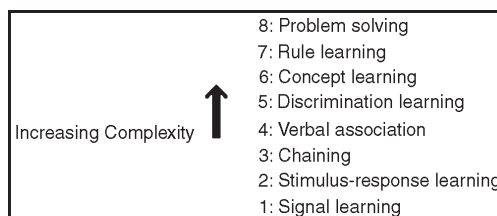


Fig. Gagné's Hierarchy of Learning

Let us now take a closer look at Gagné's eight categories of learning.

Signal Learning

This is the simplest form of learning, and consists essentially of the classical conditioning first described by the behavioural psychologist Pavlov. In this, the subject is 'conditioned' to emit a desired response as a result of a stimulus that would not

normally produce that response. This is done by first exposing the subject to the chosen stimulus (known as the conditioned stimulus) along with another stimulus (known as the unconditioned stimulus) which produces the desired response naturally; after a certain number of repetitions of the double stimulus, it is found that the subject emits the desired response when exposed to the conditioned stimulus on its own. The applications of classical conditioning in facilitating human learning are, however, very limited.

Stimulus-response Learning

This somewhat more sophisticated form of learning, which is also known as operant conditioning, was originally developed by Skinner. It involves developing desired stimulus-response bonds in the subject through a carefully-planned reinforcement schedule based on the use of 'rewards' and 'punishments'. Operant conditioning differs from classical conditioning in that the reinforcing agent (the 'reward' or 'punishment') is presented after the response. It is this type of conditioning that forms the basis of programmed learning in all its various manifestations.

Chaining

This is a more advanced form of learning in which the subject develops the ability to connect two or more previously-learned stimulus-response bonds into a linked sequence. It is the process whereby most complex psychomotor skills (*e.g.*, riding a bicycle or playing the piano) are learned.

Verbal Association

This is a form of chaining in which the links between the items being connected are verbal in nature. Verbal association is one of the key processes in the development of language skills.

Discrimination Learning

This involves developing the ability to make appropriate (different) responses to a series of similar stimuli that differ in a systematic way. The process is made more complex (and hence more difficult) by the phenomenon of interference, whereby one piece of learning inhibits another. Interference is thought to be one of the main causes of forgetting.

Concept Learning

This involves developing the ability to make a consistent response to different stimuli that form a common class or category of some sort. It forms the basis of the ability to generalise, classify, etc.

Rule learning. This is a very-high-level cognitive process that involves being able to learn relationships between concepts and apply these relationships in different situations,

including situations not previously encountered. It forms the basis of the learning of general rules, procedures, etc.

Problem solving. This is the highest level of cognitive process according to Gagné. It involves developing the ability to invent a complex rule, algorithm or procedure for the purpose of solving one particular problem, and then using the method to solve other problems of a similar nature.

LEARNING AND MOTIVATION

Recognition of the meaning of a moment is a perception evolved from one's neurological equipment, past experience shaping the perception, a mixture of hormones in the blood stream, and the extent of knowledge to which one is aware. Most people consider learning as a level playing field that is available to everyone as just something we do. We are faced with a stimulus, something happens, and behaviour comes out the other side. "Learning" is the process that happens between the stimulus and response. Since the process of learning has been found among humans and most animals, we can assume that it is part of an evolutionary agenda.

Philosophy tends to examine cultural concepts as rational constructs; but, there's something deeper than that. For instance, the theist and the atheist can look at the same thing, as a friend and I were both enjoying a sunny afternoon in the backyard, and both drew support from this same experience for our very different concepts. We were both in awe, but one found no doubt that this glorious experience had to be created, while the other saw no indication of a creator.

When the temporal lobes are excited, as in temporal lobe epilepsy, the result is an intense heightening of the patient's sensory appreciation of the world and intense empathy for all beings to the extent of seeing no barriers between himself and the cosmos. This might be a clue as to the neurological basis of religious and mystical experiences: a neurological effect not experienced by the atheist. Einstein said "the most beautiful and most profound experience is the sensation of the mystical. It is the source of all true science.

He to whom this emotion is a stranger, who can no longer wonder and stand rapt in awe, is as good as dead. To know that what is impenetrable to us really exists, manifesting itself as the highest wisdom and the most radiant beauty which our dull faculties can comprehend only in their primitive forms - this knowledge, this feeling is at the center of true religiousness."

We can see in this example: it can be the perception, or the experience, that is causal to the concept. Due to the philosophical tendency to categorise, and deliberate concepts through reason, we can ignore, or do not understand, the role of perceptual variations. Understanding the variation of perceptual processing is necessary for understanding how and what we learn.

ETHOLOGY

Ethology is the study of “fixed action patterns” of behaviour among animals in their natural setting. Ethology introduced the concept of inherent perceptual equipment. Examples include: suckling by infant mammals, the dance of honey bees returning to their nest to communicating the location of nectar, and the imprinting of ducklings on the first moving object that might be a mother duck among many other examples. The Ethologists carefully observed animals to describe what these fixed action patterns of behaviour were; their adaptive value to the species; the trigger or “releasing stimuli” that precedes the behaviour; the embodied physiological mechanisms that produce that behaviour; and what supportive learning is necessary to shape the behaviour. The Ethologists found there is virtually always some amount of experience and resulting reinforcement to shape the fixed action pattern beyond the initial inclination.

The importance of Ethology is that neurological “hard wiring” is an additional consideration to the Behaviourist’s various strategies of reinforcement in the development of behaviour. This study of the capabilities of numerous species and their species specific behaviour underscores the importance of having the necessary equipment for certain behaviours: flying requires an aerodynamic physique and an appropriate nervous system to use it; just as literacy (a human capability) requires the ability for symbolic perception and the appropriate nervous system to interpret, and use it. This means that each species, even each individual, including mankind, is limited in capabilities by their nature.

4

CHAPTER

Communication Skills Training

COMMUNICATION SKILLS

The ability to communicate is the primary factor that distinguishes human beings from animals. And it is the ability to communicate well that distinguishes one individual from another. The fact, is that apart from the basic necessities, one needs to be equipped with habits for good communication skills, as this is what will make them a happy and successful social being.

In order to develop these habits, one needs to first acknowledge the fact that they need to improve communication skills from time to time. They need to take stock of the way they interact and the direction in which their work and personal relations are going. The only constant in life is change, and the more one accepts one's strengths and works towards dealing with their shortcomings, especially in the area of communication skills, the better will be their interactions and the more their social popularity.

The dominating question that comes here is: How to improve communication skills? Well, the answer is simple. One can find plenty of literature on this. There are also experts, who conduct workshops and seminars based on communication skills of men and women. In fact, a large number of companies are bringing in trainers to regularly conduct sessions on the subject, in order to help their workforce maintain better interpersonal work relations.

Today, an effective communication skill has become a predominant factor even while recruiting employees. While interviewing candidates, most interviewers judge them on

the basis of the way they communicate. They believe that skills can be improvised on the job; but ability to communicate well is important, as every employee becomes the representing face of the company. There are trainers, who specialize in delivering custom-made programmes on the subject. Through the session they not only facilitate better skills in the department of communications, but also look into the problems that come in the way of being able to convey messages effectively. They discuss these issues with the management and then sought to design programmes accordingly. For instance, time mismanagement becomes a cause for stress and frustration, which then hampers the possibility of healthy communications at work. Then in weeks to come the company organizes a programme on time management. Thus, a workshop on communication skills helps the management to deal with the finer employee nuances about which they lack awareness. Communication is generally classified into a couple of types.

The classifications include:

- Verbal and non-verbal
- Technological and non-technological
- Mediated and non-mediated
- Participatory and non-participatory

COMMONLY KNOWN TYPES OF COMMUNICATIONS

Intra-personal communication skills: This implies individual reflection, contemplation and meditation. One example of this is transcendental mediation. According to the experts this type of communication encompasses communicating with the divine and with spirits in the form of prayers and rites and rituals.

- *Interpersonal communication skills:* This is direct, face-to-face communication that occurs between two persons. It is essentially a dialogue or a conversation between two or more people. It is personal, direct, as well as intimate and permits maximum interaction through words and gestures.

Interpersonal communications maybe:

- *Focused Interactions:* This primarily results from an actual encounter between two persons. This implies that the two persons involved are completely aware of the communication happening between them.
- *Unfocused interactions:* This occurs when one simply observes or listens to persons with whom one is not conversing. This usually occurs at stations and bus stops, as well as on the street, at restaurants, etc.
- *Non-verbal communication skills:* This includes aspects such as body language, gestures, facial expressions, eye contact, etc., which also become a part of the communicating process; as well as the written and typed modes of communications.

- *Mass communication:* This is generally identified with tools of modern mass media including social media marketing, which includes: books, the press, cinema, television, radio, etc. It is a means of conveying messages to an entire populace.

No matter what the different types of communication skills are, communicating is an ever-continuing process that is going on all the time. It is as important to human life as is day-to-day existence.

BASIC COMMUNICATION

Communication is essentially the transfer of ideas, messages or information from one person to another. It is effective when it gets the desired action or response. Basic communication skills are essential for continued success, whether personal or professional. At the very base one needs to understand the communication process.

Thus, one may ask what communication skills are. To answer that simply- Basically, communicating is like a two-way street, which entails the relation between the sender and the receiver. In this process, a cycle of communicating messages is formed between the sender and the receiver. The sender is required to conceive the message he/she wishes to send, encode this message and then transmit. The receiver then is required to receive the message, decode it and clarify his/her understanding of the message.

In order to maintain healthy communication, the two must go through this process, without bringing in other elements of intellectual thoughts and judgements, as they tend to harm the harmonious process of message passing and receiving.

From the sender's perspective one needs to have the following essential skills:

- Skills to compose the message
- Skills to send the message

From the receiver's perspective one needs to have the following essential skills:

The skill of receiving a message,

- Without assumptions
- Placing biases aside
- Actively listening

Thus, the elements of effective communication are:

- Listening
- Verbal skills
- Non-verbal skills

EXCELLENT COMMUNICATION SKILL

Most conversations sort of drift along; in business, this is wasteful; as a manager, you seek communication rather than chatter.

To ensure an efficient and effective conversation, there are three considerations:

- You must make your message understood
- You must receive/understand the intended message sent to you
- You should exert some control over the flow of the communication

Thus you must learn to listen as well as to speak. Those who dismiss this as a mere platitude are already demonstrating an indisposition to listening: the phrase may be trite, but the message is hugely significant to your effectiveness as a manager. If you do not explicitly develop the skill of listening, you may not hear the suggestion/information which should launch you to fame and fortune.

As a manager (concerned with getting things done) your view of words should be pragmatic rather than philosophical. Thus, words mean not what the dictionary says they do but rather what the speaker intended.

Suppose your manager gives to you an instruction which contains an ambiguity which neither of you notice and which results in you producing entirely the wrong product. Who is at fault? The answer must be: who cares? Your time has been wasted, the needed product is delayed (or dead); attributing blame may be a satisfying (or defensive) exercise but it does not address the problem. In everything you say or hear, you must look out for possible misunderstanding and clarify the ambiguity. The greatest source of difficulty is that words often have different meanings depending upon context and/or culture.

Thus, a “dry” country lacks either water or alcohol; “suspenders” keep up either stockings or trousers (pants); a “funny” meeting is either humorous or disconcerting; a “couple” is either a few or exactly two. If you recognize that there is a potential misunderstanding, you must stop the conversation and ask for the valid interpretation.

A second problem is that some people simply make mistakes. Your job is not simply to spot ambiguities but also to counter inconsistencies. Thus if I now advocate that the wise manager should seek out (perhaps humorous) books on entomology (creepy crawlies) you would deduce that the word should have been etymology. More usual, however, is that in thinking over several alternatives you may suffer a momentary confusion and say one of them while meaning another. There are good scientific reasons (to do with the associative nature of the brain) why this happens, you have to be aware of the potential problem and counter for it.

Finally, of course, you may simply mishear. The omission of a simple word could be devastating. For instance, how long would you last as an explosives engineer if you failed to hear a simple negative in: “whatever happens next you must [not] cut the blue wi...”?

So, the problem is this: the word has multiple meanings, it might not be the one intended, and you may have misheard it in the first place - how do you know what the speaker meant?

PLAY BACK FOR CONFIRMATION

Simple, you ask for confirmation. You say “let me see if I have understood correctly, you are saying that...” and you rephrase what the speaker said. If this “play back” version is acknowledged as being correct by the original speaker, then you have a greater degree of confidence in your own understanding. For any viewpoint/message/decision, there should be a clear, concise and verified statement of what was said; without this someone will get it wrong.

WRITE BACK FOR CONFIDENCE

But do not stop there. If your time and effort depend upon it, you should write it down and send it to everyone involved as a double check. This has several advantages:

- *Further clarification:* Is this what you thought we agreed?
- *Consistency check:* The act of writing may highlight defects/omissions
- *A formal stage:* A statement of the accepted position provides a spring board from which to proceed
- *Evidence:* Hindsight often blurs previous ignorance and people often fail to recall their previous errors

GIVE BACKGROUND FOR CONTEXT

When speaking yourself, you can often counter for possible problems by adding information, and so providing a broader context in which your words can be understood. Thus, there is less scope for alternative interpretations since fewer are consistent. When others are speaking, you should deliberately ask questions yourself to establish the context in which they are thinking. When others are speaking, you should deliberately ask questions yourself to establish the context in which they are thinking.

As with all effective communication, you should decide (in advance) on the purpose of the conversation and the plan for achieving it. There is no alternative to this. Some people are proficient at “thinking on their feet” - but this is generally because they already have clear understanding of the context and their own goals. You have to plan; however, the following are a few techniques to help the conversation along.

Assertiveness

The definition of to assert is: “to declare; state clearly”. This is your aim. If someone argues against you, even loses their temper, you should be quietly assertive.

Much has been written to preach this simple fact and commonly the final message is a three-fold plan of action:

- Acknowledge what is being said by showing an understanding of the position, or by simply replaying it (a polite way of saying “I heard you already”)
- State your own point of view clearly and concisely with perhaps a little supporting evidence
- State what you want to happen next (move it forward)

Thus we have something like: yes, I see why you need the report by tomorrow; however, I have no time today to prepare the document because I am in a meeting with a customer this afternoon; either I could give you the raw data and you could work on it yourself, or you could make do with the interim report from last week.

You will have to make many personal judgement calls when being assertive. There will certainly be times when a bit of quiet force from you will win the day but there will be times when this will get nowhere, particularly with more senior (and unenlightened) management. In the latter case, you must agree to abide by the decision of the senior manager but you should make your objection (and reasons) clearly known. For yourself, always be aware that your subordinates might be right when they disagree with you and if events prove them so, acknowledge that fact gracefully.

Confrontations

When you have a difficult encounter, be professional, do not lose your self-control because, simply, it is of no use. Some managers believe that it is useful for “discipline” to keep staff a little nervous. Thus, these managers are slightly volatile and will be willing “to let them have it” when the situation demands. If you do this, you must be consistent and fair so that you staff know where they stand. If you deliberately lose your temper for effect, then that is your decision - however, you must never lose control. Insults are ineffective. If you call people names, then they are unlikely to actually listen to what you have to say; in the short term you may feel some relief at “getting it off your chest”, but in the long run you are merely perpetuating the problem since you are not addressing it. This is common sense. There are two implications.

Firstly, even under pressure, you have to remember this. Secondly, what you consider fair comment may be insulting to another - and the same problem emerges. Before you say anything, stop, establish what you want as the outcome, plan how to achieve this, and then speak. Finally, if you are going to criticise or discipline someone, always assume that you have misunderstood the situation and ask questions first which check the facts. This simple courtesy will save you from much embarrassment.

Seeking Information

There are two ways of phrasing any question: one way (the closed question) is likely to lead to a simple grunt in reply (yes, no, maybe), the second way (the open question) will hand over the speaking role to someone else and force them to say something a little more informative.

Suppose you conduct a review of a recently finished (?) project with Gretchen and it goes something like this:

- “Have you finished project X Gretchen?”
- “Yes”
- “If everything written up?”

- “Nearly”
- “So there is documentation left to do?”
- “Some”
- “Will it take you long?”
- “No, not long”

Before your fingers start twitching to place themselves around Gretchen’s neck, consider that your questions are not actually helping the flow of information. The same flow of questions in an open format would be: what is left to do of project X, what about the documentation, when will that be completely finished? Try answering Yes or No to those questions. Open questions are extremely easy to formulate. You establish in your own mind the topic/aim of the question and then you start the sentence with the words:

LET OTHERS SPEAK

Of course, there is more to a conversation (managed or otherwise) than the flow of information. You may also have to win that information by winning the attention and confidence of the other person. There are many forms of flattery - the most effective is to give people your interest. To get Gretchen to give you all her knowledge, you must give her all your attention; talk to her about her view on the subject.

Ask questions: what do you think about that idea, have you ever met this problem before, how would you tackle this situation? Silence is effective - and much under-used. People are nervous of silence and try to fill it. You can use this if you are seeking information. You ask the question, you lean back, the person answers, you nod and smile, you keep quiet, and the person continues with more detail simply to fill your silence.

At the end of a conversation, you have to give people a clear understanding of the outcome. For instance, if there has been a decision, restate it clearly (just to be sure) in terms of what should happen and by when; if you have been asking questions, summarize the significant (for you) aspects of what you have learnt.

MEETING MANAGEMENT

In any organization, “meetings” are a vital part of the organization of work and the flow of information. They act as a mechanism for gathering together resources from many sources and pooling them towards a common objective. They are disliked and mocked because they are usually futile, boring, time-wasting, dull, and inconvenient with nothing for most people to do except doodle while some opinionated has-been extols the virtues of his/her last great (misunderstood) idea. Your challenge is to break this mould and to make your meetings effective. As with every other managed activity, meetings should be planned beforehand, monitored during for effectiveness, and

reviewed afterwards for improving their management. A meeting is the ultimate form of managed conversation; as a manager, you can organize the information and structure of the meeting to support the effective communication of the participants. Some of the ideas may seem a little too precise for an easy going, relaxed, semi-informal team atmosphere - but if you manage to gain a reputation for holding decisive, effective meetings, then people will value this efficiency and to prepare professionally so that their contribution will be heard.

As with all conversations, you must first ask: is it worth your time? If the meeting involves the interchange of views and the communication of the current status of related projects, then you should be generous with your time. But you should always consider canceling a meeting which has little tangible value.

You must be strict. A meeting loses its effectiveness if too many people are involved: so if someone has no useful function, explain this and suggest that they do not come. Notice, they may disagree with your assessment, in which case they should attend (since they may know something you do not); however, most people are only too happy to be released from yet another meeting.

It may seem difficult to predict the length of a discussion - but you must. Discussions tend to fill the available time which means that if the meeting is open-ended, it will drift on forever. You should stipulate a time for the end of the meeting so that everyone knows, and everyone can plan the rest of their day with confidence.

It is wise to make this expectation known to everyone involved well in advance and to remind them at the beginning of the meeting. There is often a tendency to view meetings as a little relaxation since no one person has to be active throughout. You can redress this view by stressing the time-scale and thus forcing the pace of the discussion: “this is what we have to achieve, this is how long we have to get it done”.

If some unexpected point arises during the meeting then realise that since it is unexpected:

- You might not have the right people present,
- Those there may not have the necessary information, and
- A little thought might save a lot of discussion.

If the new discussion looks likely to be more than a few moments, stop it and deal with the agreed agenda. The new topic should then be dealt with at another “planned” meeting.

AGENDA

The purpose of an agenda is to inform participants of the subject of the meeting in advance, and to structure the discussion at the meeting itself. To inform people beforehand, and to solicit ideas, you should circulate a draft agenda and ask for notice of any other business. Still before the meeting, you should then send the revised agenda with enough time for people to prepare their contributions. If you know in advance that

a particular participant either needs information or will be providing information, then make this explicitly clear so that there is no confusion.

The agenda states the purpose of each part of the meeting. There will be an outcome from each part. If that outcome is so complex that it can not be summarized in a few points, then it was probably too complex to be assimilated by the participants. The understanding of the meeting should be sufficiently precise that it can be summarized in short form - so display that summary for all other interested parties to see. This form of display will emphasize to all that meetings are about achieving defined goals - this will help you to continue running efficient meetings in the future.

IMPROVING COMMUNICATION SKILL

When one is required to communicate complicated ideas, one needs to first and foremost work on improving their skills in communicating. Firstly, one needs to overcome all language related barriers by first seeking how to learn English speaking. This is essential, because most people find it difficult to convey their thoughts, because of a strong influence of their national language, regional language and mother tongue. Well, to overcome the language barrier, one can attend English speaking classes. But then thereafter one also needs to be aware of other nuances involved in improving communication skills. In fact, one needs to ensure that as when they communicate they should not be misunderstood, so as to ensure a free flow of thoughts and ideas, doing away with stumbling roadblocks.

One way of ensuring that one will not be misunderstood is to look into the use of 'scope'. 'Scope', essentially refers to the words that combine with each other in order to create a 'sense unit', in a sentence. For instance, which nouns are covered by a particular verb or preposition. Often poor punctuation or poor sentence construction brings about ineffective communications. There are varied grammatical devices that help to indicate 'scope'. These devices can be perfected by constantly practicing grammar. In fact, no matter how eloquent a speaker or communicator one maybe, one should spend sometime, ever so often in practicing grammar exercises.

One can refer to the various English speaking books that will help them improve. In fact, parents can improve their own grammar skills by working on exercises with their children, making it a family activity, rather than a boring homework lesson

ASSERTIVENESS TRAINING

TAILORED AND IN-HOUSE ASSERTIVENESS TRAINING

Or rather as we like to think of it 'The Art of Saying No'

Assertiveness Training work can be tailored as an in-house programme to address specific Assertiveness issues within your company.

ASSERTIVENESS TRAINING OBJECTIVES

- Ensure Small Problems don't become Big Ones
- Offers lots of ways of Being Direct
- Help people to Close Deals
- Make it easier to Get Tough when you need to
- Stop Bullying
- Manage Difficult Staff
- Get out of Difficult Situations
- Change the way you are Treated
- Deal with Difficult Feelings

ASSERTIVENESS TRAINING-THE ART OF SAYING NO

There you go, you've just said *yes* to something you know you should have said *no* to.

How did it happen this time?

How did they get that one past you *again*?

It could be that your company have a culture where being 'nice' is applauded and encouraged but gets people into difficulties when they need to be a bit tougher or more assertive with clients or customers. It could be that if you have a call centre you might need assertiveness training for your staff to be clearer and more assertive with your customers without alienating them and giving them a hard time. It may even be that there are pockets of bullying or what appears to be bullying and you need assertiveness training for some of your people to be able to deal with the bullies more effectively. In a healthy professional workplace we have to be able to set clear boundaries around work demands and pressures.

TAILORED ASSERTIVENESS TRAINING

A Tailored Assertiveness Training Programme can help delegates discover what works for them, without resorting to difficult behaviour themselves.

Working in small groups, two experienced facilitators use game-play, role-play and other experiential processes to get each individual to see exactly what is possible for them in order to feel better about themselves and their situation.

Tailored specifically to each group "The Art of Saying No" is *Assertiveness Training* designed to reach the issues ordinary assertiveness training can't touch.

PERSONAL IMPACT COURSE

Public Personal Impact Course

Personal Impact is an intensive course that includes key elements of our Communication, Presentation, Assertiveness and Influencing programmes.

It's designed to bring these elements together to give you a real experience of the Impact you make and how to make the Impact you want.

Personal Impact Course Objectives:

- How 'making an impact' works
- Understand how you impact on others
- Knowing how and why things go wrong
- Improving your ability to influence others
- Understanding rules and conventions
- Speaking your mind without offending
- Finding out how others see you
- Verbal and non-verbal communication
- Appreciating conventions and boundaries

PERSONAL IMPACT COURSE PROGRAMME:

The course content may include many of the exercises listed below, and any additional material that the trainers feel is relevant to the delegates on the day.

Making an Impact

An in-depth look at what makes an impact and how people impact on one another. Followed by a breakdown of the components that go into making an impact.

Analysis of Each Person's Style and Strengths

Each person gives a short analysis of their personal style and what works for them, paying particular attention to how they think they impact on others. They will get feedback from their colleagues on what else they see working.

How Feelings can Affect the Impact you Make

This exercise specifically recreates the feelings that people have when they have to do something they find particularly difficult. For instance what happens to them when they are in an uncomfortable or new situation?

Personal Boundaries

This section deals with personal space boundaries as well as internal issues that people would rather not talk about. It is particularly useful for people who have a hard (if not impossible) time saying 'No'. It's also helpful for people who have a hard time setting priorities because of other people's demands.

Assumptions and Personal Impact

A look at the assumptions we make automatically and how they affect the way we behave.

Agreement

As a tool for defusing polarised arguments.

60 Seconds of Passion

This is a chance for each participant to look at the power of expression and just how much they limit themselves in that expression.

60 Seconds of Silence

This exercise allows the participants to experience the dynamic of silence and to see how they react to it.

Presence Exercise

This is an awareness exercise to help deal with self consciousness.

Everyday Objects

An exercise to stretch the capacity to communicate non-verbally.

First Impressions

A group exercise where each person gets to practise a variety of first impressions.

Language

A group exercise looking at the words we use habitually and an exploration into how the choice of language can ensure a specific response. This is followed by an individual exercise to demonstrate the effect of the deliberate use of emotive words.

Persuasion, Motivation and Inspiration

An individual exercise where people choose a work-related subject they feel strongly about and present it using the work of the day to consolidate their message with the aim of persuading, inspiring and motivating others.

Assessment of the Personal Impact Day

Participants are asked to present what they have learnt from the *Personal Impact Course* and how they intend to make use of it, identifying specific situations, people and areas of their work to illustrate.

INTERVIEW SKILLS TRAINING

INTERVIEW SKILLS TRAINING

Tailored Interview Skills Training

Interview Skills Training can be tailored as in-house programmes to address specific issues within your company.

Interview Training Objectives

- Understanding Interview Dynamics
- Getting the Most of your Interview Preparation
- Making the Right First, Second or Third Impression
- Learning how to Tackle Interview Nerves
- Feeling at Home in the Interviewing Arena
- Taking Care of the Interviewer
- Becoming a Good ‘Story-Teller’
- Understanding the Dynamics Around the Table
- Dressing for Interview Success
- Handling Difficult Interview Questions
- Handling Rejection
- Sharpening up your Personal Interviewing Style

INTERVIEW SKILLS

If you’re confident when going on a job interview or asking for a raise or a promotion, you’re one of the lucky ones. Most people have an anxious time before, during and after their interviews: anxiety about how they’ll do; anxiety about how they’re doing; anxiety about how they did.

Interview skills training will help you get to grips with your anxiety so you can actually enjoy the interview process and present yourself in the best possible light. When you can present yourself with ease, you have a much higher chance of getting the job you want. Once you understand the dynamics of an interview situation (that odd posturing and positioning that can happen in interviews) then you can actually be more ‘in charge’ of the interview arena despite the possible power dynamics.

Whatever is said about having only one chance to make a good first impression at your interview, we believe you have any number of chances to make a good impression even if you fluff the first one. Learning how to present yourself at an interview, how to dress appropriately, how to tell a good story about yourself and give relevant examples instead of reciting your CV, will all make you a far more interesting and accessible interviewee. Always remember interviewing is hard on everyone: they want it to be you! They want their search to be over when you walk in the door. It’s up to you to make sure that happens. Interview Skills is one area where a little training can go an awfully long way, and Interview Skills Training is the kind that can last a lifetime.

MEASURING BODY LANGUAGE QUOTIENT

We normally ignore or are not aware that how our Body language makes an impression on others. It is a very important part of our personality. The way we stand/sit, look or keep our hands speaks a lot about us. Body Language is an important aspect of personality development training.

COMMUNICATION BARRIER

No matter how good and effective a communicator one maybe, yet the fact is that one does face certain barriers, from time to time, which forces them to work on becoming even more effective in their skills to communicate. Given here are the communication barriers that occur while listening, speaking and in the case of non-verbal communications.

LISTENING BARRIERS

- Interrupting the speaker
- Not maintaining eye contact with the speaker
- Rushing the speaker to complete what he/she has to say
- Making the speaker feel as though he/she is wasting the listener's time
- Being distracted by something that is not part of the on going communication
- Getting ahead of the speaker and completing his/her thoughts
- Ignoring the speaker's requests
- Topping the speaker's story with one's own set of examples
- Forgetting what is being discussed
- Asking too many questions, for they sake of probing

BARRIERS WHILE SPEAKING

- Unclear messages
- Lack of consistency in the communication process
- Incomplete sentences
- Not understanding the receiver
- Not seeking clarifications while communicating

THE OTHER BARRIERS INCLUDE

- An individual's subjective viewpoint towards issues/people, which leads to assumptions.
- An emotional block, which can lead to an attitude of indifference, suspicion or hostility towards the subject.
- An emotional block or bias that is based on a third party's view point, or on what you have read/heard.
- Words can have different meanings to different people, thus blocking communication.
- Use of negative words

VOICE CULTURE

In the case of verbal communication skills voice plays an important role. After all, one maybe knowledgeable in their domain area, but conveying their knowledge may

seem like a mammoth task. This is the reason why, as a part of communication skills training there is ample emphasis laid on voice culture.

One aspect of culturing the voice is understanding intonation. This is the rise and fall in pitch, which occurs as we speak. There are various patterns of intonation. For instance, there is singsong, monotone, jump up and step down (JUSD), etc. When one intonates one puts music, melody and rhythm into the way they speak. Basically, intonation follows certain guidelines that help one decide which are important and key ideas on which one needs to rise and fall in pitch. When one follows these guidelines, one can clearly communicate to the listener the important idea/s in the message.

The following are the various factors that can help one to modulate well and gain correct intonation, inflection and syllable stress...

- Be enthusiastic
- Avoid speaking in a monotone
- Exaggerate voice inflection
- Pause to create effect
- Pace between fast and slow
- Modulate between high and low pitch
- Bring power with the play of volume-loud and soft
- Enunciate the words to bring about clarity
- Match tone with attitude

PUBLIC SPEAKING

Speaking in public tends to become a rather stressful task for many. In fact, even the best of speakers tend to go through those few moments of anxiety and stage fright just before getting onto the stage or podium to address their audience. One of the main reasons can be language, which for instance could be lack of English speaking words. But then how to improve English speaking can be looked at, as a different subject, all together.

Yet, before going any further, one tip for improving English skills, one can practice grammar and vocabulary exercises, as often as possible. Also reading loudly in front of a mirror helps one improve their language skills. Exposure to the language is also important, which includes reading English newspapers and books, listening to English music and watching English movies.

Coming back to public speaking... here are 9 tips to speak successfully in a public situation.

- 1 Control stage fright
- 2 Select the subject well
- 3 Gather all ideas and information
- 4 Organize the material

- 5 Plan the beginning of the speech
- 6 Plan the body of the speech
- 7 Plan the conclusion of the speech
- 8 Practice the speech
- 9 Bring in humour, spontaneously

Here are the 6-key details to ensure smooth speaking at a public event, of any magnitude...

- 1 Check all arrangements
- 2 Be comfortable in venue
- 3 Know how to use the microphone
- 4 Conduct a microphone check before the function begins
- 5 Be ready to deal with distractions
- 6 Be prepared to answer questions, politely avoid irrelevant questions

Non verbal communication includes the following aspects:

- Facial expressions
- Voice culture
- Gestures
- Eye contact
- Spatial arrangements
- Patterns of touch
- Expressive movement
- Body language

Of all the non- verbal factors mentioned here, one should be aware of body language, as beyond the words this speaks volumes. Thus, one needs to learn how to effectively use their body to communicate better. Take for instance, eye contact. Eye contact is an important channel of interpersonal communication. This factor helps regulate the flow of communication. It signals interest in others. Furthermore, eye contact with the audience increases the speaker's credibility. It is also an important part of effective team communication skills. Another instance is the varied facial expressions. Take for example, the importance of the smile... it is regarded as a powerful cue that transmits: happiness, friendliness, motivational, warmth, liking, affection, etc. With a gentle smile on the face one is sending out a friendly signal, which is almost always reciprocated in a positive manner. Gestures are another important part of non- verbal communications. If one fails to use gestures while speaking, they tend to be perceived as boring, stiff and unanimated. A lively and animated teaching and speaking style captures the audience attention, at any given point. For example, nodding the head, communicates positive reinforcement, indicating that the speaker is being heard.

Other aspects of the body that are important in communicating are the posture of the body; as well as the proximity being maintained. For instance, while listening one should lean a little forward to show that they are interested in the conversation.

IMPORTANCE OF COMMUNICATION

“Identification is one of the key ingredients of effective communication. In fact, unless your listeners can identify with what you are saying and with the way you are saying it, they are not likely to receive and understand your message.”

The quote above is the underlying factor that explains the importance of communication skills. In fact, there are other such quotes, which are as follows that explains the importance of effective communications skills: Good communication is as stimulating as black coffee, and just as hard to sleep after. The newest computer can merely compound, at speed, the oldest problem in the relations between human beings, and in the end the communicator will be confronted with the old problem, of what to say and how to say it. The colossal misunderstanding of our times is the assumption that insight will work with people who are unmotivated to change. Communication does not depend on syntax, or eloquence, or rhetoric, or articulation; but on the emotional context in which the message is being heard. People can only hear you when they are moving towards you, and they are not likely to when your words are pursuing them. Even the choicest words lose their power when they are used to overpower. Attitudes are the real figures of speech. Some proverbs

When people talk, listen completely. Most people never listen. The problem with communication... is the illusion that it has been accomplished. The right to be heard does not automatically include the right to be taken seriously. Argument is the worst sort of communication.

EFFECTIVE COMMUNICATION SKILL

“Identification is one of the key ingredients of effective communication. In fact, unless your listeners can identify with what you are saying and with the way you are saying it, they are not likely to receive and understand your message.” The quote above is the underlying factor that explains the importance of communication skills. In fact, there are other such quotes, which are as follows that explains the importance of effective communications skills: Good communication is as stimulating as black coffee, and just as hard to sleep after the newest computer can merely compound, at speed, the oldest problem in the relations between human beings, and in the end the communicator will be confronted with the old problem, of what to say and how to say it.

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BARRIERS OF COMMUNICATION

This is in fact the first and foremost primary step to being good communicator. Given here are some of the barriers that occur in communicating effectively. Understanding these barriers will help one comprehend examples of communicating skills. After all breaking down barriers implies setting good examples...

THE VERBAL BARRIERS ARE

- Attacking
- Interrogating
- Criticizing
- Blaming
- Shaming

You Messages

- Moralizing
- Preaching
- Advising
- Diagnosing
- Endorsing Power
- Ordering
- Threatening
- Commanding
- Directing

Shouting

- Name-calling
- Refusing to talk

The Non-verbal Barriers are

- Flashing eyes
- Rolling eyes
- Quick movements
- Slow movements
- Arms crossed
- Legs crossed

Gestures out of Exasperation

- Slouching
- Hunching
- Lack of personal hygiene
- Doodling
- Avoiding eye contact
- Staring at people
- Over fidgeting

GOOD COMMUNICATION

More often than never, most people consider themselves to be good and effective communicators simply because they feel they can speak fluently.

While speaking fluently is an important aspect of communicating, yet it is not the only requirement. One should be able to listen effectively, speak fluently and clearly, write well and read in the language/s they are familiar with.

Apart from these basic aspects of communications, one needs to keep in mind the non-verbal aspects too, in order to be considered adept in communication skills. The fact is that one needs to constantly work towards developing effective communication skills. And primarily they need to overcome the barriers to effective communication. And this can be done when they are aware of the barriers and shortcomings.

SPEAK AND TOUCH THE HEART

Facts touch or mind, but it is the power that comes from stories that touch hearts. Everybody loves a story. Stories give us insight life and human nature. They can make us laugh and they can make us cry. Story telling will go beyond the bullet points and will make a memorable impression on the heart that can change a life.

As a speaker, how can you use stories to give your presentation the impact that you desire:

- Tell inspirational stories to persuade, motivate or entertain. Use stories to illustrate the point you want to make. Try to find stories that are relevant to the audience. For example, for software engineers, tell a story about the young engineer who started a company in his garage and how Microsoft changed the world.
- Tell a story from your own experience. Make a habit of keeping a story journal and record your day's experiences. You will have a rich supply of unique experiences to draw from to illustrate your point.
- Use gestures and acting techniques to bring your story to life. Don't just tell your audience about a difficult client; get up and show them. Actions have a greater impact on the point you are making.

- Use description and dialogue. Take your audience into the story by using description and dialogue. Help them visualize and feel that they are part of the experience.
- Practice your story until it's natural. Use the pacing and rhythm to communicate your message to your audience. Listen to a tape recording of yourself. Check how you have varied the tone of your voice and your speed to create the biggest impact in your story.

Remember it's not about you; it's about your audience. You have a great story and an important message to convey. By concentrating on your audience, you will become more confident and relaxed. This will result in your audience feeling comfortable and more receptive to your message.

CONCEPTUALIZING COMMUNICATION COMPETENCE

Generally speaking, a competent communicator is one who has “knowledge of appropriate communication patterns in a given situation and the ability to use the knowledge”. Correspondingly, the two major components of communication competence that have been most closely examined in the organizational communication literature are strategic and tactical communication.

Strategic communication pertains to knowledge of organizational realities, what things “mean” in the organization, and may vary from one organization to another. Tactical communication represents the skills one has available to use as instruments to accomplish personal, group, and organizational goals.

Strategic communication knowledge has been frequently studied using a social cognitive perspective. Some researchers employing this approach believe that the way to study organizational communication competence is to understand self and role responsibilities within the organization through examinations of individual differences among organizational members.

In particular, they operationalize competence in terms of an individual's cognitive complexity, perspective taking, empathy, persuasive ability, and self-monitoring. Research findings viewing competence in this way have shown that individuals who have more developed cognitive abilities are considered to be more competent in their organizations than those with less developed abilities.

Other researchers, such as Harris and Cronen, have applied a rules-based approach to conceptualize communication competence. They define strategic communication competence as an individual's ability to interpret constitutive rules (*i.e.*, accurate knowledge of organizational meanings) and tactical communication competence as an ability to follow and manipulate regulative rules (*i.e.*, communication skills or performance capability to achieve personal, group, and organizational goals). However,

Harris has also suggested that individuals' levels of competence depend upon the balance of the complexity and flexibility of their own intrapersonal system and the interpersonal environment.

Complexity refers to the extent to which an individual possesses the various communication behaviours that are required in an environment, whereas flexibility is defined as an individual's ability to adapt and/or an environmental capability to endure various communication behaviours.

Tactical communication has been often studied from a skill/performance perspective. Generally, these studies have attempted to identify communication skill requirements in organizations. According to these studies, the most common communication skills that organizational members see as important in their jobs are advising, persuading, instructing, interviewing, exchanging information, public speaking, leading discussions, giving orders, solving problems, and listening.

Jablin et al. noted, based on the results of surveys in this area, that commonalities across occupations and organizational roles regarding communication skill requirements are often suggested by the researchers conducting research in this area. To review, in this section, we have attempted to describe the basic dimensions - communication knowledge, communication skills/behaviours - of the communication competence construct.

Although these dimensions appear to be applicable across cultures, the specific characteristics of each dimension are likely to vary across cultures because cultural communication can influence the way organizational members interact with each other within the same culture. Thus, cultural differences may be a major factor affecting the characteristics of communication competence in different organizational and national cultures.

Culture is usually viewed as a historically derived system of shared symbolic ideas and meanings, or interpretations of symbols, which are associated with the "ordering" of societies. Since cultural variability is considered to be a major factor affecting the way that individuals in different national cultures communicate in the interpersonal, group, and organizational contexts, it may be a key source from which members of different national cultures develop their understandings of the strategic communication knowledge and tactical skills necessary to be competent organizational communicators.

Consistent with the above position, in a study examining the influence of national culture on organizational culture, Sorod found that the national culture influenced organizational/managerial values in 12 Thai-owned companies and 13 U.S.-owned companies in Thailand. In addition, she confirmed the generalizability of the characteristics of Thai culture found in Hofstede's earlier work (that is, Thai culture is characterized by low individualism, low masculinity, high power distance, and high uncertainty avoidance).

In particular, her research showed that Thai culture emphasizes group interests and loyalty, modesty, and quality of life (rather than material success), status, and the use of appropriate communication rules and norms in interactions with people in different societal strata. However, Sorod's study did not investigate the influence of the national culture on Thai organizational communication competence, nor did it explore how beliefs about what constitutes communication competence may vary depending on Thai organizational characteristics and traditions.

For example, as noted earlier, what is considered to be appropriate behaviour in Thai organizations is often closely tied to an individual's status, and is frequently associated with one's level in the organizational hierarchy and his or her role (supervisor, subordinate, peer), as well as personal characteristics (such as educational attainment, age, and gender). In addition, Komin's data suggest that what is considered competent organizational behaviour in Thailand may vary depending on the type of organization in which one works: government, state enterprise (at least 50% of the organization is owned by the state), or private business. For example, Komin reports that managers in Thai government and state enterprises have greater expectations that they should be experts who can answer almost all questions raised by subordinates than do managers in Thai business firms (who may be somewhat more participative as problem solvers than those working in traditional government organizations).

In turn, since much higher degrees of intense conflict appear to occur in government organizations than in state enterprises, it is likely that the sorts of skills and abilities associated with competent conflict management may vary across organizational types.

In light of these issues, this study poses the following research questions:

- *RQ 1:* What kinds of communication knowledge and skills/behaviours are most associated with communication competence in Thai organizations for supervisors, subordinates, and co-workers?
- *RQ 2:* Do perceptions of communicatively competent Thai supervisors, subordinates and co-workers vary in light of their organizational role (supervisory, non-supervisory), hierarchical level, the type of organization in which they work (public, state enterprise, private), or their personal characteristics (gender, age, education)?

Methodology

In order to acquire information representative of Thai organizations, data were collected from 14 different organizations. Five of these were public organizations which operated as part of the government, five were companies that were privately-owned business enterprises, and four were state-enterprise organizations (at least 50% of each organization is owned by the state).

The public organizations included a department of the Finance Ministry, a department from the Interior Ministry, a public school located in Bangkok (provided education

from grades 1-12), a department from the Defence Ministry, and a department from the Education Ministry. The private companies included a manufacturer and distributor of construction materials, a petrochemical company, a private school, and two different commercial financial institutions. The four state-enterprise organizations included an airline, a mass transit organization, a telecommunications institution, and a provider of electric power.

The size of these organizations ranged from 150 to 28,000 employees; with respect to the size of the units from which data were collected for this study, the number of employees ranged from 35 to 3,000. Usable data were collected from 413 members of the 14 organizations (89% response rate). However, because of missing data, the number of subjects reported in some of our analyses totals less than 413.

Of the respondents, 31% worked in government positions, 25% were employees of state-enterprises, and 43% worked in privately own companies. Participants represented a wide range of occupations including jobs as educators (15%), personnel officers (12%), accountants/auditors (11%), sales/marketing representatives (9%), administrators/managers (5%), clerks/secretaries (7%), non-clerical support staff (7%), financial officers (6%), information/data programmers (7%), public relations officers (6%), professionals (*i.e.*, engineers, architects, and lawyers, 4%), cashiers/bank tellers (5%), maintenance/physical plant staff members, and other miscellaneous positions.

Approximately half of the respondents were male and half female, and they ranged in age from 15 to 59 (Mean = 34.5 years of age). Approximately one-third of the subjects worked in supervisory positions and two-thirds in non-supervisory jobs. The typical respondent had 10 years of work experience and had worked in her/his current positions for 4 years.

With respect to educational backgrounds of members of the sample, 7.5% had a high school certificate, 10% had an Associate's degree, 60% had an undergraduate college degree, and 18% had graduate degrees. Regarding the educational profile of members of this sample, it is important to note that this group had received more schooling than the average Thai citizen. According to census statistics 93% of the Thai people are "literate."

Among those considered literate, 75% have at least a compulsory education (six years in school), 15% have a high school certificate, 5.5% have an undergraduate degree, and 4.5% have others types of educational backgrounds (*e.g.*, trade school, seminary). Thus, the sample of respondents in our study is more representative of well-educated versus poorly or moderately educated members of Thai society.

SCALE DEVELOPMENT AND PILOT TEST OF QUESTIONNAIRES

Original items were generated to reflect two bodies of literature, one concerned with organizational communication competence, and the other with Thai cultural and organizational characteristics, and to tap into the two dimensions of organizational

communication competence discussed earlier: strategic communication knowledge and tactical communication skills. Strategic communication knowledge, as we have seen, refers to the ability to know when and where specific behaviours are situationally appropriate and includes the ability to describe, explain, and interpret messages by assigning meaning to codes, and predict other's behaviour in various communication settings/activities.

Items measuring strategic communication knowledge explored two issues. The first issue focused on the relationship between Thai cultural communication behaviours and communication competence in Thai organizations and in particular four characteristics of Thai culture: low individualism, low masculinity, high power distance, and high uncertainty avoidance.

The second issue involved the relationship between individuals' cognitive abilities (empathy and cognitive complexity) and communication competence in Thai organizations. The communication skills that our literature analysis suggested might be relevant to Thai communication competence included giving feedback, receiving feedback, writing reports/memos, providing information, receiving information, seeking information, giving instructions/orders, taking instructions/orders, advising, persuading/motivating, and networking.

A pilot test was conducted by administering a preliminary questionnaire to five Thai graduate students at a university in the southwestern United States. These students were asked if the design, instructions, and items were clear, if they knew why each item was being asked, and if any items were unnecessary. The results revealed that some items needed to be reworded in order to enhance clarity and consistency and that the format needed slight adjustment to make it easier for individuals to respond. In addition, the questionnaire was shortened by eliminating non-essential and redundant items.

Since the actual study was to be conducted in Thailand, the revised English version of the questionnaire was then translated in format and content into Thai by one of the researchers and several graduate students who were natives of Thailand. Subsequently, the Thai-version was given to a bilingual speaker for back translation. Afterwards, a group of five Thai graduate students were asked to review the Thai-version for clarity and adequacy. To further insure the success of the study, the final revision of the Thai questionnaire was given to ten members of an organization in Thailand for examination. After some slight revisions, the final set of 80 items that were included in the questionnaire were randomized to minimize order effects.

At least ten individuals who were in supervisory positions were asked to respond to the supervisor form of the questionnaire, ten to the subordinate/follower form, and ten to the coworker form (individuals in these latter two groups could be either supervisors or non-supervisors). Of the 413 respondents, 30% responded to the supervisor form of the questionnaire, 37% to the subordinate form and 33% to the coworker version. The questionnaires were divided into two major sections. The first section contained ten

items and sought demographic information: gender, age, highest level of education, the division or department in which they worked, organizational tenure, job tenure, position/nature of job, supervisor's span of control, number of employees in their organization, and their approximate position within the organization chain of command/hierarchy.

The second section consisted of the 80 randomly ordered items describing potential communicative behaviours/skills and forms of knowledge expected to be associated with communicatively competent organizational members. Respondents were asked to think of the most communicatively competent supervisor/subordinate/coworker they knew. Those responding to the supervisor form were asked to think of the most communicatively competent subordinate who worked or had worked for them.

Those completing the subordinate form were asked to think of the most communicatively competent supervisor for whom they worked or had worked. Similarly, those responding to the coworker version of the questionnaire were asked to think of the most communicatively competent coworker with whom they worked or had worked.

Although the "targets" (supervisor/subordinate/coworker) about whom individuals responded varied across the questionnaire forms, the items were the same; across all questionnaires subjects were asked to indicate on five-point, Likert-type scales (1 = strongly agree, 5 = strongly disagree) the extent to which they associated the various communicative skills, behaviours and forms of knowledge with the target.

DATA ANALYSIS

Given the nascent nature of this research, we conducted an exploratory factor analysis (principal components, varimax rotation) of the responses to the questionnaire instrument (by combining data across the questionnaires) to identify key dimensions of communication competence. Initial results indicated a multi-factor solution; an examination of a scree plot and eigenvalues suggested a simple structure of no more than ten factors. A second principal components analysis was conducted limiting the number of factors to ten. In total, the ten factors accounted for 41.7% of the variance; however, only the items in the first factor met basic criteria for factor integrity (given the exploratory nature of this research, an item needed to load at least .50 on one factor and no more than .30 on any other factor).

This one factor was comprised of 21 items, was highly reliable ($\alpha = .88$) and accounted for 15.6% of the variance. Consequently, the items from this factor were summed to form a competence scale. In order to understand why our final factor analysis solution contained only 25% of the items in the competence instrument, we reexamined the descriptive statistics associated with our questionnaire data.

Inspection of these statistics revealed a general low level of variability in the responses of subjects to the questionnaire items (standard deviations for most items were in the .60-.90 range and few exceeded 1.0), thus constraining the magnitude of the correlations possible among the variables and limiting our ability to make use of many of the

questionnaire items in the factor analysis. As a consequence, and in light of our goal of identifying the kinds of communication knowledge and skills most associated with communication competence, we conducted a secondary analysis of our questionnaire data that maximized the variability that was present in our data. First, frequency distributions, means, and standard deviations were examined for each item, allowing the researchers to rank the mean scores of the 80 items from highest to lowest for each of the three groups of respondents (supervisors, subordinates, co-workers) as well as for the respondents as a whole.

Subsequently, those items in the combined data for which the means were 2.5 or less, or greater than 3.5 were isolated for further analysis. Items that had means of 2.5 or less included all items for which there was overall “agreement” that the item described a knowledge or skill closely associated with communication competence. Items that had means of 3.5 or above included all items for which there was overall “disagreement” that the item described a knowledge or skill closely associated with communication competence. In total, 33 items met these criteria (this included all items contained in 21 item competency scale).

We decided to examine the kinds of knowledge and skills that respondents least associated with communication competence, as well as those they most associated with competence, because we suspected that to some degree the two sets of items would complement one another; if this was the case, it would offer support for the internal validity of our results.

Second, separate multivariate analyses of variance were calculated for the high agreement items ($n = 24$) and low agreement items ($n = 9$) across the three “targets” that subjects evaluated with respect to communication competence: super-visors, subordinates, and coworkers. If a Manova test were statistically significant then 1×3 Anova results were examined with respect to each of the questionnaire items associated with the multivariate test. If a univariate F test was significant for an item, then post hoc multiple comparison tests were computed to determine specific difference among the mean for the three “target” groups (supervisors, subordinates, co-workers).

Inspection of the results of factor analysis suggests that communicatively competent members of Thai organizations are expected to understand norms associated with polite, tactful, and respectful communication, display empathic listening skills and high levels of cognitive complexity, and have the ability to seek, give, and process information in a situationally appropriate manner.

In order to determine if respondents’ perceptions of competence varied according to the target they evaluated, a one-way analysis of variance was computed across the three groups - supervisors, co-workers, and subordinates - with respect to their scores on the competence scale. Results of this analysis revealed a non-significant F-ratio and showed minimal differences among the groups. For all, communication competence was associated with the extent to which an individual is open to his/her super-visor’s/

subordinates'/co-workers' questions, proficient in adapting his/her speaking approach and choice of words to people in varying organizational positions and/or situations, knowledgeable about how to address others with whom she/he communicates in different situations, makes use of the information he/she receives, and knows when, where and with whom to express respectfulness when interacting with others. However, there were also a number of distinctions in the knowledge and skills most closely associated with communicatively competent supervisors, subordinates and co-workers. The ability to present job-related information in both oral and written forms was more closely associated with communicatively competent supervisors than co-workers.

In addition, the ability to understand and explain things going on in the organization, speak thoughtfully and calmly even in a crisis, and to socialize with people in all levels of the organization were more closely associated with communication competence for supervisors than for subordinates (the ability to socialize with people in all levels of the organization was also more closely associated with communicatively competent co-workers than subordinates). It was less appropriate for supervisors and co-workers not to try to give advice to others than for subordinates.

In fact, among all the behaviours assessed in the questionnaire, failing to give advice to others was rated as the communication behaviour least associated with communicatively competent supervisors and co-workers.

Respondents were in general agreement that the following forms of knowledge and skill were not highly associated with communicatively competent supervisors, subordinates, or co-workers: Speaking, listening and working all at the same time without looking at the other person, not desiring to receive feedback from others, socializing only with people in the same level or higher in the organization, not questioning the feedback received from others even though it is not clear, and talking about any topic anytime the person wants to (with respect to this latter competency, ANOVA results approached statistical significance, suggesting that while respondents believed this behaviour to be inappropriate for all targets, they perceived it as especially inappropriate for supervisors).

Research Question

The second research question sought to determine if respondents' perceptions of communicatively competent Thai supervisors, subordinates and co-workers vary in light of their organizational role (supervisory, non-supervisory), hierarchical level, the type of organization in which they work (public, state enterprise, private), and their personal characteristics (gender, age, education).

Results associated with the competence scale showed no differences in the scores of supervisors as compared to non-supervisors, individuals at various levels of their organizational hierarchies, between males and females, among employees of varying ages (29 years of age and younger, 3038 years of age, and 39 years of age and older), or

across individuals with various levels of formal education (high school, Associate's degree, Bachelor's degree, graduate degree).

However, results did reveal differences in perceptions among those who worked in public organization, state enterprise organizations, and private companies. More specifically, individuals employed in private concerns agreed more with the notions expressed in the communication competence scale than those who worked in state enterprises, or in public organizations.

In addition to the above analyses, RQ 2 was explored by computing MANOVAs for the items most and least associated with communication competence to discover the presence of interaction effects between the "target" group respondents evaluated (supervisor, subordinate, coworker) and the individual and organizational characteristics noted above. For the group of items least associated with communication competence there were no significant multivariate interaction effects between the target evaluated and any of the organizational and individual characteristics; in addition, there were no significant main effects for any of the characteristics. Results of the tests associated with those items that were perceived as most closely associated with communication competence indicated there were no significant multivariate interaction effects between the "target" evaluated and respondents' gender, age, education, level in the organization hierarchy, the type of organization in which they worked (public, state enterprise, private), or their position (supervisory, non-supervisory).

In addition, with one exception, there were no significant multivariate main effects associated with any of the individual and organizational characteristics. The one significant multivariate main effect that was discovered was associated with the type of organization in which respondents reported working.

An inspection of the univariate ANOVAs revealed significant main effects for twelve of the twenty-four items. These items are reported along with the results of post-hoc Newman-Keuls multiple comparison tests that were computed to determine the nature of the specific differences in responses among those working in the different types of organizations.

Examination of these results suggests, generally speaking, that those working in private companies perceived the behaviours and forms of knowledge described in the various questionnaire items as more indicative of organizational communication competence than those who worked in state enterprises or in public organizations.

This research sought to determine the kinds of communication knowledge and skills that are most associated with communicatively competent members of Thai organizations. Accordingly, questionnaire data were collected from a cross-section of individuals working in fourteen different Thai organizations (including public, private and state enterprises) concerning their perceptions of the kinds of skills/behaviours and forms of knowledge that are characteristic of the most communicatively competent supervisors, subordinates or co-workers with whom they work (or have worked). The

study was founded on the notion that communication competence in Thai organizations requires consideration of unique characteristics of Thai culture (and that “western” approaches to conceptualizing competence needed to be applied to Thai organizations in a cautious manner).

However, it is also important to recognize that the Thai organizational members who participated in this research represent a group with a higher overall level of education than workers in Thailand generally. Thus, just as much of what we know about communication competence in the “west” is limited to white, middle-class persons, the generalizability of our results is limited to middle-class, well-educated Thais (78% of the research participants had at least a bachelor’s degree).

Overall results suggest that Thai organizational members perceive communication competence in terms of knowledge of normative communication behaviours, especially with respect to how to communicate with persons in different organizational roles and/or status, one’s communication skills repertoire, and related cognitive abilities.

As expected, the forms of communication knowledge that Thais perceived to be associated with competence were related to and consistent with the forms of cultural variability that Hofstede, among others, has suggested typify Thai society: low individualism, high power distance, high uncertainty avoidance, and low masculinity.

More specifically, findings suggest that highly competent Thai organizational members are expected to know how to communicate so as to avoid conflict with others, display respect, control their emotions, tactfulness, modesty and politeness, and know the appropriate pronouns to use in addressing others.

For Thais, communication competence was associated with knowing when, where and with whom to express respectful manner in the organization, knowledge of chain of command communication, knowing how to communicate with and honour senior organizational members and show respect for their experience. These findings support the Thai belief that people who assume high social or organizational positions have “boon” (merit), “ba-ra-me” (prestige and influence), and “metra” (compassion) and thus not only know how to use their power to influence others, but also are thoughtful and kind to their subordinates.

In turn, people who are in lower social or organizational positions recognize that they are supposed to be obedient and respectful to those in higher positions. Essentially, these results support the notion that the Thai approach to management is one of benevolent paternalism, and that competent individuals display behaviours consistent with “Orn nork khaeng nai”.

Results also showed that for Thais communication competence also involves knowing how to avoid conflict with others (for example, by not discussing things without regard to the person being referred to, recognizing the inappropriateness of responding negatively to colleague’s opinions, and being able to control the expression of emotions). As noted earlier, Thais believe that inner freedom is best preserved in an emotionally

and physically stable environment, and that social harmony is best maintained by avoiding unnecessary friction in contacts with others.

Thus, it is not surprising that the Thai societal belief in “*kreng jai*” (extreme reluctance to impose on anyone or disturb his/her personal equilibrium by direct criticism, challenge or confrontation) is embedded in the implicit norms that guide Thai organizational communication behaviour. Thais do not value aggressive and competitive behaviour, “tend to be subtle and deferential”, and like to use networking/contacts or “*Len sen*” (knowing somebody) to resolve disputes informally.

The ability to use correct pronouns and carefully select words and speaking approaches in interacting with people in different levels were also identified as important forms of knowledge associated with communication competence. These findings may reflect the high uncertainty avoidance that other researchers have found to characterize Thai culture. By knowing that they are expected to communicate with a gentle tone of voice, display a smiling and pleasant face and friendly manner, use specific respectful pronouns in addressing persons of higher status, and adopt body posture that communicates required levels of respect, deference and intimacy, Thai organizational members reduce a considerable amount of uncertainty they might otherwise experience in their interactions with others. At the same time, however, it is important to recognize that the use of particular first- and second-person pronouns in conversations among Thai organizational members, as well as related body gestures, serve as structural forces that produce and reproduce what some western critics might consider to be a problematic class-based social hierarchy in Thai organizations.

Given that Thai culture is considered to be “high context,” it was not surprising to find that communication competence among Thais was associated with fairly high levels of cognitive complexity and empathy. For instance, communicatively competent workers were expected to be able to propose new ideas related to their jobs and to know the personal backgrounds of others well enough that they can analyse, predict, and accurately respond to the other party’s needs, without having to be asked to do so. These sorts of skills and knowledge appear to be particularly important in superior-subordinate relationships since subordinates are expected to provide their bosses with all the information that they need to perform their jobs and maintain face. In turn, their bosses are expected to “reciprocate by providing for the welfare” of those who work for them.

In general, our results with respect to the kinds of communication skills associated with communication competence in Thai organizations were similar to those frequently identified as important for workers in “western” organizations. These skills include giving instructions, feedback and advice, providing, seeking and receiving information; and writing, listening, networking, and persuading. However, our results also suggest that in Thai organizations individuals also place a very high value on a person’s ability to speak in a gentle, calm, and thoughtful manner. Although it is possible that these speaking attributes may be valued in some “western” organizations, assertive/aggressive

approaches to oral communication have been more frequently identified as typical in western countries. In sum, with a few exceptions, the major source in variance in perceptions of communication competence in Thai organizations, in comparison to those in North America, centres on the knowledge/culture dimension of competence (knowing appropriate ways to use communication to achieve goals) and not on the skill dimension.

Although findings generally supported our expectations, several results were unexpected and provide a somewhat different perspective concerning competent communication in Thai organizations. In particular, while our literature review indicated that supervisors/managers in Thai organizations are not generally interested in soliciting opinions from their subordinates (since those in authority have traditionally exercised their power without consulting followers), our results revealed that supervisors/managers perceived fairly consultative and to some extent participative approaches to communication with subordinates as associated with communication competence.

If, as the literature suggests, Thai managers are expected to know everything for which they are responsible, they may find they can obtain more useful information from their subordinates by encouraging them to be more open in expressing their opinions, providing them with positive feedback for the upward communication of bad as well as good news, and rewarding them for generating new, unsolicited ideas for improving job performance. Consistent with this contention, supervisors rated those subordinates who provide complete information to them, as well as those who ask their supervisors questions about unclear matters, as highly competent communicators. Thus, to some degree, a shift may be occurring in contemporary Thai organizations, such that employee behaviour indicative of higher levels of individualism and lower levels of power distance is becoming more highly regarded than in the past. The developing shift towards consultative/participative management approaches may also reflect the influence of the large number of Thai managers who have attended colleges in the United States, and/or have participated in management programmes offered by western business schools that operate branches in Thailand.

Paradoxically, while communicatively competent subordinates in Thai organizations are expected to be open and straightforward, they are also expected to know how and when to communicate to avoid conflict and interpersonal problems with their supervisors. Thus, to some extent the leader-follower relationship in Thai organizations represents a balance of “supervision” and “leadership” exchanges.

In essence, followers need to walk a fairly high and narrow wire: they must avoid conflict and maintain harmony in their relationships with their supervisors while at the same time they are forthright and complete in sharing information with them. The difficulty in maintaining such a balance is evident in other of our research findings. Specifically, communicatively competent supervisors were seen as being more open in their communication with their subordinates than communicatively competent

subordinates were in their communication with their supervisors. However, the tradition in many Thai organizations of using a “luug maw” (old hand) as an intermediary in helping to resolve conflicts between supervisors and subordinates may also allow subordinates to informally share problematic information with their bosses while at the same time maintaining harmony in their relationships. The role of the “luug maw” in mediating communication problems between supervisors and followers should be explored in future research.

Results of our study also suggest that communicatively competent supervisors are not only expected to have the ability to talk to anybody about anything in any situation, and to be able to communicate a clear vision of organizational concepts to their subordinates, but they are also expected to network with people in all levels of the organization and display “connection power” As noted earlier, “connection power” is associated with networking and may be especially important for Thai supervisors since highly personalized approaches to influence are common in Thai organizations.

Although findings from the present study did not reveal many distinctive characteristics of communicatively competent co-workers in Thai organizations, results suggest that co-workers value peers who excel in their advising and empathic listening skills.

That is, a communicatively competent coworker listens to the problems and opinions of others, gives substantial advice, and commits him/herself to give assistance if it appears the other party needs it. In addition, it appears that the oral exchange of information, without any written follow-up, is considered more acceptable in coworker communication than in interactions between supervisors and their direct reports.

Our results also showed that perceptions of communication competence varied across the three different kinds of organizations we examined: public, state enterprise, and private. In particular, those working in private firms seemed to place a higher value on the communication competencies we examined in this research than those working in public organizations or state enterprises.

Given the competitive nature of for-profit organizations (and the existence of lifetime employment practices in many public and state enterprise organizations), proficiency in communication may be more instrumental to individual success (and thus be more highly valued by workers) in these settings, than among those employed in public or state enterprise organizations.

At the same time, these results also indicate that while there may be many consistencies in individuals’ perceptions of communication competence across types of organizations within any national culture, particular qualities associated with competence may be more or less salient depending on the type of organization in which one works. In considering the results of this research, several limitations, in addition to constraints associated with our sample, should be kept in mind. In particular, due to lack of variability in responses the great majority of competence items were not included

in the communication competence scale that resulted from our factor analysis of the competence measure.

At the same time, however, it should be noted that the factor that did emerge was highly reliable and, generally speaking, was associated with knowledge of politeness/deference norms in communicating with others. Not surprisingly, many of the items associated with this scale were the same ones that were identified as most or least associated with communicatively competent supervisors, subordinates, and co-workers (thus adding support to our findings).

In light of our fairly elaborate efforts to pilot test the questionnaires prior to collecting data, possible reasons for the lack of variability in responses to these instruments warrants consideration. One possible reason for constrained variation in responses may be associated with the manner in which Thais approach the completion of questionnaire items that utilize Likert-type response formats (strongly agree to strongly disagree).

Given Thai cultural norms associated with conflict avoidance, deference, politeness, etc., our respondents may have felt that it was inappropriate to strongly agree or disagree with many of the statements presented in the questionnaire items.

Ancillary data collected as part of this study, but not reported earlier, support this interpretation. Specifically, data gathered in moderately structured interviews (lasting approximately 40-60 minutes each) conducted with managers from seven of the ten organizations participating in the research (one interview/organization) produced results very similar to those obtained from the questionnaire data.

Thus, the same norms that may have been operating to limit variability in responses to questions asked in our paper-and-pencil competence measure may have affected our efforts to elicit information from respondents in face-to-face interviews. In light of this possibility, we recommend that future research explore the interaction between values and norms associated with Thai culture and the methods that researchers use to collect data. More generally, alternatives to traditional western research methodologies may require development if we are to obtain valid, representative, and useful data about communication in organizations in non-western countries/cultures such as Thailand.

INTERPERSONAL SKILLS TRAINING

Interpersonal skills, in layman's terms, refer to the skills individuals need when they interact with other people. Also, the meaning of interpersonal skills has a number of synonyms, such as social skills, soft skills, people skills, or communication skills. The distinctions among the terms are not always clear, in many cases they are used interchangeably. Despite the significance of interpersonal skills in our life, research on interpersonal skills training is difficult to find.

One explanation for this might be because interpersonal skills are used unconsciously as a part of daily life; people view the interpersonal domain as inborn skills or

characteristics, not skills or knowledge to be acquired consciously. Another reason for this might be the overarching characteristics of interpersonal skills, which require the combination of cognitive, psychomotor and affective components simultaneously.

Many researchers explain that interpersonal skills have complicated characteristics. Marlowe's social intelligence model shows multidimensional characteristics as consisting of: care for others, social self-efficacy, and the ability to understand others.

Similarly, Hargie identifies the following six characteristics of interpersonal skills:

- Goal-directedness and intentionality.
- Inter-related situationally appropriate social behaviours.
- Qualitative differences in social behaviour.
- A series of related skills in sequence.
- The composition of the sub-skills.
- The influence of cognitive control.

Similarly, Bailey and Butcher emphasized that effective interpersonal skills training should focus on developing perceptual, cognitive, and behavioural skills components together. That is, learners need to make reasonable judge-ments at the perceptual level to respond in a timely manner. At the cognitive level, the learners should understand the purpose of an interaction and have clear ideas of what appropriate behaviours are in specific situations.

Finally, the learners should demonstrate actual behavi-ours at the performance level to execute their individual interpersonal skills. These multidimensional characteristics of interpersonal skills require a different instructional approach from traditional approaches that focus on developing individuals' cognitive skills. Given the complexity of inter-personal skills characteristics, combining two or more methods that have different strengths and weaknesses may promise better results. This implies the necessity of an integrated approach for interpersonal skills training.

BEHAVIOUR MODELING TRAINING

Behaviour modeling has been recognized as the most appropriate instructional method for interpersonal skills training since 1970. It is primarily based on Bandura's social learning theory, which explains that people can learn by observing others. Noe defined behaviour modeling as "A training method in which trainees are presented with a model who demonstrates key behaviours to replicate and provides them with the opportunity to practice those key behaviours". The primary advantage of behaviour modeling is that it enables individuals to learn without a trial and error process.

Therefore, behaviour modeling serves as an efficient way to teach interpersonal skills by reducing the costs and time involved in a trial and error process. In addition to the efficiency of behaviour modeling, many research studies report its effectiveness. From the learning theory perspective, Simon and Werner explained that behaviour modeling is somewhere between direct instruction and exploration in the continuum of instructional

methods because it provides learners with both cognitive instruction and the opportunities to explore learning content with practices. That is, behaviour modeling enhances learning effectiveness by combining bipolar approaches.

Decker and Nathan provided five components of behaviour modeling:

- Modeling.
- Retention process
- Behavioural rehearsal
- Feedback
- Transfer of training.

The graphic representation of the behaviour modeling training process is as follows:

First, modeling is the most distinct feature of the behaviour modeling approach. The objective of modeling is to facilitate the learners' attention towards the key behaviours, which is a set of behaviours intended for the students to learn. Decker and Nathan indicated that when a model's behaviour is "distinctive, meaningful to the observer, not too complex, and observable," the effectiveness of modeling is increased.

Second, the retention process facilitates learners' memorization of what they learn from the models. As Bandura mentioned, if learners do not remember what they saw during the modeling, learning will not occur.

To facilitate the retention process, Decker and Nathan recommended using learning points, which are verbal instructions in words or phrases, to summarize or generalize key behaviours. Third, behavioural rehearsal provides the learners with opportunities to practice the modeled behaviours.

Acquiring cognitive concepts of skills does not guarantee actual behaviour reproduction, so it is necessary to provide learners with practice opportunities to enhance the likelihood of obtaining desirable performances. Dick and Carey indicated that practice and feedback are key to the success of psychomotor skills acquisition.

Finally, the learners are asked to apply the new knowledge gleaned from the models to their real life. The significance of transfer of training cannot be overemphasized because it is expected to eventually lead to positive performance results, which is the ultimate goal of providing learners with training.

Online Interpersonal Skills Training

Some researchers are skeptical about the effectiveness of interpersonal skills training delivered by technology because of the limited interaction and feedback in the online environment. Meanwhile, others are enthusiastic about conveying interpersonal skills training through technology because of the cost-effectiveness it achieves by reducing training costs and its delivery time.

The former are more concerned about learning effectiveness of online interpersonal skills training whereas the latter have high expectations of online learning for the cost-effectiveness reasons. In terms of cost-effectiveness of interpersonal skills training

programmes, Campbell, Lison, Brosook, Hoover, and Arnold compared training programmes conveyed by way of computer/video technology and instructor-led programmes and found that there is no significant difference in learning gains between the two programmes.

As a result, they claimed that computer/video technology can reduce costs and instructors' working hours to half that which would be spent on instructor-led programmes. Despite Campbell and his colleague's study, the effects of interpersonal skills training delivered by technology are still controversial because of insufficient empirical evidence. However, in spite of the technical and pedagogical limitations of online environments for interpersonal skills training, given the proliferation of online learning and the magnitude of interpersonal skills in daily life, it is imperative to explore the most effective method to deliver interpersonal skills training online.

Based on the proven effectiveness of behaviour modeling for interpersonal skills training in classrooms, this study applied it to online environments. For this, some changes should be made because of the discrepancies between online and classroom learning environments. One change is model presentation. Given that models convey learning content, key behaviours, it is necessary to design instructionally effective models for learning outcomes.

The model presentation formats can be live, video, audio, written scripts, or a combination of two or more of these methods. For enhancing the effectiveness of modeling, Decker and Nathan indicated that models' behaviours should be displayed in enough detail to convey the learning content. By contrast, from the cognitive load theory, some researchers insist that it is necessary to provide learners with the appropriate amount of information because of a learners' limited working memory.

Meanwhile, Bandura stated that the effectiveness of modeling is determined by the learners' cognitive development in interpreting key behaviours and the models' characteristics, such as its complicatedness. He also added that if the amount of information conveyed is identical, the presentation formats do not influence learning outcomes because the role of model presentations is to provide learners with information.

However, when the results of information processing are defined broadly by processed amount, speed, accuracy, and cost-effectiveness, the model presentation formats may influence the learning outcomes in certain ways.

MASS MEDIA/INTERPERSONAL CONNECTIONS

Fortunately, in most communication campaigns, we do not have to choose between mass media and interpersonal programmes. The two can work together well in augmenting the impact of a programme. Each reinforces the effects of the other; one picks up where the other leaves off. In this section we will describe the relationship between mass media and interpersonal phases of a communication campaign and show

how each contributes to the overall effectiveness of specialized communication activities. In these discussions, we expect that companies becoming involved in specialized communications will want to reach a large number of people. They may wisely choose to divide the larger audience into smaller units for individual treatment, but their primary objective is to reach more than a handful of receivers. It is therefore given that the mass media will be involved in all programmes, even those that plan to reach people on a one-on-one basis.

Since we will assume one or some combination of media will be employed in all campaigns, we must view the use of interpersonal programmes in the context of the mass media scheme. With this in mind, let us make clear that adding an interpersonal feature to a communication campaign is not just like adding another car to a train. Do not view an interpersonal component as an addendum to a mass media programme, but as an integral feature of it. In a campaign that has an interpersonal component, mass media will be used differently than in cases where no interpersonal feature is planned. Our discussions here will be confined to the use of media that support an interpersonal component.

In this context the mass media serve two essential functions. First, they help familiarize the audience with basic concepts and issues involved in a campaign. They provide information that enables the audience to recognize how the service, product, or idea relates to them personally. They familiarize the audience and make people comfortable with the subject of the campaign. The second function of the media deals specifically with the interpersonal element: They inform people about what they should do to become involved in the interpersonal programme, and they persuade target audiences to take this step towards involvement. They may also incorporate more substantive persuasion elements dealing with issues, although major persuasive efforts will likely be reserved for the interpersonal programme.

Introducing Concepts

Whether a company is introducing an innovation that is unknown to an audience or presenting a familiar issue in a new wrapping, it is important to familiarize the audience with basic concepts. Audiences need access to fundamental information on which they can base decisions. We cannot expect people to invest personal energy in an interpersonal programme if they have no idea about the relevance and importance of the topic or product being promoted. Mass media are used as the primary means of acquainting audience members with these issues.

Take, for example, one of the many innovations in the computer industry. A company by the name of Cauzin Systems, Inc., has introduced a clever method of data storage for business computers. Unlike tape and floppy disks that store information on a magnetic medium, Cauzin's system uses a simple strip of paper with markings resembling three-dimensional dots that are read by a light beam. The company has a valuable product

and obviously would like to market it to a specialized audience of business computer users. In its initial advertising phases, the company bought space in major business computer magazines where it described the central features of its “Softstrip” technology. It provided the audience with basic information about how the product worked and suggested that businesses could use such an innovation in their operations.

They avoided technical discussions (which might have frightened their audience), and offered just enough information to help potential customers understand the concept of Softstrip technology and recognize its application to their activities. In this case, magazines provided the initial contact with primary target audience groups. They introduced the product name and described its basic functions. They also explained how the product might be used in business computer applications, showing the relevance of the product to potential customers. The Cauzin ads went one step further, however, by leading interested readers into the interpersonal phase of the communication programme through the magazine ads. We will discuss their techniques in the following section.

Interpersonal Link

In most interpersonal programmes, customers need to be invited into the programme, and the mass media are best used to extend the invitation. The media tell people something about the information available in an interpersonal programme, and they tell them how to go about obtaining this information.

The best techniques for drawing mass media audiences into interpersonal programmes involve a few simple principles. First, requirements of the receiver should be minimal and easy to fulfill. As long as someone is not obliged to invest much energy or spend much time, he or she is more likely to take that next step. This is why many companies have obtained toll-free 800 lines to accommodate customer requests for further involvement. Although a number of businesses still use postage-paid, returnable post cards, among many that rely heavily on interpersonal customer contact, the 800 lines have become an efficient alternative.

It is easy to dial a few numbers, particularly for people who have grown comfortable with using the telephone for so many business and personal applications. Despite the technique eventually chosen, observe this basic rule: Keep the method of contact simple.

The second principle concerns the value of a reward. People will seek to become involved further in communications with a company if they recognize a value in doing so. What do they get for their efforts? Some companies offer a nominal prize or gift for continuing the communication process, and for many audiences some tangible premium may be necessary. For your efforts, many computer software companies will send a free demonstration diskette that exhibits basic features of a programme without providing the full power of the product. Other companies send buttons, photos, or free samples of soap or perfume. We know of one company that even sends along samples of stained

glass. Such premiums allow the potential customer to sample the wares before purchase, but they also serve as an inducement for the receiver to send in a bid for continuing the communication process.

Rewards need not be physical products. Often the dividend for investing one's energy will be the information itself. Receivers may not need more than the promise of becoming further involved in learning about a product, service, or idea. Based on what they see in the mass media, they may develop only a genuine interest in learning more—not the hope of acquiring some prize. The information itself is a prize. In this case, of course, the company must make the promise of information attractive. Receivers must be assured their efforts will result in something of use to them. Perhaps they will receive an attractive packet of information that will further describe a product or a telephone call from someone who will answer their questions and provide additional details. People rightly expect to get something for their efforts, and the mass media can best describe the reward.

The final technique of bringing people from a mass media environment to the interpersonal setting involves safety and respondent obligation. People have grown wary of becoming too involved too quickly. They may be willing to have a company mail information or even have a representative phone them, but when it comes to a personal visit, they may feel pressured and so shy away from making the initial reply. Whatever the company plans for a follow-up interpersonal contact, it should be certain not to imply a threat. Assure the receiver that he or she is not obligated to buy anything or do anything chosen not to do as a result of taking the next step.

With these features in mind—require little time, give fair rewards, and promise no hassle—the bid made in a mass media message will have a stronger chance of acceptance by potential customers. Such an approach requires minimum effort, promises a reasonable expectation of some return, and guarantees relative safety—three important characteristics of any business transaction.

Although we have discussed designs in which a single type of follow-up interpersonal programme was implied, nothing limits companies from offering several of these programmes. A company may use the media to suggest a few ways to follow through, for instance, phoning the company, filling out a postcard, or visiting a shop or office. Each offers a different level of commitment by the receiver and a different intensity of interpersonal contact. By offering several such possibilities, the company can sort individuals into those who prefer to proceed slowly, minimizing initial involvement, and those who are ready for a more intensive interaction.

Such an approach has been well used in the magazine advertisements of Cauzin Systems, which we cited as an example earlier. Recall that this company markets a product that stores computer data on strips of ordinary typing paper and has chosen to promote this product to specialized audiences through targeted business computer magazines. It also has planned to reach customers with well-designed interpersonal

components detailing the innovation. Three interpersonal communication programme options were presented in the Cauzin ads. First, customers could write in for additional information. Recognizing that some people might be reluctant to write or might not wish to wait for a reply, Cauzin published an 800 number by which receivers could request the same information or talk directly with company representatives about the Softstrip product. In this second application, the company escalated the level of communication. For those ready to move more quickly with their decision or who had no need for the intermediate step of reading additional descriptions, the phone call offered more direct and immediate access to company representatives.

A clever inducement was used to urge receivers into the final interpersonal programme. A printed strip, about five and one-half inches long and five-eighth inch wide, appeared along the outside margin of the magazine page—it was a functional example of a Softstrip programme. Instructions beneath this oddlooking column of three-dimensional dots suggested the reader take the advertisement to the nearest computer store where the programme could be “read.” The ad claimed that this strip, no bigger than three and one-half square inches, contained a large amount of interesting information.

For a computer aficionado, the enticement was compelling. For the company, the potential payoff was substantial. Here was a fairly simple, high-reward, and relatively low-threat inducement to attract audience members willing to become involved more quickly. Of course, while customers were having their strips read, they should have been prepared for the sales pitch. Most people who would take the ad to a computer store probably would be willing to hear what the salesperson had to say. Those who were not might have opted for one of the less intense interpersonal programme alternatives—the postcard or the phone call. At the bottom line of this discussion lies the relationship between the mass media and interpersonal portions of a communication campaign.

They work together, not in opposition. The mass media set up conditions of, announce the features of, and provide information about procedures necessary to take the step into interpersonal portions of the communication programme. In the following section, we will examine in more detail the association between these two forms of communication.

Programme Considerations

Think of the combined mass media/interpersonal communication programme as a series of steps that ratchet upward the level of involvement between message source and receiver. We begin with a general information forum and step up to more specific, refined, interpersonal transactions. In the early phases, a company seeks the audience through public channels. In the later phases, the receivers seek the company through private channels. We move from information to persuasion, from audience-passive to

audience-active formats. At each level, as the receiver's involvement increases, the inherent strengths of interpersonal communications simultaneously expand; the potential for successful persuasion becomes greater. Communicators must keep this perspective in view. The mass media involvement is a prelude to the interpersonal portions of the campaign.

5

CHAPTER

Motivation Theory of Personality Development

The history of Man's thought is the real history of mankind. Back of all the events of history are the curious systems of beliefs for which men have lived and died. Struggling to understand himself, Man has built up and discarded superstitions, theologies and sciences.

Early in this strange and fascinating history he divided himself into two parts—a body and a mind. Working together with body, mind somehow was of different stuff and origin than body and had only a mysterious connection with it. Theology supported this belief; metaphysics and philosophy debated it with an acumen that was practically sterile of usefulness. Mind and body “interacted” in some mysterious way; mind and body were “parallel” and so set that thought-processes and brain-processes ran side by side without really having anything to do with one another. With the development of modern anatomy, physiology and psychology, the time is ripe for men boldly to say that applying the principle of causation in a practical manner leaves no doubt that mind and character are organic, are functions of the organism and do not exist independently of it. I emphasize “practical” in relation to causation because it would be idle for us here to enter into the philosophy of cause and effect. Such discussion is not taken seriously by the very philosophers who most earnestly enter into it.

The statement that mind is a function of the organism is not necessarily “materialistic.” The body is a living thing and as such is as “spiritualistic” as life itself. Enzymes, internal secretions, nervous activities are the products of cells whose powers are indeed

drawn from the ocean of life. To prove this statement, which is a cardinal thesis of this book, I shall adduce facts of scientific and facts of common knowledge. One might start with the statement that the death of the body brings about the abolition of mind and character, but this, of course, proves nothing, since it might well be that the body was a lever for the expression of mind and character, and with its disappearance as a functioning agent such expression was no longer possible. It is convenient to divide our exposition into two parts, the first the dependence upon proper brain function and structure, and the second the dependence upon the proper health of other organs. For it is not true that mind and character are functions of the brain alone; they are functions of the entire organism. The brain is simply the largest and most active of the organs upon which the mental life depends; but there are minute organs, as we shall see, upon whose activity the brain absolutely depends.

Any injury to the brain may destroy or seriously impair the mentality of the individual. This is too well known to need detailed exposition. Yet some cases of this type are fundamental in the exquisite way they prove (if anything can be proven) the dependence of mind upon bodily structure. In some cases of fracture of the skull, a piece of bone pressing upon the brain may profoundly alter memory, mood and character. Removal of the piece of bone restores the mind to normality. This is also true of brain tumor of certain types, for example, frontal endotheliomata, where early removal of the growth demonstrates first that a “physical” agent changes mind and character, and second that a “physical” agent, such as the knife of the surgeon, may act to reestablish mentality.

In cases of hydrocephalus (or water on the brain), where there is an abnormal secretion of cerebro-spinal fluid acting to increase the pressure on the brain, the simple expedient of withdrawing the fluid by lumbar puncture brings about normal mental life. As the fluid again collects, the mental life becomes cloudy, and the character alters (irritability, depressed mood, changed purpose, lowered will); another lumbar puncture and presto!—the individual is for a time made over more completely than conversion changes a sinner,—and more easily.

Take the case of the disease known as General Paresis, officially called Dementia Paralytica. This disease is caused by syphilis and is one of its late results. The pathological changes are widespread throughout the brain but may at the onset be confined mostly to the frontal lobes. The very first change may be—and usually is—a change in character! The man hitherto kind and gentle becomes irritable, perhaps even brutal. One whose sex morals have been of the most conventional kind, a loyal husband, suddenly becomes a profligate, reckless and debauched, perhaps even perverted. The man of firm purposes and indefatigable industry may lose his grip upon the ambitions and strivings of his lifetime and become an inert slacker, to the amazement of his associates. Many a fine character, many a splendid mind, has reached a lofty height and then crumbled before the assaults of this disease upon the brain. Philosopher, poet, artist, statesman, captain of industry, handicraftsman, peasant, courtesan and housewife,—all are lowered to the

same level of dementia and destroyed character by the consequences of the thickened meninges, the altered blood vessels and the injured nerve cells.

Now and then one is fortunate enough to treat with success an early case of General Paresis. And then the reversed miracle takes place, unfortunately too rarely! The disordered mind, the altered character, leaps upward to its old place,—after being dosed by the marvelous drug Salvarsan, created by the German Jewish scientist, Paul Ehrlich. Of extraordinary interest are the rare cases of loss of personal identity seen after brain injury, say in war. A man is knocked unconscious by a blow and upon restoration of consciousness is separated from that past in which his ego resides. He does not know his history or his name, and that continuity of the “self” so deeply prized and held by all religions to be part of his immortality is gone. Then after a little while, a few days or weeks, the disarranged neuron pathways reestablish themselves as usual,—and the ego comes back to the man.

One might cite the feeble-mindedness that results from meningitis, brain tumor, brain abscess, brain wounds, etc., as further evidence of the dependence of mind upon brain, of its status as a function of brain. No philosopher seriously doubts that equilibrium and movement are functions of the brain, and yet to prove this there is no evidence of any other kind than that cited to prove the relationship of mind to brain. And what applies to the intelligence applies as forcibly to character, for purpose, emotion, mood, instinct and will are altered with these diseases. Interesting as is the relationship between mind and character and the brain, it is at the present overshadowed by the fascinating relationship between these psychical activities and the bodily organs. What I am about to cite from medicine and biology is part of the finest achievements of these sciences and hints at a future in which a true science of mind and character will appear.

Certain of the glands of the body are described as glands of internal secretions in that the products of their activity, their secretions, are poured into the blood stream rather than on the surface of the body or into the digestive tract. The most prominent of these glands, all of which are very small and extraordinarily active, are as follows: The Pituitary Body (Hypophysis)—a tiny structure which is situated at the base of the brain but is not a part of that organ.

The Pineal Body (Epiphysis)—a still smaller structure, located within the brain substance, having, however, no relationship to the brain. This gland has only lately acquired a significance. Descartes thought it the seat of the soul because it is situated in the middle of the brain. The Thyroid gland, a somewhat larger body, situated in the front of the neck, just beneath the larynx. We shall deal with this in some detail later on.

The Parathyroids, minute organs, four in number, just behind the thyroid. The Thymus, a gland placed just within the thorax, which reaches its maximum size at birth and then gradually recedes until at twenty it has almost disappeared. The Adrenal glands, one on each side of the body, above and adjacent to the kidney. These glands, which are each made up of two opposing structures, stand in intimate relation to the sympathetic nervous

system and secrete a substance called adrenalin. The Sex organs, the ovary in the female and the testicle in the male, in addition to producing the female egg (ovum) and the male seed (sperm), respectively, produce substances of unknown character that have hugely important roles in the establishment of mind, temperament and sex character.

Without going into the details of the functions of the endocrine glands, one may say that they are “the managers of the human body.” Every individual, from the time he is born until the time he dies, is under the influence of these many different kinds of elements,—some of them having to do with the development of the bones and teeth, some with the development of the body and nervous system, some with the development of the mind, etc. (and character), and later on with reproduction. These glands are not independent of one another but interact in a marvelous manner so that under or overaction of any one of them upsets a balance that exists between them, and thus produces a disorder that is quite generalized in its effects. The work on this subject is a tribute to medicine and one pauses in respect and admiration before the names and labors of Brown, Sequard, Addison, Graves and Basedow, Horsley, King, Schiff, Schafer, Takamine, Marie, Cushing, Kendal, Sajous and others of equal insight and patient endeavor.

But let us pass over to the specific instances that bear on our thesis, to wit, that mind and character are functions of the organism and have their seat not only in the brain but in the entire organism.

How do the endocrines prove this? As well as they prove that physical growth and the growth of the secondary sex characters are dependent on these glands. Take diseases of the thyroid gland as the first and shining example. The thyroid secretes a substance which substantially is an “iodized globulin,”—and which can be separated from the gland products. This secretion has the main effect of “activating metabolism” (Vassale and Generali); in ordinary phrase it acts to increase the discharge of energy of the cells of the body. In all living things there is a twofold process constantly going on: first the building up of energy by means of the foodstuffs, air and water taken in, and second a discharge of energy in the form of heat, motion and—in my belief —emotion and thought itself, though this would be denied by many psychologists. Yet how escape this conclusion from the following facts? There is a congenital disease called cretinism which essentially is due to a lack of thyroid secretion. This disease is particularly prevalent in Southern France, Spain, Upper Italy and Switzerland. It is characterized mainly by marked dwarfism and imbecility, so that the adult untreated cretin remains about as large as a three or four-year-old child and has the mental level about that of a child of the same age. But, this comparison as to intelligence is a gross injustice to the child, for it leaves out the difference in character between the child and the cretin. The latter has none of the curiosity, the seeking for experience, the active interest, the pliant expanding will, the sweet capacity for affection, friendship and love present in the average child. The cretin is a travesty on the human being in body, mind and character. But feed him

thyroid gland. Mind you, the dried substance of the glands, not of human beings, but of mere sheep. The cretin begins to grow mentally and physically and loses to a large extent the grotesqueness of his appearance. He grows taller; his tongue no longer lolls in his mouth; the hair becomes finer, the hands less coarse, and the patient exhibits more normal human emotions, purposes, intelligence. True, he does not reach normality, but that is because other defects beside the thyroid defect exist and are not altered by the thyroid feeding.

There is a much more spectacular disease to be cited, —a relatively infrequent but well-understood condition called myxoedema, which occurs mainly in women and is also due to a deficiency in the thyroid secretion. As a result the patient, who may have been a bright, capable, energetic person, full of the eager purposes and emotions of life, gradually becomes dull, stupid, apathetic, without fear, anger, love, joy or sorrow, and without purpose or striving. In addition the body changes, the hair becomes coarse and scanty, the skin thick and swollen (hence the name of the disease) and various changes take place in the sweat secretion, the heart action, etc.

Then, having made the diagnosis, work the great miracle! Obtain the dried thyroid glands of the sheep, prepared by the great drug houses as a by-product of the butcher business, and feed this poor, transformed creature with these glands! No fairy waving a magical wand ever worked a greater enchantment, for with the first dose the patient improves and in a relatively short time is restored to normal in skin, hair, sweat, etc., and MIND and character! To every physician who has seen this happen under his own eyes and by his direction there comes a conviction that mind and character have their seat in the organic activities of the body,—and nowhere else.

An interesting confirmation of this is that when the thyroid is overactive, a condition called hyperthyroidism, the patient becomes very restless and thin, shows excessive emotionality, sleeplessness, has a rapid heart action, tremor and many other signs not necessary to detail here. The thyroid in these cases is usually swollen. One of the methods used to treat the disease is to remove some of the gland surgically. In the early days an operator would occasionally remove too, much gland and then the symptoms, of myxoedema would occur. This necessitated the artificial feeding of thyroid the rest of the patient's life! With the proper dosage of the gland substance the patient remains normal; with too little she becomes dull and stupid; with too much she becomes unstable and emotional! There are plenty of other examples of the influence of the endocrines on mind, character and personality. I here briefly mention a few of these.

In the disease called acromegaly, which is due to a change in the pituitary gland, amongst other things are noted "melancholic tendencies, loss of memory and mental and physical torpor." A very profound effect on character and personality, exclusive of intelligence, is that of the sex glands. One need not accept the Freudian extravagances regarding the way in which the sex feelings and impulses enter into our thoughts, emotions, purposes and acts. No unbiased observer of himself or his fellows but knows

that the satisfaction or non-satisfaction of the sex feeling, its excitation or its suppression are of great importance in the destinies of character. Further, man as herdsman and man as tyrant have carried on huge experiments to show how necessary to normal character the sex glands are. As herdsman he has castrated his male Bos and obtained the ox. And the ox is the symbol of patience, docility, steady labour, without lust or passion,—and the very opposite of his non-castrated brother, the bull. The bull is the symbol of irritability and unteachableness, who will not be easily yoked or led and who is the incarnation of lust and passion. One is the male transformed into neuter gender; and the other is rampant with the fierceness of his sex.

Compare the eunuch and the normal man. If the eunuch state be imposed in infancy, the shape of the body, its hairiness, the quality of the voice and the character are altered in characteristic manner. The eunuch essentially is neither man nor woman, but a repelling Something intermediate.

Enough has been said to show that mind and character are dependent upon the health of the brain and the glands of the body; that somewhere in the interaction of tissues, in the chemistry of life, arises thought, purpose, emotion, conduct and deed. But we need not go so far afield as pathology to show this, for common experience demonstrates it as well.

If character is control of emotions, firmness of purpose, cheerfulness of outlook and vigour of thought and memory, then the tired man, worn out by work or a long vigil, is changed in character. Such a person in the majority of cases is irritable, showing lack of control and emotion; he slackens in his life's purposes, loses cheerfulness and outlook and finds it difficult to concentrate his thoughts or to recall his memories. Though this change is temporary and disappears with rest, the essential fact is not altered, namely, fatigue alters character. It is also true that not all persons show this vulnerability to fatigue in equal measure. For that matter, neither do they show an equal liability to infectious diseases, equal reaction to alcohol or injury. The feeling of vigour which rest gives changes the expression of personality to a marked degree. It is true that we are not apt to think of the tired man as changed in character; yet we must admit on reflection that he has undergone transformation.

Even a loaded bowel may, as is well known, alter the reaction to life. Among men who are coarse in their language there is a salutation more pertinent than elegant that enquires into the state of the bowels. The famous story of Voltaire and the Englishman, in which the sage agreed to suicide because life was not worth living when his digestion was disordered and who broke his agreement when he purged himself, illustrates how closely mood is related to the intestinal tract. And mood is the background of the psychic life, upon which depends the direction of our thoughts, cheerful or otherwise, the vigour of our will and purpose. Mood itself arises in part from the influences that stream into the muscles, joints, heart, lungs, liver, spleen, kidneys, digestive tract and all the organs and tissues by way of the afferent nerves (sympathetic and cerebro-spinal). Mood is

thus in part a reflection of the health and proper working of the organism; it is the most important aspect of the subconsciousness, and upon it rests the structure of character and personality.

This does not mean that only the healthy are cheerful, or that the sick are discouraged. To affirm the dependence of mind upon body is not to deny that one may build up faith, hope, courage, through example and precept, or that one may not inherit a cheerfulness and courage (or the reverse). "There are men," says James, "who are born under a cloud." But exceptional individuals aside, the mass of mankind generates its mood either in the tissues of the body or in the circumstances of life. Children, because they have not built up standards of thought, mood and act, demonstrate in a remarkable manner the dependence of their character upon health.

A child shows the onset of an illness by a complete change in character. I remember one sociable, amiable lad of two, rich in the curiosity and expanding friendliness of that time of life, who became sick with diphtheria. All his basic moods became altered, and all his wholesome reactions to life disappeared. He was cross and contrary, he had no interest in people or in things, he acted very much as do those patients in an insane hospital who suffer from *Dementia Praecox*.

What is character if it is not interest and curiosity, friendliness and love, obedience and trust, cheerfulness and courage? Yet a sick child, especially if very young, loses all these and takes on the reverse characters. The little lad spoken of became "himself" again when the fever and the pain lifted. Yet for a long time afterwards he showed a greater liability to fear than before, and it was not until six months or more had repaired the more subtle damage to his organism that he became the hardy little adventurer in life that he had been before the illness. There is plenty of chemical proof of this thesis as here set forth. Men have from time immemorial put things "in their bellies to steal their brains away." The chemical substance known as ethyl alcohol has been an artificial basis of good fellowship the world over, as well as furnishing a very fair share of the tragedy, the misery and the humor of the world. This is because, when ingested in any amount, its absorption produces changes in the flow of thought, in the attitude towards life, in the mood, the emotions, the purposes, the conduct,—in a word, in character. One sees the austere man, when drunk, become ribald; the repressed, close-fisted become open-mouthed and open-hearted; the kindly, perhaps brutal; the controlled, uncontrolled. In the change of character its effects is the regret over its passing and the greatest reason for prohibition.

Alcohol causes several well-defined mental diseases as well as mere drunkenness. In *Delirium Tremens* there is an acute delirium, with confusion, excitement and auditory and visual hallucinations of all kinds. The latter symptom is so prominent as to give the reason for the popular name of the "snakes." In alcoholic hallucinosis the patient has delusions of persecution and hears voices accusing him of all kinds of wrong-doing. Very frequently, as all the medical writers note, these voices are "conscience

exteriorized”; that is, the voices say of him just what he has been saying of himself in the struggle against drink. Then there is Alcoholic Paranoia, a disease in which the main change is a delusion of jealousy directed against the mate, who is accused of infidelity. It is interesting that in the last two diseases the patient is “clear-headed”; memory and orientation are good; the patient speaks well and gives no gross signs of his trouble. As the effects of the alcohol wear away, the patient recovers,—*i.e.*, his character returns to its normal.

It becomes necessary at this point to take up a reverse side of our study, namely, what is often called the influence of “mind over matter.” Such cures of disease as seem to follow prayer and faith are cited; such incidents as the great strength of men under emotion or the disturbances of the body by ideas are listed as examples. This is not the place to discuss cures by faith. It suffices to say this: that in the first place most of such cures relate to hysteria, a disease we shall discuss later but which is characterized by symptoms that appear and disappear like magic. I have seen “cured” (and have “cured”) such patients, affected with paralysis, deafness, dumbness, blindness, etc., with reasoning, electricity, bitter tonics, fake electrodes, hypnotism, and in one case by a forcible slap upon a prominent and naked part of the body. Hysteria has been the basis of many a saint’s reputation and likewise has aided many a physician into affluence.

Nor is the effect of coincidence taken into account in estimating cures, whether by faith or by drugs. Many a physician has owed his start to the fact that he was called in on some obscure case just when the patient was on the turn towards recovery. He then receives the credit that belonged to Nature. Medical men understand this,—that many diseases are “self-limited” and pass through a cycle influenced but little by treatment. But faith curists do not so understand, and neither does the mass of people, so that neither one nor the other separates “post hoc” from “propter hoc.” If the truth were told, most of the miracle and faith cures that are not of hysterical origin are due to coincidence. Faith curists report in detail their successes, but we have no statistics whatever of their failures. If thought is a product of the brain activated by the rest of the organism, it would be perfectly natural to expect that thought would influence the organism. That thought is intimately associated with impulses to action is well known. This action largely takes place in the speech muscles but also it irradiates into the rest of the organism. Especially is this true if the thought is associated with some emotion.

Emotion, as we shall discuss it later, is at least in large part a bodily reaction, a disturbance in heart, lungs, abdominal organs, blood vessels, sympathetic nervous system, endocrines, etc. The effect of thought and emotion upon the body, whether to heighten its activity or to lower its activity, is, from my point of view, merely the effect of one function of the organism upon others. We are not surprised if digestion affects thinking and mood, and we need not be surprised if thought and mood disturb or improve digestion. And we may substitute for digestion any other organic function. As a working basis, substantiated by the kind of proof we use in our daily lives in laboratories and machine shops, we may

state that mind, character and personality are organic in their origin and are functions of the entire organism. What a man thinks, does and feels (or perhaps we should reverse this order) is the result of environmental forces playing upon a marvelously intricate organism in which every part reacts on every other part, in which nervous energy influences digestion and digestion influences nervous energy, in which enzymes, hormones, and endocrines engage in an extraordinary game of checks and balance, which in the normal course of events make for the individual's welfare. What a man thinks, does, and feels influences the fate of his organism from one end of life to the other.

We have not adduced in favour of the organic nature of mind, character and personality the facts of heredity. This is a most important set of facts, for if the egg and the sperm carry mentality and personality, they may be presumed to carry them in some organic form, as organic potentialities, just as they carry size, colour, sex, etc. That abnormal mind is inherited is shown in family insanity in the second, third and fourth generation cases of mental disease. Certain types of feeble-mindedness surely are transmitted from generation to generation, as witness the case of the famous (or infamous) Jukes family. In this group vagabondage, crime, immorality and other character abnormalities appeared linked with the feeble-mindedness. But there is plenty of evidence to show that normal character qualities are inherited as well as the abnormal. Galton, the father of eugenics, collected facts from the history of successful families to prove this. It is true that he failed to take into account the facts of SOCIAL heredity, in that a gifted man establishes a place for himself and a tradition for his family that is of great help to his son. Nevertheless, musical ability runs in families and races, as does athletic ability, high temper, passion, etc. In short, at least the potentialities, the capacities for character, are transmitted together with other qualities as part of the capital of heredity. This means that in studying character and personality, we must start with an analysis of the physical make-up of the individual. We are not yet at the point in science where we can easily get at the activities of the endocrinal glands in normal mentality. We are able to recognize certain fundamental types, but more we cannot do; nor are we able to measure nervous energy except in relatively crude ways, but these crude ways have great value under certain conditions. When there has been a change in personality, the question of bodily disease is always paramount. The first questions to be asked under such circumstances are, "Is this person sick?" "Is the brain involved?" "Are endocrinal glands involved?" "Is there disease of some organ of the body, acting to lower the feeling of well-being, acting to slacken the purposes and the will or to obscure the intelligence?"

INDIGENOUS EDUCATION, LEARNING, AND MOTIVATION

For many indigenous students (such as Native American children), motivation may be derived from social organization; an important factor educators should account for

in addition to variations in Sociolinguistics and Cognition. While poor academic performance among Native American students is often attributed to low levels of motivation, Top-down classroom organization is often found to be ineffective for children of many cultures, who depend on a sense of community purpose and competence to effectively engage in material. Horizontally-structured, community-based learning strategies often provide a more structurally supportive environment for motivating indigenous children, who tend to be driven by "social/affective emphasis, harmony, holistic perspectives, expressive creativity, and non-verbal communication." This drive is also traceable to a cultural tradition of community-wide expectations of participation in the activities and goals of the greater group, rather than individualized aspirations of success or triumph.

Structure for social learning in indigenous communities also often allows siblings to co-parent younger children in their acquisition of behaviours and traditions, which fosters the dynamic of community-motivated engagement from a young age. Furthermore, it is commonplace for children to assist and demonstrate for their younger counterparts without being prompted by authority figures. Observation techniques are demonstrated in such examples as weaving in Chiapas, Mexico, where it is commonplace for children to learn by "a more skilled other" within the community. The assumption of responsibility amongst children is also apparent within Mayan weaving apprenticeships; often, when the "more skilled other" is tasked with multiple obligations, an older child will step in and guide the learner. Sibling guidance is supported from early youth, where learning through play encourages horizontally-structured environments through alternative educational models such as "Intent Community Participation." Research also suggests that that formal Westernized schooling can actually reshape the traditionally collaborative nature of social life in indigenous communities. This research is supported cross-culturally, with variations in motivation and learning often reported higher between indigenous groups and their national Westernized counterparts than between indigenous groups across international continental divides.

SUDBURY MODEL SCHOOLS' APPROACH

Sudbury Model schools adduce that the cure to the problem of procrastination, of learning in general, and particularly of scientific illiteracy is to remove once and for all what they call the underlying disease: compulsion in schools. They contend that human nature in a free society recoils from every attempt to force it into a mold; that the more requirements we pile onto children at school, the surer we are to drive them away from the material we are trying to force down their throats; that after all the drive and motivation of infants to master the world around them is legendary. They assert that schools must keep that drive alive by doing what some of them do: nurturing it on the freedom it needs to thrive.

Sudbury Model schools do not perform and do not offer evaluations, assessments, transcripts, or recommendations, asserting that they do not rate people, and that school is not a judge; comparing students to each other, or to some standard that has been set is for them a violation of the student's right to privacy and to self-determination. Students decide for themselves how to measure their progress as self-starting learners as a process of self-evaluation: real lifelong learning and the proper educational evaluation for the 21st century, they adduce. According to Sudbury Model schools, this policy does not cause harm to their students as they move on to life outside the school. However, they admit it makes the process more difficult, but that such hardship is part of the students learning to make their own way, set their own standards and meet their own goals. The no-grading and no-rating policy helps to create an atmosphere free of competition among students or battles for adult approval, and encourages a positive cooperative environment amongst the student body.

BUSINESS

At lower levels of Maslow's hierarchy of needs, such as physiological needs, money is a motivator, however it tends to have a motivating effect on staff that lasts only for a short period (in accordance with Herzberg's two-factor model of motivation). At higher levels of the hierarchy, praise, respect, recognition, empowerment and a sense of belonging are far more powerful motivators than money, as both Abraham Maslow's theory of motivation and Douglas McGregor's theory X and theory Y (pertaining to the theory of leadership) demonstrate.

According to Maslow, people are motivated by unsatisfied needs. The lower level needs such as Physiological and Safety needs will have to be satisfied before higher level needs are to be addressed. We can relate Maslow's Hierarchy of Needs theory with employee motivation. For example, if a manager is trying to motivate his employees by satisfying their needs; according to Maslow, he should try to satisfy the lower level needs before he tries to satisfy the upper level needs or the employees will not be motivated. Also he has to remember that not everyone will be satisfied by the same needs. A good manager will try to figure out which levels of needs are active for a certain individual or employee.

Maslow has money at the lowest level of the hierarchy and shows other needs are better motivators to staff. McGregor places money in his Theory X category and feels it is a poor motivator. Praise and recognition are placed in the Theory Y category and are considered stronger motivators than money.

- Motivated employees always look for better ways to do a job.
- Motivated employees are more quality oriented.
- Motivated workers are more productive.

The average workplace is about midway between the extremes of high threat and high opportunity. Motivation by threat is a dead-end strategy, and naturally staff are

more attracted to the opportunity side of the motivation curve than the threat side. Motivation is a powerful tool in the work environment that can lead to employees working at their most efficient levels of production. Nonetheless, Steinmetz also discusses three common character types of subordinates: ascendant, indifferent, and ambivalent who all react and interact uniquely, and must be treated, managed, and motivated accordingly. An effective leader must understand how to manage all characters, and more importantly the manager must utilize avenues that allow room for employees to work, grow, and find answers independently.

The assumptions of Maslow and Herzberg were challenged by a classic study at Vauxhall Motors' UK manufacturing plant. This introduced the concept of orientation to work and distinguished three main orientations: instrumental (where work is a means to an end), bureaucratic (where work is a source of status, security and immediate reward) and solidaristic (which prioritizes group loyalty). Other theories which expanded and extended those of Maslow and Herzberg included Kurt Lewin's Force Field Theory, Edwin Locke's Goal Theory and Victor Vroom's Expectancy theory. These tend to stress cultural differences and the fact that individuals tend to be motivated by different factors at different times.

According to the system of scientific management developed by Frederick Winslow Taylor, a worker's motivation is solely determined by pay, and therefore management need not consider psychological or social aspects of work. In essence, scientific management bases human motivation wholly on extrinsic rewards and discards the idea of intrinsic rewards. In contrast, David McClelland believed that workers could not be motivated by the mere need for money-in fact, extrinsic motivation (*e.g.*, money) could extinguish intrinsic motivation such as achievement motivation, though money could be used as an indicator of success for various motives, *e.g.*, keeping score. In keeping with this view, his consulting firm, McBer and Company, had as its first motto "To make everyone productive, happy, and free." For McClelland, satisfaction lay in aligning a person's life with their fundamental motivations.

Elton Mayo found that the social contacts a worker has at the workplace are very important and that boredom and repetitiveness of tasks lead to reduced motivation. Mayo believed that workers could be motivated by acknowledging their social needs and making them feel important. As a result, employees were given freedom to make decisions on the job and greater attention was paid to informal work groups. Mayo named the model the Hawthorne effect. His model has been judged as placing undue reliance on social contacts at work situations for motivating employees.

MOTIVATION IN EDUCATIONAL PSYCHOLOGY

Motivation is an internal state that activates, guides and sustains behaviour. Educational psychology research on motivation is concerned with the volition or will

that students bring to a task, their level of interest and intrinsic motivation, the personally held goals that guide their behaviour, and their belief about the causes of their success or failure. As intrinsic motivation deals with activities that act as their own rewards, extrinsic motivation deals with motivations that are brought on by consequences or punishments. A form of attribution theory developed by Bernard Weiner describes how students' beliefs about the causes of academic success or failure affect their emotions and motivations. For example, when students attribute failure to lack of ability, and ability is perceived as uncontrollable, they experience the emotions of shame and embarrassment and consequently decrease effort and show poorer performance. In contrast, when students attribute failure to lack of effort, and effort is perceived as controllable, they experience the emotion of guilt and consequently increase effort and show improved performance.

Motivational theories also explain how learners' goals affect the way they engage with academic tasks. Those who have mastery goals strive to increase their ability and knowledge. Those who have performance approach goals strive for high grades and seek opportunities to demonstrate their abilities. Those who have performance avoidance goals are driven by fear of failure and avoid situations where their abilities are exposed. Research has found that mastery goals are associated with many positive outcomes such as persistence in the face of failure, preference for challenging tasks, creativity and intrinsic motivation. Performance avoidance goals are associated with negative outcomes such as poor concentration while studying, disorganized studying, less self-regulation, shallow information processing and test anxiety. Performance approach goals are associated with positive outcomes, and some negative outcomes such as an unwillingness to seek help and shallow information processing.

Locus of control is a salient factor in the successful academic performance of students. During the 1970s and '80s, Cassandra B. Whyte did significant educational research studying locus of control as related to the academic achievement of students pursuing higher education coursework. Much of her educational research and publications focused upon the theories of Julian B. Rotter in regard to the importance of internal control and successful academic performance. Whyte reported that individuals who perceive and believe that their hard work may lead to more successful academic outcomes, instead of depending on luck or fate, persist and achieve academically at a higher level. Therefore, it is important to provide education and counseling in this regard.

RESEARCH METHODOLOGY IN EDUCATIONAL PSYCHOLOGY

The research methods used in educational psychology tend to be drawn from psychology and other social sciences. There is also a history of significant methodological innovation by educational psychologists, and psychologists investigating educational

problems. Research methods address problems in both research design and data analysis. Research design informs the planning of experiments and observational studies to ensure that their results have internal, external and ecological validity. Data analysis encompasses methods for processing both quantitative (numerical) and qualitative (non-numerical) research data. Although, historically, the use of quantitative methods was often considered an essential mark of scholarship, modern educational psychology research uses both quantitative and qualitative methods.

QUANTITATIVE METHODS

Perhaps first among the important methodological innovations of educational psychology was the development and application of factor analysis by Charles Spearman. Factor analysis is mentioned here as one example of the many multivariate statistical methods used by educational psychologists. Factor analysis is used to summarize relationships among a large set of variables or test questions, develop theories about mental constructs such as self-efficacy or anxiety, and assess the reliability and validity of test scores. Over 100 years after its introduction by Spearman, factor analysis has become a research staple figuring prominently in educational psychology journals.

Because educational assessment is fundamental to most quantitative research in the field, educational psychologists have made significant contributions to the field of psychometrics. For example, alpha, the widely used measure of test reliability was developed by educational psychologist Lee Cronbach. The reliability of assessments are routinely reported in quantitative educational research. Although, originally, educational measurement methods were built on classical test theory, item response theory and Rasch models are now used extensively in educational measurement worldwide. These models afford advantages over classical test theory, including the capacity to produce standard errors of measurement for each score or pattern of scores on assessments and the capacity to handle missing responses.

Meta-analysis, the combination of individual research results to produce a quantitative literature review, is another methodological innovation with a close association to educational psychology. In a meta-analysis, effect sizes that represent, for example, the differences between treatment groups in a set of similar experiments, are averaged to obtain a single aggregate value representing the best estimate of the effect of treatment. Several decades after Pearson's work with early versions of meta-analysis, Glass published the first application of modern meta-analytic techniques and triggered their broad application across the social and biomedical sciences. Today, meta-analysis is among the most common types of literature review found in educational psychology research.

Other quantitative research issues associated with educational psychology include the use of nested research designs (*e.g.*, a student nested within a classroom, which is nested within a school, which is nested within a district, etc.) and the use of longitudinal statistical models to measure change.

QUALITATIVE METHODS

Qualitative methods are used in educational studies whose purpose is to describe events, processes and situations of theoretical significance. The qualitative methods used in educational psychology often derive from anthropology, sociology or sociolinguistics. For example, the anthropological method of ethnography has been used to describe teaching and learning in classrooms. In studies of this type, the researcher may gather detailed field notes as a participant observer or passive observer. Later, the notes and other data may be categorized and interpreted by methods such as grounded theory. Triangulation, the practice of cross-checking findings with multiple data sources, is highly valued in qualitative research.

Case studies are forms of qualitative research focusing on a single person, organization, event, or other entity. In one case study, researchers conducted a 150-minute, semi-structured interview with a 20-year-old woman who had a history of suicidal thinking between the ages of 14 to 18. They analyzed an audio-recording of the interview to understand the roles of cognitive development, identity formation and social attachment in ending her suicidal thinking. Qualitative analysis is most often applied to verbal data from sources such as conversations, interviews, focus groups, and personal journals. Qualitative methods are thus, typically, approaches to gathering, processing and reporting verbal data. One of the most commonly used methods for qualitative research in educational psychology is protocol analysis. In this method the research participant is asked to think aloud while performing a task, such as solving a math problem. In protocol analysis the verbal data is thought to indicate which information the subject is attending to, but is explicitly not interpreted as an explanation or justification for behaviour. In contrast, the method of verbal analysis does admit learners' explanations as a way to reveal their mental model or misconceptions (*e.g.*, of the laws of motion). The most fundamental operations in both protocol and verbal analysis are segmenting (isolating) and categorizing sections of verbal data. Conversation analysis and discourse analysis, sociolinguistic methods that focus more specifically on the structure of conversational interchange (*e.g.*, between a teacher and student), have been used to assess the process of conceptual change in science learning. Qualitative methods are also used to analyze information in a variety of media, such as students' drawings and concept maps, video-recorded interactions, and computer log records.

MOTIVATIONAL THEORIES IN EDUCATIONAL PSYCHOLOGY

INCENTIVE THEORY

A reward, tangible or intangible, is presented after the occurrence of an action (*i.e.* behaviour) with the intent to cause the behaviour to occur again. This is done by

associating positive meaning to the behaviour. Studies show that if the person receives the reward immediately, the effect is greater, and decreases as delay lengthens. Repetitive action-reward combination can cause the action to become habit. Motivation comes from two sources: oneself, and other people. These two sources are called intrinsic motivation and extrinsic motivation, respectively.

Reinforcers and reinforcement principles of behaviour differ from the hypothetical construct of reward. A reinforcer is any stimulus change following a response that increases the future frequency or magnitude of that response, therefore the cognitive approach is certainly the way forward as in 1973 Maslow described it as being the golden pineapple.

Positive reinforcement is demonstrated by an increase in the future frequency or magnitude of a response due to in the past being followed contingently by a reinforcing stimulus. Negative reinforcement involves stimulus change consisting of the removal of an aversive stimulus following a response. Positive reinforcement involves a stimulus change consisting of the presentation or magnification of a positive stimulus following a response. From this perspective, motivation is mediated by environmental events, and the concept of distinguishing between intrinsic and extrinsic forces is irrelevant.

Applying proper motivational techniques can be much harder than it seems. Steven Kerr notes that when creating a reward system, it can be easy to reward A, while hoping for B, and in the process, reap harmful effects that can jeopardize your goals. Incentive theory in psychology treats motivation and behaviour of the individual as they are influenced by beliefs, such as engaging in activities that are expected to be profitable. Incentive theory is promoted by behavioural psychologists, such as B.F. Skinner and literalized by behaviourists, especially by Skinner in his philosophy of Radical behaviourism, to mean that a person's actions always have social ramifications: and if actions are positively received people are more likely to act in this manner, or if negatively received people are less likely to act in this manner.

Incentive theory distinguishes itself from other motivation theories, such as drive theory, in the direction of the motivation. In incentive theory, stimuli "attract", to use the term above, a person towards them, as opposed to the body seeking to reestablish homeostasis pushing it towards the stimulus. In terms of behaviourism, incentive theory involves positive reinforcement: the stimulus has been conditioned to make the person happier.

For instance, a person knows that eating food, drinking water, or gaining social capital will make them happier. As opposed to in drive theory, which involves negative reinforcement: a stimulus has been associated with the removal of the punishment-the lack of homeostasis in the body. For example, a person has come to know that if they eat when hungry, it will eliminate that negative feeling of hunger, or if they drink when thirsty, it will eliminate that negative feeling of thirst.

ESCAPE-SEEKING DICHOTOMY MODEL

Escapism and seeking are major factors influencing decision making. Escapism is a need to breakaway from a daily life routine, turning on the television and watching an adventure film, whereas seeking is described as the desire to learn, turning on the television to watch a documentary. Both motivations have some interpersonal and personal facets for example individuals would like to escape from family problems (personal) or from problems with work colleagues (interpersonal). This model can also be easily adapted with regard to different studies.

DRIVE-REDUCTION THEORY

There are a number of drive theories. The Drive Reduction Theory grows out of the concept that we have certain biological drives, such as hunger. As time passes the strength of the drive increases if it is not satisfied (in this case by eating). Upon satisfying a drive the drive's strength is reduced. The theory is based on diverse ideas from the theories of Freud to the ideas of feedback control systems, such as a thermostat.

Drive theory has some intuitive or folk validity. For instance when preparing food, the drive model appears to be compatible with sensations of rising hunger as the food is prepared, and, after the food has been consumed, a decrease in subjective hunger. There are several problems, however, that leave the validity of drive reduction open for debate. The first problem is that it does not explain how secondary reinforcers reduce drive. For example, money satisfies no biological or psychological needs, but a pay check appears to reduce drive through second-order conditioning. Secondly, a drive, such as hunger, is viewed as having a "desire" to eat, making the drive a homuncular being-a feature criticized as simply moving the fundamental problem behind this "small man" and his desires. In addition, it is clear that drive reduction theory cannot be a complete theory of behaviour, or a hungry human could not prepare a meal without eating the food before he finished cooking it. The ability of drive theory to cope with all kinds of behaviour, from not satisfying a drive (by adding on other traits such as restraint), or adding additional drives for "tasty" food, which combine with drives for "food" in order to explain cooking render it hard to test.

Cognitive Dissonance Theory

Suggested by Leon Festinger, cognitive dissonance occurs when an individual experiences some degree of discomfort resulting from an inconsistency between two cognitions: their views on the world around them, and their own personal feelings and actions.

For example, a consumer may seek to reassure himself regarding a purchase, feeling, in retrospect, that another decision may have been preferable. His feeling that another purchase would have been preferable is inconsistent with his action of purchasing the item. The difference between his feelings and beliefs causes dissonance, so he seeks to

reassure himself. While not a theory of motivation, *per se*, the theory of cognitive dissonance proposes that people have a motivational drive to reduce dissonance. The cognitive miser perspective makes people want to justify things in a simple way in order to reduce the effort they put into cognition. They do this by changing their attitudes, beliefs, or actions, rather than facing the inconsistencies, because dissonance is a mental strain. Dissonance is also reduced by justifying, blaming, and denying. It is one of the most influential and extensively studied theories in social psychology.

NEED THEORIES

Motivation, as defined by Pritchard and Ashwood, is the process used to allocate energy to maximize the satisfaction of needs.

Need Hierarchy Theory

The content theory includes the hierarchy of needs from Abraham Maslow and the two-factor theory from Herzberg. Maslow's theory is one of the most widely discussed theories of motivation.

The American motivation psychologist Abraham H. Maslow developed the Hierarchy of needs consistent of five hierarchic classes. It shows the complexity of human requirements. According to him, people are motivated by unsatisfied needs. The lower level needs such as Physiological and Safety needs will have to be satisfied before higher level needs are to be addressed. We can relate Maslow's Hierarchy of Needs theory with employee motivation. For example, if a manager is trying to motivate his employees by satisfying their needs; according to Maslow, he should try to satisfy the lower level needs before he tries to satisfy the upper level needs or the employees will not be motivated.

Also he has to remember that not everyone will be satisfied by the same needs. A good manager will try to figure out which levels of needs are active for a certain individual or employee. The basic requirements build the first step in his pyramid. If there is any deficit on this level, the whole behaviour of a human will be oriented to satisfy this deficit. Subsequently we do have the second level, which awake a need for security. Basically it is oriented on a future need for security. After securing those two levels, the motives shift in the social sphere, which form the third stage. Psychological requirements consist in the fourth level, while the top of the hierarchy comprise the self- realization.

So theory can be summarized as follows:

- Human beings have wants and desires which influence their behaviour. Only unsatisfied needs influence behaviour, satisfied needs do not.
- Since needs are many, they are arranged in order of importance, from the basic to the complex.
- The person advances to the next level of needs only after the lower level need is at least minimally satisfied.

- The further the progress up the hierarchy, the more individuality, humanness and psychological health a person will show.

The needs, listed from basic (lowest-earliest) to most complex (highest-latest) are as follows:

- Physiology (hunger, thirst, sleep, etc.)
- Safety/Security/Shelter/Health
- Belongingness/Love/Friendship
- Self-esteem/Recognition/Achievement
- Self actualization

Herzberg's Two-Factor Theory

Frederick Herzberg's two-factor theory, a.k.a. intrinsic/extrinsic motivation, concludes that certain factors in the workplace result in job satisfaction, but if absent, they don't lead to dissatisfaction but no satisfaction. The factors that motivate people can change over their lifetime, but "respect for me as a person" is one of the top motivating factors at any stage of life.

He distinguished between:

- Motivators; (*e.g.* challenging work, recognition, responsibility) which give positive satisfaction, and
- Hygiene factors; (*e.g.* status, job security, salary and fringe benefits) that do not motivate if present, but, if absent, result in demotivation.

The name Hygiene factors is used because, like hygiene, the presence will not make you healthier, but absence can cause health deterioration. The theory is sometimes called the "Motivator-Hygiene Theory" and/or "The Dual Structure Theory." Herzberg's theory has found application in such occupational fields as information systems and in studies of user satisfaction.

Alderfer's ERG Theory

Alderfer, expanding on Maslow's hierarchy of needs, created the ERG theory. This theory posits that there are three groups of core needs - existence, relatedness, and growth, hence the label: ERG theory. The existence group is concerned with providing our basic material existence requirements.

They include the items that Maslow considered to be physiological and safety needs. The second group of needs are those of relatedness- the desire we have for maintaining important personal relationships. These social and status desires require interaction with others if they are to be satisfied, and they align with Maslow's social need and the external component of Maslow's esteem classification. Finally, Alderfer isolates growth needs as an intrinsic desire for personal development. These include the intrinsic component from Maslow's esteem category and the characteristics included under self-actualization.

Self-Determination Theory

Self-determination theory (SDT), developed by Edward Deci and Richard Ryan, focuses on the importance of intrinsic motivation in driving human behaviour. Like Maslow's hierarchical theory and others that built on it, SDT posits a natural tendency towards growth and development. Unlike these other theories, however, SDT does not include any sort of "autopilot" for achievement, but instead requires active encouragement from the environment. The primary factors that encourage motivation and development are autonomy, competence feedback, and relatedness.

PERSONALITY THEORIES

The study of personality is based on the essential insight that all people are similar in some ways, yet different in others. There have been many different definitions of personality proposed. However, many contemporary psychologists agree on the following definition:

- Personality is that pattern of characteristic thoughts, feelings, and behaviours that distinguishes one person from another and that persists over time and situations.

TRAIT THEORIES

According to the *Diagnostic and Statistical Manual* of the American Psychiatric Association, personality traits are “enduring patterns of perceiving, relating to, and thinking about the environment and oneself that are exhibited in a wide range of social and personal contexts.”

Theorists generally assume that:

- Traits are relatively stable over time,
- Traits differ among individuals, and
- Traits influence behaviour.

They consistently are used in order to help define people as a whole. Traits are relatively constant; they do not usually change. Traits are also bipolar; they vary along a continuum between one extreme and the other (*e.g.* friendly vs. unfriendly).

The most common models of traits incorporate three to five broad dimensions or factors. All trait theories incorporate at least two dimensions, extraversion and neuroticism, which historically featured in Hippocrates' humoral theory.

- Gordon Allport delineated different kinds of traits, which he also called dispositions. *Central traits* are basic to an individual's personality, while *secondary traits* are more peripheral. *Common traits* are those recognised within a culture and thus may vary from culture to culture. *Cardinal traits* are those by which an individual may be strongly recognised. In his book, *Personality: A Psychological Interpretation*, Gordon Allport (1937) both established personality

psychology as a legitimate intellectual discipline and introduced the first of the modern trait theories.

- Raymond Cattell's research propagated a two-tiered personality structure with sixteen "primary factors" (16 Personality Factors) and five "secondary factors." In Cattell's lengthy career, he had written 50 books, 500 journals, and 30 different types of standardised tests. For Cattell, personality itself was defined in terms of behavioural prediction. He defined personality as *that which permits a prediction of what a person will do in a given situation*.
- John Gittinger's theory and its applications (the Personality Assessment System (PAS)) uses the Wechsler intelligence tests, which are well standardised and objective instruments rather than self-report tests. PAS factors out personality traits (primitivity) and two additional levels, Basic and Surface, which are adaptations by environmentally induced pressures and learning. Gittinger's multivariate personality descriptions exceed 500 data-based outcome descriptions.
- Hans Eysenck believed just three traits—extraversion, neuroticism and psychoticism—were sufficient to describe human personality. Differences between Cattell and Eysenck emerged due to preferences for different forms of factor analysis, with Cattell using oblique, Eysenck orthogonal rotation to analyse the factors that emerged when personality questionnaires were subjected to statistical analysis. Today, the Big Five factors have the weight of a considerable amount of empirical research behind them, building on the work of Cattell and others. Eysenck, along with another contemporary in trait psychology named J. P. Guilford (1959), believed that the resultant trait factors obtained from factor analysis should be statistically independent of one another—that is, the factors should be arranged (rotated) so that they are uncorrelated or orthogonal (at right angles) to one another.
- *Lewis Goldberg proposed a five-dimension personality model, nicknamed the "Big Five":*
 - i. *Openness to Experience*: the tendency to be imaginative, independent, and interested in variety vs. practical, conforming, and interested in routine.
 - ii. *Conscientiousness*: the tendency to be organised, careful, and disciplined vs. disorganised, careless, and impulsive.
 - iii. *Extraversion*: the tendency to be sociable, fun-loving, and affectionate vs. retiring, somber, and reserved.
 - iv. *Agreeableness*: the tendency to be softhearted, trusting, and helpful vs. ruthless, suspicious, and uncooperative.
 - v. *Neuroticism*: the tendency to be calm, secure, and self-satisfied vs. anxious, insecure, and self-pitying

The Big Five contain important dimensions of personality. However, some personality researchers argue that this list of major traits is not exhaustive. Some support has been found for two additional factors: excellent/ordinary and evil/decent. However, no definitive conclusions have been established.

- Michael Ashton and Kibeom Lee, in 2008, proposed a six dimensional HEXACO model of personality structure. The HEXACO personality traits/factors are: Honesty-Humility (H), Emotionality (E), Extraversion (X), Agreeableness (A), Conscientiousness (C), and Openness to Experience (O). The three dimensions - Extraversion, Conscientiousness and Openness to Experience are considered to be basically the same as their counterpart dimensions in the Big Five Model. However, in the HEXACO model, Honesty-Humility, Emotionality and Agreeableness differ from the Neuroticism and Agreeableness factors of the Big Five Model. Ashton and Lee especially emphasize the Honesty-Humility (H) factor as differentiating the HEXACO model from other personality frameworks. Specifically, the H factor is described as sincere, honest, faithful/loyal, modest/unassuming, fair-minded, *VERSUS* sly, deceitful, greedy, pretentious, hypocritical, boastful and pompous. The H factor has been linked to criminal, materialistic, power-seeking and unethical tendencies.

Trait models have been criticized as being purely descriptive and offering little explanation of the underlying causes of personality. Eysenck's theory, however, proposes biological mechanisms as driving traits, and modern behaviour genetics researchers have shown a clear genetic substrate to them. Another potential weakness of trait theories is that they may lead some people to accept oversimplified classifications—or worse, offer advice—based on a superficial analysis of personality. Finally, trait models often underestimate the effect of specific situations on people's behaviour. Traits are considered to be statistical generalisations that do not always correspond to an individual's behaviour.

The importance that genetic influences have on personality characteristics can change across a five-year period. Age differences create more variables even within a family, so the best comparisons are found using twins. Twins typically share a family environment called a shared environment because they may share other aspects like teachers, school, and friends. A non-shared environment means completely different environment for both subjects. "Biologically related children who are separated after birth and raised in different families live in non-shared environments." Identical twins separated at birth and raised in different families constitute the best cases for heredity and personality because similarities between the two are due only to genetic influences. Vulnerability was a factor in this study that was taken into consideration regarding the issue of genetic influences on vulnerability. The study concluded that the monozygotic co-twins would be more similar than dizygotic co-twins in change over time. The data concluded that there were no significant differences for either variances between the monozygotic and dizygotic co-twins.

Another current open question is whether genetic influences are important for the likeliness of co-twins to change in the same way over a period of time. A link was found between the personality trait of neuroticism and a polymorphism called 5-HTTLPR in the serotonin transporter gene, but this association was not replicated in larger studies. Other candidate gene studies have provided weak evidence that some personality traits are related to *AVPR1A* (“ruthlessness gene”) and *MAOA* (“Warrior gene”). Genotypes, or the genetic make up of an organism, influence but don’t fully decide the physical traits of a person. Those are also influenced by the environment and behaviours they are surrounded by. For example, a person’s height is affected by genetics, but if they are malnourished growth will be stunted no matter what their genetic coding says. Environment is also not completely responsible for an outcome in personality. An example from *Psychobiology of Personality* by Marvin Zuckerman is alcoholism: Studies suggest that alcoholism is an inherited disease, but if a subject with a strong biological background of alcoholism in their family tree is never exposed to alcohol, they will not be so inclined regardless of their genome.

It is also a question open to debate whether there are genetic influences on the tendency of the co-twins to change, without keeping in mind the direction of the change. Another factor that can be addressed is biological versus adoptive relatives, and can be clearly seen in what is a real-life experiment, adoption. This creates two groups: genetic relatives (biological parents and siblings) and environmental relatives (adoptive parents and siblings). After studying hundreds of adoptive families, the discovery was that people who grow up together, whether biologically related or not, do not much resemble one another in personality. In characteristics such as extroversion and agreeableness, adoptees are more like their biological parents than to their adoptive parents.

However, the minute shared-environment effects do not mean that adoptive parenting is ineffective. Even though genetics may limit the family environment’s influence on personality, parents do influence their children’s attitudes, values, faith, manners and politics. In adoptive homes, child neglect and abuse and even divorce between the parents is uncommon. In accordance to that, it is not surprising, despite a somewhat greater risk of psychological disorder, most adopted children excel, especially when they’re adopted as infants. In fact, seven out of eight have reported feeling a strong connection with one or even both of their adoptive parents.

TYPE THEORIES

Personality type refers to the psychological classification of different types of people. Personality types are distinguished from personality traits, which come in different levels or degrees. For example, according to type theories, there are two types of people, introverts and extroverts. According to trait theories, introversion and extroversion are part of a continuous dimension, with many people in the middle. The idea of psychological types originated in the theoretical work of Carl Jung and William Marston.

Jung's seminal 1921 book on the subject is available in English as *Psychological Types*. Building on the writings and observations of Jung during World War II, Isabel Briggs Myers and her mother, Katharine C. Briggs, delineated personality types by constructing the Myers-Briggs Type Indicator. This model was later used by David Keirsey with a different understanding from Jung, Briggs and Myers. In the former Soviet Union, Lithuanian Auðra Augustinavièiûtë independently derived a model of personality type from Jung's called Socionics.

The model is an older and more theoretical approach to personality, accepting extroversion and introversion as basic psychological orientations in connection with two pairs of psychological functions:

- *Perceiving functions:* sensing and intuition (trust in concrete, sensory-oriented facts vs. trust in abstract concepts and imagined possibilities)
- *Judging functions:* thinking and feeling (basing decisions primarily on logic vs. considering the effect on people).

Briggs and Myers also added another personality dimension to their type indicator to measure whether a person prefers to use a judging or perceiving function when interacting with the external world. Therefore they included questions designed to indicate whether someone wishes to come to conclusions (judgement) or to keep options open (perception).

This personality typology has some aspects of a trait theory: it explains people's behaviour in terms of opposite fixed characteristics. In these more traditional models, the sensing/intuition preference is considered the most basic, dividing people into "N" (intuitive) or "S" (sensing) personality types. An "N" is further assumed to be guided either by thinking or feeling, and divided into the "NT" (scientist, engineer) or "NF" (author, humanitarian) temperament. An "S", by contrast, is assumed to be guided more by the judgement/perception axis, and thus divided into the "SJ" (guardian, traditionalist) or "SP" (performer, artisan) temperament. These four are considered basic, with the other two factors in each case (including always extraversion/introversion) less important.

Critics of this traditional view have observed that the types can be quite strongly stereotyped by professions (although neither Myers nor Keirsey engaged in such stereotyping in their type descriptions), and thus may arise more from the need to categorise people for purposes of guiding their career choice. This among other objections led to the emergence of the five-factor view, which is less concerned with behaviour under work conditions and more concerned with behaviour in personal and emotional circumstances. Some critics have argued for more or fewer dimensions while others have proposed entirely different theories (often assuming different definitions of "personality").

Type A and Type B personality theory: During the 1950s, Meyer Friedman and his co-workers defined what they called Type A and Type B behaviour patterns. They theorised that intense, hard-driving Type A personalities had a higher risk of coronary

disease because they are “stress junkies.” Type B people, on the other hand, tended to be relaxed, less competitive, and lower in risk. There was also a Type AB mixed profile.

John L. Holland’s *RIASEC* vocational model, commonly referred to as the *Holland Codes*, stipulates that six personality types lead people to choose their career paths. In this circumplex model, the six types are represented as a hexagon, with adjacent types more closely related than those more distant. The model is widely used in vocational counseling.

Eduard Spranger’s personality-model, consisting of six (or, by some revisions, 6 +1) basic types of *value attitudes*, described in his book *Types of Men*.

PSYCHOANALYTIC THEORIES

Psychoanalytic theories explain human behaviour in terms of the interaction of various components of personality. Sigmund Freud was the founder of this school of thought. Freud drew on the physics of his day (thermodynamics) to coin the term psychodynamics. Based on the idea of converting heat into mechanical energy, he proposed psychic energy could be converted into behaviour. Freud’s theory places central importance on dynamic, unconscious psychological conflicts. Freud divides human personality into three significant components: the id, ego, and super-ego. The id acts according to the *pleasure principle*, demanding immediate gratification of its needs regardless of external environment; the ego then must emerge in order to realistically meet the wishes and demands of the id in accordance with the outside world, adhering to the *reality principle*. Finally, the superego (conscience) inculcates moral judgement and societal rules upon the ego, thus forcing the demands of the id to be met not only realistically but morally. The superego is the last function of the personality to develop, and is the embodiment of parental/social ideals established during childhood. According to Freud, personality is based on the dynamic interactions of these three components.

The channeling and release of sexual (libidal) and aggressive energies, which ensues from the “Eros” (sex; instinctual self-preservation) and “Thanatos” (death; instinctual self-annihilation) drives respectively, are major components of his theory. It is important to note that Freud’s broad understanding of sexuality included all kinds of pleasurable feelings experienced by the human body.

Freud proposed five psychosexual stages of personality development. He believed adult personality is dependent upon early childhood experiences and largely determined by age five. Fixations that develop during the infantile stage contribute to adult personality and behaviour.

One of Sigmund Freud’s earlier associates, Alfred Adler, did agree with Freud that early childhood experiences are important to development and believed birth order may influence personality development. Adler believed that the oldest child was the individual who would set high achievement goals in order to gain attention lost when the younger siblings were born. He believed the middle children were competitive and

ambitious. He reasoned that this behaviour was motivated by the idea of surpassing the firstborn's achievements. He added, however, that the middle children were often not as concerned about the glory attributed with their behaviour. He also believed the youngest would be more dependent and sociable. Adler finished by surmising that an only child loves being the center of attention and matures quickly but in the end fails to become independent.

Heinz Kohut thought similarly to Freud's idea of transference. He used narcissism as a model of how people develop their sense of self. Narcissism is the exaggerated sense of one self in which one is believed to exist in order to protect one's low self-esteem and sense of worthlessness. Kohut had a significant impact on the field by extending Freud's theory of narcissism and introducing what he called the 'self-object transferences' of mirroring and idealisation. In other words, children need to idealise and emotionally "sink into" and identify with the idealised competence of admired figures such as parents or older siblings. They also need to have their self-worth mirrored by these people. These experiences allow them to thereby learn the self-soothing and other skills that are necessary for the development of a healthy sense of self.

Another important figure in the world of personality theory is Karen Horney. She is credited with the development of the "real self" and the "ideal self". She believes all people have these two views of their own self. The "real self" is how humans act with regard to personality, values, and morals; but the "ideal self" is a construct individuals implement in order to conform to social and personal norms.

BEHAVIOURIST THEORIES

Behaviourists explain personality in terms of the effects external stimuli have on behaviour. The approaches used to analyse the behavioural aspect of personality are known as behavioural theories or learning-conditioning theories. These approaches were a radical shift away from Freudian philosophy. One of the major tenets of this concentration of personality psychology is a strong emphasis on scientific thinking and experimentation. This school of thought was developed by B. F. Skinner who put forth a model which emphasized the mutual interaction of the person or "the organism" with its environment. Skinner believed children do bad things because the behaviour obtains attention that serves as a reinforcer.

For example: a child cries because the child's crying in the past has led to attention. These are the *response*, and *consequences*. The response is the child crying, and the attention that child gets is the reinforcing consequence. According to this theory, people's behaviour is formed by processes such as operant conditioning. Skinner put forward a "three term contingency model" which helped promote analysis of behaviour based on the "Stimulus - Response - Consequence Model" in which the critical question is: "Under which circumstances or antecedent 'stimuli' does the organism engage in a particular behaviour or 'response', which in turn produces a particular 'consequence'?"

Richard Herrnstein extended this theory by accounting for attitudes and traits. An attitude develops as the response strength (the tendency to respond) in the presences of a group of stimuli become stable. Rather than describing conditionable traits in non-behavioural language, response strength in a given situation accounts for the environmental portion. Herrnstein also saw traits as having a large genetic or biological component as do most modern behaviourists. Ivan Pavlov is another notable influence. He is well known for his classical conditioning experiments involving dogs. These physiological studies led him to discover the foundation of behaviourism as well as classical conditioning.

SOCIAL COGNITIVE THEORIES

In cognitive theory, behaviour is explained as guided by cognitions (*e.g.* expectations) about the world, especially those about other people. Cognitive theories are theories of personality that emphasize cognitive processes, such as thinking and judging.

Albert Bandura, a social learning theorist suggested the forces of memory and emotions worked in conjunction with environmental influences. Bandura was known mostly for his “Bobo Doll experiment”. During these experiments, Bandura video taped a college student kicking and verbally abusing a bobo doll. He then showed this video to a class of kindergarten children who were getting ready to go out to play. When they entered the play room, they saw bobo dolls, and some hammers. The people observing these children at play saw a group of children beating the doll. He called this study and his findings observational learning, or modeling.

Early examples of approaches to cognitive style are listed by Baron (1982). These include Witkin’s (1965) work on field dependency, Gardner’s (1953) discovering people had consistent preference for the number of categories they used to categorise heterogeneous objects, and Block and Petersen’s (1955) work on confidence in line discrimination judgements. Baron relates early development of cognitive approaches of personality to ego psychology. More central to this field have been:

- Attributional style theory dealing with different ways in which people explain events in their lives. This approach builds upon locus of control, but extends it by stating we also need to consider whether people attribute to stable causes or variable causes, and to global causes or specific causes.

Various scales have been developed to assess both attributional style and locus of control. Locus of control scales include those used by Rotter and later by Duttweiler, the Nowicki and Strickland (1973) Locus of Control Scale for Children and various locus of control scales specifically in the health domain, most famously that of Kenneth Wallston and his colleagues, The Multidimensional Health Locus of Control Scale. Attributional style has been assessed by the Attributional Style Questionnaire, the Expanded Attributional Style Questionnaire, the Attributions Questionnaire, the Real Events Attributional Style Questionnaire and the Attributional Style Assessment Test.

- Achievement style theory focuses upon identification of an individual's Locus of Control tendency, such as by Rotter's evaluations, and was found by Cassandra Bolyard Whyte to provide valuable information for improving academic performance of students. Individuals with internal control tendencies are likely to persist to better academic performance levels, presenting an achievement personality, according to Cassandra B. Whyte

Recognition that the tendency to believe that hard work and persistence often results in attainment of life and academic goals has influenced formal educational and counseling efforts with students of various ages and in various settings since the 1970s research about achievement. Counseling aimed towards encouraging individuals to design ambitious goals and work towards them, with recognition that there are external factors that may impact, often results in the incorporation of a more positive achievement style by students and employees, whatever the setting, to include higher education, workplace, or justice programming.

Walter Mischel (1999) has also defended a cognitive approach to personality. His work refers to "Cognitive Affective Units", and considers factors such as encoding of stimuli, affect, goal-setting, and self-regulatory beliefs. The term "Cognitive Affective Units" shows how his approach considers affect as well as cognition.

Cognitive-Experiential Self-Theory (CEST) is another cognitive personality theory. Developed by Seymour Epstein, CEST argues that humans operate by way of two independent information processing systems: experiential system and rational system. The experiential system is fast and emotion-driven. The rational system is slow and logic-driven. These two systems interact to determine our goals, thoughts, and behaviour.

Personal Construct Psychology (PCP) is a theory of personality developed by the American psychologist George Kelly in the 1950s. From the theory, Kelly derived a psychotherapy approach and also a technique called *The Repertory Grid Interview* that helped his patients to uncover their own "constructs" with minimal intervention or interpretation by the therapist. The Repertory Grid was later adapted for various uses within organisations, including decision-making and interpretation of other people's world-views.

- *Fundamental Postulate*: X's psychological processes are channeled by x's method of event anticipation.
- *Construction Corollary*: X anticipates events (hence develops a method) when x makes event replica constructs.
- *Individuality Corollary*: X, y, z...(etc) differ in their event replica constructs.
- *Organisation Corollary*: X makes, out of ordinal relations between constructs, a construction system, and x changes its construction system to conveniently anticipate events, hence the system changes characteristically of x.
- *Dichotomy Corollary*: X's construction system is composed of numerable, dichotomous constructs.

- *Choice Corollary*: X chooses, within any dichotomous construct, the alternative anticipated to be most convenient for x in order to extend and define x's system.
- *Range Corollary*: X can anticipate, with a construct, only a finite range of events.
- *Experience Corollary*: X's construction system changes as x successively makes event replica constructs.
- *Modulation Corollary*: X's constructs limit, by their permeability and ranges of convenience, the change in x's construction system.
- *Fragmentation Corollary*: X may successively employ logically incompatible, construction subsystems.
- *Commonality Corollary*: X and y's processes are similar, insofar as the event replica constructs they employ are similar.
- *Social Corollary*: X may play a role in a social process with y, insofar as x makes constructs of y's constructs.

One can infer from these corollaries the following sentence: Your psychological process is channeled by your event anticipation method, which is developed by your event replica constructs and by your dichotomous constructs, both of which compose your construction system, which changes with your choice within dichotomous constructs and with your addition of new event replica constructs, which require experience, which is composed of events.

HUMANISTIC THEORIES

Humanistic psychology emphasizes that people have free will and that this plays an active role in determining how they behave. Accordingly, humanistic psychology focuses on subjective experiences of persons as opposed to forced, definitive factors that determine behaviour. Abraham Maslow and Carl Rogers were proponents of this view, which is based on the "phenomenal field" theory of Combs and Snygg (1949). Rogers and Maslow were among a group of psychologists that worked together for a decade to produce the *Journal of Humanistic Psychology*. This journal was primarily focused on viewing individuals as a whole, rather than focusing solely on separate traits and processes within the individual.

Robert W. White wrote the book *The Abnormal Personality* that became a standard text on abnormal psychology. He also investigated the human need to strive for positive goals like competence and influence, to counterbalance the emphasis of Freud on the pathological elements of personality development.

Maslow spent much of his time studying what he called "self-actualising persons", those who are "fulfilling themselves and doing the best they are capable of doing". Maslow believes all who are interested in growth move towards self-actualising (growth, happiness, satisfaction) views. Many of these people demonstrate a trend in dimensions of their personalities.

Characteristics of self-actualisers according to Maslow include the four key dimensions:

1. *Awareness*: Maintaining constant enjoyment and awe of life. These individuals often experienced a “peak experience”. He defined a peak experience as an “intensification of any experience to the degree there is a loss or transcendence of self”. A peak experience is one in which an individual perceives an expansion of his or herself, and detects a unity and meaningfulness in life. Intense concentration on an activity one is involved in, such as running a marathon, may invoke a peak experience.
2. *Reality and problem centered*: Having a tendency to be concerned with “problems” in surroundings.
3. *Acceptance/Spontaneity*: Accepting surroundings and what cannot be changed.
4. *Unhostile sense of humor/democratic*: Do not take kindly to joking about others, which can be viewed as offensive. They have friends of all backgrounds and religions and hold very close friendships.

Maslow and Rogers emphasized a view of the person as an active, creative, experiencing human being who lives in the present and subjectively responds to current perceptions, relationships, and encounters. They disagree with the dark, pessimistic outlook of those in the Freudian psychoanalysis ranks, but rather view humanistic theories as positive and optimistic proposals which stress the tendency of the human personality towards growth and self-actualisation. This progressing self will remain the center of its constantly changing world; a world that will help mold the self but not necessarily confine it. Rather, the self has opportunity for maturation based on its encounters with this world. This understanding attempts to reduce the acceptance of hopeless redundancy.

Humanistic therapy typically relies on the client for information of the past and its effect on the present, therefore the client dictates the type of guidance the therapist may initiate. This allows for an individualised approach to therapy. Rogers found patients differ in how they respond to other people. Rogers tried to model a particular approach to therapy- he stressed the reflective or empathetic response. This response type takes the client’s viewpoint and reflects back his or her feeling and the context for it. An example of a reflective response would be, “It seems you are feeling anxious about your upcoming marriage”. This response type seeks to clarify the therapist’s understanding while also encouraging the client to think more deeply and seek to fully understand the feelings they have expressed.

BIOPSYCHOLOGICAL THEORIES

Biology plays a very important role in the development of personality. The study of the biological level in personality psychology focuses primarily on identifying the role of genetic determinants and how they mold individual personalities. Some of the earliest thinking about possible biological bases of personality grew out of the case of Phineas

Gage. In an 1848 accident, a large iron rod was driven through Gage's head, and his personality apparently changed as a result, although descriptions of these psychological changes are usually exaggerated.

In general, patients with brain damage have been difficult to find and study. In the 1990s, researchers began to use Electroencephalography (EEG), Positron Emission Tomography (PET) and more recently functional Magnetic Resonance Imaging (fMRI), which is now the most widely used imaging technique to help localise personality traits in the brain.

GENETIC BASES OF PERSONALITY

Ever since the Human Genome Project allowed for a much more in depth understanding of genetics, there has been an ongoing controversy involving heritability, personality traits, and environmental vs. genetic influence on personality. The human genome is known to play a role in the development of personality.

Previously, genetic personality studies focused on specific genes correlating to specific personality traits. Today's view of the gene-personality relationship focuses primarily on the activation and expression of genes related to personality. Genes provide numerous options for varying cells to be expressed, however, the environment determines which of these are activated. Many studies have noted this relationship in varying ways in which our bodies can develop, but the interaction between genes and the shaping of our minds and personality is also relevant to this biological relationship.

DNA-environment interactions are important in the development of personality because this relationship determines what part of the DNA code is actually made into proteins that will become part of an individual. It has been noted that while different choices are made available by the genome, in the end, the environment is the ultimate determinant of what becomes activated. Small changes in DNA in individuals are what lead to the uniqueness of every person as well as differences in looks, abilities, brain functioning, and all the factors that culminate to develop a cohesive personality.

Cattell and Eysenck have proposed that genetics have a strong influence on personality. A large part of the evidence collected linking genetics and the environment to personality have come from twin studies. This "twin method" compares levels of similarity in personality using genetically identical twins. One of the first of these twin studies measured 800 pairs of twins, studied numerous personality traits, and determined that identical twins are most similar in their general abilities. Personality similarities were found to be less related for self-concepts, goals, and interests.

Twin studies have also been important in the creation of the five factor personality model : neuroticism, extraversion, openness, agreeableness and conscientiousness. Neuroticism and extraversion are the two most widely studied traits. A person that may fall into the extrovert category can display characteristics such as impulsiveness, sociability, and activeness. A person falling into the neuroticism category may be more

likely to be moody, anxious, or irritable. Identical twins however, have higher correlations in personality traits than fraternal twins. One study measuring genetic influence on twins in five different countries found that the correlations for identical twins were .50, while for fraternal they were about .20. It is suggested that heredity and environment interact to determine one's personality.

EVOLUTIONARY THEORY

Charles Darwin is the founder of the theory of the evolution of the species. The evolutionary approach to personality psychology is based on this theory. This theory examines how individual personality differences are based on natural selection. Through natural selection organisms change over time through adaptation and selection. Traits are developed and certain genes come into expression based on an organism's environment and how these traits aid in an organism's survival and reproduction.

The theory of evolution has wide ranging implications on personality psychology. Personality viewed through the lens of evolutionary psychology places a great deal of emphasis on specific traits that are most likely to aid in survival and reproduction, such as conscientiousness, sociability, emotional stability, and dominance. The social aspects of personality can be seen through an evolutionary perspective. Specific character traits develop and are selected for because they play an important and complex role in the social hierarchy of organisms. Such characteristics of this social hierarchy include the sharing of important resources, family and mating interactions, and the harm or help organisms can bestow upon one another.

Mate competition within humans is theorised to play a very important role in the development of personality through evolution. Characteristics that are typically selected for through evolution are usually related to fertility and sexuality, as these traits will help ensure the continuation of the species. Some examples of this are traits that females seek in males related to features that will be helpful in a partner such as dominance, powerful status, and access to resources. Another such trait that can be explained by an evolutionary standpoint is sexual jealousy. Males are in competition to reproduce with the most fertile females and in order to prevent other weaker and less adept males from mating with their potential partners over time males evolved a predisposition to rage, aggression, and jealousy. It has also been speculated that violence and killing is much more common in young males because they need to eliminate their competition in order for successful mating and reproduction to occur. Consequently, the age in which killing occurs the most frequently in males is also the age in which mating is the highest.

One of the reasons in which men pursue romantic relationships can be explained by evolutionary theory. Sexual and romantic relationships increase the likelihood that an individual will be able to pass on his genetic material so men are predisposed to pursuing

many women. Women have a different set of priorities because once they are pregnant they cannot reproduce during this time period and when they are rearing children they need to use the time they have available to nurture and protect them. Studies have supported this idea and found that in the area of romantic relationships and sexual behaviour men had felt much more regret looking back on the sexual experiences they did not have than did women.

6

CHAPTER

Body Language

Body language is the language of gestures and postures. Studies of body language analyse the emotions transmitted through movement, such as facial expressions and the movement of eyes, hands, legs, feet, and the whole body. These studies show us how the body language of a person can reveal to us his or her state of mind and intentions, and personality traits such as self-confidence, shyness, aggressiveness, greed, rivalry.

We can say that a person's posture expresses his or her attitudes and feelings. The real value of body language is found in the sum of all the levels of communication: oral language, visual language, body language, and imagination. Body language is an important – and often decisive – factor in risk communication. This is especially true of communicators, who need to show congruency between the oral information and their body language when transmitting a message, because only if they manage to do so will the message be effective.

Body language is an element in communication that we should be very much aware of because it gives clues to the character, emotions, and reactions of an individual. Our state of mind is expressed in our body language. For example, if we doubt something we hear, we raise an eyebrow. If we feel puzzled, we scratch our nose. We cross our arms to isolate or protect ourselves. We shrug our shoulders to express indifference. We wink as a sign of intimacy. If we are impatient, we drum our fingers. We strike our forehead with our hand when we have forgotten something. We rock when we feel anxious, and we sway backwards and forwards on our feet when we are in a situation of conflict. An inexperienced speaker in an auditorium expresses his anxiety by moving from one side to another, staring at the ceiling, walking round in circles, or rubbing his

hands together. An awareness of body language is often the key to successful personal relationships and it can be the secret that enables so many people to manage others. Some individuals seem to have the knack of interpreting body language and manipulating people with their bodies as well as their voices. Knowledge of the body language of the other person and the ability to interpret it make a person aware of his or her own body language. This awareness, in turn, leads to greater self-control and more effective communication processes.

If you are aware of what you do with your body, your self-understanding becomes deeper and more meaningful. Once you manage to control your body language, you will be able to cross many defensive barriers and establish better relationships. Body language is an important component of communication and it is to our advantage to develop skills in this area in order to be better risk communicators.

Genetic and Cultural Roots

It is difficult to determine exactly how a communication system is inherited or learned. Darwin believed that facial expressions of emotion were the same in all human beings, regardless of their culture. Today it is considered that within a specific culture there exists a general agreement to recognize the different emotional states. The human brain is programmed to raise the corners of the mouth when the individual feels happy and turn them down when he is discontent. Depending on the sensation that reaches the brain, a person will frown, raise his eyebrows, or raise one side of his mouth. The work of different researchers has shown that we can inherit in our genetic makeup certain basic physical reactions.

We are born with elements of a body language. We can make another human being aware of basic sensations of hate, fear, pleasure, or sadness, without ever having learned how to do so. This does not contradict the fact that we do also have to learn many gestures that mean one thing in one society and something else in another. The sound signals innate in the human being remain valid and continue to play important roles. Unlike verbal signals, they arise spontaneously and mean the same in all cultures. Shouting, sobbing, laughing, roaring, moaning, and crying transmit messages to everyone everywhere. Like the sounds of other species, these signals are associated with basic emotional states and give an immediate impression of the state of the person making the sounds.

The human being has conserved his instinctive expressions: The smile, laugh, stare, frightened face, and solemn face are signals proper to the species. These signals are common to all societies and persist despite the assimilation of many other cultural gestures. The basic sounds and gestures of our species have their origin in the early stages of development of the human being. Crying is not only the first sign we give of our state of mind, but also the most fundamental one, shared with thousands of other species.

There are certain expressions and standards that vary according to the culture, which are learned during the years of early childhood. These standards prescribe what should be done in response to the manifestation of each sensation or feeling in the different social environments. They vary according to social roles and demographic characteristics, and they differ from one culture to another.

We have to admit that, at the best of times, all social gatherings are a little frightening. We do not know how the other individual will behave at the moment of meeting. Smiles and laughter demonstrate the existence of this fear and they are combined with feelings of attraction and acceptance. If a person we greet does not smile frankly, and evades our eyes, this can mean one of two things: either we do not interest him or her; or he/she is an extremely shy, retiring person, and finds the situation frightening. Each movement or position of the body has adaptive, expressive, and defensive functions – some conscious and other unconscious. Our body language can be partly instinctive, partly taught, and partly imitative, so a person's culture is an important factor to bear in mind.

Territorial Needs

The space surrounding a person is another important factor in the expression of body language. Each person has a well-defined bodily space, a territory, a personal space known as the body buffer zone. That zone is determined personally and conditioned by the culture. It is not known exactly how much space each person needs, since it is a kind of aura that expands and contracts constantly as we approach other people or move away from them. The important thing is to be aware how essential this personal space is and respect it; we must also be aware of what happens to an individual when his or her territory is threatened or invaded.

The Following Points Must be Borne in Mind:

- Introverts tend to keep a greater distance during conversation than extroverts.
- A person who moves away during a conversation is showing his need to set up greater defences to ensure his personal space.
- During a multitudinous rally or protest march, however crowded it is each person tries to keep an inviolable area around him or herself. Hall has subdivided the territorial needs of the individual into four zones: intimate distance, personal distance, social distance, and public distance. The distances grow as the intimacy decreases.

For example, for Americans, the intimate distance can be close, that is in actual contact, or far from 15 to 45 cm. The close phase of intimate distance is for lovemaking, being with very intimate friends, and children holding hands with their parents or with other children.

At the close intimate distance, one is fully conscious of the person one is with. The far phase of the intimate distance is still near enough to hold hands. The close personal distance is 45-75 cm, and the far personal phase is 75-120 cm. It is no longer possible

to touch the other person comfortably from that distance, which gives a certain amount of privacy to any meeting, but the distance is close enough to hold a fairly personal conversation.

Masking

There are many methods for defending our personal zones; one of them is by masking. Masking means controlling our body so that it will not give out messages that the mind wants to hide. Masking includes facial gestures and can involve the whole body. However, it is not possible to hide involuntary reactions such as perspiration. Masking is partly learned or absorbed from one's own culture, but another part is specifically taught, such as rules of etiquette, many of which deal with what is appropriate or inappropriate in terms of body language.

Masking increases as a child approaches adulthood. The masks harden; they become repressive, and are transformed into elements of protection. The adult may be aware of the fact that although the mask protects his intimacy and enables him to avoid associating with someone he doesn't want to be with, it can also restrict or prevent other contacts that he does want to establish. In some cases, the need to put on a mask is so deep that it imposes itself automatically and it is impossible to let go of it, but if the person is determined to grow, develop, and enter into significant relationships, he will have to start discarding his masks. As the years pass, the masks we use become more difficult to wear. An old man tends to forget about himself and his face relaxes. A smile is not merely an expression of humour or pleasure, but it can also signify justification, defence, and even an excuse. When the smile is forced, it becomes a mask to hide feelings.

Postures and Positions

There is no word as clear as body language, once one has learned to read it. Psychological attitudes are said to affect the posture and the functioning of the body, in such a way that neurotic problems also become apparent in the body's structure and function. If body language reveals an individual's state of mind, personality and ability to establish contact with others, it should be possible for the individual to change by modifying his body language.

The important thing is to understand the message he is trying to transmit and what he is really saying with the different parts of his body.

A person who knows about body language and how to use it has learned to master the most important postures and can associate them with emotional states. Such a person will be more perceptive when dealing with others. It is an art that can be taught, since it depends on careful observation, but it is only learned if one is aware that it exists.

Remember that:

- A round-shouldered person cannot have the strong ego of a person who keeps his back straight; on the other hand, a straight-backed person will be less flexible.

- Hunched shoulders mean contained annoyance; raised shoulders are associated with fear; wide, straight shoulders denote assuming responsibilities; drooping shoulders have the connotation of carrying a heavy burden. Movements of the head, eyelids, and hands do not represent different postures but they are called points. A sequence of several points is qualified as a position, which involves at least half of the body and can last almost five minutes.
- Bear in Mind that.
- When holding a conversation, people use certain head movements to indicate that they have come to the end of a sentence and are waiting for the other person's answer.
- When talking, men and women normally look right and left, up and down; they blink; they raise their eyebrows; bite their lips; touch their nose. Each movement is linked to what they are saying. Just as lowering the head indicates the end of a statement or raising the head the end of a question, major modifications in posture indicate ending points in interpretations. Posture is not only a means of punctuating conversation; it is also the way in which people relate to each other when they are together.

Three Types of Postures are Distinguished:

1. Inclusive or non inclusive;
2. Face-to-face or parallel;
3. Congruent or incongruent.

Inclusive or Non- Inclusive

Inclusivity or non-inclusivity refers to the way in which the members of a group include people or fail to include them. They do it by positioning their bodies, arms, or legs in a certain way. The arms and legs of the members of the group are unconsciously used to protect the group from intrusion.

Face-to-face or Parallel

The second category assumes that two persons can relate with each other in terms of posture, face-to-face, sitting beside each, other or maybe facing towards a third person. The face-to-face position is usual in a teacher-student relationship or a doctor-patient relationship where emotions or information are being transmitted. Parallel positions occur, for example, among two or more students listening to a teacher. Parallel arrangements, when freely adopted, indicate that those persons are probably in a neutral situation, at least at that moment. The way a couple position themselves in a social gathering also says a great deal about their relationship.

Congruent or Incongruent

This category refers to the ability of the members of a group to imitate each other. When a group is in congruence, the positions of their bodies mimic each other, in some

cases like mirror images. Interestingly, when one member of a congruent group changes his position, everyone does so with him. The congruence of position of a group usually indicates that all the members are in agreement. If the group has two points of view, the defenders of each opinion will adopt different positions; each subgroup will be congruent within itself, but not congruent with the other subgroup. The leader in any social or family gathering often selects the position for the group and they all invariably follow him or her.

The Seven Signals for Success

So far we have focused primarily on the pitfalls to avoid; but what messages should be sent, and how?

Here are Seven General Suggestions on Good Body Language for the Interview:

- Walk slowly, deliberately, and tall upon entering the room.
- On greeting the interviewer, give a friendly “eyebrow flash”: that brief, slight raising of the brows that calls attention to the face, encourages eye contact, and sends the strong positive signal that the interview has gotten off to a good start.
- Use mirroring techniques. In other words, make an effort — subtly! — To reproduce the positive signals your interviewer sends. Say the interviewer leans forward to make a point; a few moments later, you lean forward slightly in order to hear better. Say the interviewer leans back and laughs; you “laugh beneath” the interviewer’s laughter, taking care not to overwhelm your partner by using an inappropriate volume level. This technique may seem contrived at first, but you will learn that it is far from that, if only you experiment a little.
- Maintain a naturally alert head position; keep your head up and your eyes front at all times.
- Remember to avert your gaze from time to time so as to avoid the impression that you are staring; when you do so, look confidently and calmly to the right or left; never look down.
- Do not hurry any movement.
- Relax with every breath.

IMPORTANCE OF BODY LANGUAGE

Many people do not care about body language or its effects on communication and everyday life. This is not surprising, given the lack of good resources on this topic. Some are too technical and academic, while others are simply fluff or just plain misguided. It is extremely difficult to slog through what is out there and maintain much of an interest. The effort is well worth it; however, as understanding the influence of body language is a powerful communication tool. In other words, you should care about body language because it has tremendous practical and positive applications in your daily life.

Body Language is Integral to Life

Communication is an integral part of your life, affecting everything about what you think, say, and do; and body language, of course, is an integral part of communication. How integral, you might wonder? Let's take a closer look.

- **Personal relationships:** Body language affect and influences personal relationships, sometimes deliberately and sometimes spontaneous. Think about the last time you went to dinner with a special someone - what kinds of body language did you use to communicate affection, interest, and the like?
- In the same vein, think about sitting down in a business meeting next to another person whom you do not particularly like. What kind of body language did you use to maintain a polite business demeanor without expressing levels of friendship you did not genuinely feel?
- **Professional and business endeavors:** Body language has a great deal to do with how you perform and how you are perceived in the business world. Perhaps the most obvious application is in sales and customer service, where body language is an active part of working with clients and customers to solicit and maintain their business.
- For instance, how well would you do as a customer service agent if you consistently frowned, turned away from customers, and generally showed body language indicating you really did not care?
- **Parenting:** Body language is a huge part of parenting, both in how you communicate with your children and how you interpret their communication with you. Babies and infants obviously use a great deal of body language since they cannot speak, but so do toddlers and pre-school aged children. Have you ever seen a toddler throw him- or herself to the ground in a fit or tantrum? That is powerful body language indeed.

Teenagers are also talented purveyors of body language. They can quickly and clearly indicate their disgust with a roll of the eyes, or show interest in someone else with the tilt of a head or a coy smile.

Putting Knowledge of Body Language to Work

When you possess knowledge about body language, such as how to use it and how to understand it, you can put that knowledge to work throughout your daily life.

Some Typical Examples Might Include:

- Negotiating an agreement
- Interviewing for a job
- Showing friendship or intimacy
- Group interactions
- Conveying leadership
- Managing employees

- Dealing with disagreements
- Expressing respect
- Walking your dog
- Walking with confidence to promote personal safety.

Of course, applying your knowledge of body language is not an exact science. There are so many variables and so many influences on this aspect of communication that you cannot possibly read them accurately 100% of the time. Much of your interpretation of body language comes from your familiarity with the person or situation; your own state of mind at the time; and your general observational skills.

In the end, the more you know about body language and more proactively you apply that knowledge, the better the quality of your communications and interactions. With all of the benefits you gain from learning about body language, doesn't it just make sense to care about it as much as you care about any other part of your life?

UNDERSTANDING BODY LANGUAGE

MESSAGE CLUSTERS

Body language comes in clusters of signals and postures, depending on the internal emotions and mental states. Recognizing a whole cluster is thus far more reliable than trying to interpret individual elements.

- Aggressive body language: Showing physical threat.
- Attentive body language: Showing real interest.
- Bored body language: Just not being interested.
- Closed body language: Many reasons are closed.
- Deceptive body language: Seeking to cover up lying or other deception.
- Defensive body language: Protecting self from attack.
- Dominant body language: Dominating others.
- Emotional body language: Identifying feelings.
- Evaluating body language: Judging and deciding about something.
- Open body language: Many reasons for being open.
- Power body language: Demonstrating one's power.
- Ready body language: Wanting to act and waiting for the trigger.
- Relaxed body language: Comfortable and unstressed.
- Romantic body language: Showing attraction to others.
- Submissive body language: Showing you are prepared to give in.

Aggressive Body Language

A significant cluster of body movements is used to signal aggression. This is actually quite useful as it is seldom a good idea to get into a fight, even for powerful people.

Fighting can hurt you, even though you are pretty certain you will win. In addition, with adults, fighting is often socially unacceptable and aggression through words and body language is all that may ever happen.

Threat

Facial signals: Much aggression can be shown in the face, from disapproving frowns and pursed lips to sneers and full snarls. The eyes can be used to stare and hold the gaze for long period. They may also squint, preventing the other person seeing where you are looking.

Attack signals: When somebody is about to attack, they give visual signal such as clenching of fists ready to strike and lowering and spreading of the body for stability. They are also likely to give anger signs such as redness of the face.

Exposing oneself: Exposing oneself to attack is also a form of aggression. It is saying 'Go on - I dare you. I will still win.' It can include not looking at the other person, crotch displays, relaxing the body, turning away and so on.

Invasion: Invading the space of the other person in some way is an act of aggression that is equivalent to one country invading another.

- False friendship: Invasion is often done under the cloak of familiarity, where you act as if you are being friendly and move into a space reserved for friends, but without being invited. This gives the other person a dilemma of whether to repel a 'friendly' advance or to accept dominance of the other.
- Approach: When you go inside the comfort zone of others without permission, you are effectively invading their territory. The closer you get, the greater your ability to have 'first strike', from which an opponent may not recover.
- Touching: Touching the person is another form of invasion. Even touching social touch zones such as arm and back can be aggressive.
- Insulting gestures: There are many, many gestures that have the primary intent of insulting the other person and hence inciting them to anger and a perhaps unwise battle. Single and double fingers pointed up, arm thrusts; chin tilts and so on are used, although many of these do vary across cultures.
- Many gestures are sexual in nature, indicating that the other person should go away and fornicate, that you are having sex with their partner, and so on.
- Mock attacks: Gestures may include symbolic action that mimics actual attacks, including waving fingers, shaking fists, and head-butts and so on. This is saying 'Here is what I will do to you!'
- Physical items may be used as substitutes, for example banging of tables and doors or throwing. Again, this is saying 'This could be you!'
- Sudden movements: All of these gestures may be done suddenly, signaling your level of aggression and testing the other person's reactions.

- **Large gestures:** The size of gestures may also be used to signal levels of aggression, from simple finger movements to whole arm sweeps, sometimes even with exaggerated movements of the entire body.

Attentive Body Language

When you are in conversation or otherwise attending to what others are saying or doing, your body sends signals to the other person as to how interested you really are. Attentive body language sends a strong signal of real and deep interest that is both flattering and likely to result in reciprocal attention.

It was said that if you met with the English 19th century politician William Gladstone, you would come away thinking he was the most intelligent and witty person in the country. If, however, you met his peer Benjamin Disraeli, then you would come away thinking that you were the most intelligent and witty person. Disraeli, it would seem, was somewhat more skilled at paying attention.

Listening: A person who is attentive is first of all listening. This can be of varying intensity though attentive listening is deep and interested.

- **Ignoring distractions:** There are many competing stimuli that demand our attention. If a person ignores distraction, from phone calls to other people interrupting, then they send strong and flattering 'I am interested in you' signals.
- **Stillness:** Body movement often betrays distracting thoughts and feelings. When the listener is largely still, the implication is of forgetting everything else except the other person, with not even internal dialogue being allowed to distract.
- **Leaning forward:** When I am interested in you and what you have to say I will likely lean slightly towards you, perhaps better to hear everything you have to say.
- **Tilted head:** An attentive head may be tilted slightly forward. It also may show curiosity when tilted to the side.
- **Gaze:** An attentive person looks at the other person without taking their gaze away. They will likely blink less, almost for fear of missing something.
- **Furrowed brow:** Concentration may also be shown in the forehead as the eyebrows are brought together as the listener seeks to hear and understand the other person.
- **Wanting more:** An attentive person seeks not just to hear but to be ready to listen to everything the other person has to say.
- **Patience:** When you want to hear more from the other person you are patient, listening until they have finished speaking and not butting in with your views. Even when you have something to say or when they pause, you still patiently seek a full understanding of them and give them space in which to complete what they have to say.

- **Open body:** Open body language shows that you are not feeling defensive and are mentally open to what they have to say.
- **Slow nodding:** Nodding shows agreement and also encourages the other person to keep talking. Fast nodding may show impatience, whilst a slower nod indicates understanding and approval.
- **Interest noises:** Little noises such as ‘uh huh’ and ‘mmm’ show that you are interested, understand and want to hear more. They thus encourage the other person to keep talking.
- **Reflecting:** When you reflect the other person back to them they feel affirmed and that you are aligned with them. Reflecting activities range from matching body language to paraphrasing what they say.

Bored Body Language

When a person is bored, their whole body is telling you. So if you are trying to persuade them, don't bother.

Language of boredom: A ready body is poised for action:

- **Distraction:** A bored person looks anywhere but at the person who is talking to them. They find other things to do, from doodling to talking with others to staring around the room. They may also keep looking at their watch or a wall clock.
- **Repetition:** Bored people often repeat actions such as tapping toes, swinging feet or drumming fingers. The repetition may escalate as they try to signal their boredom.
- **Tiredness:** A person who feels that they are unable to act to relieve their boredom may show signs of tiredness. They may yawn and their whole body may sag as they slouch down in their seat, lean against a wall or just sag where they are standing. Their face may also show a distinct lack of interest and appear blank.

Reasons for Boredom

Lack of interest: If the person is not interested in their surroundings or what is going on, then they may become bored. The disinterest may also be feigned if they do not want you to see that they are interested. Watch for leaking signs of readiness in these cases.

Readiness

A bored person may actually be ready for the actions you want, such as closing a sale. Sales people are known to keep on the sales patter long after the customer is ready to sign on the dotted line.

Closed Body Language

A significant cluster of body movements are all about closing. This is sometimes misinterpreted solely as indicating defensiveness;

- **Language of closure:** Closure literally closes the body up. It may range from a slight bringing together of the limbs to curled up into a tight ball. Extreme cases may also include rhythmic rocking of the body to and fro.
- **Arms across:** In a closed positions one or both arms cross the central line of the body. They may be folded or tightly clasped or holding one another. There may also be holding one another.
- **Lighter arm crossing** may include resting an arm on a table or leg, or loosely crossed with wrists crossing. Varying levels of tension may be seen in the arms and shoulders, from a relaxed droop to tight tension and holding on to the body or other arms.
- **Legs across:** Legs likewise can be crossed. There are several styles of leg crossing, including the ankle cross, the knee cross, the figure-four and the tense wrap-around. Legs may also wrap around convenient other objects, such as chair legs. When legs are crossed but arms are not, it can show deliberate attempts to appear relaxed. This is particularly true when legs are hidden under a table.
- **Looking down or away:** The head may be inclined away from the person, and particularly may be tucked down.

Reasons for Closing

There can be several reasons for closed body language. This is one reason why reading body language can be hazardous and you should take into account other factors. In particular look for the transition when the body closes and the triggers that may have caused this change.

Defending: When we feel threatened, our body language becomes defensive. We use closure to place the barriers of our arms and legs across in front of us to defend ourselves from attack. When we close, we also make our body smaller, reducing the size of the target. When we tuck our chin down, we are protecting the exposed throat.

We also may be signaling to the other person that we are not a threat to them. Thus the held-in arms shows that we are not attacking and looking away from them removes aggressive staring. In a variant of this, particularly where the person is holding themselves, a closed position may indicate self-nurturing. The person is effectively holding or hugging themselves in an imitation of a parent or other caring person.

- **Hiding:** Closing also may serve the purpose of hiding something that we do not want the other person to see. Holding the body still prevents it from betraying our thoughts. Looking away prevents the other person from seeing our expression that may show dislike or lying.

- Cold: A more pragmatic form of closure is when we are cold. Huddling up reduces exposed body area and reduces heat loss. Holding warmer parts of the body against colder parts evens the temperature and prevents extremities from being chilled too much.
- Relaxing: And we also cross our arms and legs when we are relaxing. It can just be a comfortable place to put those gangly limbs. We may look away because we are thinking, nothing more.
- Opening: When you are trying to persuade a person, then their standing or sitting in a closed position is usually a signal that they are not ready to be persuaded. Moving them to an open position can significantly increase your chances of persuading them.
- Force hand use: A common method sales people use to break a crossed-arms closed position is to give the person something to hold or otherwise ask them to use their hands, for example asking them to hand over something, turn over a page, stand up and so on.
- Following: The other common method of opening a person is to first adopt a closed position like them.

Then some effort is put into building a bond with them, such that they start to like you and are attaching their identity to yours. Finally, you then open your position, unfolding arms and legs. If they are sufficiently bonded then they will follow you.

This should be done naturally and steadily, for example unfolding your arms in order to use your hands to illustrate what you are saying. If they do not follow you, return to the closed position and work further at bonding before trying again.

Deceptive Body Language

When a person is seeking to trick or deceive you, they there are many different body signal they may use:

- Language of deception: A deceptive body is concerned about being found out — and this concern may show.
- Anxiety: A deceptive person is typically anxious that they might be found out, so they may send signals of tension. This may include sweating, sudden movements, minor twitches of muscles, changes in voice tone and speed. Many of us have hidden anxiety signals. For example: Biting the inside of the mouth, patting head, and hands in pockets.

These signals are almost impossible to stop as we start them very young:

- Control: In order to avoid being caught, there may be various signs of over-control. For example, there may be signs of attempted friendly body language, such as forced smiles, jerky movements and clumsiness or oscillation between open body language and defensive body language. The person may also try to

hold their body still, to avoid tell-tale signals. For example they may hold their arms in or put their hands in their pockets.

- **Distracted:** A person who is trying to deceive needs to think more about what they are doing, so they may drift off or pause as they think about what to say or hesitate during speech. They may also be distracted by the need to cover up. Thus their natural timing may go astray and they may over- or under-react to events. Anxiety may be displaced into actions such as fidgeting, moving around the place or paying attention to unusual places.

Reasons for Deception

There can be many good reasons for deception:

- **Persuading:** Deception may be an act that is intended to get another person to say or do something.
- **Avoiding detection:** Deception also may be more self-oriented, where the sole goal is to get away with something, perhaps by avoiding answering incriminating questions.

Defensive Body Language

When a person is feeling threatened in some ways, they will take defensive body postures:

- **Defending from attack:** The basic defensive body language has a primitive basis and assumes that the other person will physically attack, even when this is highly unlikely.

Covering Vital Organs and Points of Vulnerability

In physical defence, the defensive person will automatically tend to cover those parts of the body that could damage by an attack. The chin is held down, covering the neck. The groin is protected with knees together, crossed legs or covering with hands. The arms may be held across the chest or face.

- **Fending off:** Arms may be held out to fend off attacker, possibly straight out or curved to deflect incoming attacks.
- **Using a barrier:** Any physical object may be placed held in front of the person to act as a literal or figurative barrier. This can be as small as a pen or as large as a table. Straddling a reversed chair makes some people comfortable in conversation as they look relaxed whilst feeling defensive. Barriers can also protect the other person and if I am powerful, I may use a simple barrier to make you feel less defensive. It also means I control the barrier.
- **Becoming small:** One way of defending against attack is to reduce the size of the target. People may thus huddle into a smaller position, keeping their arms and legs in.

- **Rigidity:** Another primitive response is to tense up, making the muscles harder in order to withstand a physical attack. Rigidity also freezes the body, possibly avoiding movements being noticed or being interpreted as preparing for attack.
- **Seeking escape:** Flicking the eyes from side to side shows that the person is looking for a way out.

Pre-empting Attack

- **Giving in:** Pre-empting the attack, the defensive person may reduce the, generally using submissive body language, avoiding looking at the other person, keeping the head down and possibly crouching into a lower body position.
- **Attacking first:** Aggressive body language may also appear, as the person uses 'attack as the best form of defence'. The body may thus be erect, thrust forward and with attacking movements. Where attack and defence both appear together, there may be conflicting signs appearing together.

Thus the upper body may exhibit aggression whilst the legs are twisted together.

Dominant Body Language

Dominant body language is related to aggressive body language, though with a less emotional content.

- **Size signals:** The body in dominant stances is generally open, and may also include additional aspects.
- **Making the body big:** Hands on hips makes the elbows go wide and make the body seem larger. So also does standing upright and erect, with the chin up and the chest thrust out. Legs may be placed apart to increase size.
- **Making the body high:** Height is also important as it gives an attack advantage. This can be achieved by standing up straight or somehow getting the other person lower than you, for example by putting them on a lower seat or by your standing on a step or plinth.
- **Occupying territory:** By invading and occupying territory that others may own or use, control and dominance is indicated. A dominant person may thus stand with feet akimbo and hands on hips.

Superiority Signals

- **Breaking social rules:** Rulers do not need to follow rules: they make the rules. This power to decide one's own path is often displayed in breaking of social rules, from invasion and interruption to casual swearing in polite company.
- **Ownership:** Owning something that others covet provides a status symbol. This can be territorial, such as a larger office, or displays of wealth or power, such as a Rolex watch or having many subordinates. Just owning things is an initial symbol, but in body language it is the flaunting of these, often casually, that is

the power display. Thus a senior manager will casually take out their Mont Blanc pen whilst telling their secretary to fetch the Havana cigars.

- **Invasion:** A dominant act is to disrespect the ownership of others, invading their territory, for example getting too close to them by moving into their body space. Other actions include sitting on their chairs, leaning on their cars, putting feet up on their furniture and being over-friendly with their romantic partners. Invasion says 'What's yours is mine' and 'I can take anything of yours that I want and you cannot stop me'.
- **Belittling others:** Superiority signals are found both in saying 'I am important' and also 'You are not important'. Thus a dominant person may ignore or interrupt another person who is speaking or turn away from them. They may also criticize the inferior person, including when the other person can hear them.
- **Facial signals:** Much dominance can be shown in the face, from disapproving frowns and pursed lips to sneers and snarls. The eyes can be used to stare and hold the gaze for long periods. They may also squint, preventing the other person seeing where you are looking. They may also look at anywhere but the other person, effectively saying that 'you are not even worth looking at'. Faces can also look bored, amused or express other expressions that belittle the other person. Dominant people often smile much less than submissive people.
- **Phallic displays:** Dominant men will often expose their crotch, effectively saying to other men 'I am safe from attack' or 'my penis is bigger than yours', whilst showing off. They may also be offering 'come and get it!' to women. When women do this, it is to some extent a tease or invitation to men but may also be an emulation of the male display, thus saying 'I am as strong as a man'. This appears in standing or sitting where the legs are apart. It may be emphasized by scratching or adjusting of the crotch.

The Dominant Greeting

When people first meet, their first interaction sets the pattern for the future relationship. When a person is dominant here, then they will most likely continue to be dominant.

- **The handshake:** A classic dominant handshake is with the palm down, symbolically being on top. Another form of dominant handshake is to use strength to squeeze the other person. Holding the other person's hand for longer than normal also shows that you are in control.
- **Eyes:** Prolonged, unblinking eye contact acts like overplaying the handshake — it says 'I am powerful, I can break the rules.' The dominant person may alternatively prevent eye contact, saying 'You are beneath me and I do not want even to look at you.'

- **Speaking:** The person who speaks first often gets to control the conversation, either by talking for longer or by managing the questions.

Responding to Dominance

If others display dominant body language you have a range of options. The simplest response is simply not to submit, which is what they probably want. Continue to appear friendly and ignore their subtle signals. Another response is to fight dominance with dominance, for example: Out-stare them. Touch them, either before they touch you or immediately when they touch you. When they do a power handshake, grab their elbow and step to the side. When they butt in to your speech, speed up, talk more loudly and say 'let me finish!' Another approach is to name the game. Ask them why they are using dominant body language. A good way to do this is in a curious, unafraid way.

Emotional Body Language

With careful observation, emotions may be detected from non-verbal signs. Remember that these are indicators and not certain guarantees. Contextual clues may also be used, in particular what is being said to the person or what else is happening around them.

Anger

Anger occurs when achievement of goals are frustrated.

- Neck and/or face are red or flushed.
- Baring of teeth and snarling.
- Clenched fists.
- Leaning forward and invasion of body space.
- Other aggressive body language.
- Use of power body language. Fear, anxiety and nervousness

Fear

It occurs when basic needs are threatened. There are many levels of fear, from mild anxiety to blind terror. The many bodily changes caused by fear make it easy to detect.

- A 'cold sweat'.
- Pale face.
- Dry mouth, which may be indicated by licking lips, drinking water, rubbing throat.
- Not looking at the other person.
- Damp eyes.
- Varying speech tone.
- Speech errors.
- Voice tremors.

- Visible high pulse.
- Sweating.
- Tension in muscles: clenched hands or arms, elbows drawn in to the side, jerky movements, and legs wrapped around things.
- Gasping and holding breath.
- Fidgeting.
- Defensive body language, including crossed arms and legs and generally drawing in of limbs.
- Ready body language
- Other symptoms of stress

Sadness

Sadness is the opposite of happiness and indicates a depressive state.

- Drooping of the body.
- Trembling lip.
- Flat speech tone.
- Tears

Embarrassment

Embarrassment may be caused by guilt or transgression of values.

- Neck and/ or face are red or flushed.
- Looking down or away from others. Not looking them in the eye.
- Grimacing, false smile, changing the topic or otherwise trying to cover up the embarrassment.

Surprise

Surprise occurs when things occur that were not expected.

- Raised eyebrows.
- Widening of eyes.
- Open mouth.
- Sudden backward movement.

Happiness

Happiness occurs when goals and needs are met.

- General relaxation of muscles.
- Smiling.
- Open body language

Evaluating Body Language

A notable cluster of body movements happens when a person is thinking, judging or making some decision.

Language of Evaluation

- **Hand movements:** The classic signal of evaluation is the steeple hands which are clasped together, either looking like they are praying, with both hands pressed together, or with linked fingers and with index fingers only pointing upwards. The fingers pointing upwards may touch the lips. Another common evaluative movement is stroking, often of the chin but possibly other parts of the face.
- **Other actions:** Other evaluative signals include pursing lips, stroking the side of the nose and peering over the top of spectacles.
- **Relaxed intensity:** The body may well be relaxed and open. The person seems to be unafraid or even unaware of danger. However there is also a level of concentration, perhaps with pursed lips and an intense gaze. The chin may be resting in one or both palms.

Reasons for Evaluation

There can be several reasons for a ready body language.

- **Deciding:** A person who is evaluating may be making an important decision. If they are buying from you, they may be close to the point of closure.
- **Judging:** In their decision-making, they may be judging. Perhaps this is you, something you are saying or something else. Watch how they change with what you say and try to figure this one out.
- **Thinking:** Sometimes the evaluation is only on an internal point. When they are deep inside their own world, they may be mentally trying out ideas to see if they will work. If you have suggested something, they may be trying to fit your idea into their own model of the world.

Open Body language

A significant cluster of body movements are all about being open. This is sometimes misinterpreted solely as indicating being relaxed and non- tense. Remember that perhaps the most significant part of being open or close is the act of opening or closing. When you open or close, you are signaling a change in the way you are thinking or feeling, which is likely to be in response to what the other person has said or done.

Language of Openness

The open stance has arms and legs not crossed in any way. They may also be moving in various ways. *Arms open:* Arms are not crossed and may be animated and moving in synchronization with what is being said or held wide. Palms are also relaxed and may be quite expressive, for example appearing to hold things and form more detailed shapes. Open hands show that nothing is being concealed.

- **Legs open:** Open legs are not crossed. Often they are parallel. They may even be stretched apart.

- The feet are of interest in open legs and may point forward or to the side or at something or someone of interest.
- Looking around and at the other person: The head may be directed solely towards the other person or may be looking around. Eye contact is likely to be relaxed and prolonged.
- Relaxed clothing: Clothing is likely to hang loosely and actions to loosen clothing may take place, such as removing a jacket and unbuttoning a collar.

Reasons for Opening

There can be several reasons for open body language. In particular look for the transition when the body opens and the triggers that may have caused this change.

- Accepting: When arms rounded and palms are sideways, the person may be offering a 'mock hug', showing that they care for the other person. Gestures may be slower and symbolize gentleness.
- Passive threat: An open posture may also be associated with a passive threat. When the person casually 'exposes themselves', for example by opening their body and looking away they are opening themselves for attack. When this is relaxed, it may be saying 'I am so powerful and you are so weak, you are unable to attack me even when I am exposed.' Males with knees apart are also doing a crotch display, which, as well as casually exposing vulnerabilities is effectively says to other males 'Look: I have a large penis than you!'
- Aggression: When there is tension in the open body, especially if fists are clenched, then this may be a sign of significant aggression. The person is effectively holding their body opens in readiness for a fight.
- Aggression is also seen when the body is square on to the other person and is relatively close to them. Movements may be particularly sudden and designed to test the other person's reactions.
- Supplicating: When palms are held upwards, this may form a pleading gesture and may be combined with lowering of the body. This is saying 'Please don't hurt me'.
- Opening the body in supplication is also saying 'Here, you can hurt me if you wish' and is equivalent to a dog who rolls over on its back and exposes itself to indicate that it is not a threat.
- Relaxing: And finally, the open body may simply be the body at rest, relaxed and comfortable

Power Body Language

Power is often expressed in communication as a combination of strength and humanity. This is very attractive and is a form of Hurt and Rescue.

Greeting

- **Handshake:** As the other person approaches, move to left side, extend your arm horizontally, palm down. Grab their palm firmly, pull them in and hold their elbow with your left hand. The horizontal arm is an immiscible signal. Palm on top is being dominant, putting you on top. Holding the elbow further controls them. The royal handshake is outstretched arm to keep the other at their distance. A limp hand, palm down, stops them doing a power shake.
- **Touching:** Touching is power symbol. Touching people can be threatening, and is used by leaders to demonstrate power.
- The handshake is, of course, a touch, and can lead to further touching, such as the elbow grip and patting shoulders and back. Guide people with a palm in the small of the back. Greet them with a hand on the back. Touch them on the elbow or other 'safe' areas.

Speaking

- **Talking:** Talk with confidence and use the body beat in time with assertions. Beat with a finger, a palm or even a fist. Emphasize and exaggerate your points. Use silences too. Pause in the middle of speaking and look around at everyone. If you are not interrupted they are probably respecting your power. Stand confidently without speaking. Look around, gazing into people's eyes for slightly longer than usual.
- **Emoting:** It is powerful to show that you have emotion, but in the right place only. It shows you are human. At other times it emphasizes how you are in control. A neat trick is to bite the lower lip, as it shows both emotion and control. And...
- **Walking:** Walk with exaggerated swinging of arms, palm down and out. Kink elbows outwards, making the body seem wider. Add a slight swagger. When walking with others, be in front of them. When going through doors, if you are going to an audience, go first. If you are going from an audience, go last.
- **Position:** Generally be higher. Sit on a higher chair. Stand over people. Wear heels. Drive a higher car.

Language of Readiness

A ready body is poised for action.

- **Pointing:** Any part of the body may be pointing at where the person is thinking about. This may be another person or the door. This may be as subtle as a foot or as obvious as the whole body leaning. Eyes may also repeatedly flash over in the intended direction.
- **Tension:** The body is tensed up and ready for action. If sitting, hands may hold

onto armrests in readiness to get up. Legs are tensed ready to lift the body. Things in the hand are gripped. Attention is away from everything except the intended direction.

- **Hooking:** The hands may slightly hook clothing, in particular with thumbs hooked into the waistband. This is like a not-quite putting of hands in pockets, indicating the person is relaxed but ready to move quickly.
- **Movement:** Where there is movement, it is in preparation for further movement. Legs uncross. Hands grab bags, straighten clothing, and so on. The whole body leans in the intended direction.

Ready Body Language

A significant cluster of body movements are all about being ready for something.

Romantic Body Language

A significant cluster of body movements has to do with romance, signaling to a person of the opposite sex that you are interested in partnering with them.

- **From afar:** From afar, the first task of body language is to signal interest.
- **Eyes:** The eyes do much signaling. Initially and from a distance, a person may look at you for slightly longer than normal, then look away, and then look back up at you, again for a longer period.
- **Pre-ening:** There are many pre-ening gestures. What you are basically saying with this is 'I am making myself look good for you'. This includes tossing of the head, brushing hair with hand, polishing spectacles and brushing clothes.
- **Enacting:** Remote romantic language may also include enactment of sexually stimulating activities, for example caressing one, for example stroking arms, leg or face. This may either say 'I would like to stroke you like this' or 'I would like you to stroke me like this'.

Similarly, the person may lick and purse their lips into a kiss shape and leave their mouth slightly open in imitation of sexual readiness.

Objects held may be also used in enactment displays, including cigarettes and wine glasses, for example rolling and stroking them.

- **Displaying:** Attractive parts of the body may be exposed, thrust forward, wiggled or otherwise highlighted. For women this includes breasts, neck, bottom and legs. For men it includes a muscular torso, arms or legs, and particularly the crotch. Faking often happens. Pressing together muscles gives the impression of higher muscle tone. Pressing together and lifting breasts makes them look firmer and larger. Holding out shoulders and arms makes the body look bigger. Holding in the abdomen gives the impression of a firm tummy.

This is often playing to primitive needs. Women show that they are healthy and that they are able to bear and feed the man's child. The man shows he is virile, strong and able to protect the woman and her child.

- **Leaning:** Leaning your body towards another person says 'I would like to be closer to you'. It also tests to see whether they lean towards you or away from you. It can start with the head with a simple tilt or may use the entire torso. This may be coupled with listening intently to what they say, again showing particular interest in them.
- **Pointing:** A person who is interested in you may subtly point at you with a foot, knee, arm or head. It is effectively a signal that says 'I would like to go in this direction'.
- **Other displays:** Other forms of more distant display that are intended to attract include:
 - Sensual or dramatic dancing.
 - Crotch display, where legs are held apart to show off genitalia.
 - Faked interest in others, to invoke envy or hurry a closer engagement.
 - Nodding gently, as if to say 'Yes, I do like you.'
- **Up close:** When you are close to the other person, the body language progressively gets more intimate until one person signals 'enough'.
- **Close in and personal:** In moving closer to the other person, you move from social space into their personal body space, showing how you would like to get even closer to them, perhaps holding them and more... Standing square-on to them also blocks anyone else from joining the conversation and signals to others to stay away.
- **Copying:** Imitating the person in some way shows 'I am like you'. This can range from a similar body position to using the same gestures and language.
- **Lovers' gaze:** When you are standing close to them, you will hold each other's gaze for longer and longer periods before looking away. You may also use what are called 'doe eyes' or 'bedroom eyes', which are often slightly moist and with the head inclined slightly down.

A very subtle signal that few realise is that the eyes will dilate such that the dark pupils get much bigger.

Touching: Touching signals even closer intimacy. It may start with 'accidental' brushing, followed by touching of 'safe' parts of the body such as arms or back. Caressing is gentle stroking that may start in the safer regions and then stray to sexual regions.

Submissive Body Language

A significant cluster of body movements is used to signal fear and readiness to submit. This is common in animals, where fighting is avoided by displays of aggression or submission.

- **Body positions:** The body in fearful stances is generally closed, and may also include additional aspects.

- Making the body small: Hunching inwards reduces the size of the body, limiting the potential of being hit and protecting vital areas. In a natural setting, being small may also reduce the chance of being seen. Arms are held in. A crouching position may be taken, even slightly with knees slightly bent. This is approaching the curled-up regressive fetal position.
- Motionlessness: By staying still, the chance of being seen is, in a natural setting, reduced. When exposed, it also reduces the chance of accidentally sending signals which may be interpreted as being aggressive. It also signals submission in that you are ready to be struck and will not fight back.

Head

- Head down: Turning the chin and head down protects the vulnerable neck from attack. It also avoids looking the other person in the face.
- Eyes: Widening the eyes makes you look more like a baby and hence signals your vulnerability. Looking attentively at the other person shows that you are hanging on their every word.
- Mouth: Submissive people smile more at dominant people, but they often smile with the mouth but not with the eyes.

Gestures

- Submissive gestures: There are many gestures that have the primary intent of showing submission and that there is no intent to harm the other person. Hands out and palms up shows that no weapons are held and is a common pleading gesture. Other gestures and actions that indicate tension may indicate the state of fear. This includes hair tugging, face touching and jerky movement. There may also be signs such as whiteness of the face and sweating.
- Small gestures: When the submissive person must move, then small gestures are often made. These may be slow to avoid alarming the other person, although tension may make them jerky.

Faking Body Language

A commonly asked question is, 'Is it possible to fake your own body language?' The general answer to this question is 'no' because of the lack of congruence that is likely to occur in the use of the main gestures, the body's micro signals and the spoken words. For example, open palms are associated with honesty but when the faker holds his palms out and smiles at you as he tells a lie, his micro gestures give him away. His pupils may contract, one eyebrow may lift or the corner of his mouth may twitch, and these signals contradict the open palm gesture and the sincere smile. The result is that the receiver tends not to believe what he hears.

The human mind seems to possess a fail-safe mechanism that registers 'tilt' when it receives a series of incongruent non-verbal messages. There are, however, some cases in which body language is deliberately faked to gain certain advantages. Take, for example, the Miss World or Miss Universe contest, in which each contestant uses studiously taught body movements to give the impression of warmth and sincerity. To the extent that each contestant can convey these signals, she will score points from the judges, but even the experts can only fake body language for a short period of time and eventually the body will emit signals that are independent of conscious actions. Many politicians are experts in faking body language in order to get the voters to believe what they are saying and the politician who can successfully do this is said to have 'charisma'.

The face is used more often than any other part of the body to cover up lies. We use smiles, nods and winks in an attempt to cover up, but unfortunately for us, our body signals tell the truth and there is a lack of congruence between our body gestures and facial signals. The study of facial signals is an art in itself. Little space is devoted to it in this book and for more information about it I recommend *Face Language* by Robert L. Whiteside. In summary, it is difficult to fake body language for a long period of time but, as we shall discuss, it is good to learn and to use positive open gestures to communicate with others and to eliminate gestures that may give negative signals. This can make it more comfortable to be with people and can make you more acceptable to them.

How to Tell Lies Successfully

The difficulty with lying is that the subconscious mind acts automatically and independently of our verbal lie, so our body language gives us away. This is why people who rarely tell lies are easily caught, regardless of how convincing they may sound. The moment they begin to lie, the body sends out contradictory signals, and these give us our feeling that they are not telling the truth.

During the lie, the subconscious mind sends out nervous energy that appears as a gesture that can contradict what the person said. Some people whose jobs involve lying, such as politicians, lawyers, actors and television announcers, have refined their body gestures to the point where it is difficult to 'see' the lie, and people fall for it, hook, line and sinker.

They refine their gestures in one of two ways. First, they practice what 'feel' like the right gestures when they tell the lie, but this is only successful when they have practiced telling numerous lies over long periods of time. Second, they can eliminate most gestures so that they do not use any positive or negative gestures while lying, but this is also very difficult to do. Try this simple test when an occasion presents itself. Tell a deliberate lie to an acquaintance and make a conscious effort to suppress all body gestures while your body is in full view of the other person.

Even when your major body gestures are consciously suppressed, numerous micro gestures will still be transmitted. These include facial muscular twitching, expansion and contraction of pupils, sweating at the brow, flushing of the cheeks, increased rate of eye blinking and numerous other minute gestures that signal deceit.

Research using slow motion cameras shows that these micro gestures can occur within a split second and it is only people such as professional interviewers, sales people and those whom we call perceptive who can consciously see them during a conversation or negotiation. The best interviewers and sales people are those who have developed the unconscious ability to read the micro gestures during face-to-face encounters.

It is obvious, then, that to be able to lie successfully, you must have your body hidden or out of sight. This is why police interrogation involves placing the suspect on a chair in the open or placing him under lights with his body in full view of the interrogators; his lies are much easier to see under those circumstances. Naturally, telling lies is easier if you are sitting behind a desk where your body is partially hidden, or while peering over a fence or behind a closed door. The best way to lie is over the telephone!

HOW TO LEARN BODY LANGUAGE

Set aside at least fifteen minutes a day to study and read the gestures of other people, as well as acquiring a conscious awareness of your own gestures. A good reading ground is anywhere that people meet and interact. An airport is a particularly good place for observing the entire spectrum of human gestures, as people openly expresses eagerness, anger, sorrow, happiness, impatience and many other emotions through gestures.

Social functions, business meetings and parties are also excellent. Having studied the art of body language, you can go to a party, sit alone in a corner all evening like a wallflower and have an exciting time just watching other people's body language rituals! Television also offers an excellent way of learning non-verbal communication. Turn down the sound and try to understand what is happening by first watching the picture. By turning the sound up every five minutes, you will be able to check how accurate your non-verbal readings are and before long it will be possible to watch an entire programme without any sound and understand what is happening, just as deaf people do.

KEY ELEMENTS OF BODY LANGUAGE

Nearly all body language behaviours and non-verbal cues include one or more of eight primary elements. It is these elements alone or in combination, that communicate so powerfully to the people around you. Some might be quite familiar to you, while others might be a bit more surprising. Regardless, as you read through this article you are almost guaranteed to think of many examples of how each element appears in your own non-verbal communication patterns.

The Eight Primary Elements of Body Language

The eight primary elements of body language are commonly listed as follows:

1. **Face:** Your face is a major source of expression when communicating with others. It can smile, frown, remain neutral, show anger, show disgust, indicate you want to speak, and show interest.
2. **Eyes:** Your eyes are often the first piece of body language others see or notice. They can be used to make visual contact, avoid visual contact, express feelings based on intensity and length of eye contact, and the like.
3. **Posture:** Your posture includes how you hold your head, shoulders, legs, arms, and hips. Each of these parts of your body work separately as well as together to send non-verbal cues. Examples include tilting your head, slumping your shoulders, turning your hips sideways, and the like.
4. **Gestures:** Your gestures can be related to verbal communication or unrelated to verbal communication. For instance, you might wave at another person as a way of saying 'hello', but you do not have to actually say the word out loud for the message to be clear. Or, you might use hand gestures to emphasize a key point during a speech or presentation; in this case, your gesture is related to the verbal communication.
5. **Voice:** Your voice is used to verbalize language, but is an integral part of your non-verbal communication. For instance, your tone of voice, volume, emotion, pace, and the like, all influence the messages you send as part of your body language.
6. **Movement:** Your movement, whether using your entire body or just part of your body, is both flexible and commanding. For instance, moving towards another person may send a message of dominance or assertiveness, while moving away from another person may send a message of avoidance, submission, or simply bringing the interaction to a close.
7. **Touch:** This is one of the most powerful elements of body language. It is capable of communicating so many different messages, and can also be interpreted in so many different ways. Touch is usually divided into four main categories: friendship, professional, social, and intimacy.
8. **Appearance:** Your physical appearance includes clothing, neatness, body shape, and anything else that provides visual messages and cues to other people. For instance, you dress conservatively and formally for a funeral, but casually and informally for a backyard barbecue.

As you can see, there are a huge number of variations that can be created within each element of body language, and even more that occur when you combine two or more elements. All of these elements connect together into body language in ways that are both conscious and unconscious. Learning about the key elements of body language and increasing your awareness of them will help you in all aspects of communication in all aspects of your life.

COMMUNICATION WITH BODY LANGUAGE

It is often said that in face-to-face communications, the words we speak actually account for less than 10% of the meaning that we convey; while body language accounts for more than half of our message. Body language is important, and if your words say one thing but your body says another, the person you are speaking to is more likely to believe the message your body is communicating. Here's how to start using body language to improve your day-to-day communications and, more importantly, to improve your quality of life.

Tips

- One way to work on developing your own system is to study sign-language, and then use similar symbols when actually speaking once in a while.
- It is sometimes useful to observe the body language that is appropriate for a given setting or among certain people, and then match your gestures to those of people around you. This sort of imitation may be considered uncharismatic, but if you're not familiar with the culture or with the people with whom you are speaking, it may be the only way to get your message across or to avoid an embarrassing gaffe.
- Use the most positive gestures and facial expressions first and last. While it is true that we make our most memorable impressions within the first 5 to 10 seconds, we also make a crucial impression within the last 5 to 10 seconds as well.
- Once in a while use the opposite gesture of your intended meaning. This is not meant to confuse the listener, but rather to see how well they pay attention to your gestures. If they notice it, consciously or not, they may say something like "Wait a minute, let me make sure I understand you."
- Tone of voice and inflection, although audible, are great indicators of meaning. However the actual tones used between people may not be accurately interpreted by the listener. Be careful to not misinterpret another person's tone of voice.
- If you know you are using a sign that may easily be misinterpreted, state so as quickly as possible and state your intended meaning, right away. For example, if you cross your arms for warmth, you may want to say, "I'm cold, are you?" That way the person won't think that you're just being unresponsive.
- Be honest and non-judgemental. Speech and gestures are co-expressive - if you say what you mean, your body language will follow. Also remember that we communicate to exchange ideas and information and that this process is not supposed to be a convoluted courtship dance. Do not try to read too much into a stranger's body language. It makes them uncomfortable and may give the semblance of you judging them.

Warnings

- Not everyone uses the same gestures to convey the same meaning. For example in the US feet spread apart typically conveys the message “I am calm, but standing my ground.” In Japan to convey this meaning the feet would typically be together, with the hands directly at the sides.
- People’s usage of body language can and usually does change over time.
- Understand that people are liable to misinterpret your body language. Always try to be clear, and try to reinforce your meaning.
- Do not assume that you have correctly identified the meaning of another person’s body language without verification. For example, many people believe that if a person’s arms are crossed it means that they are distancing themselves. Perhaps they are simply cold!
- Faking a gesture or facial feature to convey a meaning is the same as lying, and it can be interpreted this way. When people say that someone seems phony, they’re usually referring to mannerisms that seem faked.
- Be very careful of what body language you send out, even if it’s unintentional. For example, if you’re pulled over by the police, you wouldn’t want to be clenching your fists and gritting your teeth.

Reading People is as Much a Science as it is an Art

The science deals with an understanding of the mechanics and principles involved in people reading; For example, you study all the cold, hard facts about what a specific mannerism could mean, what a certain tone of voice might suggest, or how the context of a person’s environment may influence their behaviour. However, knowledge of the basic principles is only half of the equation.

Once the principles are understood, open up the right brain - that part of you that does not think in terms of linear thought, words, or mathematics, but instead with patterns, colours and abstracts. This is the art.

Those who are successful at combining the two become amazing people readers. There is no replacement for practice. You could read all the books out there on body language, vocal interpretation, lay detection, *etc.*, and still not be a great reader of people. I can give you the tools, but you must come up with the passion to put them to work. I am confident though, that as you practice these techniques and adopt the mindset, that the passion will naturally develop and many of these things will become instinctual.

The 4 Principles of Reading People

1. Establish the Baseline.
2. Recognize Patterns.
3. Challenge and Refine Your Assumptions.
4. Make a Decision.

All areas of people reading rely on your ability to put these principles into practice. You begin by establishing a general baseline. From that baseline you look for specific patterns and consistencies whereupon you make your assumptions. Then comes the cyclical aspect of constantly challenging and refining those assumptions by observing new patterns and using the art of questioning. Then, backed by experience and intuition, you make a decision.

Establish the Baseline

Establishing the baseline is the first step. When you're starting to read someone, begin by studying their behaviour. Ask yourself if how they are acting at this moment reflects their typical way of being. If a person is in a comfortable, familiar environment and surrounded by those who know them intimately, it's a safe bet that they are in a baseline state. This will become your standard from which you will make your assumptions. If you're in a situation where it doesn't offer this opportunity, then you need to wait it out. Time will help you notice what the person's average behaviour is.

This is best practiced with someone that you know. Pick someone, like a coworker at your office. For the next week study them. I carry what I call an 'observation journal' with me. Try to figure out what their baseline is. Any deviation from the norm is something you should record and be aware of. Because we all have our good and bad days, with time you'll begin to see how they normally act.

Recognize Patterns

Because our minds can only consciously process a limited amount of data at one time, it becomes very selective in what it brings to our attention. I had a friend growing up that loved playing the 'Punch-Buggy' game whenever we went for a drive. He always saw the little VW Bugs and hit me long before I could. Somehow he had trained his mind to bring Volkswagen Beetles immediately to the forefront of his consciousness - he'd see them everywhere. Reading people is no different. With all the distractions coming in, professional people readers filter out the inessential and bring to the forefront the indispensable.

Well, what should I be looking for then, you may ask? As you begin analyzing people, look for 'clusters' - groups of related signals - that coincide with a specific behaviour or state of mind. Single traits by themselves, rarely tell the whole story of what a person is all about. It's not until you broaden your view to include the whole picture, will you begin to correctly analyse someone. I cannot stress this enough. If success with this is your goal, then it is so important that you learn to see in patterns. When you discover these consistencies, it is a safe bet that you are onto something that will reveal the person to you. Patterns begin with the first impression and continue onward. As you combine the first impression with specific tells, behaviour, vocal attributes, and their environment, you are well on your way to reading them correctly.

- Beyond the Blink: reading the First Impression: Malcolm Gladwell wrote a fantastic book called *Blink: The Power of Thinking without Thinking*. In it

he observed our ability to make snap judgements about a person in the blink of an eye. Snap judgements are, first of all, enormously quick: they rely on the thinnest slices of experience...they are also unconscious. We thin-slice because we have to, and we come to rely on that ability because there are lots of hidden fists out there, lots of situations where careful attention to the details of a very thin slice, even for no more than a second or two, can tell us an awful lot. However Malcolm explains that in many cases, these 'thin-slices' of experience from which we draw our conclusions are many times incorrect. What I'm asking for you to do is to control the 'blink' response and retrain your brain, consciously at first, to look for meaning behind the impression. Through experience, this blink response will become very accurate. When you begin sizing them up, doesn't overlook anything. This is where you notice the small details about the person: their hair, their walk, their fingernails, their body language, and the clothes they wear. Always ask yourself, "What is this telling me?"

- Appearance: For example, hair can tell a lot about a person. In women, short stylish hair could denote someone who is creative, artistic, or expressive. Because maintaining perfectly styled hair is expensive, it may signify wealth. If that isn't the case, then their willingness to spend a lot of their money to maintain their coif might show vanity, or a need for acceptance, even insecurity. Less styled short hair on the other hand could mean practicality. For men, professionally styled hair usually goes hand in hand with the desire to show status and power. If combined with expensive clothing and accessories, this is usually a sure bet. Most men do not have the time or desire to regularly have their hair styled at a professional salon. Because it deviates from the norm, this is a good example of something to look out for. Every detail of a person's appearance can offer further clues into their interests, beliefs, emotions and values. Since there are too many details to list here, I'll share with you some of the things you should be looking out for, as well as questions you should ask. As explained earlier, any trait that stands out from the baseline needs to be noted. Note that a deviation from the baseline is not only things that stand out on the individual, but how that person stands out as a whole compared to what the norm is around them. With extremes in appearance you might ask yourself: are they seeking attention? Trying to imitate someone they look up to? Being rebellious? Are they self-centred and are insensitive to others? Have they just not been taught how to dress and act in an appropriate way? Or do they just lack common sense? Be aware of things like physical characteristics, jewelry, makeup, clothing, accessories, hygiene, and piercing/tattoos *etc.*, Again ask yourself, "What is this telling me?"

Bundling the Behaviours: Noticing the Patterns of Action

A good determinate of a person's core personality is how they act when they don't have to 'act'. Take the workplace for example. Is he polite and charming to his subordinates when the boss is around, only to show his true colours when she leaves? Seeing how a person behaves in different situations will help you to further understand what they are all about. Study their interaction with different people, such as with children, co-workers, normal day-to-day people, their family and friends. This will tell you a lot about them. The saying, "You can tell how a man will treat you by the way he treats his mother", although not always the case, does have a measure of truth to it. Many of us have been on dates where they are wonderfully polite and charming with you, only underhandedly being rude to or badmouthing the people serving you. Watch for veiled acts of inconsistency. Their charming, delightful personality may not be so charming and delightful as the novelty of the relationship wears off.

People behave a certain way based on their wants, needs, or values. We tend to project these values and wants on others because it is a source of validation. Athletes value those with strength and stamina. Artists value the creativity in others. If your way of showing love is buying others gifts, then I would bet when people buy you gifts you feel loved too. What someone consistently does for others or seeks out in them can be a big help in determining what they desire or value.

Realise that sometimes, because of fear, anger, or duress a person will act out of character. Lest I keep repeating myself, remember the principles of baseline and recognizing patterns. Are you sensing a pattern yet?

Beyond the Words: what People are really Saying

Vocal attributes play an important role in determining what someone is really saying. These traits in many cases contain hidden messages that require you to pay attention. Someone with a loud voice may indicate a need to control their environment. Like a drill sergeant, they use their voice to intimidate and dominate. Sometimes it can be for reasons of trying to compensate for something they think they're lacking. I know this really short guy at work who speaks louder and deeper than I've seen with guys almost twice his size. This combined with his need to talk over you shows his insecurities. Realise that a loud voice could also mean a loss of hearing or that they're inebriated. Remember to take everything into consideration.

A soft voice also could have different meanings. Don't immediately dismiss the person as someone who lacks confidence. It may mean they're tired or depressed. It may show that they have a calm-assurance about them. It may also show their arrogance in the sense that they feel you need to listen more if you want to know what they're saying.

Think about all the possible reasons for rapid or slow speech, mumbling, different intonations and emphasis, an unemotional, pretentious or whining tone of voice. Each

of these may reveal something deeper than what was first expected. Look for the matching of one's vocal attributes, with their body language and words. Beyond vocal attributes, understanding verbal gymnastics is the other half of what people are communicating in their speech patterns.

For example, always question why someone is leading you towards or away from a topic of conversation. Are they showing conceit by trying to find an opportunity to brag? Are they showing compassion through their leading away from gossiping about someone? The way someone answers can also be used to control or direct a conversation. Try to interpret why they could be rambling, changing the subject, giving a long drawn-out or a short answer, or not simply responding at all. As always, question deviations from the norm. Someone who rarely uses profanity might, with specific people, use it frequently. This could indicate they're seeking acceptance, or trying to present themselves as someone they're not.

Interpreting their Environment

One of the best sources of people reading is the person's environment. So many clues can be discovered here, such as hints about their job, education, religion, culture, hobbies, marital and family status, political alignment, friends, and wealth. You'd be surprised at what someone can learn about you, just from them reading your environment, that it can be quite embarrassing.

Because most of our time is spent at home or at work, these areas provide an accurate source of reading into peoples lives. If you can get exposed to both of these areas, and compare the two, very precise conclusions can be made about them. For example, noticing a discrepancy between their work and home environment, shows that their public image is quite different from their private one.

The Workplace

- Reading the workplace environment starts with the geographical location of someone's home in relation to their work. A father who moves his family downtown to be close to work could indicate that he's a workaholic, is self-centred, or ambitious. However the close proximity might also show that the parents are interested in providing their children easy exposure to cultural opportunities or that the shorter commute means more time with his family. It is through studying both the home and workplace that a more telling story will develop.
- Now begin to study the job itself. Why do you think they've chosen it? What does it tell about the person? Their education or drive? The fact that they're a medical doctor may show a desire to help others, indicating someone who's compassionate. However, they might only be interested in the status of such a job. I even know someone who became a doctor because of pressure from their father; this tells a whole other story.

- The items at the workplace that people surround them with are also very telling. In many ways, these items are a microcosm of the person's life. To give you an idea, consider some of these items: Plants Do they keep fresh flowers or plants? This indicates a person who loves nature or is sensitive to beauty. It may also show that they're health conscious.
- Calendars: These are good indicators of hobbies, interests, or sense of humour.
- Books and Reading Material Having novels or magazines not connected to the job do show personal interests, but beyond that, it also can show that their mind is not on the job. Leaving them lying on the desk can where the boss will surely notice, may show a lack of judgement.
- Desktop Items: what a person keeps in their immediate view also provides answers. Having multiple pictures of his children in different stages of their lives shows his love for family. However, if there's not one of his wives, it may indicate a divorce, a strained relationship, or that he's embarrassed about her looks.

The Home

Because the home is where the heart is, a person's living area reveals volumes about them. As with the workplace, consider the location, the neighbourhood, and the items within and without.

What are they telling you? Some important items to consider are books and reading material, items on the refrigerator, collections, photos, artwork, and children's toys. Take note of the layout and decorations of the home. Someone who wears very expensive clothes, but has a very humble home, may reveal a desire to appear differently to others. Look for things where a person's home is in contrast to their public persona. The bigger the gap the greater the desire to appear a certain way.

The Automobile: Like the home and workplace, a person's car will reveal a lot about them. But as always, take it in comparison to everything else. Like clothes, having an expensive well-maintained automobile may at first indicate wealth, but taken in context with a run-down home may again show a desire to maintain a certain public image.

A messy, disorganized car usually indicates a messy, disorganized person. I also tend to notice the little sticker that oil-change shops put on the upper left corner of the windshield. Seeing the actual car's mileage being much greater than the mileage indicated by the sticker may show a lack of awareness, complacency, or laziness. **The Social Environment:** Where do they spend their free time and who with? Where a person tends to regularly 'hang out' as well as the company one keeps will tell you more details of their personality and interests.

The Socioeconomic Environment: A person's socioeconomic environment and background is a major key to determining one's behaviour. Remember to be aware of

your prejudice. As I spoke of in the last post, prejudice may taint your ability to read someone successfully. As with everything else, the socioeconomic environment needs to be considered within the context of everything else.

Delving Deeper through the Art of Questioning

Through the process of recognizing patterns and refining your assumptions, there comes a time where you need to delve deeper. If you are setting up a date with someone, at a job interview, or just trying to get to know the person better, learning the art of questioning is very handy. The types of questions that should be asked are those which help confirm or contradict the assumptions that you've made throughout this process. Don't make it sound like an interrogation. Do however, makes it a natural part of the conversation. Remember to 'seek first to understand, then to be understood'.

Making your Decision

After all the cards are laid on the table, and you have established the baseline, recognized patterns, and challenged and refined your assumptions through questioning, then and only then should you make a final decision. It's the combination of many details pointing in the same direction that will remind you that you're on track. Being that reading people is a science and an art, use the facts that have presented themselves and couple it with your intuition. If you do this, you will rarely be wrong about someone.

7

CHAPTER

Life Skills and Soft Skills

SOFT SKILLS

- The driving force behind every company is its employees. It is for this reason that almost every company is taking steps towards helping their staff to perform better. They realise that better performance is not just a matter of timely upgraded technical and domain-related knowledge, but also the other aspects that are overlooked, such as soft skills. According to Human Resource heads of various leading enterprises, regular training in soft skills, helps the company as a whole, as the result of such training is to motivate the staff members.
- In fact, soft skills training is at the very base of self management. Every employee has to be a qualified self-manager. There is no MBA college or such degree or diploma providing training institute that dwells into churning out self-managers. One has to learn self management through their years working-professionally for a company, or running their own venture.
- Thus, in a nut shell, the soft skills, are the essential skills required to make an individual and adept self-manager. Someone who can manage the self, and other selves in order to be able to perform above expectations, or at least at par; but definitely not below.
- The following are the varied soft skill training modules that are offered, in general by trainers.
- Courtesy

- Honesty and reliability; Personal integrity
- Verbal Communication Skills
- Flexibility–Adaptability
- Team skills-Cooperation; Ability to follow regulations; Willingness to be accountable; Ability to relate to coworkers in a close environment
- Non- verbal communication
- Leadership skills-Self-directed, ability to direct and guide others, Self-supervising; Ability to relate to coworkers in a close environment;
- Positive attitude; Positive work ethic
- Written Communication Skills-Basic spelling and grammar; Reading and comprehension
- Personal hygiene and energy
- Interpersonal skills-Communication skills with public, fellow employees, supervisors, and customers
- Motivation-Willingness to learn; Caring about seeing the company succeed;
- Understanding what the world is all about; Commitment to continued training and learning;
- Critical thinking skills
- Grooming-good personal appearance

MIS-COMMUNICATION IS NORMAL

Something we are fond of quoting here. It's obvious as soon as you think about it that all communication is subject to a certain amount of misunderstanding. What we do here is help people reduce the chances of misunderstanding to a minimum.

Communication Skills Training (Basic and Advanced) can be tailored as an in-house management programme to address specific issues within your company.

Communication Skills Training Objectives

- Raising Awareness
- Understanding Communication Dynamics
- Working with Body Language
- Dealing with Assumptions
- Working with Differing Points of View
- Understanding Patterns, Habits and Beliefs
- Developing Listening and Responding Skills
- Developing Individual Strengths and Qualities
- Understanding Active vs Passive Choosing
- Using Positive Reinforcement
- Conflict Management
- Being More In Charge
- Gaining Confidence

Communication Skills

All Businesses talk about needing better communication skills, but often don't know exactly what that means or they don't know how to go about making it happen. And without doubt, unless you are a company of one, at some point or another, communication will go awry through no one's fault or intention-it's just the way it happens. You might have pockets of 'them and us': marketing vs finance, IT vs admin, HR vs operations, and consultants' vs full time staff. You might have cross-functional or virtual teams whose ability to communicate efficiently is vital. If your business has groups of people who simply have to communicate more effectively then giving them communication training may be just what you need.

Good Communication Takes Real Skill

Communication skills have to be developed, honed and added to on an on-going basis. They are at the heart of interpersonal skills and the greater your awareness of how it all works, the more effective your communication will be. Most people in business think they communicate pretty well, and in our experience that's generally true. However, even the best communicators can have their communication skills undermined when they get wrong-footed, face potential humiliation, feel misunderstood or get really surprised by someone else's behaviour. That's when it all seems to fall apart and people regress to all kinds of inappropriate and unhelpful behaviour.

Effective Communication Skills Training

We deal with communication skills training by unpicking what happens-if you know how the dynamics work, you can be in charge of them. Then you can choose from a whole range of tools and techniques that fit your personal style. We're big on personal style because when it comes to communication under pressure you can't be anyone other than yourself.

Being a good communicator is often about feeling confident in those situations where you don't always feel comfortable. In other words, you don't have to learn a whole bunch of radically new things. Being an effective communicator means that other people take you seriously, listen to what you have to say and engage in dialogue.

Work on *Communication Skills Training* includes influencing, negotiation, making an impact, dealing with conflict and difficult people-really, anything that has to do with people dealing with other people with far more confidence, assurance and authenticity.

Public Communication Skills Course

This one-day Public Communication Skills Course provides participants with the opportunity to understand how communication works and how to communicate with confidence and flair. Communication Skills courses are run by: You'll look at what works about the way you communicate, what gets in the way of you being a more

effective communicator and then a raft of tools and techniques to help you be more adept and self-assured. This is a practical day filled with exercises, games and discussion which will give you skills to handle difficult and tricky situations and give you more choice in the way you communicate with others.

COMMUNICATION SKILLS COURSE OBJECTIVES

- Understanding how communications work
- Gaining active listening and responding skills
- Seeing things from other points of view
- Managing your assumption more effectively
- Understanding your own strengths
- How others may see you
- Looking at body language
- Increasing confidence
- Difficult people or situations
- Filling up your communications tool kit

Communication Skills Course Programme

The course content may include many of the exercises listed below, and any additional material that the trainers feel is relevant to the delegates on the day.

Introduction

Everything to be done is participative and interactive. There will be work in pairs, small group work, games, processes and exercises designed to stimulate, challenge and develop people's knowledge and skills. They are also fun!

What Else would you like out of a Communications Skills Course?

A chance for delegates to add anything they would like from the programme. The Communication Skills Course will be adapted and changed as we go along to better fit their needs.

Communications Dynamic-how it Works

This is an introduction to the dynamics of face-to-face communication skills-looking at what affects the participants and how they might take more charge of situations. It gives an overview of how communication works at its best, identifying where it can go wrong. The day will be based around this key aim, with delegates being given the opportunity to practice and experience each section.

Vocal Tone and Communication

There are a range of exercises which experiment with the effects of variations of tone. Each person will have the chance to identify their usual default style and also

consider how their tone affects the way that they may be perceived. From there we will practice ways to turn up and down different aspects of our natural communications style. In unpicking how to achieve the tone you choose, participants can see how they can do so consistently.

How Words Communicate

We have fun looking at ways to deliberately mangle our message and bury its meaning under waffle, padding and jargon. The premise being that if we know how to make our communications worse, we can also see how to make them clearer. From here, we may get to share one of our best communication skills exercises which offers everyone a failsafe way to deliver a clear key message.

Impact of Body Language on Communication

There are a variety of exercises to demonstrate the power and control the listener has, through body language and attitude. Making ourselves consciously aware of our options means that we can remain on a front foot when it comes to communicating effectively.

What does your History have to do with Communication Skills?

What makes us who we are inside and outside of work? What is our history or our form with particular sorts of people, particular subjects in particular scenarios?

How Head Stuff Affects Communication Skills

What makes us who we are inside and outside of work and how does that impact on the sense we make of others and they of us? When was the last time you got something wrong? When you were last misunderstood? Mis-communication seems to happen most when we base what we do on assumptions, perceptions and misconceptions rather than upon objective fact.

Communication by Eye Contact

One of our most vital communication skills is eye contact and its effect upon the communications dynamic. Back to assumptions again, but what do we make of those who avoid looking at us directly or else those who seem to hold our gaze too long?

What does the Environment Communicate?

Being aware that non-verbal factors may either help or hinder effective communication is vitally important. How far do those more subtle or not so subtle details swing things one way or the other? As well as the physical environment generally and the effect of rearranging the furniture or opening a window, we will consider those other things that can make a difference. How does a family photo, symbols of status or

the provision of simple or expensive refreshments affect a meeting, an interview or a difficult interaction? In reality there may be things about the environment that we can't necessarily change, like the choice of space, the colour of the walls or the temperature. Of equal importance is the effect of breaking natural physical boundaries, we can investigate how they too affect our communication skills far more than we might realise.

Geography and Communication

What is the effect of being on your territory or theirs? We will look at how the familiarity of a place and where we are geographically can dictate who dances to whose tune. Certainly culture, in its widest sense, influences how our behaviour and words are perceived. Being attentive to what is likely to cause a ripple means that we can be deliberate in our intentions. Its obvious, but successful communicators are sensitive to the culture and geography of a place and can predict the effect of their words and behaviour.

Working to your Communication Strengths

Everyone will give a brief description of what they already do that they know works about them. They will then have chance to reflect upon how others see them through the feedback of others.

Communication Skills Course Support

The final exercise of the Communication Skills Course is for each delegate to devise a personal Plan of Action, identifying their personal take-out of the programme, where they know they will practise and areas for their development.

Finally there are people identify what will stop them putting this into practise and what support they need to help themselves put the *communication skills course* work into practise.

Presentation Skills Training Objectives:

- How Nervous Energy can be Harnessed
- Making the Best Use of Existing Strengths
- Freeing up Body Language
- Myths and Rules about Presenting
- What you Are and Are Not Allowed To Do
- Developing an Individual Presentation Style
- How to Stimulate Easy Interaction with an Audience
- Preparing for a Non-Linear Presentation
- Ways of Getting Ideas Across
- Call to Action (Closing a Sale)
- How to be Entertaining and Stimulating
- How to Create Effective Support Materials

Effective Presentation Skills

What might the most common Presentation Skills issue be?

The fact that for most people, even experienced presenters, getting up and presenting in front of an audience can be a terrifying and even phobic experience.

Yes! The number one phobia that most people share is making a presentation; speaking in front of a group of other people: colleagues, strangers, it doesn't seem to matter-it's scary. You may have people who are new to the presentation 'game' and who need to understand just what happens to them when they have to stand and deliver and how they can become confident and effective presenters.

You may have people who have been around the presentation block and are in a rut, giving acceptable, but not brilliant presentations.

You may have people who have to present detailed and technical information without putting their audience to sleep. Presenting detailed information may be important but if the presenter's audience aren't engaged then they've made their job of putting across information even harder.

All of these people could benefit from confidence-building Presentation Skills programmes.

In addition, you may have individuals who have to:

- Give Key Note Speeches
- Make Presentations at Conference
- Pitch Crucial Clients Presentations
- Make Boardroom Presentations
- Pitch Ideas Internally
- Talk to the Public or Media
- Make Sales Presentations

Good Presentation Skills Training

Presentation Skills Training that concentrates on 'how to get it right' is available in all shapes and forms. However there is very little presentation skills training that really addresses the key issue of Working Your Audience.

Many presenters have no idea of what can be achieved. Most of us know the power of an audience. It is often the rather unnerving experience of being on the receiving end of twenty pairs of eyes looking at us in polite silence as if to say "Yes?... So?"

It is this energy that can be harnessed to make dynamic, lively, memorable and effective presentations. It takes a little courage, but the rewards are enormous.

Our 'Working Your Audience' Presentation Skills Programme gives delegates clear insight into how the dynamic of a presenter and their audience works, enabling them to make really effective presentations.

Tailored specifically to each group Working Your Audience is a Presentation Skills Training Course designed to develop delegates into powerful, persuasive presenters.

Tailored and in House Presentation Training

Tailored Advanced Presentation Training comes in many formats from one-to-one through to fully tailored company wide programmes.

Many of us are now required to make presentations as a part of our job. Indeed for some people it will limit their career prospects if they are seen to be reluctant to make them. For the lucky few it doesn't seem to be a problem: they seem to have always been able to do it and thrive on it. For the rest of us, however, *presentation skills* are something we learn. Given that it can be a daunting and even frightening area of learning for most of us, it would seem sensible to use an approach that seeks to make it easy and enjoyable rather than one that makes it even more difficult.

The difficult presentation skills path is the one where you learn to get it right first time, to be flawless in your delivery and to make no mistakes. This is "how to" learning. Learning what to do and what not to do.

The easier path is the one where you learn how presentation skills work and develop a style, which includes your idiosyncrasies and quirks (this way you don't have to learn to behave differently when you present). Let me give you an example of what I mean. Most presenters are concerned about their body language when presenting, and rightly so: what you do matters as much as what you say. So you have a choice. You can learn the rules for what you are not allowed to do and apply them. For instance, as a presenter you shouldn't cross your arms, put your hands in your pockets, touch your ear or nose (apparently this means you're lying), sway from side to side. The list is a long one and fortunately you don't need it. You can take the easy route.

THE SECOND LAW OF PRESENTATION SKILLS

Repetition is to be Avoided

When you understand how presenting works you discover that all these things only look wrong if they are repeated. A gesture used over and over again becomes at first irritating and then all consuming; your audience won't be able to pay attention to anything else.

The easy presentation skills route then, is to do all the things people will tell you are "wrong" one after the other. This has the magical effect of freeing up your body language and, very quickly, your hands will start working in concert with your words. Incidentally, the reason we feel so self-conscious when presenting is perfectly rational. You are stood in front of a group of people who are looking at you, judging you, trying to interpret and understand you. It is important that you are aware of what you are doing.

Your options, however, are not to start using different body language. No, your options are how much to use, or feature, your present body language. So, in place of all those 'don't do' rules, you can have just the second law-no repetition.

The Third Law of Presentation Skills

Feelings are a Poor Indicator of how you are Doing

An area of presentation skills that seems rarely to be addressed is how we feel about ourselves when we are presenting. This is the area of self-image and confidence. Here, there is also a hard route and an easy one. The hard route is to do everything yourself. To be your own critic and to monitor your own performance.

This means that you have to learn to be objective about yourself. For any type of performer this takes years of dedicated work. The problem is that we are always the worst person to give ourselves advice about how we are doing.

For instance. You're stood in front of a group of your peers talking through an idea you've had. You lose your train of thought, somebody interrupts with a question about an aspect you haven't thought through, you struggle to regain your composure, limp through to the end and sit down mortified (worst case scenario here). Now, how do you think you've done? Chances are you will base your assessment on how you feel and the little voices in your head (you know, the ones that tell you how stupid, useless, silly etc. you are).

However ask some of your colleagues how you did and they will say things like. "I'm always impressed by the way she brings new ideas to the team " or "She handled Charley well. He's always so negative about new ideas". People don't see everything that's going on inside us. They just see what they see. This means that the best information you need about how you are doing lives in other people. You remember that old saying "Perception is reality"? Well this is it in action.

The point of making a presentation is to communicate ideas and concepts to other people. If they clearly get your message it makes no difference that you feel you didn't express it clearly. It would be nice if you felt good, but that can be just as deceptive! You can be having a great time banging on about something with a group of people who don't care and aren't interested.

The good news in this is that you don't have to do any of the "how am I doing?" presentation skills work. They do it all for you. All you have to do is watch. If they are smiling, you must be saying amusing things. If they are not paying attention, you're obviously not being very stimulating. If they are arguing, you must be challenging them.

So exactly how does presenting work and what's the point of it all?

The Fourth Law of Presentation Skills

The Presentation Job is to get them to want more of what you've got

Presentation works if you impact your audience in some way. They can even be impacted in a way you don't want and didn't choose and the act of presentation is still

working. Not as you'd like, but it is still working. The point of a presentation is to get the audience to want what you've got.

This is important to grasp. The hard way to present is to gather all the information you have, put it together in a faultless presentation and deliver it impeccably. The mistake here is to think that a presentation is a good medium for delivering information. The easy way to present is to put together the bits that will appeal to the people you are speaking to and to use them to entice your audience into wanting to know more. Once you've got there you can stop. Your job is done. They will get the information for themselves.

The difference here is rather like getting someone to read a book. You don't do it by reading the book to them; you do it by reading the dust jacket blurb.

- The First Law of Presentation Skills
- Presentation Audiences Sleep!

While we're on the subject of audiences, there is only one thing you really need to know about audiences, audience interaction, handling questions or anything else involving them. They sleep!

That is their function. All presentation dynamics are set up to encourage this. They sit, you stand. You speak, they listen. Often the lighting and heating are soporific.

It follows then, that your bottom-line function is not to present well, but to keep waking them up! Every one of us has slept through some pretty good presentations because the presenter wasn't following the first law of presenting. If they are not awake, stop what you are doing and do something different. Most people are sent to sleep by a breaking of the second law. Repetition can also be not moving (repetition of stillness); it can be even vocal tone (monotony).

The Fifth Law of Presentation Skills

When you're Making a Presentation you're in Charge

Now we come to one of favourites. When you are presenting you are in charge. In charge of everything. This is the way that the agreement about presenting works. When people accept the role of audience they effectively say, "Ok, over to you. What have you got?" This means you are put in a very powerful position. It may not feel that way. The feeling we usually start out with is its just little old me and all of them. The journey we make from there is one of 'ownership'. It is effectively a claiming of territory that most audiences will willingly give up. When you begin to work from a position of being in charge or responsible for everything, you start to realise that you are responsible for what your audience thinks and feels for the duration of the presentation. If they are excited it's your fault. If they are bored, it's your fault. If they can't keep up, it's your fault.

At first glance this may seem more, rather than less difficult. But if you look again you can see that it brings with it liberation from the straitjacket of just doing what you've already prepared (the Blue Peter approach to presenting). If you can see that they haven't understood and it's your fault, then the obvious thing to do is to depart from the script until everyone's up to speed. This can bring a gloriously refreshing approach to the preparation of a presentation, where you begin to look at a grab bag of possible routes you may take and possible things you may bring into your presentation.

The Sixth Law of Presentation Skills

If it's a Presentation, there is Always a Message

It is seen we'd look at easy ways of approaching presentation skills, so here's an idea that is quite complex to grasp, but once grasped, frighteningly simple in its effectiveness. Everything we do communicates. The experts who study the way communication works will tell you that in your typical face to face presentation situation, the words you say are actually a very small part of the communication. How you say them will often convey more meaning than the words themselves.

For example, the phrase "It's very quiet today", takes on a different meaning if you say "It's VERY quiet today". It is possible to make the most innocent phrase vicious with hidden meaning by the way you say it. However these same experts will also tell you that it is possible that what you do and how you behave can carry more "message" than the combination of what you say and how you say it.

Another example is to take a look at politicians who are delivering the 'party line' or are put on the spot about something. How do you know that they are not telling you everything? It seems that if our spirit is not in line with what we are saying, our body will give us away, no matter what's coming out of our mouths.

There are two important factors at work here. The first is this: a strong message is conveyed by words, vocal force and demeanour. This means that a clearly defined message doesn't necessarily reside in the text or words you choose to say. Indeed, the most powerful messages are the unspoken ones. You can think of a strong message in sound bite terms. For instance "I want everyone to feel that I know what I'm talking about". I may never say outright "Listen, I know what I'm talking about", but if I make that the central message of my presentation, that is what most people will go away thinking. Incidentally, if we haven't chosen a clear message we don't stop communicating, we just give a message by accident. We communicate that we're tired, or we've had a row with the wife, or anything else that happens to be hanging around. So if you haven't got a message-get one. The second factor at work here is conviction, belief, or passion. You can think of it however you like, but it is that essential ingredient that makes what you say live. If you feel strongly about something, it will affect the way you speak about it. Passion communicates.

The Seventh Law of Presentation Skills

In any Presentation Passion is Mandatory

This is easier than it sounds. If you have to present something you have no real feeling for, then you need to find something you do have some feeling for and relate it to the subject you are presenting. The fit doesn't even have to be a very good one. You can start off by speaking about last night's football game because it excites you, and then make a deliberate segue into talking about widget production. The effect of the excitement in your body lasts for quite a while and will flow over into widget production. If it suits you, you could even make bad puns and poor analogies part of your style.

The reason it is said passion is mandatory is simple. You can get everything else perfect, but if it doesn't have as sense of your commitment behind it, it will be dead. If it's dead, we can ignore it. The final unwritten law of presentation skills is by now somewhat self-evident. Everything we have been talking about is to do with keeping presentation alive and powerful. Keeping it in the moment so that no one can sleep through it. Keeping it so that no one quite knows what's coming next. Making it something that people can't switch off to. Making it interactive as opposed to a repetition of a rehearsed and fixed programme.

SELF-EXPERIMENTATION

Self-experimentation refers to the very special case of single-subject scientific experimentation in which the experimenter conducts the experiment on her- or himself. Usually this means that the designer, operator, subject, analyst, and user or reporter of the experiment are all the same. It is a special case of single-subject research. Human scientific self-experimentation principally (though not necessarily) falls into the fields of medicine and psychology, broadly conceived. Self-experimentation has a long and well-documented history in medicine which continues to the present.

In psychology, the best known self-experiments are the memory studies of Hermann Ebbinghaus, establishing many basic characteristics of human memory through tedious experiments involving non-sense syllables. Recently, Dr. Seth Roberts and Dr. Allen Neuringer have advocated the broader use of self-experimentation, arguing that its low-cost and ease (compared to traditional large-sample experiments with human subjects) facilitate conducting a very large number of experiments, testing many treatments and measuring many things at once.

This allows considerable trial and error and can lead to the generation and testing of many ideas. Self-experimentation provides superior evidence to mere anecdotal evidence, because the entire experimental is explicitly designed to test a hypothesis, but is subject to observer bias. Self-experimentation could be considered a useful adjunct to large-sample experiments in scientific research.

PSYCHOLOGY

The self-experimental approach has long and often been applied to practical psychological problems. Benjamin Franklin recorded his self-experiment of successively devoting his attention for a week to one of thirteen “Virtues”, “leaving the other Virtues to their ordinary Chance, only marking every Evening the Faults of the Day.” In *Self-change: Strategies for solving personal problems*, M. J. Mahoney suggested that self-experimentation be used as a method of psychological treatment. He recommended that clients be taught basic scientific methods, in order that the client become a “personal scientist.” And with achieving an experiment, he/she may continue to do so with pride.

Until recently, it was common practice among synthetic chemists to taste newly prepared compounds. The purpose was to provide an additional characteristic for identification, taking advantage of the selective chemical receptors that form this sense. However, as one might guess, this practice also led to numerous fatalities and near-fatalities. Surprisingly, it was not recognition of the risk of this self-experimentation that led to its extinction, but rather the advent of instrumentation capable of exacting physical characterization of compounds (particularly spectrometers with infrared, ultraviolet, NMR and mass selectivity). The routine tasting of new compounds by chemists of bygone times is, in fact, the main source of knowledge of the human toxicity for certain chemicals.

This practice had positive and negative aspects. It probably contributed to the death of Carl Wilhelm Scheele from apparent mercury poisoning. Joseph Priestley discovered soda water while experimenting with carbon dioxide and tasting the results. Dr. Albert Hofmann discovered the psychedelic properties of LSD by accidentally absorbing it—and later intentionally ingesting it—in a self-experiment. In 1998 a British scientist, Kevin Warwick, became the first human to test an RFID as an implant to control surrounding technology. In 2002 he went on to have an array of 100 electrodes fired into the median nerve of his left arm during a 2-hour neurosurgical operation. With this implant in place, over a 3-month period, he conducted a number of experiments including the first direct electronic communication between the nervous systems of two humans.

Self-experimentation is a common trait amongst mad scientists and evil geniuses, and is part of the creation story of many comic book supervillains, and some superheroes. For example, the Spider-Man villain, The Lizard, was Dr. Curt Connors, who lost his arm in a war (other versions vary), and experimented with reptilian DNA to try and grow it back; but the therapy caused him to mutate into a half-human-half-reptile creature.

On the hero side, the Fantastic Four were created when they were testing Reed Richards new prototype rocket and were exposed to cosmic rays, giving them super powers. Other cases include the Man-Bat, the Ultra-Humanite, the Green Goblin, and the animated Justice League version of Cheetah. Examples in older fiction include the tales of The Invisible Man and Dr. Jekyll and Mr. Hyde. In each case the scientist's unorthodox theories lead to permanent change and ultimately to self-destruction.

Meaningful Self-development

Every employee in a modern organisation aspires for a reasonable standard of security for himself and his family, while simultaneously working towards meaningful self-development professionally. Obviously, the key to the success of this natural desire lies in the opportunities made available to him to maximise his potential and develop new skills. Many managements simply do not have the time to ponder over such issues, particularly because most of it is spent fire-fighting for survival and growth.

Self-development is an issue that cannot be neglected. Right from acquiring basic computer skills to handling complex customer complaints, most employees who have grown through the ranks need re-training. This task calls for a one-on-one communication with employees to drive home the need for change. For instance, trade unions have to be treated as business partners. Every supervisor has to change the manner in which he communicates with his employees.

Quality, delivery, morale, safety and productivity are vital issues for implementing ambitious quality systems, such as Total Quality Management (TQM). It is imperative that the management tries to match the natural talents of employees with tasks that demand specific skills. For example, it is wise to appoint supervisors who have a talent for teaching to conduct the awareness sessions on TQM. Of course, they could take advice from experts in the Quality Control and Quality Assurance departments.

Those with a statistics background could be trained in problem-solving, and those with an eye for detail, could be used in projects that involve innovation in processes or even new product development. Hence, the key to successful self-development is to identify the new and important tasks, and apply the talents of employees to implement them. It is inevitable that there will be employee turnover when self-development acquires some meaning; for, the smartest will use the acquired knowledge to cross over to greener pastures. However, this is a risk worth taking, in both the short and the long term.

Self-development has to move away from the hit and miss methods and follow a systematic procedure that there is an alignment of individual and organisational goals. In other words, what is needed is a paradigm shift. HR departments and professionals have a big role to play here, and make self-development more meaningful.

SELF-CONFIDENCE BUILDING

DEVELOP THE SELF-CONFIDENCE

From the quietly confident doctor whose advice we rely on, to the star-quality confidence of an inspiring speaker, self-confident people have qualities that everyone admires. Self-confidence is extremely important in almost every aspect of our lives, yet so many people struggle to find it. Sadly, this can be a vicious circle: People who lack self-confidence can find it difficult to become successful. After all, most people are

reluctant to back a project that's being pitched by someone who was nervous, fumbling and overly apologetic. On the other hand, you might be persuaded by someone who spoke clearly, who held his or her head high, who answered questions assuredly, and who readily admitted when he/she did not know something.

Self-confident people inspire confidence in others: Their audience, their peers, their bosses, their customers, and their friends. Gaining the confidence of others is one of the key ways in which a self-confident person finds success. The good news is that self-confidence really can be learned and built on. And, whether you're working on your own self-confidence or building the confidence of people around you, it's well-worth the effort! All other things being equal, self-confidence is often the single ingredient that distinguishes a successful person from someone less successful.

Your level of self-confidence can show in many ways: Your behaviour, your body language, how you speak, what you say, and so on. Look at the following comparisons of common confident behaviour with behaviour associated with low self-confidence. Which thoughts or actions do you recognize in yourself and people around you?

Self-Confident	Low Self-Confidence
Doing what you believe to be right, even if others mock or criticize you for it.	Governing your behaviour based on what other people think.
Being willing to take risks and go the extra mile to achieve better things.	Staying in your comfort zone, fearing failure and so avoid taking risks.
Admitting your mistakes and vowing to learn from them.	Working hard to cover up mistakes and praying that you can fix the problem before anyone is the wiser.
Waiting for others to congratulate you on your accomplishments.	Extolling your own virtues as often as possible to as many people as possible.
Accepting compliments graciously. "Thanks, I really worked hard on that prospectus. I'm pleased you recognize my efforts."	Dismissing compliments offhandedly. "Oh that prospectus was nothing really, anyone could have done it."

As you can see from these examples, low self-confidence can be self-destructive, and it often manifests itself as negativity. Self-confident people are generally more positive – they believe in themselves and their abilities, and they also believe in the wonders of living life to the full.

BALANCED SELF-CONFIDENCE

Self-confidence is about balance. At one extreme, we have people with low self-confidence. At the other end, we have people who may be over-confident. If you are under-confident, you'll avoid taking risks and stretching yourself; and you might not try at all. And if you're over-confident, you may take on too much risk, stretch yourself beyond your capabilities, and crash badly.

You may also find that you're so optimistic that you don't try hard enough to truly succeed. Getting this right is a matter of having the right amount of confidence, founded

in reality and on your true ability. With the right amount of self-confidence, you will take informed risks, stretch yourself (but not beyond your abilities) and try hard.

So how do you build this sense of balanced self-confidence, founded on a firm appreciation of reality? The bad news is that there's no quick fix, or 5-minute solution.

The good news is that building self-confidence is readily achievable, just as long as you have the focus and determination to carry things through. And what's even better is that the things you'll do will build success – after all, your confidence will come from real, solid achievement. No-one can take this away from you! So here are our three steps to self-confidence, for which we'll use the metaphor of a journey: Preparing for your journey; setting out; and accelerating towards success.

STEP 1: PREPARING FOR YOUR JOURNEY

The first step involves getting yourself ready for your journey to self-confidence. You need to take stock of where you are, think about where you want to go, get yourself in the right mindset for your journey, and commit yourself to starting it and staying with it. In preparing for your journey, do the following things:

Look at what you've already achieved

Think about your life so far, and list the ten best things you've achieved in an "Achievement Log." Perhaps you came top in an important test or exam, played a key role in an important team, produced the best sales figures in a period, did something that made a key difference in someone else's life, or delivered a project that meant a lot for your business. Put these into a smartly formatted document, which you can look at often. And then spend a few minutes each week enjoying the success you've already had!

Think about your Strengths

Next, use a technique like SWOT Analysis to take a look at who and where you are. Looking at your Achievement Log, and reflecting on your recent life, think about what your friends would consider to be your strengths and weaknesses. From these, think about the opportunities and threats you face. Make sure that you enjoy a few minutes reflecting on your strengths!

Think about what's Important to you, and where you Want to Go

Next, think about the things that are really important to you, and what you want to achieve with your life. Setting and achieving goals is a key part of this, and real self-confidence comes from this. Goal setting is the process you use to set yourself targets, and measure your successful hitting of those targets. See our article on goal setting to find out how to use this important technique, or use our Life Plan Workbook to think through your goals in detail.

Inform your goal setting with your SWOT Analysis. Set goals that exploit your strengths, minimize your weaknesses, realize your opportunities, and control the threats you face. And having set the major goals in your life, identify the first step in each. A tip: Make sure it's a very small step, perhaps taking no more than an hour to complete!

Start Managing Your Mind

At this stage, you need to start managing your mind. Learn to pick up and defeat the negative self-talk which can destroy your confidence. See our article on rational positive thinking to find out how to do this. And learn how to use imagery to create strong mental images of what you'll feel and experience as you achieve your major goals – there's something about doing this that makes even major goals seem achievable!

And then Commit Yourself to Success

The final part of preparing for the journey is to make a clear and unequivocal promise to yourself that you are absolutely committed to your journey, and that you will do all in your power to achieve it. If as you're doing it, you find doubts starting to surface, write them down and challenge them calmly and rationally. If they dissolve under scrutiny, that's great. However if they are based on genuine risks, make sure you set additional goals to manage these appropriately. Either way, make that promise!

STEP 2: SETTING OUT

This is where you start, ever so slowly, moving towards your goal. By doing the right things, and starting with small, easy wins, you'll put yourself on the path to success – and build the self-confidence that comes with this.

Build the Knowledge You Need to Succeed

Looking at your goals, identify the skills you'll need to achieve them. And then look at how you can acquire these skills confidently and well. Don't just accept a sketchy, just-good-enough solution – look for a solution, a programme or a course that fully equips you to achieve what you want to achieve, and ideally gives you a certificate you can be proud of.

Focus on the Basics

When you're starting, don't try to do anything clever or elaborate. And don't reach for perfection – just enjoy doing simple things successfully and well.

Set Small Goals, and Achieve them

Starting with the very small goals you identified in step 1, get in the habit of setting them, achieving them, and celebrating that achievement. Don't make goals particularly challenging at this stage, just get into the habit of achieving them and celebrating them. And little by little, start piling up the successes!

Keep Managing Your Mind

Stay on top of that positive thinking, keep celebrating and enjoying success, and keep those mental images strong. You can also use a technique like Treasure Mapping to make the visualization even stronger! And on the other side, learn to handle failure. Accept that mistakes happen when you're trying something new. In fact, if you get into the habit of treating mistakes as learning experiences, you can (almost) start to see them in a positive light. After all, there's a lot to be said for the saying "if it doesn't kill you, it makes you stronger!"

STEP 3: ACCELERATING TOWARDS SUCCESS

By this stage, you'll feel your self-confidence building. You'll have completed some of the courses you started in step 2, and you'll have plenty of success to celebrate! Now's the time to start stretching yourself. Make the goals a bit bigger, and the challenges a bit tougher. Increase the size of your commitment. And extend the skills you've proven into new, but closely related arenas.

The following resources and services can help you increase your self-confidence more effectively:

- **Design Your Life:** Mind Tools life design and goal setting system.
- **Make Time for Success:** This Mind Tools course contains more than 140 pages of tips, techniques and skills that can help you work better and get the most that life has to offer, increasing your self-confidence every step of the way.
- **Mind Tools Career Coaches:** Our coaches specialize in helping you think about what you want to achieve, set clear and appropriate goals, and then help you make success and the achievement of these goals, a habit.

SKILLS, SCREENING, AND HIRING DECISIONS

Hiring is a highly uncertain activity, and frequent turnover and retraining are costly. According to sociological literature on skills and hiring, this in part explains why employers value specific skills learned through job experience, such as technological skills, more highly than a candidate's broader educational experience. Screening theory provides a framework for examining employer assessment of candidates' credentials. In contrast to human capital theory, in which education is viewed as increasing individuals' productive capacity, in screening theory educational credentials are viewed as a tool for employers. As a tool, however, they are inexact. These credentials are merely a proxy for reducing uncertainty in the early stages of the hiring process. Employers do not focus on specific educational credentials but instead roughly correlate notions of job competencies with a general assessment of educational attainment. In addition, employers view educational attainment as much less important when evidence

of productive capacity through on—the-job experience is available. Often educational attainment is used only in the initial sorting of the candidate pool, while specific job experiences, if available, are used both in the initial sorting and as criteria in the final hiring. Employers for professional and technical jobs tend to focus on technical skills more than behaviour or trainability. Previous job performance and technical expertise have been found to be more important than educational record or personality traits in hiring decisions.

However, a number of studies suggest personality fit plays a role as well, especially in the final hiring stages. In these final stages, employers tend to rely heavily on a less formal, but more specific, assessment of “fit” between a candidate, the hiring criteria, and organizational culture. Employers look among the final pool of candidates for highly specific elements of skill, experience, and personality fit called “hot buttons.” A hot-button match may be more a result of good fortune than of successful preparation by the candidate.

Previous research findings on hiring for mass communication jobs are largely consistent with the findings of the broader sociological literature. Studies show that job candidates who have tangible experience in the media fields they are pursuing have more success finding work in these fields. Success in the classroom alone—as measured, for example, by grade point average—does not strongly predict job-finding success.

Internships and college media activities provide graduates with practical media work experience, and graduates with these experiences are better positioned in the job market. Other research has shown that media employers value results of practical skill-based tests by prospective employees more highly than they do classroom achievement. Studies also show that graduates who specialize in the media fields in which they seek work have more success finding jobs than those with a more general background or than those who specialize in something other than the field in which they seek work.

Research Questions and Hypotheses

The literature suggests the media are becoming more visually sophisticated and more technologically complex, and that managers may value technological know-how in a job candidate more than professional knowledge about media content. This makes sense from an organizational standpoint. In order to function at all, media organizations must first reduce uncertainty by ensuring that they control the technology necessary to produce and disseminate content.

The urgency of this first step heightens in an atmosphere of technological ambiguity. Ensuring quality of content is an important step, but it is not as crucial as the first. The news media, for example, whether print, Web, or TV, do not require staff-created content to function. They may fill all of their pages, Web space, or airtime with syndicated content. In addition, knowledge of presentation technologies is a specialized knowledge; both the sociological and mass communication literature on hiring indicate that job

candidates who have job-specific skills and knowledge are most likely to find work. Therefore it is proposed here that skill with presentation technology should significantly impact degree of job-entry success by those seeking media positions.

This study focuses on the potential benefit of learning such skills in school prior to entering the job market. While screening theory suggests employers only rely on educational attainment (*e.g.*, GPA and type of degree) for sorting the initial pool when evidence of job-specific experience is unavailable, schools do play a role in training candidates for highly specialized skills. Students' experiences beyond the classroom, such as internships and involvement with campus media activities, provide more exposure to job-specific skills. By its very nature, technological skill is highly job-specific, thus rendering the issue of where the skill was learned less important.

For example, computer programmes comprise specialized rules by which work is accomplished, thus making it unnecessary for media organizations to teach these procedures and routines if they have been learned in school. In contrast, the procedures for tasks like writing headlines or conceptualizing the design of information graphics, while also embodying routines, are less constrained by rules and involve more uncertainty. These more malleable, content— oriented tasks allow, or even require, more specific shaping by the hiring organization.

Technological skills, therefore, are more likely to meet the specific “hot-button” needs of employers, especially when technology in the school and in the work place are identical or similar. Experiences tailored to specialized “hot-button” needs of the industry are most valuable to employers, whether learned during school internships or on the job.

Transferred to the individual level of the employee, these arguments suggest that graduates with specific skills will have more success in the job market than those without those specific skills. Consequently these specific skills will explain variance in job-seeking success once other less general skill sets are controlled for.

This argument can be restated as the following two hypotheses:

1. *H1a*: The greater the degree of skill with presentation technologies possessed by graduates, the greater the degree of success the graduates will have in the job market.
2. *H1b*: The greater the degree of skill in presentation technologies possessed by graduates, the greater the degree of job-finding success graduates will have, even after controlling for traditional school-related predictors of job-finding success.

This study also addresses several other research questions, which are of a mostly descriptive nature. These include: Are those graduates who have knowledge of particular presentation technologies upon graduation likely to use these technologies in their work after school? And, in which media jobs are these particular technologies likely to be used?

Method

Data used in addressing these questions come from the 1999 Annual Survey of Journalism and Mass Communication Graduates, which tracks the experiences of a sample of graduates of journalism and mass communication programmes once they leave their universities. The surveys are conducted at the Henry W. Grady College of Journalism and Mass Communication at the University of Georgia. Each year a sample of schools is drawn from those listed in the Journalism and Mass Communication Directory, published annually by the Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication, and The Journalists' Road to Success, published annually by the Dow Jones Newspaper Fund, Inc. Selection of schools is probabilistic, so that those chosen represent the population of schools listed in the two directories. In 1999, 102 schools were drawn from the 456 unique entries of four-year programmes in the United States in the two directories.

A questionnaire was mailed to the 6,613 spring graduates receiving either a bachelor's degree or a master's degree from the selected programmes. Two follow-up questionnaires were mailed to graduates as necessary. Included in the instrument were questions about university experiences, job seeking and employment, salaries and benefits, and experiences with media technology. A total of 2,826 usable questionnaires were returned, producing a return rate of 47.4%. Return rate, when computed as the number returned divided by the number mailed minus the bad addresses, was 50.8%. Data used in the present study only include results gathered from full-time employed bachelor's degree recipients. Bachelor's degree recipients are the majority of graduates of journalism and mass communication programmes each year.

The independent variable, "skill in presentation technologies," was operationalized via self-reported level of proficiency by survey respondents with five different types of presentation software: pagination, graphic illustration, photo imaging, Web-site building, and non-linear editing. Degree of job-finding success, the dependent variable, was operationalized as the number of job offers graduates report receiving upon graduation. The traditional school-related predictors used here as controls were grade point average, sequence specialization, involvement with campus media activities, and involvement with media internships.

Specialization in media presentation was not common for graduates of the schools of journalism and mass communication. In 1999, just slightly more than 1% of bachelor's degree recipients reported selecting graphic design as a major, and roughly the same per cent reported photojournalism as a major. These figures have changed little over the last ten years.

Not only did few graduates report graphic design as a curricula specialization, few reported being proficient with presentation technology at the time of graduation. Data also showed that a relatively low percentage of bachelor's degree recipients reported using presentation technology in their current full-time jobs. For four of the five software

types measured in the graduate survey, one in five or fewer graduates reported being proficient. The percentages of those actually using these software in their current jobs were similarly low. The notable exception was page-design software. About half of the graduates reported being proficient with page-design software while more than 80% reported being at least somewhat proficient. Nearly 60% reported using this software for their jobs. It seems that the technological skill of assembling elements for print layout on computers is widely diffused in the work place.

For most software types, close to half of the fulltime employed graduates who reported proficiency with a software upon graduation ended up using this software on their jobs. Again the exception is page-design software for which more than three-quarters reported use on the job. The chart reveals a substantial difference in actual use of software by all graduates and use of software by only those who said they were proficient upon graduation. This chart gives the first hint that the acquisition of expert technological skills in school may predict future use of these technologies in the workplace.

8

CHAPTER

Personality Psychology and Attitudes

MEANING OF PERSONALITY

Over the past 20 years, there is perhaps no area of psychology that has more deeply and broadly influenced organisational behaviour – defined as the field of enquiry concerned with attitudes, decision-making, interpersonal processes, and individual and group behaviour in work settings – than personality psychology. Personality traits and other individual differences, of course, have a long history in organisational behaviour. However, prior to 20 years ago, the inclusion of personality traits in organisational research was sufficiently scattershot that little cumulative knowledge was generated. In 1989, an influential article deemed personality effects in organisational behaviour to be more illusory than real, concluding that ‘dispositions are likely to have only limited effects on attitudes and behaviour inside organisations’.

For a time, this and other cautionary notes were influential. But like a war in which losses in one battle are washed away by gains on other fronts, such criticisms quickly became overwhelmed by evidence. Three pieces of evidence were especially influential. First, the growth of meta-analysis allowed for accumulation of results across studies. This development was particularly important in the area of personality, given the myriad traits that had been considered over decades of scientific research. Second, and related, the widespread acceptance of the five-factor model of personality provided a framework to organise the diverse set of traits. Indeed, as we will note, while the gains from the five-factor model have been considerable, its acceptance in organisational behaviour is

so widespread that it threatens to 'white out' other potentially relevant traits. Third, there was an accumulating body of evidence in personality psychology that supported the enduring nature of personality traits, their genetic origins and their neuropsychological basis.

From the vantage point of today, that personality has shown itself relevant to individual attitudes and behaviour as well as team and organisational functioning seems an incontrovertible statement. Barrick and Mount flatly state: 'Personality traits do matter at work', and indeed, the data appear to support their conclusion. Though, as we will note, the acceptance of personality traits as important predictors of employment outcomes is far from universal, there is scarcely an area of organisational behaviour that has not been affected by personality research, sometimes profoundly so.

We briefly review the work criteria for which personality variables have demonstrated important effects. We first review the evidence regarding personality effects on 10 core organisational behaviour criteria.

After reviewing what is known about the relationship of personality to these 10 criteria, we then review two common criticisms of personality research in organisational behaviour: validities are meagre and scores on personality inventories are rendered useless by faking. We conclude with a brief agenda for future research.

EVIDENCE OF THE RELATIONSHIP BETWEEN PERSONALITY TRAITS AND ORGANISATIONAL BEHAVIOUR

Job Performance

Perhaps the most intensive application of personality research in organisational settings, and arguably the most controversial, has been in relation to job performance. One reason for this interest – and controversy – concerns the role of personality testing in hiring decisions. The relationship of personality traits to job performance has generated hundreds of articles and over three dozen separate meta-analyses since Barrick and Mount's influential investigation. In terms of the Big Five, Barrick, Mount, and Judge pooled validity estimates from 15 prior meta-analyses and determined that one trait, conscientiousness, significantly predicts job performance across different performance criteria and organisational settings. Emotional stability also predicts overall job performance, albeit generally more weakly than conscientiousness, and generalises across different occupations.

The final three Big Five traits though not predictive of all job performance criteria in all occupational settings, do demonstrate significant validity coefficients in certain conditions. For instance, both extraversion and agreeableness predict teamwork performance and openness, which entails intellectual curiosity, predicts training performance.

Aside from the Big Five, another broad personality trait has been shown to predict job performance. Core self-evaluations is a higher-order factor representing the fundamental evaluations people make about themselves. CSE is conceptualised as a broad, latent trait indicated by at least four specific traits, though a direct measure of CSE has been developed. Judge et al. found evidence that the higher order core self-evaluations trait is comparable in predictive validity to conscientiousness and captures incremental variance in job performance over and above the Big Five.

Work Motivation

Though different areas of psychology define and treat the concept of motivation in vastly different ways, for our purposes, we define work motivation as the direction (choice), intensity (effort), and duration (persistence) of work behaviour. Before the advent of the five-factor model, a plethora of traits had been related to work motivation with relatively disappointing results. Locke, Shaw, Saari, and Latham noted that ‘the only consistent thing about studies of individual differences in goal setting is their inconsistency’. However, when Judge and Ilies organised the personality– work motivation research using the five-factor model, and meta-analysed the relationship between the Big Five traits and various measures of motivation, they found that neuroticism and conscientiousness, respectively, displayed strong negative and positive correlations with work motivation across the three aforementioned measures.

Job Attitudes

Perhaps the two most commonly studied job attitudes are job satisfaction and organisational commitment. In a meta-analytic review, Judge, Heller, and Mount found that extraversion, conscientiousness, and neuroticism were significant predictors of job satisfaction. Another meta-analysis linked both positive and negative trait affect to job satisfaction. A final meta-analysis suggested that traits indicating core self-evaluations were significantly related to job satisfaction. A comparative test of these three frameworks suggested that core self-evaluations may be most important to job satisfaction.

Compared with job satisfaction, there is a paucity of research investigating the link between personality and organisational commitment. Erdheim, Wang, and Zickar found that extraversion was significantly related to various aspects of commitment including affective commitment, continuance commitment and normative commitment. Neuroticism, conscientiousness, and openness were related to continuance commitment, while agreeableness was related to normative commitment. Considering the strong correlations between organisational commitment and job satisfaction, there is reason to believe that the relationships between personality and organisational commitment may be comparable to those found for job satisfaction.

Leadership

The Victorian era historian Thomas Carlyle commented ‘the history of the world is but the biography of great men’. This ‘great man’ hypothesis – that history is shaped by the forces of extraordinary leadership – gave rise to the trait theory of leadership. Like the great man theory, trait theory assumed that leadership depended on the personal qualities of the leader. However, it did not necessarily assume that leadership resided solely within the grasp of a few heroic men. Cowley summarised the view of trait theorists in commenting that ‘the approach to the study of leadership has usually been and perhaps must always be through the study of traits’.

Despite this venerable tradition, several qualitative reviews of the leadership literature concluded that the trait approach had fallen out of favour. For instance, Zaccaro, Foti, and Kenny noted, ‘trait explanations of leader emergence are generally regarded with little esteem by leadership theorists’. As in other areas, the application of meta-analysis coupled with the organisation of traits into the five-factor model lead to considerably more optimism. Judge, Bono, Ilies, and Gerhardt found that four of the Big Five traits, extraversion, conscientiousness, openness, and emotional stability had non-zero correlations with the leadership criteria. In addition, when individuals’ perceptions of leader emergence and effectiveness were combined to create an overall ‘leadership’ factor, the Big Five framework, as a set, explained a considerable amount of variance in leadership indicating strong support for the leader trait perspective.

Power, Politics, and Influence

Relative to other organisational criteria, there is considerably less research exploring the relationships between personality and power, politics, and influence in organisations. Although the empirical landscape for these domains remains somewhat barren, research is turning desolate tract into fertile ground.

First, researchers have examined factors contributing to how often and how flexibly individuals use influence tactics. For instance, need for power is positively related to how often one employs influence tactics, whereas Machiavellianism is positively linked to the flexible use of influence tactics. In addition, extraversion, desire for control, and self-monitoring are positively related to both of these criteria. Second, scholars have examined dispositional correlates of political skill. Findings point to conscientiousness, proactive personality and extraversion as significant predictors.

Third, researchers have examined how different personality traits correspond to the use of specific influence tactics. For instance, Cable and Judge found that extraverted individuals were more likely to use inspirational appeal and ingratiation tactics whereas conscientious individuals were more likely to rely on rational appeals to influence their supervisors. Finally, of interest is who becomes powerful. Within social groups, evidence suggests that extraverts enjoy higher social status, whereas neurotic individuals are typically afforded positions of lower status.

Stress, Coping, and Adaptability

As noted by Lee-Baggeley, Preece, and DeLongis, personality influences every component of the stress and coping process, from stress proneness and cognitive appraisal of stressors to coping and health. Findings suggest that neurotic individuals perceive greater amounts of stress regardless of actual workload, feel more threatened by stressful events and use maladaptive coping strategies in stressful situations while extraverts tend to exhibit opposite patterns. Additionally, some evidence suggests that dispositional factors moderate the relationships between appraisals of stressors and the coping strategies one employs.

Currently, researchers have begun to focus on understanding how Big Five personality traits interact with one another to influence stress, coping, and adaptability. Recent research endeavors also explore how more broad personality traits, such as core self-evaluations, impact stress, and coping.

Team Effectiveness

Aside from predicting individual-level job performance, personality traits have also contributed to the prediction of team-level criteria. In a comprehensive meta-analysis of the personality-team effectiveness literature, Bell found each of the Big Five traits to significantly predict team effectiveness. However, several important factors have been shown to moderate these relationships. First, what is the best way to operationalise personality at the team level? In terms of conscientiousness, Bell found that the strongest effects occurred when traits were operationalised as the mean of team members' scores. Agreeableness, on the other hand, was most strongly related to team performance when operationalised as the lowest score of any team member, suggesting that even one disagreeable member can disadvantage the team.

Furthermore, in terms of openness, homogenous groups, whether high or low in openness, tended to outperform heterogeneous groups. Second, what is the best technique for measuring team-level personality? While the most common approach has been to aggregate individual-level responses to individual-level personality scales, researchers have shown that allowing teams to work together to reach consensus on their personality ratings and shifting the personality referent from the individual – to the team-level may increase personality-team effectiveness relationships. Finally, situational factors such as task interdependence and reward interdependence have been shown to moderate these relationships.

Deviance and Counterproductive Behaviour

Counterproductive work behaviours are defined as discretionary behaviours that violate organisational norms and threaten the well-being of an organisation, its members, or both. Some researchers have examined personality in relation to discrete CWBs; others have collapsed more discrete behaviours into broader categories; and still others

have measured CWB as a unidimensional construct. At the broadest level, findings suggest that conscientiousness, agreeableness, and emotional stability are each negatively related to CWB. When the target of the CWB is accounted for, agreeableness more strongly relates to interpersonal deviance, whereas conscientiousness more strongly relates to deviance directed towards the organisation. In considering traits in addition to the Big Five, Roberts, Harms, Caspi, and Moffitt found that whereas constraint negatively predicted CWBs even when the personality traits were assessed prior to the participants entering the workforce and the CWBs were assessed 8 years later.

Workplace Accidents

Accidents are an important criterion in organisational behaviour, given their deleterious effects on individuals' health and safety, and on organisational health care and workers' compensation claim costs. Accident-proneness – assuming that there are individual differences in the propensity to experience accidents – has long been a feature of the occupational health literature. Lardent, for example, found that fighter pilots had or had not experienced a crash could be correctly classified in 70 per cent of the cases based on their scores on Cattell's 16 PF.

Only recently, however, has the link between personality and accidents taken shape. Clarke and Robertson performed a meta-analysis of the relationship between the Big Five traits and workplace accidents. They found that, except for openness, the Big Five traits were strongly associated with accidents, in particular those with high levels of openness and neuroticism, and those with low levels of agreeableness and conscientiousness. They also found, however, that with the exception of agreeableness, the variability in the correlations was quite high.

Conflict and Negotiation

Are certain people dispositionally better than others at getting what they want? Historically, most negotiation research suggested that the answer to this question was clearly 'No'. However, as has been the case in many other criteria domains, recent findings have begun to challenge this assertion.

Because negotiation and conflict are social interactions, the two most socially oriented Big Five traits – extraversion and agreeableness – are often hypothesised to be related to conflict and negotiation processes. Findings tend to support this supposition. For example, extraversion and agreeableness are liabilities in distributive bargaining, due to the tendency of extraverted and agreeable individuals to be disadvantageously forthcoming with information.

Agreeable individuals are also likely to be more distressed by interpersonal conflict, but are less likely to engage in conflict in the first place. When conflict does occur, agreeable individuals, along with extraverts, are more likely to employ an integrative, or problem-solving, strategy.

CRITICISMS OF PERSONALITY ASSESSMENT IN ORGANISATIONAL SETTINGS

The foregoing review shows that much has been learned about the dispositional basis of organisational behaviour. Though there is general acceptance that personality predicts most broad organisational attitudes and behaviours, not all scholars are convinced of the usefulness of personality measures in organisational research.

Two of the most frequently advanced criticisms are:

- That the validities are sufficiently weak as to question the usefulness of personality measures in predicting organisational criteria, particularly job performance; and
- That because items on self-report personality measures are socially desirable, faking undermines the usefulness of personality measures. We evaluate each of these criticisms in turn.

Meagre Validities

The meta-analytic accumulation of evidence concerning relationships between personality and organisational criteria has led some researchers to assert ‘personality plays a meaningful role in nearly all facets of work...’ and ‘the controversy over whether personality tests can be useful for the prediction of employee performance is no longer pertinent’. However, critics of the literature suggest that many statistically significant relationships are too low to be of much practical significance, especially in the domain of personnel selection. For instance, critics are usually quick to point out that the average validity of the Big Five in predicting job performance or the validity of the single best predictor, conscientiousness is much lower than the validity of the ‘goldstandard’ individual difference predictor – intelligence or general mental ability.

However, to dismiss personality research on such grounds of low validity evidence is specious for several reasons. First, there is no theoretical reason to suggest that all personality traits should predict all performance criteria across all occupations. Thus, merely averaging Big Five validity estimates is a rather mindless enterprise, producing misleading results. A more appropriate means of assessing the validity of personality would be to compute the multiple correlation between the Big Five, as a set, and performance. When this is done, most studies indicate that the multiple correlation between the set of Big Five traits and broad criteria is between $R = 0.40$ and $R = 0.50$ – hardly a trivial result. In addition, when meta-analyses are restricted to include only hypothesised relationships between traits and performance criteria personality validities increase substantially.

Personality Inventories can be ‘Faked’

If applicants for jobs in organisations are selected based on their scores on personality tests, there is an incentive for applicants to enhance or ‘fake’ their scores.

Judging from ongoing debates answers to four questions are required to evaluate this potential problem:

- Can personality inventories be faked?
- Does faking occur?
- What impact does faking have on validity? and
- How can faking be alleviated?

To assess whether personality inventories can be faked, researchers generally ask groups of participants to complete personality inventories under two conditions: to respond ‘honestly’ and to ‘fake-good’. If the observed scores for desirable traits in the ‘fake-good’ condition are higher than in the ‘honesty’ condition, then one can conclude that participants have the *ability* to fake on personality tests. A meta-analysis of 51 such studies supports the notion that individuals can, if prompted, distort their ‘honest’ responses in favourable manners.

However, showing that individuals *can* fake does not mean that individuals *do* fake in organisational settings. To test the degree of faking in actual selection contexts, researchers generally compare groups of participants with a motivation to fake with participants lacking such motivation. Here, results are less consistent. Several studies report significant changes in the predictive validity of personality tests between job applicants and job incumbents whereas other studies fail to find such effects. Thus, though it seems clear that faking can occur, whether most applicants do fake and whether faking impacts the validity of personality testing is less clear.

Methods for ‘fixing’ faking generally fall under two categories – proactive and reactive. Proactive measures involve incorporating procedures designed to decrease respondents’ ability or desire to fake. For instance, forced-choice personality inventories instruct respondents to select between multiple options that are equal in terms of social desirability but unequal in terms of predictive validity. Conditional reasoning measures assess respondents’ underlying logical processes used to make decisions under the assumption that different logical processes are indicative of different personality traits. Because these measures do not assess personality directly, it is very difficult for respondents to intentionally distort their personality profiles. To decrease respondents’ desire to fake, researchers have suggested warning respondents not to fake or requiring respondents to elaborate on their responses.

As an alternative to preventing faking, several reactive methods exist to identify and rectify problems associated with faking after it has occurred. For instance, social desirability and lie scales may be included within the personality inventory. Respondents who endorse items on these scales are assumed to be faking on focal personality items, and their scores may either be adjusted or eliminated from the response set. Alternatively, researchers have suggested exploring item response latencies in order to identify fakers under the assumption that the longer it takes to answer an item, the more likely the respondent is answering untruthfully. In all, none of the proactive or reactive methods

are without limitations and each has had only limited empirical success. Thus, future research is required to explore conditions in which faking is an issue and, subsequently, techniques for mitigating the issue.

Our focus, thus far, has been on reducing faking of self-reported personality. It must be noted that when possible, researchers may lessen the effects of faking by drawing on alternatives to self-report measures of personality.

For instance, observer ratings of personality, either by significant others, coworkers and supervisors, or trained psychologists have been shown to predict performance over and above self-report measures, especially when assessments are aggregated across multiple observers. However, an interesting paradox of observer ratings of personality is that although increased familiarity between the focal individual and the observer increases the ability of the observer to accurately rate the focal individual, familiarity also increases the motivation of the observer to provide biased personality estimates.

FUTURE RESEARCH

Though laying out a full research agenda is beyond the scope of this review, we highlight four areas involving personality and organisational behaviour that we believe are most in need of researchers' further attention.

Broad and Narrow Traits

We can often be victims of our own success. Organisational behaviour researchers' focus on the broad Big Five traits clearly has paid dividends. One wonders, however, whether this focus will reach a dead-end where there is little new to be learned, and, related, whether the extant validities might be augmented by a focus on other traits. For example, narcissism, impulsivity, and trait hostility are specific traits and each has been the subject of hundreds of studies in psychology. However, their study by organisational behaviour researchers is virtually non-existent.

One of the problems, unless we regress back to the 'pet' stage of personality psychology is to agree on which specific traits should be studied. One potentially useful investigation was recently completed by DeYoung, Quilty, and Peterson. These authors undertook a comprehensive analysis to determine whether lower-order traits could be housed within the Big Five framework. In their analysis, extraversion is comprised of enthusiasm and assertiveness; agreeableness, of compassion and politeness; conscientiousness, of industriousness and orderliness; neuroticism, of volatility and withdrawal; and openness to experience, of intellect and openness. Likewise, Roberts, Chernyshenko, Stark, and Goldberg identified six subfacets of conscientiousness, and Chernyshenko, Stark, Woo, and Conz identified six subfacets of openness to experience. It is too early to tell whether these analyses will prove useful to organisational behaviour scholars, but we encourage such efforts.

Dark Side of Functional Traits

As would be expected and as predicted by an evolutionary perspective on personality, many traits have broad adaptive properties. If one selected a broad range of work and life outcomes, for example, few people would choose to be less conscientious. However, every one of the Big Five traits appears to have certain maladaptive properties for certain specific criteria.

As Nettle noted, 'Behavioural alternatives can be considered as tradeoffs, with a particular trait producing not unalloyed advantage but a mixture of costs and benefits such that the optimal value for fitness may depend on very specific local circumstances'. Thus, a more nuanced view of the importance of personality to behaviour would recognise that even generally desirable traits likely involve trade-offs associated with particular criteria.

For example, despite its widespread benefits, conscientiousness does have disadvantages. Conscientious individuals may learn less in the early stages of skill acquisition perhaps because they are self-deceptive about their abilities or are overly focused on performing well. There is also evidence that conscientious individuals are less adaptable. Extraversion, though having positive relations with many organisational criteria, may be related to increased levels of impulsive or risk-seeking behaviours, resulting in increased accident and absenteeism rates.

We should not be so enamored with the general desirability of certain traits that we are blinded to the cases in which they are maladaptive. Nor should we ignore the possible benefits of some 'dark side' traits. Moreover, where traits are deemed functional, we should not assume that more is always better.

Extremely conscientious individuals, for instance, might not always perform better and, in some cases, may perform worse than moderately conscientious individuals. More research is needed to identify which levels of which traits are functional under what conditions. Tett et al.'s trait activation theory and Mischel and Shoda's cognitive-affective personality system theory are two examples of personality theories that may guide fruitful explorations of this frontier.

Personality Change and Variability

Personality traits show significant levels of rank-order consistency, even if the interval between the time periods is substantial. However, evidence also clearly suggests that scores on personality inventories change over time; for example, individuals become more conscientious and less open over time. Although, thanks to the work of Roberts et al. as well as others, we have learned a great deal about personality change, much remains to be known about the role work plays in changes on personality. Is the increase of conscientiousness and decrease of openness over time, for example, a result of a context-free aging process, or might the experience of work play a role in making individuals more conscientious and less open?

Similarly, since women's neuroticism scores decline over time, serving to virtually eliminate their heightened neuroticism scores as young women does this narrowing of the 'gender gap' vary by women's labour force experiences? Finally, certain organisational cultures may reinforce personalities. We know that individuals, to some degree, chose organisational cultures based on their personality. Once an individual has joined an organisation, do organisations with 'strong cultures' shape employees' personalities? More research is needed to answer these interesting and important questions.

Personality Processes

Finally, in organisational behaviour, personality research continues to be virtually synonymous with trait research. This stands in stark contrast to personality psychology as a field, where research covers a much more expansive domain, including, for instance, the study of personality processes such as selfdetermination and self-concordance positive psychological states such as gratitude and forgiveness and negative psychological states such as depression and rumination. The overwhelming focus on trait psychology to the virtual exclusion of personality processes is unfortunate because organisations are a dynamic setting in which personality processes actively play out. Personality psychology is more than trait psychology, and organisational behaviour research can and should do a better job of drawing from, and contributing to, personality processes.

PREDICTION OF BEHAVIOUR

The ability of attitudes to predict behavioural intentions and overt behaviour continues to be a major focus of theory and research. By far the greatest number of publications on a single topic were concerned with this issue.

MODERATORS OF ATTITUDE-BEHAVIOUR CONSISTENCY

Several studies continued to explore the role of moderating variables. Operationalising attitude embeddedness as the number of free associations respondents produced in relation to an issue, Prislin and Ouellette found that highly embedded attitudes towards preservation of the environment were more strongly related to an aggregate measure of behavioural intentions than were low-embedded attitudes. Also dealing with environmental issues, Schultz and Oskamp determined that the relation between concern about the environment and recycling behaviour increased, as expected, to the extent that the behaviour required effort on the part of the participant. Others have investigated the effects on the attitude-behaviour relation of prior experience and thought, cognitive load and positive mood, direct and indirect experience, and the accessibility of alternative actions.

Returning to a theme of the 1970s, several studies dealt with the moderating effect of involvement. In one experiment involvement as well as response latency were found to increase the impact of attitudes on product choices.

Involvement also took central stage in an exchange about the role of vested interest in political behaviour. Contrary to earlier research that reported limited impact of vested interest on political attitudes and actions, Crano presented data to show that vested interest—although uncorrelated with attitude valence—does affect the strength of the relation between attitudes and behaviour. In response, Sears contended that the moderating effects of vested interest tend to be relatively small and restricted largely to the daily lives of college students. According to Sears, symbolic aspects of an attitude take on greater significance in the public arena where they overshadow the impact of narrow self-interest.

THEORIES OF REASONED ACTION AND PLANNED BEHAVIOUR

Most studies concerned with the prediction of behaviour from attitudinal variables were conducted in the framework of the theory of planned behaviour and, to a lesser extent, its predecessor, the theory of reasoned action. According to the theory of planned behaviour, people act in accordance with their intentions and perceptions of control over the behaviour, while intentions in turn are influenced by attitudes towards the behaviour, subjective norms, and perceptions of behavioural control. The cognitive foundations of these factors are consistent with an expectancy-value formulation. Support for the theory in general is summarised in a meta-analysis and a review of the literature and another review summarises its applications to health-related behaviour.

Several studies have compared the predictive power of the theory of planned behaviour with that of other models, including the information-motivation-behavioural skills model, the health belief model and the integrated waste management model. Although designed for application in specific domains, the alternative models were found to perform not much better, and sometimes worse, than the general, content-free theory of planned behaviour.

Applications

Many investigators continue to demonstrate the applicability of the theory in various content domains, including condom use and other safe-sex behaviours, smoking, getting hormone replacement therapy adhering to a medication regimen, drinking alcohol, using illegal substances, eating low-fat food, engaging in physical activity, choosing a career, playing basketball, wearing a safety helmet, using dental floss, exposing oneself to sunlight, and composting. By and large, these studies have found support for the theory, and little can be gained at this point by further demonstrations of the theory's applicability to particular domains.

Perceived Behavioural Control

Going beyond the demonstration of applicability, several studies have pursued a distinction between perceived controllability and self-efficacy, conceptualised as the degree of anticipated difficulty in performing a behaviour. Factor analyses of items designed to tap these two constructs revealed the expected factors in the domains of eating behaviour and academic achievement but only perceived difficulty—not perceived controllability—added significantly to the prediction of intentions and behaviour. In a somewhat related study, Trafimow and Duran validated the distinction between attitude and perceived behavioural control.

Attitudes Versus Norms

Another issue has to do with the relative contributions of attitudes and subjective norms to the prediction of intentions. Relying on within-subjects analyses across 30 different behaviours, Trafimow and Finlay confirmed that individuals differ in the relative weights they place on attitudes and subjective norms, and that the weights of these predictors also vary across behaviours. At the group level, workers' turnover intentions were, as might be expected, more under the influence of subjective norms in a collectivist culture than in an individualistic culture.

Similarly, the intentions of general medical practitioners to refer Asian patients to mental health services were more under control of subjective norms, whereas their intentions to refer non-Asian patients were more under the control of attitudinal considerations. In an experimental analogue, Ybarra and Trafimow primed the accessibility of either the private or the collective self. Intentions to use condoms during sexual intercourse were more under the control of attitudes in the former condition and more under control of subjective norms in the latter. Similarly, intentions to avoid exposure to the sun were influenced by the perceived norms of a reference group among respondents who strongly identified with the group, whereas among low identifiers, personal attitudes were a better predictor.

In a study on the effects of mood it was found that attitudes influenced intentions to use condoms and to eat low-fat foods after induction of a negative mood, whereas subjective norms influenced these behaviours in a positive mood condition. Intentions to eat sweets showed a consistent pattern of gender differences: women's intentions were under the influence of both attitudes and subjective norms, whereas only attitudes significantly predicted the intentions of men. Finally, the readiness of managers to undertake benchmarking in their organisation was influenced by their attitudes towards this behaviour, but only if they had past experience with it. Inexperienced managers were influenced by their normative beliefs concerning the expectations of others in the organisation.

Past research has often reported strong correlations between attitudes and subjective norms. The differential patterns of impact on intentions and behaviour documented in

recent investigations tend to validate the conceptual distinction between attitudinal and normative considerations.

Sufficiency

Many studies challenge the assumption that the predictors in the theory of planned behaviour are sufficient to account for intentions and behaviour. This is done by including measures of additional variables in the prediction equation and showing significant improvement in the prediction of intentions or behaviour. Thus, several investigations showed that the inclusion of a measure of self-identity can account for additional variance in adherence to a low-fat diet and in marijuana use.

Other studies demonstrated improved prediction of environmentally relevant behaviour with the addition of personal or moral norms and improved prediction of playing the lottery and of precautionary sexual behaviour with the addition of anticipated regret. Measures of personality traits also improved prediction but the addition of various demographic variables did not. In general, however, even when improvements were found, for the most part the improvements in prediction of intentions or behaviour were relatively minor, and their generalizability to other behavioural domains has yet to be demonstrated.

Past Behaviour

Related to the question of sufficiency is the role of past behaviour. Based on the assumption that frequent performance of a behaviour leads to the formation of a habit, and that habits can influence behaviour independent of attitudes and intentions, theorists have proposed that frequency of past behaviour be added to our predictive models. Several investigators have tested this idea by including a measure of past conduct in the theory of planned behaviour and have shown that doing so can help account for a substantial portion of additional variance in intentions or actual behaviour.

For example, in a study of travel mode choice, prediction of car use from intentions and perceptions of behavioural control was significantly improved by the addition of past car use. More importantly, this study revealed a significant interaction between intention and past behaviour. When the relation between intention and behaviour was examined separately for respondents with high, moderate, and low levels of past car use, it was significant only at the lowest use level. This finding suggests that intentions may become largely irrelevant when a behaviour has been performed many times, *i.e.* when it has become habitual.

The prediction of studying intentions and behaviour among college students was also shown to benefit from the inclusion of a measure of past behaviour. This study found, however, that the contribution of past behaviour declined when perceived behavioural control was included in the prediction equation. Consistent with this finding, perceived behavioural control was shown to mediate the impact of similar past

behaviours on acceptance of hormone replacement therapy. In short, the frequency with which a behaviour has been performed in the past tends to correlate well with later actions. Although there is some indication that this relation may be mediated in part by perceived behavioural control, neither this variable nor intentions completely explain the link between prior and later behaviour. Some investigators have interpreted these findings to mean that behaviour has come at least in part under the control of automatic processes or habits. However, this is not the only possible interpretation. Frequency of past behavioural performance may capture and reflect a number of psychological processes or variables other than habituation.

FROM INTENTIONS TO ACTIONS

As in research on the attitude-behaviour relation, investigators continued their search for moderators of the intention-behaviour relation. Studies showed that, as might be expected, the temporal stability of intentions and of perceived behavioural control influence predictive validity: Relatively stable intentions and perceptions of behavioural control were better predictors of subsequent behaviour. In a meta-analysis of research on intended and actual condom use, shorter time intervals, older samples, and condom use with steady versus casual partners were each found to be associated with stronger correlations.

Similarly, participants who had developed a schema relevant for dieting were found to exhibit stronger relations between dieting intentions and behaviour than did a schematic participants; easily accessible voting intentions were better predictors of voting choice than intentions with longer response latencies and intentions based on attitudes tended to predict performance of everyday behaviours better than did intentions based on subjective norms.

Implementation Intentions

In an impressive programme of research, Gollwitzer and his associates have explored the cognitive processes that mediate the relation between intentions and behaviour. A fundamental assumption in this work is that the initiation of goal-directed responses becomes automatised following formation of implementation intentions, *i.e.* intentions to perform a goal-directed behaviour when a specific context is encountered. Specific plans of this kind are assumed to serve as powerful self-regulatory tools and to facilitate implementation of intended behaviour. In an empirical investigation implementation intentions were found to facilitate the immediate initiation of goal-directed action when the intended opportunity was encountered, and intentions to attain difficult goals were more likely to be carried out when participants had formed implementation intentions. Similarly, participants asked to formulate plans in the form of implementation intentions were found to be better able to carry out their intentions to go on a healthier diet and to take a vitamin C pill each day. Clearly, intentions play an important role in guiding

human action, but recent research also reveals the complexities involved in translating intentions into actual behaviour.

FUNCTIONS OF ATTITUDES

In the broadest sense of functionality, attitudes facilitate adaptation to the environment. Researchers continue their attempts to identify the functions served by attitudes and to investigate their role in the formation and consequences of attitudes. Among the functions recognised by most theorists are the value-expressive function of attitudes, the knowledge function, the egodefensive function, the social-adjustive function, and the utilitarian function. The operation of some of these functions has been investigated in recent studies.

In a laboratory experiment, Chen and Bargh demonstrated that positive and negative evaluations serve to orient people towards approach and avoidance, respectively. Participants exposed to positive words responded faster when instructed to pull a lever towards them than to push it away, whereas the reverse pattern was observed for participants exposed to negative words. Attitudinal function can be associated with positions on social issues.

Studying the functions of attitudes towards lifting the ban on homosexuals in the military, Wyman and Snyder examined egodefensive beliefs and value-expressive beliefs. Respondents who approved of lifting the ban rejected ego-defensive reasons for keeping it and they endorsed value-expressive reasons to lift it. Conversely, respondents opposed to lifting the ban endorsed ego-defensive and value-expressive reasons for keeping the ban and rejected value-expressive reasons to lift it. Approaching this issue in the context of the expectancy-value model, Demski and McGlynn showed that attitudes towards parolees were based primarily on beliefs related to the instrumental or utilitarian function rather than to beliefs related to the value-expressive function. An attitude's functional basis has been shown to influence the extent to which people process function-consistent and function-inconsistent information. College students preselected to be high or low in self-monitoring tendency were exposed to a message that matched or mismatched the functional basis of their attitudes towards common products: an image appeal for high selfmonitors and a quality appeal for low self-monitors, or vice versa. To examine depth of information processing, the message contained either strong or weak arguments. The strength of the arguments had a greater impact on attitudes towards the products when they matched rather than mismatched the functional basis of the attitude and, in a second study, this difference was especially pronounced for individuals low in need for cognition.

BIASING EFFECTS OF ATTITUDES

If attitudes serve a variety of functions for the individual, they are likely to bias judgements and memory. It is generally hypothesised that attitudes bias information

processing and memory in favour of attitude-consistent material. Thus, participants judged research consistent with their attitudes towards homosexuality as more convincing than they judged research inconsistent with their attitudes, and they classified multiply categorisable objects in line with their most accessible attitudes. A meta-analysis of research on the attitude congeniality hypothesis, however, failed to provide clear support.

Results across studies were inconsistent, and the overall effect was weak. Attitude structure and motivation to process attitude-relevant information were found to be of possible significance in understanding the inconsistent findings. In line with this suggestion, amount of prior knowledge combined with high fear of AIDS was found to bias processing of information relevant to risk estimates, enabling respondents to defend their existing views regarding the risk of contracting AIDS.

ATTITUDES AND VALUES

Favourable valences associated with such abstract concepts as freedom and equality are known as values. Interest in the measurement and function of values continues. It has been suggested that global values reflect cultural truisms, *i.e.* widely shared and rarely questioned beliefs supported by a very limited cognitive foundation. Consistent with this assumption, asking participants to analyse their reasons for holding such values as altruism and equality caused them to change their ratings of these values. Moreover, this change was observed only when participants were not provided with cognitive support for their values.

General values, once activated, are assumed to influence evaluations of specific objects and events. Indeed, broad values, as assessed by Schwartz's survey instrument, have been found to be related to food preferences in different contexts. Similarly, the values of security through order, humanistic and expressive concerns, and religiosity and personal restraint are related to liberal versus conservative attitudes, and values of communalism and the work ethic predict attitudes towards welfare. On a somewhat narrower scale, attitudes towards fat people were found to be linked to strong value placed on responsibility for one's actions in the United States, but not in Mexico.

The functional approach to attitudes has so far held out more promise than it has been able to deliver. Attempts to link the functional basis of attitudes to processing of function-relevant information may help to integrate work on attitudinal functions with other theory and research on attitude formation and change.

NATURE AND OPERATION OF ATTITUDES

The attitude construct continues to be a major focus of theory and research in the social and behavioural sciences, as evidenced by the proliferation of articles, chapters, and books on attitude-related topics published between 1996 and 1999, the period covered in this review. To the relief of authors, the *Annual Review of Psychology* now

divides this burgeoning field into two separate chapters, one surveying attitude change, persuasion, and social influence and this chapter, intended to deal with most of the remaining topics: conceptualisation of attitudes, attitude formation and activation, attitude structure and function, and the attitude-behaviour relation. Space limitations confine this review to basic, theory-oriented research, and to topics not covered in other *Annual Review* chapters, such as biases in judgement and decision making, social cognition and social perception mood and emotion, the self and self esteem and stereotypes and prejudice as well as intra- and inter-group attitudes. A new collection of attitude scales in the political domain provides a useful discussion of available instruments.

CONCEPTUALISATION OF ATTITUDE

There is general agreement that attitude represents a summary evaluation of a psychological object captured in such attribute dimensions as good-bad, harmful-beneficial, pleasant-unpleasant, and likable-dislikable. Recent neurological evidence suggests that evaluative judgements differ in important ways from non-evaluative judgements.

Crites and Cacioppo asked respondents to categorise food items either as positive versus non-positive or as vegetable versus non-vegetable. Compared with the late positive brain potential evoked by non-evaluative categorisations, evaluative categorisations were found to evoke a potential that was relatively larger over wide areas of the right than the left scalp regions. So fundamental and ubiquitous are evaluative reactions to psychological objects that investigators have posited a need to evaluate. Individuals are said to differ in their chronic tendency to engage in evaluative responding. Jarvis and Petty developed a 16-item scale to measure this tendency, a scale shown to have high internal consistency, a single-factor structure, high test-retest reliability, and convergent and discriminant validity. Compared to respondents with low scores, respondents high in the need to evaluate were found to be more likely to hold attitudes towards various social and political issues and to list more evaluative thoughts about unfamiliar paintings and about a typical day in their lives.

ATTITUDE OBJECTS

The idea that attitudes are dispositions to evaluate psychological objects would seem to imply that we hold one, and only one, attitude towards any given object or issue. Recent work, however, suggests that this may be too simplistic a conception. Thus, when attitudes change, the new attitude overrides but may not replace the old attitude. According to this model of dual attitudes, people can simultaneously hold two different attitudes towards a given object in the same context, one attitude implicit or habitual, the other explicit. Motivation and capacity are assumed to be required to retrieve the explicit attitude in favour of the implicit evaluative response.

Depending on perspective, different evaluations of the same object in different contexts can be considered evidence for multiple attitudes towards the same object, or attitudes towards different psychological objects. One mechanism for the development of different context-dependent attitudes has been found in the presence of illusory correlations between a target's behaviour and the context in which the behaviour is observed. These investigators suggest that some apparent discrepancies between attitudes and behaviour may reflect the presence of multiple context-dependent attitudes towards social targets. In a similar vein, respondents have been found to hold different attitudes with respect to high and low relevance versions of the same attitudinal issue.

EVALUATION VERSUS AFFECT

Reflected in Thurstone's well-known definition of attitude as affect for or against a psychological object, early theorists used the term affect in the sense in which we now use the term attitude, *i.e.* to denote overall degree of favourability. The current preference is to reserve the term affect for general moods and specific emotions, states that contain degrees of valence as well as arousal.

Bipolarity of Affect

Somewhat beyond the scope of this review, an emerging resolution of the controversy regarding bipolarity of affect is worth noting. Findings reported in the 1960s suggested that, contrary to intuition and theory, positive moods and emotions may be orthogonal to their negative counterparts, and many investigators subsequently accepted the relative independence and separability of positive and negative affect. In a persuasive reconceptualisation and series of experiments, Feldman Barrett and Russell and Russell and Carroll posed a serious challenge to this view. The apparent independence of positive and negative affect is shown to be largely an artifact of the methodology used in empirical investigations. When items are selected to be semantic bipolar opposites of affective experience, to represent the full domain of positive and negative terms, and to separate high and low levels of activation inherent in the experience, strong negative correlations between positive and negative affect are obtained.

PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT

An individual's personality is an aggregate conglomeration of decisions we've made throughout our lives. There are inherent natural, genetic, and environmental factors that contribute to the development of our personality. According to process of socialisation, "personality also colours our values, beliefs, and expectations... Hereditary factors that contribute to personality development do so as a result of interactions with the particular social environment in which people live." There are several personality types as Katharine Cook Briggs and Isabel Briggs Myers illustrated in several

personalities typology tests, which are based on Carl Jung's school of Analytical psychology. However, these tests only provide enlightenment based on the preliminary insight scored according to the answers judged by the parameters of the test.

Other theories on personality development include Jean Piaget's stages of development, Erik Erikson's Stages of Psychosocial Development, and personality development in Sigmund Freud's theory being formed through the interaction of id, ego, and super-ego.

PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT

Personality is defined as the enduring personal characteristics of individuals. Although some psychologists frown on the premise, a commonly used explanation for personality development is the psychodynamic approach. The term *ambot* describes any theory that emphasises the constant change and development of the individual. Perhaps the best known of the psychodynamic theories is Freudian psychoanalysis.

FREUD'S PSYCHOANALYTIC THEORY

Drives

Freud believed that two basic drives—sex and aggression—motivate all our thoughts and behaviour. He referred to these as Eros and Thanatos. Eros represents the life instinct, sex being the major driving force. Thanatos represents the death instinct, which, according to Freud, allowed the human race to both procreate and eliminate its enemies.

Structure of Personality

Freud conceived the mind as only having a fixed amount of psychic energy. The outcome of the interaction between the id, ego and the superego, determines our adult personality.

Tripartite Personality

Freud believed that personality had three parts—the id, ego, and super-ego—referring to this as the tripartite personality. The id allows us to get our basic needs met. Freud believed that the id is based on the pleasure principle, *i.e.* it wants immediate satisfaction, with no consideration for the reality of the situation.

As a child interacts more with the world, the ego begins to develop. The ego's job is to meet the needs of the id, whilst taking into account the constraints of reality. The ego acknowledges that being impulsive or selfish can sometimes hurt us, so the id must be constrained. The superego develops during the phallic stage, as a result of the moral constraints placed on us by our parents. It is generally believed that a strong superego serves to inhibit the biological instincts of the id, whereas a weak superego allows the id more expression.

Defence Mechanisms

The ego, having a difficult time trying to satisfy both the needs of the id and the superego, employs defence mechanisms. Repression is perhaps the most powerful of these. Repression is the act by which unacceptable id impulses are “pushed” out of awareness and into the unconscious mind. Another example of a defence mechanism is projection. This is the mechanism that Freud used to explain Little Hans’ complex. Little Hans is said to have projected his fear for his father onto horses, which is why he was afraid of them.

PSYCHOSEXUAL STAGES

Freud believed that at particular points in the child’s development, a single part of the body is particularly sensitive to sexual stimulation. These erogenous zones are the mouth, anus and the genital region. At any given time, the child’s libido is focused on the primary erogenous zone for that age. As a result, the child has certain needs and demands that are related to the erogenous zones for that stage. Frustration occurs if these needs are not met, but, a child may also become overindulged, and so may be reluctant to progress beyond the stage. Both frustration and overindulgence may lead to fixation—some of the child’s libido remains locked into that stage. If a child is fixated at a particular stage, the method of obtaining satisfaction that characterised that stage will dominate their adult personality.

Although many people view Freud’s descriptions of personality development as pure fantasy, his ideas have endured and have had far reaching influences both in and outside psychology. Freud has changed the way we think about the importance of childhood, and also made us aware of the unconscious elements of our psyche that are essential for development.

ATTITUDE STRENGTH

Strong attitudes are thought to have a number of interesting qualities. They are said to be relatively stable over time, to be resistant to persuasion, and to predict manifest behaviour. Visser and Krosnick documented changes in attitude strength over the life cycle. Contrary to the common belief that cognitive flexibility and readiness to change one’s attitudes decline with age, the results of several studies demonstrated that susceptibility to attitude change declines from early to middle adulthood and then increases again in late adulthood. Similarly, rated importance of attitudinal issues, certainty, and perceived quantity of attitude-relevant knowledge were greater in middle adulthood than during early or late adulthood. However, these various indexes of attitude strength were found to correlate differentially with education, gender, and race, challenging the notion that attitude strength is a unitary construct. High personal relevance of information on which an attitude is based has been found to increase its

strength, as measured by response times, *i.e.* accessibility. College students were exposed to an advertisement for an unfamiliar product under high and low personal relevance conditions, and subsequently their brand attitudes, as well as the response latencies of these attitudes, were assessed. In line with dual-mode processing models, high personal relevance, or involvement, was expected to increase information processing and, consistent with predictions, attitudes formed under conditions of high involvement were found to be significantly more accessible compared to those formed under low levels of involvement.

CONSEQUENCES OF ATTITUDE STRENGTH

Using a sequential priming paradigm, Bassili and Roy examined the effects of attitude strength on the representation of attitudes in memory. Participants either first evaluated a policy and then thought of one of its consequences, or they first thought of a possible consequence and then evaluated the policy. In general, it took participants longer to think of a consequence of a policy than to evaluate it, suggesting that evaluations are relatively automatic, whereas belief emission requires some cognitive effort. Results further showed that thinking of a consequence of a policy speeded up its subsequent evaluation, regardless of whether the participant held a strong or weak attitude about the policy. Evaluating the policy speeded up thinking of one of its consequences for strong attitudes but not for weak ones.

Strong attitudes are, among other things, expected to be relatively resistant to change. Drawing a distinction between meta-attitudinal and operative indexes of attitude strength, Bassili reported the results of two studies concerning resistance to attitude change with respect to three social issues: employment quotas for women, laws regulating pornography, and laws prohibiting hateful expressions. Meta-attitudinal measures of strength were of a subjective nature, asking participants in the first study to judge the certainty, importance, and strength of their attitudes, as well as their knowledge, attention, and frequency of thought concerning the issues. The operative, and relatively more objective, indexes were measures of attitude extremity, ambivalence, and response latency. In the second study, participants were also asked to provide subjective judgements of these operative aspects of their attitudes. Resistance to change was, in both studies, assessed by observing reactions to a counter argument, and in the second study also by stability over a two-week period. The results of multiple regression analyses showed that resistance to change was affected only by the operative measures of attitude strength; the meta-attitudinal measures did not account for unique variance.

A possible clue to the inferiority of the subjective or meta-attitudinal measures of attitude strength can be found in a study by Haddock et al, who showed that the subjective experience of attitude strength is quite malleable. After expressing their attitudes towards doctor-assisted suicide, college students were asked to list either three or seven arguments pro or counter their own positions. This was followed by several questions designed to

assess subjective attitude strength. As might be expected, participants found it easier to generate three as compared to seven arguments. They then apparently used the ease of argument generation to infer the strength of their attitudes. Attitude importance, intensity, and certainty were judged greater when generation of arguments in favour of one's position was relatively easy and when generation of arguments opposed to one's position was relatively difficult. Interestingly, these findings were obtained only when subjective attitude strength was assessed in terms of importance, intensity, and certainty, not when attitude strength was measured in terms of frequency of thinking or knowledge concerning the issue. Furthermore, in a subsequent experiment, ease of argument retrieval was found to have no effect on subjective certainty for individuals with relatively extreme attitudes. These findings again support the relative independence of different aspects of attitude strength.

A similar conclusion emerged in another series of studies concerning the effects of attitude strength on temporal stability. Undergraduates expressed their attitudes towards affirmative action, euthanasia, and legalised abortion on two occasions. Different dimensions of attitude strength were found to predict the stability of these different attitudes.

Generalised attitude strength moderated the stability of attitudes towards affirmative action, with strong attitudes being more stable than weak attitudes; internal consistency of the attitude moderated stability of attitudes towards euthanasia; and attitude extremity affected the stability of attitudes towards legalised abortion.

Lavine et al showed that attitude strength moderates the susceptibility of attitudes to item context effects in surveys, with relatively weak attitudes being more susceptible to context effects than relatively strong attitudes. However, this finding was obtained only with a multi-item aggregate measure of attitude strength, not when a single item was used to assess attitude strength.

The strength of evaluative reactions has proven to be an important characteristic of attitudes, but its multidimensional nature is proving to be a serious obstacle to progress. Attitude strength has been operationalised in different ways, including importance of the issue, extremity of the attitude, its stability over time, certainty in one's position, vested interest, involvement, affective-cognitive consistency, knowledge about the issue, frequency of thinking about it, and—consistent with Fazio's theorising—latency of conscious, deliberate responses to attitudinal enquiries.

Yet, research continues to reveal only weak relations among these dimensions of attitude strength, and different measures tend to produce conflicting research findings.

ATTITUDINAL AMBIVALENCE

Generally speaking, ambivalence reflects the co-existence of positive and negative dispositions towards an attitude object. This ambivalence can result from simultaneously

accessible conflicting beliefs within the cognitive component or from a conflict between cognition and affect. Recent attempts to quantify this property of attitudes have focused on ambivalence within the cognitive component. By differentially weighting the strength of conflicting beliefs, it is possible to derive varying formulas for the computation of ambivalence. Building on earlier work, Priester and Petty reviewed and then evaluated the relative merits of different operational definitions by comparing their ability to predict the subjective experience of ambivalence. Following a sophisticated analysis, they presented data to support the superiority of a gradual threshold model.

According to this model, ambivalence increases as a negatively accelerating function of the number of conflicting beliefs, and decreases with the number of dominant reactions up to a threshold defined by a certain level of conflicting reactions. Despite its unique features, however, the proposed formulation was found to correlate quite highly with other quantifications of ambivalence, and although it was superior to other indices in some respects, the proposed measure accounted for only a moderate amount of variance in the subjective ambivalence criterion.

CONSEQUENCES OF AMBIVALENCE

Holding ambivalent attitudes has been shown to affect judgements and behaviour in profound ways. Thus, although equal in stability over time, relatively non-ambivalent attitudes towards eating a low-fat diet were found to be more predictive of subsequent intentions and behaviour than ambivalent attitudes, and they were also more resistant to a persuasive communication. However, this may hold only for attitudes towards familiar objects or issues. Arguing that ambivalence decreases people's confidence in their attitudes towards behaviours involving the attitude object, Jonas postulated that ambivalent attitudes are associated with more systematic information processing and hence, predict intentions better than non-ambivalent attitudes. Two experiments confirmed these expectations: Attitudes of participants provided with evaluatively inconsistent information about fictional shampoos predicted buying intentions better than did attitudes based on evaluatively consistent information. Similarly, people with ambivalent attitudes towards a minority group were found to be more likely to systematically process information about the group and, in comparison to individuals with less ambivalent attitudes, their reactions towards the group reflected more readily a mood-induced priming of positive and negative feelings.

Ambivalence is a dominant theme in theorising about racial, ethnic, and gender related prejudice. Drawing on this work, MacDonald and Zanna reported that men who exhibit ambivalent attitudes towards feminists tend to rate them positively on the dimension of admiration but negatively on the dimension of affection. Priming respondents with related positive or negative interpersonal qualities had little impact on non-ambivalent respondents but it had a significant effect on the attitudes and hiring preferences of ambivalent respondents. After reading a résumé of a feminist applicant,

ambivalent participants who were positively primed expressed more liking for the applicant and greater intentions to hire her than did negatively primed ambivalent participants.

Attitudinal ambivalence is emerging as a promising area of research with the potential to throw light on attitude structure—within as well as between attitude components—on the processing of attitude-relevant information, on attitude change, and on the effect of attitudes on behaviour.

ATTITUDE FORMATION AND ACTIVATION

THE EXPECTANCY-VALUE MODEL

Evaluation is known to be a fundamental aspect of any concept's connotative meaning. According to the most popular conceptualisation of attitude, the expectancy-value model, this evaluative meaning arises spontaneously and inevitably as we form beliefs about the object.

Each belief associates the object with a certain attribute, and a person's overall attitude towards an object is determined by the subjective values of the object's attributes in interaction with the strength of the associations. Although people can form many different beliefs about an object, it is assumed that only beliefs that are readily accessible in memory influence attitude at any given moment.

A belief's chronic accessibility tends to increase as a function of the frequency with which the expectancy is activated and the recency of its activation, as well as the belief's importance. The expectancy-value model will serve as a conceptual framework for the remaining sections of this review.

Critical Issues

Despite, or perhaps because of, its popularity, the expectancy-value model continues to draw critical attention. Fishbein and Middlestadt presented evidence that overall evaluations or attitudes are indeed based on beliefs and their associated evaluations, and argued that when noncognitive factors are sometimes found to have a direct effect on attitudes, this is due to methodological artifacts. A torrent of replies has challenged this conclusion, reaffirming the idea that beliefs are only one possible influence on attitudes.

A recurrent issue regarding the expectancy-value model has to do with the relative importance of different beliefs as determinants of attitude. Assuming that importance affects accessibility and hence that only important beliefs are likely to be activated spontaneously, the expectancy-value model assigns equal weights to all belief-value products. Following up on a study by Budd, van der Pligt and de Vries examined the role of belief importance in smoking attitudes and behaviour. Student smokers and

non-smokers expressed their attitudes towards smoking, rated the likelihood and value of each of 15 potential consequences of smoking, and selected the 3 consequences they considered most important. In comparison to an expectancy-value index based on the 12 low-importance beliefs, an index based on only the 3 most important beliefs correlated better with the direct semantic differential measure of attitude towards smoking and with reported smoking behaviour.

However, the 15 consequences of smoking included in the survey were selected by the investigators and did not necessarily represent accessible beliefs. Consistent with this reasoning, the authors noted that their measure of perceived importance may have served primarily to identify the beliefs that were accessible for smokers and non-smokers. Indeed, follow-up research showed that beliefs judged to be important are more accessible in memory, as indicated by lower response latencies.

Another concern regarding the expectancy-value model is that the assumed belief evaluation interaction may misrepresent the cognitive processes involved in attitude formation. Thus, it has been proposed that beliefs and values may relate independently to overall attitudes in a process termed double denial. To illustrate, a person with a strong negative attitude towards drinking alcohol may deny that drinking makes you happy, yet at the same time assign a negative evaluation to “being happy.” When multiplied in accordance with the expectancy-value model, the product term implies a relatively favourable attitude towards drinking alcohol, or at least a less negative attitude than if the likelihood rating had been high. Sjöberg and Montgomery obtained data in support of this phenomenon, in an apparent contradiction of the expectancy-value model. However, according to the expectancy-value model, when attributes come to be linked to an object in the process of belief formation, the pre-existing attribute evaluations are associated with the object, producing an overall positive or negative attitude. It is thus important to assess attribute evaluations independent of their link to the attitude object. In the example, a person who rates “being happy” as negative most likely does so in the context of drinking alcohol, *i.e.* the person asserts that being happy as a result of drinking alcohol is undesirable, not that being happy is bad in general.

Although not dealing directly with attitudes, an interesting perspective on the interaction between expectancies and values has arisen out of theorising on regulatory focus. Shah and Higgins either measured or manipulated promotion and prevention focus, and predicted task performance or decisions from expectancies and values associated with potential outcomes of goal attainment. Positive expectancies and values generally had the anticipated effects, increasing goal commitment. However, after entering the expectancy and value measures as main effects, the added contribution of the interaction varied as a function of regulatory focus: The interaction term had a significant positive coefficient for participants with a promotion focus, but a negative coefficient for participants with a prevention focus.

AUTOMATIC ATTITUDE ACTIVATION

As noted earlier, the expectancy-value model assumes that an object's evaluative meaning arises spontaneously, without conscious effort. Evidence indicating that evaluative reactions tend to be immediate and fast, and can occur outside of awareness, has been accumulating rapidly. Much of this research relies on the sequential evaluative priming paradigm in which stimuli with known positive or negative valence, usually words, serve as priming events. Presented at subliminal exposure times, these primes are found to influence the speed at which subsequent target stimuli, usually adjectives, are judged to be good or bad. Judgements are faster when the valence of the target adjective matches the valence of the prime.

Initial research tried to demonstrate that attitudes can be automatically activated, and—more importantly—to establish the conditions necessary for automatic attitude activation. Thus, it was first proposed that attitudes are activated automatically only by stimuli that elicit a quick, conscious evaluative response. Low-conscious evaluation latencies were assumed to indicate the presence of a strong, chronically accessible attitude amenable to automatic activation. Subsequent research, however, showed that preconscious automatic attitude activation is independent of attitude strength, *i.e.* of the speed at which conscious evaluations occur. In fact, it is now clear that automatic attitude activation occurs even in the absence of an explicit goal to make evaluative judgements. In the first of three experiments, explicit evaluation of the target adjectives was removed by asking participants to simply pronounce the target stimuli as quickly as possible.

Although non-evaluative, these responses were found to be faster when prime and target valences were congruent rather than incongruent. In the remaining two experiments, the need to obtain an initial evaluation of the priming stimuli was obviated by using normative data from previous research. Shorter pronunciation latencies for target adjectives with prime-congruent valences again confirmed the automatic attitude activation effect. Moreover, the experiments demonstrated automatic attitude activation not only for primes with strongly positive and negative valences, but also for primes with mildly positive and negative valences. Similarly, using drawings of animate and inanimate objects instead of words as primes, Giner-Sorolla again extended the generality of the automatic evaluation effect to moderately valenced priming stimuli, and to situations that do not pose evaluation as an explicit processing goal.

If automatic attitude activation seems to be unaffected by degree of accessibility, a recent series of experiments suggests that it may be moderated by familiarity with the attitude object. Using a variation of the sequential priming paradigm, it was shown that automatic attitude activation is produced by primes representing well-known positive or negative person types but not by primes representing newly acquired attitude objects.

The finding that attitudes are activated automatically has led investigators to propose that response latencies be used to obtain measures of attitude that are free of reactive

effects, especially when trying to assess racial attitudes or attitudes towards other socially sensitive issues. Ingenious methods have been developed to take advantage of reaction times to relevant stimuli, and evidence for the validity of these methods is becoming available.

AFFECT VERSUS COGNITION AS ANTECEDENTS OF EVALUATION

Inherent in the expectancy-value model of attitude is the assumption that evaluative judgements are the result of cognitive processes: associations between the attitude object and valued attributes. Some theorists have challenged this assumption, proposing that evaluations may also be controlled by affective processes. In fact, the affective primacy hypothesis assigns precedence to affect over cognition.

Affective Primacy

It is well established that repeated exposure to novel stimuli tends to increase linking for those stimuli even—and especially—when participants are unaware of having been exposed. A recent attempt to validate the affective basis of evaluative judgements pitted the affective primacy hypothesis against Schwarz and Clore's feelings-as-information model. Participants evaluated Chinese ideographs following subliminal exposure to positive, negative, or neutral affect primes. Happy and angry faces served as positive and negative primes, respectively, whereas polygons or neutral faces served as neutral primes. The feelings-as-information model assumes that positive or negative feelings elicited by the primes are misattributed to the neutral ideographs, thus producing an affective priming effect. However, participants were also explicitly induced to expect feeling positively or negatively by either telling them of the subliminal primes or by playing new-age background music.

This affective expectation manipulation was intended to give participants a situational cue to which they could misattribute their positive or negative feelings. The results were incompatible with the feelings-as-information model. Although subliminal exposure to happy or angry faces produced the usual affective priming effect on evaluations, this effect was not moderated by the affective expectation. Affective priming thus seems to be unaffected by, and independent of, such higherorder cognitive processes as attributional judgements. Of course, this does not rule out the operation of lower-level cognitive processes that may have preceded the evaluative judgements. In fact, the question as to whether evaluation is preceded by low-level affective processes, low-level cognitive processes, or both may not be amenable to resolution by currently available means.

Joint Effects of Affect and Cognition

An alternative and by far more popular position is based on the multi-component view of attitude and assumes that evaluations are influenced by cognition as well as

affect. Recent research suggests that the affective and cognitive components of attitude may differ in accessibility. Participants were asked to indicate, on a set of evaluative semantic differential scales, how they thought versus how they felt about attitude objects in two different domains: brand names and countries. Response times were significantly shorter for affective judgements, suggesting that the affective aspects underlying attitudes are more easily accessible in memory.

Consistent with this finding, when beliefs and feelings regarding an object are of opposite valence, feelings tend to predominate. Using national survey data, the investigators measured the feelings engendered by candidates in four recent U.S. presidential elections as well as their beliefs about the candidates' personal characteristics. The participants were then divided into those whose affect and cognition scores were evaluatively consistent and those who reported oppositely valenced beliefs and feelings. A univalent pattern of affect and cognition permitted better prediction of overall attitudes towards the candidates and of reported voting choice. Of greater interest, when affect and cognition were consistent with each other, both contributed strongly and about equally to the prediction.

However, among the ambivalent respondents, feelings towards the candidates were found to be the primary determinants of attitudes and voting behaviour. In a related study, experience with drug and alcohol use was found to influence the relative importance of the cognitive and affective bases of attitudes: The importance of affect as a predictor of attitudes increased with experience.

In a chapter describing their recent research programme, Haddock and Zanna summarised the results of several studies that provide support for the joint effects of beliefs and feelings on evaluations. Of more interest, they also show that individuals differ in their tendency to base their attitudes on cognition or affect. After developing a measure to capture individual differences in the tendency to rely on thoughts or feelings, the investigators administered the instrument together with a survey of beliefs, feelings, and attitudes with respect to several social issues. Regression analyses showed the expected results: The attitudes of individuals identified as "thinkers" were predicted by their beliefs about the attitude objects, but not by their feelings, and the reverse was true for individuals identified as "feelers." In a parallel manner, attitudes towards some objects rely more on affect than cognition, whereas attitudes towards other objects rely more on cognition than affect. Participants in this study were asked to try one of two computer software products, a computer game or a grammar checking programme, and to report their feelings and beliefs with respect to the product. Evaluation of the trial experience with the hedonic product was found to be based largely on feelings, whereas for the functional product the evaluation was determined primarily by beliefs about brand attributes. In sum, it has been found that individuals differ in their reliance on cognition versus affect as determinants of attitude, and that the two components also take on different degrees of importance for different attitude objects.

Negativity Bias

Whether cognitive or affective in nature, it is well known that negative information tends to have a greater impact on overall evaluations than comparably extreme positive information. The negativity bias was again demonstrated by research regarding the effects of positive and negative information on evaluations of political candidates and sponsors of political advertising and by research showing greater cognitive activity and better memory for negative as compared to positive stimulus words. Research that assessed event-related brain potentials while participants viewed positive, negative, and neutral pictures has shown that this negativity bias occurs very early in the processing of information, as the information is being categorised into positive or negative valence classes.

ACCESSIBILITY OF BELIEFS

According to the expectancy-value model, chronically accessible beliefs provide the foundation for our current, relatively stable attitudes, but various contextual factors can temporarily make certain beliefs more readily accessible. Depending on the valence of these beliefs, the prevailing attitude could shift in either a positive or negative direction. A systematic approach to the relation between accessibility of beliefs and its effects on attitudes is provided by attitude representation theory, which makes a strong case for the dependence of evaluation on the subjective representation of the attitude object. An experimental test of the theory showed that measured attitudes towards such social categories as politicians, homosexuals, and rock musicians remain relatively stable over time to the extent that the same representations of the category are accessed on different occasions. In a somewhat related approach, the goal compatibility framework suggests that people evaluate objects in relation to currently active goals.

Perhaps the simplest way to influence people's accessible beliefs in a positive or negative direction is to ask them to think about positive or negative aspects of the attitude object, a directed thinking task that can at least temporarily impact even such a fundamental aspect of personality as self-esteem. College students asked to list desirable characteristics they possess or undesirable characteristics they do not possess expressed more favourable attitudes towards themselves than did students who were asked to list undesirable characteristics they possess or desirable characteristics they do not possess. A related experiment showed that directed thinking about the actions people could take to make studying enjoyable increased intentions to spend time studying, but directed thinking about reasons why people should find studying enjoyable did not. Other research also supported the proposition that thinking about the reasons for holding an attitude can distort attitudinal judgements and disrupt the attitude-behaviour relation.

A study by Waenke et al similarly illustrated that activation of beliefs can have paradoxical effects on attitudes. Participants generated either three or seven arguments in favour of or opposed to the use of public transportation, and then expressed their

attitudes towards this issue. The elicitation of pro versus con beliefs produced a corresponding difference in attitudes when three beliefs were generated but no significant difference when seven beliefs were generated. Readers of the same arguments, however, displayed the intuitively expected pattern: Their attitudes were affected more by seven than by three arguments. It appears that the attitudes expressed by participants who generated the arguments took account of the subjective difficulty of the task.

According to temporal construal theory, a goal's desirability is represented at an abstract level, whereas the likelihood that the goal will be attained is construed at a more concrete level. Furthermore, the value of the abstract aspects of the goal, *i.e.* the goal's desirability, increases with temporal distance from the goal, whereas the value of the concrete aspects, *i.e.* its probability, decreases with temporal distance. In a series of experiments, Liberman and Trope found that people give weight to a goal's positive aspects when making decisions for the long term, and to the goal's negative aspects when making decisions for the short term. These findings imply that positive beliefs about the goal are more readily accessible in long-term decisions, whereas negative beliefs predominate in short-term decisions.

Studying impression formation, Wojciszke et al distinguished between morality- and competence-related beliefs. Personality traits related to morality were found to be more chronically accessible than traits related to competence: Many more morality than competence traits were emitted spontaneously as being important in others. Consistent with this finding, global impressions of real persons were better predicted from beliefs about morality-related traits than from beliefs about competence-related traits, and attitudes towards fictitious persons were based more on the morality than on the competence of their behaviours.

An interesting finding regarding the accessibility of beliefs comes from research on the effects of alcohol on behavioural decisions. According to the alcohol myopia hypothesis, alcohol consumption decreases cognitive capacity so that intoxicated individuals are likely to attend to the most salient cues in a situation. In laboratory and field experiments, intoxicated participants indicated a greater likelihood of engaging in unprotected sex than did sober participants and, in support of the alcohol myopia hypothesis, they were more likely to endorse beliefs that provide justifications for unprotected sex.

In short, personal and contextual factors combine to increase or decrease the accessibility of different kinds of beliefs, with potentially important ramifications for evaluative judgements and behavioural decisions.

9

CHAPTER

Self-confidence Training

HOW TO HELP BUILD, BOOST, AND DEVELOP SELF-CONFIDENCE AND ASSERTIVENESS

Building self-confidence and assertiveness is probably a lot easier than you think. ‘Non-assertive’ people (in other words ‘normal people’) do not generally want to transform into being excessively dominant people.

When most people talk about wanting to be more assertive, what they usually really mean is:

- ‘How can I become more able to resist the pressure and dominance of excessively dominant people?’
- ‘How can I stand up to bullies (or one bully in particular)?’
- And also, ‘How can I exert a little more control in situations that are important to me?’

Pure assertiveness-dominance for the sake of being dominant-is not a natural behaviour for most people. Most people are not naturally assertive. Most people tend to be passive by nature. The assertive behaviour of highly dominant people tends to be driven by their personality (and often some insecurity). It is not something that has been ‘trained’.

For anyone seeking to increase their own assertiveness it is helpful to understand the typical personality and motivation of excessively dominant people, who incidentally cause the most worry to non-assertive people.

It's helpful also at this point to explain the difference between leadership with dominance: Good leadership is inclusive, developmental, and a force for what is right. Good leadership does not 'dominate' non-assertive people, it includes them and involves them. Dominance as a management style is not good in any circumstances. It is based on short-term rewards and results, mostly for the benefit of the dominant, and it fails completely to make effective use of team-members' abilities and potential.

The fact is that most excessively dominant people are usually bullies. Bullies are deep-down very insecure people. They dominate because they are too insecure to allow other people to have responsibility and influence, and this behaviour is generally conditioned from childhood for one reason or another. The dominant bullying behaviour is effectively reinforced by the response given by 'secure' and 'non-assertive' people to bullying. The bully gets his or her own way. The bullying dominant behaviour is rewarded, and so it persists.

Dominant, bullying people, usually from a very young age, become positively conditioned to bullying behaviour, because in their own terms it works. Their own terms are generally concerned with satisfying their ego and selfish drives to get their own way, to control, to achieve status (often implanted by insecure ambitious parents), to manipulate, make decisions, build empires, to collect material signs of achievement, monetary wealth, and particularly to establish protective mechanisms, such as 'yes-men' followers ('body-guards'), immunity from challenge and interference, scrutiny, judgement, etc. Early childhood experiences play an important part in creating bullies. Bullies are victims as well as aggressors. And although it's a tough challenge for anyone on the receiving end of their behaviour they actually deserve sympathy.

N.B. Sympathy is not proposed here to be a sole or significant tactic in countering bullying. Rather, sympathy is advocated as a more constructive, stronger, alternative feeling to being fearful or intimidated.

Non-assertive people do not normally actually aspire to being excessively dominant people, and they certainly don't normally want to become bullies. When most people talk about wanting to be more assertive, what they really mean is 'I'd like to be more able to resist the pressure and dominance of excessively dominant people.' Doing this is not really so hard, and using simple techniques it can even be quite enjoyable and fulfilling.

Importantly, the non-assertive person should understand where they really are-a true starting point: non-assertive behaviour is a sign of strength usually, not weakness, and often it is the most appropriate behaviour for most situations-don't be fooled into thinking that you always have to be more assertive.

Understand where you want to be: what level of assertiveness do you want? Probably to defend yourself, and to control your own choices and destiny (which are relatively easy using the techniques below), not to control others. For people who are not naturally assertive, it is possible to achieve a perfectly suitable level of assertiveness through

certain simple methods and techniques, rather than trying to adopt a generally more assertive personal style (which could be counter-productive and stressful, because it would not be natural). People seeking to be more assertive can dramatically increase their effective influence and strength by using just one or two of these four behaviours prior to, or when confronted by a more dominant character or influence, or prior to and when dealing with a situation in which they would like to exert more control. Here are some simple techniques and methods for developing self-confidence and more assertive behaviour.

ASSERTIVENESS AND SELF-CONFIDENCE METHODS AND TECHNIQUES

- Know the facts relating to the situation and have the details to hand.
- Be ready for-anticipate-other people's behaviour and prepare your responses.
- Prepare and use good open questions.
- Re-condition and practice your own new reactions to aggression (posters can help you think and become how you want to be-display positive writings where you will read them often-it's a proven successful technique).
- Have faith that your own abilities and style will ultimately work if you let them.
- Feel sympathy for bullies-they actually need it.
- Read inspirational things that reinforce your faith in proper values and all the good things in your own natural style and self, for example, Ruiz's *The Four Agreements*, Kipling's *If*, Desiderata, Cherie Carter-Scott's 'rules of life', Wimbrow's *The Guy In The Glass*, etc.

KNOW THE FACTS AND HAVE THEM TO HAND

Ensure you know all the facts in advance-do some research, and have it on hand ready to produce (and give out copies if necessary). Bullies usually fail to prepare their facts; they dominate through bluster, force and reputation. If you know and can produce facts to support or defend your position it is unlikely that the aggressor will have anything prepared in response. When you know that a situation is going to arise, over which you'd like to have some influence, prepare your facts, do your research, do the sums, get the facts and figures, solicit opinion and views, be able to quote sources; then you will be able to make a firm case, and also dramatically improve your reputation for being someone who is organised and firm.

ANTICIPATE OTHER PEOPLE'S BEHAVIOUR AND PREPARE YOUR RESPONSES

Anticipate other people's behaviour and prepare your own responses. Role-play in your mind how things are likely to happen. Prepare your responses according to the different scenarios that you think could unfold. Prepare other people to support and

defend you. Being well prepared will increase your self-confidence and enable you to be assertive about what's important to you.

PREPARE AND USE GOOD OPEN QUESTIONS

Prepare and use good questions to expose flaws in other people's arguments. Asking good questions is the most reliable way of gaining the initiative, and taking the wind out of someone's sails, in any situation. Questions that bullies dislike most are deep, constructive, incisive and probing, especially if the question exposes a lack of thought, preparation, consideration, consultation on their part.

For example:

- 'What is your evidence (for what you have said or claimed)?'
- 'Who have you consulted about this?'
- 'How did you go about looking for alternative solutions?'
- 'How have you measured (whatever you say is a problem)?'
- 'How will you measure the true effectiveness of your solution if you implement it?'
- 'What can you say about different solutions that have worked in other situations?'

And don't be fobbed off. Stick to your guns. If the question is avoided or ignored return to it, or re-phrase it (which you can prepare as well).

RE-CONDITION AND PRACTICE YOUR OWN NEW REACTIONS TO AGGRESSION

Re-conditioning your own reaction to dominant people, particularly building your own 'triggered reactions', giving yourself 'thinking time' to prevent yourself being bulldozed, and 'making like a brick wall' in the face of someone else's attempt to dominate you without justification.

Try visualising yourself behaving in a firmer manner, saying firmer things, asking firm clear, probing questions, and presenting well-prepared facts and evidence. Practice in your mind saying 'Hold on a minute-I need to consider what you have just said.' Also practice saying 'I'm not sure about that. It's too important to make a snap decision now.' Also 'I can't agree to that at such short notice.'

Tell me when you really need to know, and I'll get back to you.' There are other ways to help resist bulldozing and bullying. Practice and condition new reactions in yourself to resist, rather than cave in, for fear that someone might shout at you or have a tantrum. If you are worried about your response to being shouted at then practice being shouted at until you realise it really doesn't hurt-it just makes the person doing the shouting look daft. Practice with your most scary friend shouting right in your face for you to 'do as you are told', time after time, and in between each time say calmly (and believe it because it's true) 'You don't frighten me.' Practice it until you can control your response to being shouted at.

HAVE FAITH THAT YOUR OWN ABILITIES WILL ULTIMATELY WORK IF YOU USE THEM

Non-assertive people have different styles and methods compared to dominant, aggressive people and bullies. Non-assertive people are often extremely strong in areas of process, detail, dependability, reliability, finishing things (that others have started), checking, monitoring, communicating, interpreting and understanding, and working cooperatively with others. These capabilities all have the potential to undo a bully who has no proper justification. Find out what your strengths and style are and use them to defend and support your position. The biggest tantrum is no match for a well organised defence.

FEEL SYMPATHY RATHER THAN FEAR TOWARDS BULLIES

Re-discover the belief that non-assertive behaviour is actually okay—it's the bullies who are the ones with the problems. Feeling sympathy for someone who threatens you—thereby resisting succumbing to fearful or intimidated feelings—can help to move you psychologically into the ascendancy, or at least to a position where you can see weaknesses in the bully.

Aggressors and bullies were commonly children who were not loved, or children forced to live out the aspirations of their parents. In many ways all bullies are still children, and as far as your situation permits, seeing them as children can help you find greater strength and resistance. Transactional Analysis theory, and especially the modern TA concepts, are helpful for some people in understanding how this sort of childhood emotional damage affects people, and how specific communications can be planned and used in response to excessive dominance, bullying, temper tantrums, and other threatening behaviours.

N.B. The point above about feeling sympathy for bullies should not be seen as approval or justification for bullying. Neither is sympathy proposed here to be a sole or significant tactic in countering bullying. Rather, sympathy is advocated as a more constructive, stronger, alternative feeling to being fearful or intimidated. People responsible for bullying are the bullies, not the victims. So if you are a bully: get some feedback, get some help, and grow up. Several tactics are explained above to tackle bullying head-on, as is often very necessary. Additionally in most western world countries, and many others besides, there are now serious laws and processes to protect people from bullying, and these protections should be invoked whenever bullying becomes a problem.

BUILDING SELF-CONFIDENCE

Preparing yourself for Success!

From the quietly confident doctor whose advice we rely on, to the charismatic confidence of an inspiring speaker, self-confident people have qualities that everyone

admires. Self-confidence is extremely important in almost every aspect of our lives, yet so many people struggle to find it. Sadly, this can be a vicious circle: People who lack self-confidence can find it difficult to become successful.

After all, most people are reluctant to back a project that's being pitched by someone who was nervous, fumbling and overly apologetic. On the other hand, you might be persuaded by someone who speaks clearly, who holds his or her head high, who answers questions assuredly, and who readily admits when he or she does not know something. Self-confident people inspire confidence in others: their audience, their peers, their bosses, their customers, and their friends. And gaining the confidence of others is one of the key ways in which a self-confident person finds success.

The good news is that self-confidence really can be learned and built on. And, whether you're working on your own self-confidence or building the confidence of people around you, it's well-worth the effort!

SO HOW CONFIDENT DO YOU SEEM TO OTHERS?

Your level of self-confidence can show in many ways: your behaviour, your body language, how you speak, what you say, and so on. Look at the following comparisons of common confident behaviour with behaviour associated with low self-confidence.

Which thoughts or actions do you recognize in yourself and people around you?

As you can see from these examples, low self-confidence can be self-destructive, and it often manifests itself as negativity. Self-confident people are generally more positive—they believe in themselves and their abilities, and they also believe in living life to the full.

Self-Confident	Low Self-Confidence
Doing what you believe to be right, even if others mock or criticize you for it.	Governing your behavior based on what other people think.
Being willing to take risks and go the extra mile to achieve better things.	Staying in your comfort zone, fearing failure and so avoid taking risks.
Admitting your mistakes, and learning from them.	Working hard to cover up mistakes and hoping that you can fix the problem before anyone notices.
Waiting for others to congratulate you on your accomplishments.	Extolling your own virtues as often as possible to as many people as possible.
Accepting compliments graciously. "Thanks, I really worked hard on that prospectus. I'm pleased you recognize my efforts."	Dismissing compliments offhandedly. "Oh that prospectus was nothing really, anyone could have done it."

WHAT IS SELF-CONFIDENCE?

Two main things contribute to self-confidence: self-efficacy and self-esteem.

We gain a sense of self-efficacy when we see ourselves (and others similar to ourselves) mastering skills and achieving goals that matter in those skill areas. This is the confidence that, if we learn and work hard in a particular area, we'll succeed; and it's this type of confidence that leads people to accept difficult challenges, and persist in the face of setbacks. This overlaps with the idea of self-esteem, which is a more

general sense that we can cope with what's going on in our lives, and that we have a right to be happy. Partly, this comes from a feeling that the people around us approve of us, which we may or may not be able to control. However, it also comes from the sense that we are behaving virtuously, that we're competent at what we do, and that we can compete successfully when we put our minds to it.

Some people believe that self-confidence can be built with affirmations and positive thinking. At Mind Tools, we believe that there's some truth in this, but that it's just as important to build self-confidence by setting and achieving goals—thereby building competence. Without this underlying competence, you don't have self-confidence: you have shallow over-confidence, with all of the issues, upset and failure that this brings.

BALANCED SELF-CONFIDENCE

So how do you build this sense of balanced self-confidence, founded on a firm appreciation of reality?

The bad news is that there's no quick fix, or 5-minute solution. The good news is that building self-confidence is readily achievable, just as long as you have the focus and determination to carry things through. And what's even better is that the things you'll do to build self-confidence will also build success—after all, your confidence will come from real, solid achievement. No-one can take this away from you!

So here are two steps to self-confidence, for which we'll use the metaphor of a journey: preparing for your journey; setting out; and accelerating towards success.

Step 1: Preparing for your Journey

The first step involves getting yourself ready for your journey to self-confidence. You need to take stock of where you are, think about where you want to go, get yourself in the right mindset for your journey, and commit yourself to starting it and staying with it.

In preparing for your journey, do these five things:

Look at what you've Already Achieved

Think about your life so far, and list the ten best things you've achieved in an "Achievement Log." Perhaps you came top in an important test or exam, played a key role in an important team, produced the best sales figures in a period, did something that made a key difference in someone else's life, or delivered a project that meant a lot for your business.

Put these into a smartly formatted document, which you can look at often. And then spend a few minutes each week enjoying the success you've already had!

Think about your Strengths

Next, use a technique like SWOT Analysis (explore personal SWOT Analysis here) to take a look at who and where you are. Looking at your Achievement Log, and reflecting

on your recent life, think about what your friends would consider to be your strengths and weaknesses. From these, think about the opportunities and threats you face. Make sure that you enjoy a few minutes reflecting on your strengths!

Think about what's Important to you, and where you want to go

Next, think about the things that are really important to you, and what you want to achieve with your life. Setting and achieving goals is a key part of this, and real self-confidence comes from this. Goal setting is the process you use to set yourself targets, and measure your successful hitting of those targets. Inform your goal setting with your SWOT Analysis. Set goals that exploit your strengths, minimize your weaknesses, realise your opportunities, and control the threats you face. And having set the major goals in your life, identify the first step in each. A tip: Make sure it's a very small step, perhaps taking no more than an hour to complete!

Start Managing your Mind

At this stage, you need to start managing your mind. Learn to pick up and defeat the negative self-talk which can destroy your confidence.

And then Commit yourself to Success!

The final part of preparing for the journey is to make a clear and unequivocal promise to yourself that you are absolutely committed to your journey, and that you will do all in your power to achieve it. If as you're doing it, you find doubts starting to surface, write them down and challenge them calmly and rationally. If they dissolve under scrutiny, that's great. However if they are based on genuine risks, make sure you set additional goals to manage these appropriately.

Tip: Balanced Self-confidence

Self-confidence is about balance. At one extreme, we have people with low self-confidence. At the other end, we have people who may be over-confident. If you are under-confident, you'll avoid taking risks and stretching yourself; and you might not try at all. And if you're over-confident, you may take on too much risk, stretch yourself beyond your capabilities, and crash badly. You may also find that you're so optimistic that you don't try hard enough to truly succeed. Getting this right is a matter of having the right amount of confidence, founded in reality and on your true ability. With the right amount of self-confidence, you will take informed risks, stretch yourself (but not beyond your abilities) and try hard.

Step 2: Setting Out

This is where you start, ever so slowly, moving towards your goal. By doing the right things, and starting with small, easy wins, you'll put yourself on the path to success—and start building the self-confidence that comes with this.

Build the Knowledge you need to Succeed

Looking at your goals, identify the skills you'll need to achieve them. And then look at how you can acquire these skills confidently and well. Don't just accept a sketchy, just-good-enough solution—look for a solution, a programme or a course that fully equips you to achieve what you want to achieve and, ideally, gives you a certificate or qualification you can be proud of.

Focus on the Basics

When you're starting, don't try to do anything clever or elaborate. And don't reach for perfection—just enjoy doing simple things successfully and well.

Set Small Goals, and Achieve them

Starting with the very small goals you identified in step 1, get in the habit of setting them, achieving them, and celebrating that achievement. Don't make goals particularly challenging at this stage, just get into the habit of achieving them and celebrating them. And, little by little, start piling up the successes!

Keep Managing your Mind

Stay on top of that positive thinking, keep celebrating and enjoying success, and keep those mental images strong.

You can also use a technique like Treasure Mapping to make your visualizations even stronger! And on the other side, learn to handle failure. Accept that mistakes happen when you're trying something new. In fact, if you get into the habit of treating mistakes as learning experiences, you can (almost) start to see them in a positive light. After all, there's a lot to be said for the saying "if it doesn't kill you, it makes you stronger!"

CHECKING RELATIONSHIP BUILDING SKILLS

People with good relationship and networking skills are popular. Networking is often ignored in personality development training programmes. Need for training. After employees have been selected for various positions in an organizations training them for the specific tasks in which they have been assigned assumes great importance. It is true in many organizations that before an employee is fitted into a harmonious working relationship with other employees,, he is given adequate training. Training is the act of increasing the knowledge and skills of an employee for performing a particular job. The major outcome of training is learning.

A trainee learns new habits, refined skills and useful knowledge during the training that helps him improve performance. Training enables an employee to do his present job more efficiently and prepare himself for a higher level job. The essential features of training may be stated thus:

FEATURES OF TRAINING

- Increases knowledge and skills for doing a particular job; it bridges the gap between job needs and employees skills, knowledge and behaviours.
- Focuses attention on the current job specific and addresses particular performance deficits or problems.
- Concentrate on individual employees changing what employers know, how they work, attitudes towards their work or their interactions with their co-workers or supervisors.
- Tends to be more narrowly focused and oriented towards short term performance concerns.

Training is needed to serve the following purpose:

- Newly recruited employees require training so as to perform their tasks effectively. Instructions guidance and coaching help them to handle jobs competently without any wastage.
- Training is necessary to prepare existing employees for higher level jobs (promotion)
- Existing employees require refresher training so as to keep abreast of the latest development in job operations. In the face to rapid technological changes, this is an absolute necessity.
- Training is necessary when a person moves from one job to another (transfer). After training the employee can change job quickly improve his performance levels and achieve career goals comfortably.
- Training is necessary to make employees mobile and versatile. They can be placed on various jobs depending on organizational needs.
- Training is needed to bridge the gap between what the employees has and what the job demands. Training is needed to make employees more productive and useful in the long.
- Training is needed for employees to gain acceptance from peers (learning a job quickly and being able to pull their weight is one of the best ways for them to gain acceptance.

Training often has been referred to as teaching specific skills and behaviour. Examples of training are learning to fire a rifle to shoot foul shots in basketball and to type. It is usually reserved for people who have to be brought up to performing level in some specific skills. The skills are almost always behavioural and distinct from conceptual or intellectual.

Development in contrast is considered to be more general than training and more oriented to individual needs in addition to organizational needs and it is most often aimed towards management people. There is more theory involved with such education and hence less concern with specific behaviour than is the case with training. Usually the intent of development is to provide knowledge and understanding that will enable

people to carry out non- technical organizational functions more effectively such as problems solving, decision making and relating to people. Thus, training is meant for operatives and development is meant for managers. Training tries to improve a specific skill relating to a job whereas development aims to improving the total personality of an individual. Training is a one shot deal; whereas development is an ongoing continuous process.

The scope of training is on individuals employees, whereas the scope of development is on the entire work group or the organizations. Training is mostly the result of initiatives taken by management. It is the result of some outside motivation. Development is mostly the result of internal motivation. Training seeks to meet the current requirements of the job and the individual whereas development aims at meeting the future needs of the job and the individual. In other words, training is a reactive process whereas development is a proactive process. Development is future oriented training focusing on the personal growth of the employees.

A PERSONALITY ENHANCEMENT PROGRAMME

Often it has been found that schools and colleges stress more on developing the academic skills of students and in this process certain very critical issues are unknowingly ignored. It has been proved through research that it is not just your knowledge that helps you achieve success in life but its your attitude which plays a major role. It is often said that your attitude determines your altitude.

This programme intends to fill in the gap that exists between academic input and success in career and life. This course aims at working on our attitude and behaviour and helping us develop the right strategies for self development. This course derives its major strength from the researches in the field of psychology. The various applied concepts are chosen to be presented to the participants.

This course seeks to resolve many of the personal, interpersonal and adjustment issues of its participants by providing them with practical and simple action-steps for implementation in their daily lives. It is a unique opportunity for people who want to formally learn psychology and take advantage of the knowledge gained by applying in their lives.

One of the major impacts of this course is that the participants gain enough confidence to work with people in teams and get over easily their phobia of public speaking. This makes them become very confident and helps in boosting their self esteem. This impact is immediate and change is visible and permanent.

FOR WHOM

This course is suitable for people of all professions and disciplines. This course is designed keeping in mind needs of students, professionals, parents, social workers, management students etc. Since major topics are derived out of psychology this course

is also useful for trainers, teachers, HRD professionals, psychology students etc. Development is a need for all.

BENEFITS

- Attitudinal change in participants
- High motivation levels
- Increased confidence and self esteem
- Master public speaking skills–Overcoming stage fear
- Better self-management skills
- Better life skills

GD, RESUME, JOB INTERVIEW, TRAINING

Free assesment test to know about interview techniques and presentation skills should ideally start three years before the person starts Check assesment test if applying for placement/job available online freely.

It should start with the efforts in,

- Improving the communication skills
- Developing some required qualities like leadership, team, assertiveness etc.
- Identifying the career goal and selecting the specialization and electives according to the goal.

The above are covered in Interviewing skills training available online to improve personality. The second part given below is covered here.

- Becoming more aware of the trends, environment and dynamics of your field
- Identifying strengths and weaknesses
- Building achievements

These third part which is advanced is more focused and consists of:

- Resume writing in line with the career goal, strengths, weakness and achievements
- Group Discussion preparation and practice
- Job Interview training and practice
- Handling and analysis if rejections/failures in job interviews and making improved efforts with further job interview training and practice.

EMPLOYEE PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT TRAINING

If you want to find out everything about starting and operating a business. There are so many resources out there and you are overwhelmed by the amount of information you need to absorb. Besides, which sources are reliable? After you swim through a sea of “useful” tips, how do you put them into action?

The quality of employees and their development through training and education are major factors in determining long-term profitability of a small business. If you hire and

keep good employees, it is good policy to invest in the development of their skills, so they can increase their productivity.

Training often is considered for new employees only. This is a mistake because ongoing training for current employees helps them adjust to rapidly changing job requirements. Seminars and workshops are organized to help you start, or improve your business operations. In seminars and workshops focus is on issues that impact small business operators from high level business plan writing to daily operational issues such as customer retention. Attendance is limited to 10–15 people each. Employee training workshops are also offered.

The model below traces the steps necessary in the training process:

- Organizational Objectives
- Needs Assessment
- Is There a Gap?
- Training Objectives
- Select the Trainees
- Select the Training Methods and Mode
- Choose a Means of Evaluating
- Administer Training
- Evaluate the Training

TRAINING METHODS INCLUDE

On-the-job training is delivered to employees while they perform their regular jobs. Off-the-job techniques include lectures, special study, films, television conferences or discussions, case studies, role playing, simulation, programmed instruction and laboratory training.

Orientations are for new employees: Your business should have a clearly defined strategy and set of objectives that direct and drive all the decisions made especially for training decisions. Firms that plan their training process are more successful than those that do not. Most business owners want to succeed, but do not engage in training designs that promise to improve their chances of success..

TRAINING PROGRAMMES INCLUDE

- Harassments training
- Communication skills training
- Computer and technical skills training
- Management and leadership training
- Diversity training
- Safety training
- Conflict management
- Workplace wellness

- Supervisor skills development
- Team building skills training

STRATEGIC LEADERSHIP PROGRAMME: (SLP)

Strategic leadership provides the vision, direction, the purpose for growth, and context for the success of the corporation. It also initiates “out-of-the-box” thinking to generate future growth. Strategic leadership is not about micromanaging business strategies. Rather, it provides the umbrella under which businesses devise appropriate strategies and create value.

This 4 day workshop focuses on how to steer the organization by providing the vision and direction, creating the context for growth, and by sketching out a road map for the organization that will allow it to unleash its full potential. It also focuses on crafting the organization’s portfolio and determining what businesses should be, what are the performance requirements and what types of alliances that make sense. It also focuses on defining the culture, values, and way of working together to achieve corporate vision and goals.

Designed for: Leaders who are instrumental in building company’s strategy or head the organization.

FOCUS

- Competitive strategy and creating the strategic agenda
- Your leadership style
- Making better investment decisions
- Running today and building tomorrow
- Generating and tracking customer value
- Building sustainable performance
- Culture audit
- Personal performance and presentations
- Executive lifestyle enhancement
- Management control systems

10

CHAPTER

Personality Development through Education

INTRODUCTION

All over the world educationists are grappled with one central and all-encompassing question; what kind of education is needed for what kind of society of tomorrow? They are conscious of the new role of education and the new demands made on educational systems in a world of accelerating economic, environmental and social change and tension.

They have come up with some of the underlying principles which are universal and common to the aims of educators, citizens, policy-makers, and other partners and participants in the process of education at all levels. According to them education, formal and non-formal, must serve society as an instrument for fostering the creation of good citizens.

All approaches to redesign the educational processes must take into account the basic and agreed-upon values and concerns of the international community and of the United Nations system such as human rights, tolerance, and understanding, democracy, responsibility, universality, cultural identity, the search for peace, the preservation of the environment and the sharing of knowledge. There is no denial that the purpose, the aim and drive of the educational institutes, must be to equip the students with the most excellent technological proficiency so that the students may function with clarity and

efficiency in the modern world. But a far more important purpose than this is to create the right climate and environment so that the students may develop fully as total human beings (J Krishnamurti, 1981). Total human being means not only a human being with inward understanding, with a capacity to explore, to examine his or her inward state and the capacity of going beyond it, but also someone who is good in what he or she does outwardly. The two must go together. That is the real issue in education: to see that when the students leave the school, they are well established in goodness, both outwardly and inwardly. In order to achieve this, educational process must awaken the intelligence of the student so that he or she may 'flower in goodness'.

The cultivation of a global outlook, a love of nature and a concern for fellow human beings and environment should be part of the scheme of education. In order to achieve this, education has to cover the four distinct dimensions of the human personality beginning with the physical body, the development of intellectual and aesthetic sensibilities, the development of socially desirable moral values and finally, the inner dimension of spiritual growth. This paper makes an attempt to throw more light in this regard from ancient Indian cultural perspective.

PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT- THE BENEFITS AT A GLANCE

Personality development has many benefits that are the outcome of a strong personality development procedure. In fact, it is true that there are only benefits and no disadvantages to having personality development. The benefits can be states in categories, or if not categorically, then it can be stated in a concise manner to get a gist of the numerous advantages one gets out of a good personality development workshop, seminar, web site or material of any kind. Benefits are plenty with development of personality. It brings with it, a lot of new, fresh approaches; it bring with it, a lot of scope for varied interests-which in turn leads to healthy brain-storming and discussions at work places, rather than politics that are un-pleasant and battles over difference of opinions. Good and effective Personality development, as mentioned in the former, transforms differences into discussions, quarrels into debates and fights into harmony. The below list will exhibit the benefits of personality development, at a glance, for simple and quick reading and comprehension.

- One of the key benefits of Personality development is the over-all shine that is brought about in a person's personality after undergoing personality development. The over-all demeanor of a person is more vibrant, it develops elements of many traits, that form a charming whole and there is a sharpening of personality for the better.
- Another key benefit is the confidence and morale that automatically gets a boost and a push with good personality development.

- To state another advantage of personality development,—The opportunity to be able to form a healthy rapport with anybody of any age bracket.
- There are several other advantageous aspects to having a personality development experience, like the ability to hold your own, the ability to curb temperamentalism and be an out-going and well-spoken or rather, well communicative individual.
- There are several times, we hear of how important effective communication is, how it is important to have clarity in communication and so on, all this and more is achieved by a regular personality development.
- Overall, the person gets a wonderful edge and a razor-sharp yet approachable as well as a warm outlook to life and people.

These are a few benefits, which were stated to understand the many things that are bright, that get on board with a refreshing experience as well as an educative mechanism of personality development.

IMPORTANCE OF PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT

Personality development is essential because of a host of reasons. The main reason being is that it is exceedingly important for one to have a sharpened image and personality to be able to have an efficient socially viable, multi-faceted and impressive personality. Who will not want to have the former listed personality traits? I'm certain everyone who reads this will find it desirable to have those qualities in their personality!

Personality development is gaining so much importance, that today, offices stress on motivation and personality development almost as much as the work structural requirements of the office. Personality development is important in any environment. At office: Personality development is essential, because with the right personality and social skills, one can interact effortlessly and well with colleagues and team-participation becomes simpler, as everyone dwells into matters with positive approaches, due to the personality development.

At educational institutions: Students and teachers have good rapport, students have the capacity to make more friends and be more affable. The students interact and present themselves well. Teachers have different and multi-talented capacities that get enhanced by personality development. At home: The home environment is pleasant when a person has a vibration of positivity and when your personality is interesting and fun. Every environment gets benefited by a good and developed personality.

This is the case with every individual, barring none. The aspects of personality being developed does not even necessarily have to do with words and communications verbally, it is the essence of a personality that stands out, as being one that is developed, because of the exuberance, that is denoted by that personality, with or without saying anything. Personalities of actors, for instance, take SRK, or Tom Cruise, are super-charming,

even with their mere presence. They do not have to say anything for their personalities to shine. Similarly, a well-rounded and developed personality, is one that does not always have to be tested by speech and communication, a mere presence can be felt of a desirable personality, with proper development.

The importance of a well developed personality cannot be stressed on enough. It is gaining supreme importance and is one of the most important aspects of an individual's persona and individuality, to gain add-ons and enhancements to their personality, for it to be noticed and for it to make impressions that last! Make a splash, like taking paint and air-brushing the flaws of personality with development.

IN TODAY'S CONTEXT: PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT

Personality means characteristics and appearance of a person—pattern of thought, feeling, behaviour, communication ability and physical features. A child inherits many personality traits from its parents. Personality of a person takes its basic formation in the beginning period of childhood. Its experiences in the family and the society are very crucial. Friends, teachers and the environment of school have their own positive or negative impact. Adults need to be very careful while rearing a child because deep scars on the psychology of a child may have permanent marks. To develop positive thinking in the child parents must relate to each other in a positive way.

With the help of good training a child or an adult can learn communication skills, different subjects, driving or computer operating. Similarly a training in personality development enhances the general as well as unique traits (characteristics which differentiate one from others) of a person. A teacher of personality development helps a person to get positive thought pattern, gain confidence, improve behaviour, learn better communication and develop a healthy physique.

MEANING OF HOLISTIC EDUCATION

Throughout the history a widely scattered group of experts all over the world have pointed out that the education of young human beings should involve much more than simply molding them into future workers or citizens. The Swiss humanitarian Johann Pestalozzi, the American transcendentalists, Upanishadic thinkers of India and many stalwarts of the “progressive” education movement insisted that education should be understood as the art of cultivating the moral, emotional, physical, psychological, artistic, and spiritual—as well as intellectual—dimensions of the developing child.

An emerging body of literature in science, philosophy, and cultural history provides an overarching concept to describe the holistic education. As expressed in these works holistic education facilitates the students to identity, meaning, and purpose in life through connections to the community, to the natural world, and to spiritual values such as

compassion and peace. Besides, holistic education also aims to call forth from students an intrinsic reverence for life and a passionate love of learning. This is done not through an academic “curriculum” that condenses the world into instructional packages, but through direct engagement with the environment.

Robin Ann Martin (2002) describes holistic education further by stating, “At its most general level, what distinguishes holistic education from other forms of education are its goals, its attention to experiential learning, and the significance that it places on relationships and primary human values within the learning environment.” In describing the general philosophy of holistic education, Robin Ann Martin and Forbes Scott H (1996 and 2004) divide their discussion into two categories: the idea of *Ultimacy* and Basil Bernstein’s notion of *Sagacious Competence* as mentioned below:

Ultimacy

Religious; as in becoming “enlightened”. Spirituality is an important component in holistic education as it emphasizes the connectedness of all living things and stresses the “harmony between the inner life and outer life”

The two must go together. That is the real issue in education: to see that when the students leave the school, they are well established in goodness, both outwardly and inwardly. (J. Krishnamurti, 2000) In order to achieve this, educational process must awaken the intelligence of the student so that he or she may ‘flower in goodness’. The cultivation of a global outlook, a love of nature and a concern for fellow human beings and environment should be part of the scheme of education. In order to achieve this, education has to cover the four distinct dimensions of the human personality beginning with the physical body, the development of intellectual and aesthetic sensibilities, the development of socially desirable moral values and finally, the inner dimension of spiritual growth. This paper makes an attempt to throw more light in this regard from ancient Indian cultural perspective.

Psychological; as in Maslow’s “self-actualization”. Holistic education believes that each person should strive to be all that they can be in life. There are no deficits in learners, just differences.

Undefined; as in a person developing to the ultimate extent a human could reach and, thus, moving towards the highest aspirations of the human spirit. Sagacious Competence:

1. Freedom (in a psychological sense).
2. Good-judgement (self-governance).
3. Meta learning (each student learns in their “own way”).
4. Social ability (more than just learning social skills).
5. Refining Values (development of character).
6. Self Knowledge (emotional development).

In holistic education, the teacher is seen less as person of authority who leads and controls but rather is seen as “a friend, a mentor, a facilitator, or an experienced travelling companion” (Forbes Scott H, 1996). Open and honest communication is expected and differences between people are respected and appreciated. Cooperation is the norm here, rather than competition. The reward of helping one another and growing together is emphasized rather than being placed above one another. Teachers help young people feel connected by fostering collaboration rather than competition in classrooms. They encourage reflection and questioning rather than passive memorization of “facts”. We will now examine the purpose and concept of ancient Indian education from the point of view of developing holistic personality development which is the main thrust of this article.

Purpose of Ancient Indian Education

The direct aim of ancient Indian education was to make the student fit to become a useful and pious member of society (Rangachar S, 1964). Inculcating the civic and social duties among the students was also a part of ancient Indian educational system. The students were not to lead a self-centred life. They were constantly reminded of their obligations to the society. Convocation address to the students as found in Upanishads show how they were inspired to be useful members of the society. The most important idea governing the ancient system of education was that of perfection, for developing the mind and soul of man. Ancient Indian education aimed at helping the individual to grow in the power and force of certain large universal qualities which in their harmony build a higher type of manhood. Ancient Indian educational system focussed on building a disciplined and values-based culture. Human values such as trust, respect, honesty, dignity, and courtesy are the building blocks of any free, advanced society (Markandan N, 2005). The convocation address found in *Taittiriya Upanishad* throws significant light on the qualities required to be developed in the students which are not very different from the qualities that modern educational systems are trying to impart and hence we quote a few lines from it here:

“Speak the truth. Practise righteousness. Make no mistake about study. There should be no inadvertence about truth. There should be no deviation from righteous activity. There should be no error about protection of yourself. Do not neglect propitious activities. Do not be careless about learning and teaching. There should be no error in the duties towards the gods and manes. Let your mother be a goddess unto you. Let your father be a god unto you. Let your teacher be a god unto you. Let your guest be a god unto you. The works that are not blameworthy are to be resorted to, but not the others. The offering should be with honour; the offering should be in plenty. The offering should be with modesty. The offering should be with sympathy. Then, should you have any doubt with regard to duties or customs, you should behave in those matters just as the wise men do, who may happen to be there and who are able deliberators, who are adepts in those

duties and customs, who are not directed by others, who are not cruel, and who are desirous of merit. This is the injunction. This is the instruction. This is the secret of the scriptures.

This convocation address outlines some of the domestic and social duties of students in very clear terms. Accordingly students are: to honour father, mother, teacher, and guest as gods; to honour superiors; to give in proper manner and spirit, in joy and humility, in fear and compassion. Lastly, the pupil is also asked not to neglect his health and possessions. This convocation address is very important in understanding the role of ancient Indian education in building a values-based culture. It tried to inculcate in the students the following qualities:

- Social consciousness based on love for the humanity
- Character, honesty based on moral law
- Discipline based on the sense of duties and responsibilities of an individual.

Discipline like character is an essential quality for personal as well as social life. It consists in obedience to laws, rules and decisions. In this regard we must admit that ancient Indian system of education played a major role in making students realize their duties and responsibilities and emphasized on the necessity of discipline for an orderly social life. Character and discipline cannot be imparted to an individual by preaching or through speeches. While students can be imparted with the knowledge of what is moral and what is immoral, what is discipline and what is indiscipline what is character and what is characterless, they can be made to act in conformity with the required standard of behaviour, only through personal example. These qualities are acquired by emulation in addition to education.

It is only by generating these qualities in individuals the ancient Indian educational system prompted the students to utilize their educational attainments and capacities for the benefit of society restricting their own selfish desires and prevented them from acting in a manner harmful and detrimental to the common good (Ramajois, 1987). Mere knowledge of what is virtue and what is not does not enable an individual to be virtuous. This aspect is forcefully brought forth in the character of Duryodhana in the epic.

Mahabharata. He says:

“I know what righteous conduct is, but I have no inclination to act accordingly. I know what unrighteous conduct is, but I cannot abstain from doing it”.

Just as an ordinary stone requires a beautiful design and long and continued effort of an expert sculptor in chiselling and engraving in order to make it a beautiful idol, a proper blueprint or scheme and a constant and vigilant and entering efforts of all those concerned are necessary, to make a child into a worthy individual. A very useful observation has been made by Swami Vivekananda in this context:

“The character of any man is but the aggregate of his tendencies, the sum total of the bent of his mind. We are what our thoughts have made us. Thoughts live: they travel far.

Every work that we do, every movement of the body, every thought that we think, leaves an impression on the mind stuff. What we are every moment is determined by the sum total of these impressions on the mind. Every man's character is determined by the sum total of these impressions. If good impressions prevail, the character becomes good, if bad, it becomes bad. When a large number of these impressions are left on the mind they coalesce and become a habit. The only remedy for bad habit is counter habits; all the bad habits that have left their impressions are to be controlled by good habits”.

Many rites and rituals were developed in order to infuse piety and religiousness in the students. The rituals that a student had to perform at the beginning of his educational career, the religious observations that he had to observe during the educational course, the daily prayers that he offered morning and evening, the religious festivals that were celebrated very often in the school or the preceptors house-all these tended to foster piety and religiosity in the mind of the young learner.

Ancient education system aimed at character formation through proper development of moral feelings to make the students really learned, pure in their life, thoughts and habits. Teaching of values, ideal life led by teachers, and examples of extraordinary personalities cited from the epics, poetry, literature and history-all these helped to mould the character of students.

Ancient Indian educational system also aimed at the development of personality by eulogising the feeling of self-respect, by encouraging the sense of self-confidence, by inculcating the virtue of self-restraint and fostering the powers of discrimination and judgement. Ancient Indian thinkers fixed for education certain life-long objectives that require life-long effort to achieve and realize. These objectives were summarized in triple formula which gave a wide and lofty framework to the ancient system of education:

- *asato ma sadgamaya*
- *tamaso ma jyotirgamaya*
- *mrityorma amritam gamaya*
- (Lead me from falsehood to truth
- Lead me from darkness to light
- Lead me from death to immortality).

To them the ideals of truth, light and immortality constituted a triune unity, each subsisting in the other. The students were not allowed to forget that they had within them a higher self beyond their little personal ego, and that numerous ways and disciplines were provided by which they could realize the higher self.

The holistic education of ancient India involves a harmonious blending of the knowledge of the outer world (*avidya*) and that of the inner-world (*vidya*). The former, as it were, enables a man to keep his body and soul together and the later, *i.e. vidya*, the wisdom, leads him to immortality, freedom from all sufferings of the world of change.

It may be noted here that the Lord Buddha preached middle path which lies between the two extremes, viz, gross sensualism or vile pleasure-seeking on the one hand and the extreme asceticism or the severest self-mortification on the other hand. Buddha laid stress on purity of conduct, truthfulness, love and benevolence, obedience to parents and respect for the elders, non-drinking, charity and kindness and mercy to all living beings. Ahimsa non-violence towards life is recognized as an integral principle of his practical morality. The spirit of Buddhism was very liberal and accommodating. These values have become very essential for survival of human race in the present day situation.

The ancient Indian thinkers felt that a healthy society was not possible without educated individuals. They framed educational set up carefully and wisely aiming at the harmonious development of the multiple dimensions of the human personality.

This is an essentially a universally applicable educational framework highlighting the purpose of human life and inter connectedness at all levels of existence as a basis of human values. In this system understanding oneself (self-knowledge) is as important as understanding the world. According to them without a deep understanding of one's relationship with nature, with ideas, with fellow human beings, with society, and a deep respect for all life, one is not really educated. Another unique feature of this educational system is that it aims at creating a mind that is both scientific and spiritual at the same time-one that is enquiring, precise, rational and sceptical but at the same time has sense of beauty, wonder, aesthetics, sensitivity, humility, and an awareness of the limitations of the intellect. It also aims at developing a mind, which is rational, flexible and not dogmatic, open to change and not irrationally attached to an opinion or belief should.

In this system of education both scientific and spiritual quests are the complementary quests (J Krishnamurti, 1981), one for the discovery of the order that manifests itself in the outer world of matter, energy, space and time and the other for discovering order (peace, harmony, virtue) in the inner world of human consciousness. Actually they are both quests for truth into two complementary aspects of a single reality which is composed of both matter and consciousness.

For an ordered, gradual and holistic development of human personality and to secure a progressive balance and harmony of growth, the ancient educational thinkers developed another unique concept viz. the "*Purushartahs*". *Purushartha* is translated to mean a human goal, an object of desire, consciously pursued. This significant concept of development upholds the legitimacy of man's desire for economic security (*artha*) and sensuous aesthetic satisfaction (*kama*) and spiritual welfare (*moksha*).

But it does not support the insatiable greed which could destroy the possibility of realizing them. Both wealth and pleasure are goals only pursuable in society, but they can be successfully pursued only if society has at least some amount of stability and harmony.

Dharma is claimed to be an important factor in the maintenance of social stability and harmony. Therefore, the observance of dharma, in virtue of its being a necessary condition of social stability and harmony, is insisted upon as an indispensable ethic for the pursuit of wealth and pleasure. Dharma is an ethical law which prevents human beings from falling into crooked ways of the ordinary and unbridled demands of impulses, desires, ambitious and egoism.

Dharma denotes that morality and those values which are founded upon higher, *i.e.* metaphysical and cosmic principles and they appeal to the highest goals and yet they are related to the common life and social processes.

Dharma is learning (*vidya*), in a broader sense, which can enlighten the human beings to understand the subtle niceties of living a dignified life. The values inculcated through education included a rule of prohibition regarding acquisition of wealth or securing or fulfilling of pleasures and desires of an individual. The rule is: Reject the wealth, pleasure and desires which are inconsistent with moral law (dharma).

Ancient Indians also developed the concept of Yoga for disciplining the mind and the body. Without the practice of the principles of *yama* and *niyama*, which lay the firm foundation for building character, there cannot be an integrated personality (BK Iyengar, 2005). In Yoga Sastra the "Right Living" is based on *yama* and *niyama*. Very simple ethical disciplines of "dos and don'ts". Sage Patanjali in his authoritative Treatise *Yoga Sutras* builds his entire Eight-fold path of Yoga on the foundation of *yama* and *niyama*. Practice of *asanas* without *yama* and *niyama* is mere acrobatics. Discipline does not arise from one's own mind. It has to be learned from outside. The word *Yama* can be broadly translated as "Self Restraints".

SOCIAL, MORAL AND COGNITIVE DEVELOPMENT

To understand the characteristics of learners in childhood, adolescence, adulthood, and old age, educational psychology develops and applies theories of human development. Often represented as stages through which people pass as they mature, developmental theories describe changes in mental abilities (cognition), social roles, moral reasoning, and beliefs about the nature of knowledge.

For example, educational psychologists have conducted research on the instructional applicability of Jean Piaget's theory of development, according to which children mature through four stages of cognitive capability. Piaget hypothesized that children are not capable of abstract logical thought until they are older than about 11 years, and therefore younger children need to be taught using concrete objects and examples. Researchers have found that transitions, such as from concrete to abstract logical thought, do not occur at the same time in all domains. A child may be able to think abstractly about mathematics, but remain limited to concrete thought when reasoning about human

relationships. Perhaps Piaget's most enduring contribution is his insight that people actively construct their understanding through a self-regulatory process.

Piaget proposed a developmental theory of moral reasoning in which children progress from a naïve understanding of morality based on behaviour and outcomes to a more advanced understanding based on intentions. Piaget's views of moral development were elaborated by Kohlberg into a stage theory of moral development. There is evidence that the moral reasoning described in stage theories is not sufficient to account for moral behaviour. For example, other factors such as modeling (as described by the social cognitive theory of morality) are required to explain bullying.

Rudolf Steiner's model of child development interrelates physical, emotional, cognitive, and moral development in developmental stages similar to those later described by Piaget.

Developmental theories are sometimes presented not as shifts between qualitatively different stages, but as gradual increments on separate dimensions. Development of epistemological beliefs (beliefs about knowledge) have been described in terms of gradual changes in people's belief in: certainty and permanence of knowledge, fixedness of ability, and credibility of authorities such as teachers and experts. People develop more sophisticated beliefs about knowledge as they gain in education and maturity.

SENSES OF SERIOUSNESS AND OF FANTASY

A child must learn to develop a sense of seriousness, an ability to distinguish degrees of seriousness as it relates to transgressions and expenditure of time; for example, a child must learn to distinguish between levels of seriousness in admonitions such as between "don't fidget" and "don't forget to look both ways when crossing the street," which have the same linguistic and normative structure, but different levels of seriousness.

INDIVIDUAL DIFFERENCES AND DISABILITIES

Each person has an individual profile of characteristics, abilities and challenges that result from predisposition, learning and development. These manifest as individual differences in intelligence, creativity, cognitive style, motivation and the capacity to process information, communicate, and relate to others. The most prevalent disabilities found among school age children are attention deficit hyperactivity disorder (ADHD), learning disability, dyslexia, and speech disorder. Less common disabilities include mental retardation, hearing impairment, cerebral palsy, epilepsy, and blindness.

Although theories of intelligence have been discussed by philosophers since Plato, intelligence testing is an invention of educational psychology, and is coincident with the development of that discipline. Continuing debates about the nature of intelligence revolve on whether intelligence can be characterized by a single factor known as general

intelligence, multiple factors (*e.g.*, Gardner's theory of multiple intelligences), or whether it can be measured at all. In practice, standardized instruments such as the Stanford-Binet IQ test and the WISC are widely used in economically developed countries to identify children in need of individualized educational treatment. Children classified as gifted are often provided with accelerated or enriched programmes. Children with identified deficits may be provided with enhanced education in specific skills such as phonological awareness. In addition to basic abilities, the individual's personality traits are also important, with people higher in conscientiousness and hope attaining superior academic achievements, even after controlling for intelligence and past performance.

LEARNING AND COGNITION

Two fundamental assumptions that underlie formal education systems are that students (a) retain knowledge and skills they acquire in school, and (b) can apply them in situations outside the classroom. But are these assumptions accurate? Research has found that, even when students report not using the knowledge acquired in school, a considerable portion is retained for many years and long-term retention is strongly dependent on the initial level of mastery. One study found that university students who took a child development course and attained high grades showed, when tested ten years later, average retention scores of about 30%, whereas those who obtained moderate or lower grades showed average retention scores of about 20%. There is much less consensus on the crucial question of how much knowledge acquired in school transfers to tasks encountered outside formal educational settings, and how such transfer occurs. Some psychologists claim that research evidence for this type of far transfer is scarce, while others claim there is abundant evidence of far transfer in specific domains. Several perspectives have been established within which the theories of learning used in educational psychology are formed and contested. These include behaviourism, cognitivism, social cognitive theory, and constructivism. This section summarizes how educational psychology has researched and applied theories within each of these perspectives.

BEHAVIOURAL PERSPECTIVE

Applied behaviour analysis, a set of techniques based on the behavioural principles of operant conditioning, is effective in a range of educational settings. For example, teachers can alter student behaviour by systematically rewarding students who follow classroom rules with praise, stars, or tokens exchangeable for sundry items. Despite the demonstrated efficacy of awards in changing behaviour, their use in education has been criticized by proponents of self-determination theory, who claim that praise and other rewards undermine intrinsic motivation. There is evidence that tangible rewards decrease intrinsic motivation in specific situations, such as when the student already has a high

level of intrinsic motivation to perform the goal behaviour. But the results showing detrimental effects are counterbalanced by evidence that, in other situations, such as when rewards are given for attaining a gradually increasing standard of performance, rewards enhance intrinsic motivation. Many effective therapies have been based on the principles of applied behaviour analysis, including pivotal response therapy which is used to treat autism spectrum disorders.

COGNITIVE PERSPECTIVE

Among current educational psychologists, the cognitive perspective is more widely held than the behavioural perspective, perhaps because it admits causally related mental constructs such as traits, beliefs, memories, motivations and emotions. Cognitive theories claim that memory structures determine how information is perceived, processed, stored, retrieved and forgotten. Among the memory structures theorized by cognitive psychologists are separate but linked visual and verbal systems described by Allan Paivio's dual coding theory. Educational psychologists have used dual coding theory and cognitive load theory to explain how people learn from multimedia presentations.

The spaced learning effect, a cognitive phenomenon strongly supported by psychological research, has broad applicability within education. For example, students have been found to perform better on a test of knowledge about a text passage when a second reading of the passage is delayed rather than immediate. Educational psychology research has confirmed the applicability to education of other findings from cognitive psychology, such as the benefits of using mnemonics for immediate and delayed retention of information.

Problem solving, regarded by many cognitive psychologists as fundamental to learning, is an important research topic in educational psychology. A student is thought to interpret a problem by assigning it to a schema retrieved from long-term memory. A problem students run into while reading is called "activation." This is when the student's representations of the text are present during working memory. This causes the student to read through the material without absorbing the information and being able to retain it. When working memory is absent from the readers representations of the working memory they experience something called "deactivation." When deactivation occurs, the student has an understanding of the material and is able to retain information. If deactivation occurs during the first reading, the reader does not need to undergo deactivation in the second reading. The reader will only need to reread to get a "gist" of the text to spark their memory. When the problem is assigned to the wrong schema, the student's attention is subsequently directed away from features of the problem that are inconsistent with the assigned schema. The critical step of finding a mapping between the problem and a pre-existing schema is often cited as supporting the centrality of analogical thinking to problem solving.

DEVELOPMENTAL PERSPECTIVE

Developmental psychology, and especially the psychology of cognitive development, opens a special perspective for educational psychology. This is so because education and the psychology of cognitive development converge on a number of crucial assumptions. First, the psychology of cognitive development defines human cognitive competence at successive phases of development. Education aims to help students acquire knowledge and develop skills which are compatible with their understanding and problem-solving capabilities at different ages. Thus, knowing the students' level on a developmental sequence provides information on the kind and level of knowledge they can assimilate, which, in turn, can be used as a frame for organizing the subject matter to be taught at different school grades. This is the reason why Piaget's theory of cognitive development was so influential for education, especially mathematics and science education. In the same direction, the neo-Piagetian theories of cognitive development suggest that in addition to the concerns above, sequencing of concepts and skills in teaching must take account of the processing and working memory capacities that characterize successive age levels.

Second, the psychology of cognitive development involves understanding how cognitive change takes place and recognizing the factors and processes which enable cognitive competence to develop. Education also capitalizes on cognitive change, because the construction of knowledge presupposes effective teaching methods that would move the student from a lower to a higher level of understanding. Mechanisms such as reflection on actual or mental actions vis-à-vis alternative solutions to problems, tagging new concepts or solutions to symbols that help one recall and mentally manipulate them are just a few examples of how mechanisms of cognitive development may be used to facilitate learning.

Finally, the psychology of cognitive development is concerned with individual differences in the organization of cognitive processes and abilities, in their rate of change, and in their mechanisms of change. The principles underlying intra- and inter-individual differences could be educationally useful, because knowing how students differ in regard to the various dimensions of cognitive development, such as processing and representational capacity, self-understanding and self-regulation, and the various domains of understanding, such as mathematical, scientific, or verbal abilities, would enable the teacher to cater for the needs of the different students so that no one is left behind.

SOCIAL COGNITIVE PERSPECTIVE

Social cognitive theory is a highly influential fusion of behavioural, cognitive and social elements that was initially developed by educational psychologist Albert Bandura. In its earlier, neo-behavioural incarnation called social learning theory, Bandura emphasized the process of observational learning in which a learner's behaviour changes as a result of observing others' behaviour and its consequences. The theory identified

several factors that determine whether observing a model will affect behavioural or cognitive change. These factors include the learner's developmental status, the perceived prestige and competence of the model, the consequences received by the model, the relevance of the model's behaviours and consequences to the learner's goals, and the learner's self-efficacy. The concept of self-efficacy, which played an important role in later developments of the theory, refers to the learner's belief in his or her ability to perform the modeled behaviour.

An experiment by Schunk and Hanson, that studied grade 2 students who had previously experienced difficulty in learning subtraction, illustrates the type of research stimulated by social learning theory. One group of students observed a subtraction demonstration by a teacher and then participated in an instructional programme on subtraction.

A second group observed other grade 2 students performing the same subtraction procedures and then participated in the same instructional programme. The students who observed peer models scored higher on a subtraction post-test and also reported greater confidence in their subtraction ability. The results were interpreted as supporting the hypothesis that perceived similarity of the model to the learner increases self-efficacy, leading to more effective learning of modeled behaviours. It is supposed that peer modeling is particularly effective for students who have low self-efficacy.

Over the last decade, much research activity in educational psychology has focused on developing theories of self-regulated learning (SRL) and metacognition. These theories work from the central premise that effective learners are active agents who construct knowledge by setting goals, analyzing tasks, planning strategies and monitoring their understanding. Research has indicated that learners who are better at goal-setting and self-monitoring tend to have greater intrinsic task interest and self-efficacy; and that teaching learning strategies can increase academic achievement.

CONSTRUCTIVIST PERSPECTIVE

Constructivism is a category of learning theory in which emphasis is placed on the agency and prior "knowing" and experience of the learner, and often on the social and cultural determinants of the learning process. Educational psychologists distinguish individual (or psychological) constructivism, identified with Piaget's theory of cognitive development, from social constructivism. A dominant influence on the latter type is Lev Vygotsky's work on sociocultural learning, describing how interactions with adults, more capable peers, and cognitive tools are internalized to form mental constructs. Elaborating on Vygotsky's theory, Jerome Bruner and other educational psychologists developed the important concept of instructional scaffolding, in which the social or information environment offers supports for learning that are gradually withdrawn as they become internalized.

PERSONALITY MODELS

Conscientiousness is one of five superordinate traits in the “Big Five model” of personality which also consists of extraversion, neuroticism, openness to experience, and agreeableness. Two personality tests that assess these traits are Costa and McCrae’s NEO PI-R and Goldberg’s NEO-IPIP. According to these models, conscientiousness is considered to be a continuous dimension of personality, rather than a categorical “type” of person. Scores in conscientiousness follow a normal distribution. Conscientiousness is related to impulse control, but it should not be confused with the problems of impulse control found in neuroticism. People high on *neurotic* impulsiveness find it difficult to resist temptation or delay gratification. Individuals who are low on *conscientious* self-discipline are unable to motivate themselves to perform a task that they would like to accomplish. These are conceptually similar but empirically distinct.

The trait cluster of conscientiousness overlaps with other models of personality, such as C. Robert Cloninger’s Temperament and Character Inventory, in which it is called *self-directedness*. It also includes the specific traits of *rule consciousness* and *perfectionism* in Cattell’s 16 PF model. Many of the behaviours associated with conscientiousness fall under the broad category of emotional intelligence. Traits associated with conscientiousness are frequently assessed by self-report integrity tests given by various corporations to prospective employees.

Behaviour: People who score high on the trait of conscientiousness tend to be more organized and less cluttered in their homes and offices. For example, their books tend to be neatly shelved in alphabetical order, or categorized by topic, rather than scattered around the room. Their clothes tend to be folded and arranged in drawers or closets instead of lying on the floor. The presence of planners and to-do lists are also signs of conscientiousness. Their homes tend to have better lighting than the homes of people who are low on this trait.

Conscientiousness is related to successful academic performance in students. Low levels of conscientiousness are strongly associated with procrastination. A considerable amount of research indicates that conscientiousness is one of the best predictors of performance in the workplace. Conscientious employees are generally more reliable, more motivated, and harder working. Furthermore, conscientiousness is the only personality trait that correlates with performance across all categories of jobs. However, agreeableness and emotional stability may also be important, particularly in jobs that involve a significant amount of social interaction.

Geography: Average levels of conscientiousness vary by state in the US. People living in the central part of the country, including the states of Kansas, Nebraska, Oklahoma, and Missouri tend to have higher scores on average than people living in other regions. People in the southwestern states of New Mexico, Utah, and Arizona also have relatively high average scores on conscientiousness. Among the eastern states,

Florida is the only one that scores in the top ten for this personality trait. The four states with the lowest scores on conscientiousness on average were, in descending order, Rhode Island, Hawaii, Maine, and Alaska.

EXTRAVERSION AND INTROVERSION

The trait of extraversion-introversion is a central dimension of human personality. Extraverts (also spelled *extroverts*) tend to be gregarious, assertive, and interested in seeking out excitement. Introverts, in contrast, tend to be more reserved, less outgoing, and less sociable. They are not necessarily loners but they tend to have smaller circles of friends and are less likely to thrive on making new social contacts. Introverts are less likely to seek stimulation from others because their own thoughts and imagination are stimulating enough. A common misconception is that all introverts suffer from social anxiety or shyness. Introversion does not describe social discomfort but rather social preference. An introvert may not be shy at all but may merely prefer non social or less social activities.

The terms *introversion* and *extraversion* were first popularized by Carl Jung. Virtually all comprehensive models of personality include these concepts. Examples include Jung's analytical psychology, Eysenck's three-factor model, Cattell's 16 personality factors, the Big Five personality traits, the four temperaments, the Minnesota Multiphasic Personality Inventory, the Myers Briggs Type Indicator, and Socionics.

Extraversion and introversion are typically viewed as a single continuum. Thus, to be high on one is necessarily to be low on the other. Carl Jung and the authors of the Myers-Briggs provide a different perspective and suggest that everyone has both an extraverted side and an introverted side, with one being more dominant than the other. In any case, people fluctuate in their behaviour all the time, and even extreme introverts and extraverts do not always act according to their type.

VARIETIES

Extraversion: *Extraversion* is “the act, state, or habit of being predominantly concerned with and obtaining gratification from what is outside the self”. Extraverts tend to enjoy human interactions and to be enthusiastic, talkative, assertive, and gregarious. They take pleasure in activities that involve large social gatherings, such as parties, community activities, public demonstrations, and business or political groups. Politics, teaching, sales, managing, brokering, and acting are fields that favour extraversion. An extraverted person is likely to enjoy time spent with people and find less reward in time spent alone. They tend to be energized when around other people, and they are more prone to boredom when they are by themselves.

Introversion: *Introversion* is “the state of or tendency towards being wholly or predominantly concerned with and interested in one's own mental life”. Introverts tend to be more reserved and less outspoken in large groups. They often take pleasure in

solitary activities such as reading, writing, drawing, and using computers. The archetypal artist, writer, sculptor, engineer, composer, and inventor are all highly introverted. An introvert is likely to enjoy time spent alone and find less reward in time spent with large groups of people, though they tend to enjoy interactions with close friends. They prefer to concentrate on a single activity at a time and like to observe situations before they participate. Introverts are easily overwhelmed by too much stimulation from social gatherings and engagement. They are more analytical before speaking. Introversion is not the same as shyness or the social outcast. Introverts choose solitary over social activities by preference, whereas shy people avoid social encounters out of fear and whereas the social outcast faces solitude, but not by choice.

Ambiversion: Although many people view being introverted or extraverted as a question with only two possible answers, most contemporary trait theories (e.g. the Big Five) measure levels of extraversion-introversion as part of a single, continuous dimension of personality, with some scores near one end, and others near the half-way mark.

Ambiversion is a term used to describe people who fall more or less directly in the middle and exhibit tendencies of both groups. An ambivert is normally comfortable with groups and enjoys social interaction, but also relishes time alone and away from the crowd.

PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT:A NEW PERSPECTIVE

Personal responsibility is the basis of personality development. It is egocentric to presume heredity to be a contributory factor for personality development. It is ethnocentric to presume a specific environment to be a contributory factor for personality development. It is eccentric to presume chance or luck to be a contributory factor for personality development. It is not a trick that one can learn in a conference or by maintaining indifference. In short it is nothing extrinsic but intrinsic. Therefore anyone interested in personality development must give up all sorts of excuses, non-committal cautiousness and escapism and instead first start looking at oneself.

Personality development, be it in social life or spiritual life is a matter of inner perception as Albert Camus, the great French writer once said, “ An intelligent man watches himself”. Personality development is personal responsibility, a feeling of responsibility to be honest and trustworthy to oneself and towards others, or at least, feeling responsible to become honest and trustworthy. Personality is not meant to be built but it must be in-built; if it is built then it would stop at a point and remain static like a building. Personality is a constant process of becoming and being. Who you are, is determined by what you are becoming and what you become is determined and what you are now, a sort of obverse. So personality is both being and becoming honest and

responsible. This is possible only when there is an inextricable bond of well-patterned thoughts and feelings with concomitant ideas and actions based on lasting values and valuable purposes.

When this sort of unifying, well-organized pattern of thoughts and feelings do not exist, then there is every possibility of becoming a split personality. We do come across many who have such good behaviour and who are so well mannered in society but are highly irritable and unbearable characters at home in their personal life or vice versa. In short the best personality is the product of serious perception of the inner self and the inner perception of life's seriousness. Where this inner perception does not exist there are bound to be conflicts between the actual self and the many desired and dreamed selves. When one honestly encounters and deals properly with one's inner self with all its emotional urges and intellectual desires one can really develop one's personality. Ultimately personality development depends on how one perceives one's inner self and how one uses one's urges.

It is evident that every emotional urge manifests itself in myriads of ways depending upon the individual's inner self. For example, curiosity can bring out an eavesdropper or a scandal monger or a clandestine voyeur or a gossip giant or a prying bore or a research scientist or a space explorer or a spiritual meditator or a social inventor etc; so the emotional urge of curiosity produces both adorable and deplorable personalities depending upon the personal responsibility and perception of the individual. No one can escape it.

So never try to evade anything, feel responsible, encounter and by the way you deal, emerge enlightened.

PERSONALITY TYPE

The concept of personality type refers to the psychological classification of different types of individuals. Personality types are sometimes distinguished from personality traits, with the latter embodying a smaller grouping of behavioural tendencies. Types are sometimes said to involve *qualitative* differences between people, whereas traits might be construed as *quantitative* differences. According to type theories, for example, introverts and extraverts are two fundamentally different categories of people. According to trait theories, introversion and extraversion are part of a continuous dimension, with many people in the middle. While typologies of all sorts have existed throughout time the most influential idea of psychological types originated in the theoretical work of Carl Jung, published as *Psychological Types* in 1921. Other typologies such as Socionics, MBTI, and Keirsey Temperament Sorter all have roots in Jungian philosophy.

Usage:

- One example of personality types is Type A and Type B personality theory. According to this theory, impatient, achievement-oriented people are classified

as Type A, whereas easy-going, relaxed individuals are designated as Type B. The theory originally suggested that Type A individuals were more at risk for coronary heart disease, but this claim has not been supported by empirical research.

- Developmental psychologist Jerome Kagan is a prominent contemporary advocate of type theory. He suggests that shy, withdrawn children are best viewed as having an inhibited temperament, which is qualitatively different from other children.
- As a matter of convenience, trait theorists sometimes use the term “type” to describe someone who scores exceptionally high or low on a particular personality trait. Hans Eysenck refers to superordinate personality factors as *types*, and more specific associated traits as *traits*.
- Several pop psychology theories (*e.g.*, *Men Are From Mars, Women Are From Venus*, the enneagram) rely on the idea of distinctively different types of people.

CRITICISM

The term “type” has not been used consistently in psychology and has become the source of some confusion. Furthermore, because personality test scores usually fall on a bell curve rather than in distinct categories, personality type theories have received considerable criticism among psychometric researchers. One study that directly compared a “type” instrument (the MBTI) to a “trait” instrument (the NEO PI) found that the trait measure was a better predictor of personality disorders. Because of these problems, personality type theories have fallen out of favour in psychology. Most researchers now believe that it is impossible to explain the diversity of human personality with a small number of discrete types. They recommend trait models instead, such as the five factor model.

Major theories:

- DISC assessment
- Enneagram of Personality
- Four Temperaments
- Humorism
- Keirsey Temperament Theory
- Myers-Briggs Type Indicator
- Socionics
- Type A and Type B personality theory.

NPA PERSONALITY THEORY

The NPA theory of personality was developed by A.M. Benis on the basis of concepts presented over fifty years ago by psychiatrist Karen Horney. The model posits three major behavioural traits underlying personality: narcissism (N), perfectionism (P) and

aggression (A), leading to the formulation of discrete *character types*. Each trait is based on a major pleiotropic gene (a gene determining several related characteristics) that follows the rules of Mendelian genetics.

The NPA model proposes that the character traits A and N are indispensable to human development, being related to the sympathetic and parasympathetic nervous systems, respectively. The trait P is also assumed to function at the level of the central nervous system and to act as a modifier of the expression of traits A and N. The NPA model proposes to clarify the genetic bases of known personality disorders, diseases related to behavioural factors (“psychosomatic diseases”) and mental illnesses. An online *NPA personality test* is available in English and French versions. What is personality? Personality is a collection of emotional, thought and behavioural patterns unique to a person that is consistent over time. Although many investigators have proposed various theories of personality, no objectively testable model has emerged. The NPA model falls into the category of a trait theory of personality, its unique approach being that it is biologically based on classical human genetics.

11

CHAPTER

Leadership Development Training

As you can observe, not all people possess the skills and qualities of a leader. Some people are born with this ability and leading other people is not a problem for them. Although no one can really tell if it is a trait that is passed on from parents, it is certain that with the help of leadership development training, a big difference can be made. There a lot of reasons that can affect the leadership potential of an individual. Developing that leadership attitude can help people in becoming more responsible with the things that they are doing every day.

There are those individuals that have experienced becoming leaders since the early years of their lives, like becoming a community volunteer or a member of a student council. These traits appear to be a part of their personality. Possessing these qualities can be an advantage in becoming a good leader, but it doesn't mean that if you don't have them you wouldn't become one.

Most of the famous and successful companies today have found out that in order to have a skilled and effective employee, they must provide them with leadership development training. Giving employees training and workshops to enhance their skills will produce quality leaders. Having effective leadership training will give the employee a better understanding of what he is and how he could become in the company. An employee must be aware of his role in the company and not just become an ordinary employee.

Leadership development will give light and try to define what a leader is and what its responsibilities are. It will describe how a leader doesn't necessarily mean to lead other people's lives but to be able to lead one's own. Being responsible of one's own

actions, a person will be able to see the value of his own existence in relation to the company. By educating employees that every individual has their own unique roles in the company, they can focus and become more motivated on the task that they are doing. Having leadership development training will not only bring positive results to the company but also to the personal growth of the individual. To develop one's personal skills is a challenge and it requires determination. An employee or a person must be open-minded to learn more about the untapped skills that he has. With leadership training, a person becomes more mature and they develop a sense of responsibility to themselves and the company. If a person has realised his potential, he will be able to put it into good use, thus becoming an employee of great value. Leadership development training will help a person excel in his career and his personality.

TRAINING

This workshop for leaders who have significantly expanded or recently acquired general management responsibilities. This is also for senior functional managers who need a broader perspective on company operations or who will become business-unit, division, or regional leaders in the near future. Early career success often comes through specialization in a specific functional domain, but further advancement requires a more comprehensive, multifunctional perspective. Without careful preparation, this transition can be risky and take years to complete—time those companies can ill afford as they attempt to sustain and grow their business amid difficult market conditions. This is a 3 day workshop that looks at all aspects of management that requires the skills and tools to become a more effective leader and agent of change. Participants will gain an understanding of the multiple roles they play as a manager and the contribution they can make to strategic and operational direction.

FOCUS

The changing balance between leading, managing and operating:

- How to manage stakeholders
- Influencing upwards, downwards and sideways
- Negotiation, conflict management and coaching skills
- Managing team and individual performance
- Feedback on your current leadership performance
- Taking up initiative in changing situations
- Motivating team under high pressure situations
- Using technology to the advantage.

IMPORTANCE OF LEADERSHIP

For a business organization to be successful, it requires good management which can only be delivered by good experienced managers. However, in today's competitive

world, basic management skills are not sufficient as success demands much more than that. That is where leadership skills come to play. Good and effective leadership skills are essential for building, encouraging and promoting a strong organizational culture and achieving success eventually. Often, managers are misunderstood to be leaders which, in fact, is untrue. While leaders can easily step into the shoes of managers, all managers, on the other hand, may not be leaders. Thus, leadership skills are necessary to maximize efficiency and achieve organizational goals. In the following lines, we have provided the significance of effective leadership. Read on.

SIGNIFICANCE OF EFFECTIVE LEADERSHIP

The basic job of a leader is to understand and handle the situations of his employees and subordinates. Thus, by motivating and encouraging them to work harder, a leader successfully creates confidence in them to achieve the organizational jobs effectively and efficiently. Often, we see leaders only provide psychological support to his employees through their conduct and expression and fail to recognize their qualities and capabilities. However, an effective leader is required to identify employees' abilities along with supporting them in all possible ways.

VOICE TRAINING TIPS

Having a beautiful voice is surely a blessed bliss. But maintaining it is a bit tricky affair. If you wish to use your vocal chords to earn a living out of singing or any other profession, then the responsibility to maintain the melody, sharpness and depth of your voice becomes an inevitable concern. It is the quality, sharpness and melody of your voice that is put to test in auditions of your voice.

Therefore, it is important for your voice to be clear, your pronunciation proper and your diction correct. It is here that training of the voice comes into play. Proper training not only enhances the quality of the voice, but it also brings out the hidden aspects that the person may be unaware of. However, training alone cannot bring in success. It needs to be coupled with regular practice so as to attain success. Here are a few techniques to help you train your voice.

HOW TO TRAIN YOUR VOICE

- No one can know your limitations and ability to grow better than you do. You can't start singing like a pop star overnight. Set up realistic goals for yourself, which will help you focus on the right direction. Concentrate on the voice you have and the range you can take it to. Spend time polishing the qualities you possess, rather than setting up unattainable goals.
- The first step you can take to improve your voice as a speaker or singer is to hear it yourself. You should know what you sound like when you are up on the

podium. Listening to your own voice will help you judge your voice quality and will highlight the loopholes you need to fill up. Therefore, record your voice and play it for yourself till you pick out all the mistakes. Take help from some experts if you are not able to figure out what's wrong.

- Make it a practice to record your voice during every practice session in order to judge your improvements and shortcomings. This practice will make you notice the changes in your voice and will definitely boost up your confidence levels. It will serve as a motivation to hear improvements in your voice with each tape.
- Breathing practice is quite essential for a speaker, a singer or any profession that tests vocals. Deep breathing is an effective exercise for voice training. You can practice breathing from your diaphragm and exhaling gradually. This exercise will help you control your vocal cords and will ease up modulations.
- Practice this breathing exercise at least once every hour to get a hold of your voice modulation and the pitch. Having a control over your modulation and pitch would give you an advantage of taming the voice and becoming proficient in both high and low pitching.
- Humming is also a good exercise to practice whenever you can. Allow your pitch to rise at the end for the first few days of practice and then let your pitch lower in a way that you do when you doubt someone. If you feel a buzzing sensation in your nasal and eye area when your pitch goes high, you are performing the exercise the right way. When your pitch lowers you should feel the buzzing sensation move down your chest. Humming exercise stretches your vocal chords to avoid any strain when they are put to use.
- In order to become a good singer, moderator or a speaker you need to do much more than just training your vocal chords. Staying healthy is a must for people who earn their living through their voice. It is essential on your part that you take good care of the physical self, along with your voice. Make sure that you exercise regularly to keep your body fit, since a healthy body will give you the strength to perform all other activities. Drink plenty of water to keep your chords lubricated. Also, make sure that while you practice singing or speaking, your posture is good in order to get more air into your lungs.
- Train your voice in order to get your soft palate to a high pitch. Try not to block your throat while singing. Open your mouth wide and let the sound flow out without any strain. This is a simple technique to add volume and range to your voice.
- Heard the proverb practice makes man perfect? Keep practicing all the vocal exercises and scales every day. Consistency in your practice is inevitable in order to master your vocal chords and voice range. Practicing the scales will not only make your voice sharper, but also help you memorize your notes.

HOW TO STAY POSITIVE

Anything from Monday blues to a bad day at work can rub down on your positivity and leave you feeling low and lost for the rest of your day. Before you let your spirits hit a downward slump, know that life can be really mean at times. Nevertheless, that shouldn't really bog you down and make you feel all the more miserable. As Martin Luther King, Jr once said, "We must accept finite disappointment, but we must never lose infinite hope". Even before you trouble yourself worrying about the surprising screw-ups, just know that negativity is just a hapless state of mind and the best way to beat the blues is to take a quick detour from pessimism to quick sanguinity. Easier said than done, isn't it? Well not really. Before you bang your head against the wall and curse your life for being full of cricks and thorns, just pause a while and muse over your blessings. Once you have developed a positive line of thinking, there is very little stopping you from keeping your spirits up. To know more on how to stay positive, read on.

TIPS ON STAYING POSITIVE

- Depressed economy, job cuts, financial crisis, and personal losses can at times throw you a curveball and catch you completely off guard! However, that doesn't really have to mean that you lose your footing and succumb to the situation. Agreed that it's natural to feel low and lost when stuck in the rut. But you can always brave it with a smiling face and a good deal of buoyancy. Remember, life isn't really a tough hike and sooner or later you are likely to overcome it. Instead of ruing over a bad job, bad relationship and a bad life on the whole, just sit and think what's really stopping you from achieving your dreams. Once you have the answer, you might just as well be in a better position to propel your life in a different direction. The trick is to contemplate!
- Have you been just handed a pink slip just because your company is downsizing? Or has your long-pending promotion been shelved once again? While it's totally easy to hit a low when life seems horribly unfair, just know that every cloud has a silver lining and no matter how bleak a situation may look, it always has its fair share of good things to offer you. Just because you have been sacked or your promotion has been stalled doesn't really mean that the game is over for you. Don't forget, "adversity is opportunity in disguise". So, the next time life lobs a curveball at you, don't just sit tight and take things on your face. Instead, step out of your comfort zone and give it a hard hit. You never really know what opportunity awaits you at the end of the tunnel!
- Ever heard of the saying, "What is life if, full of care, we have no time to stand and stare?" We are so stuck chasing promotions, personal reputation and professional progress that we forget to live our lives. Result, sadness, disappointment and a feeling of despair! At times, it is just important to pull

the brakes and unwind. If you have been feeling down in the dumps of late, just take a break from your fast-paced monotonous life and indulge yourself in some music, take up a favourite hobby or sport or just follow your passion. That should save your gumption from waning and leave your energy supercharged.

- Negativity is contagious and there is no denying that! Rubbing shoulders with pessimists and skeptics would only drive you into a downward spiral, if not worse. Don't forget, a man is known by the company he keeps! Spending time with upbeat, optimistic people won't just lift the cloud over you, but can also go a long way in uplifting your sagging spirits for the rest of the day.

LEADERSHIP COMMUNICATION SKILLS

Effective communication skills is the key to great leadership. Communication skills that are delicate yet powerful leave a long-lasting impression on the minds of the people. It is not only about speaking confidently, but it is also about the ability to persuade people and manipulate their thinking. A common misconception is that all leaders are born communicators. Most people think that leaders are born with natural communication skills. However, on the contrary, communication skills can only be developed with practice and proper guidance. To become a great communicator, you have to put into practice and constantly perk up your timing and speech delivery skills. Leadership communication skills cannot be just stumbled upon; you need to spend time and energy to cultivate the skill. If you wish to know more about different leadership communication skills, then here are some quick tips to your aid. Read the following section to learn more about them.

SKILLS FOR EFFECTIVE LEADERSHIP COMMUNICATION

- Making a connection with the audience is very important. Unless you are able to connect with your audience and *vice-versa*, there will be no depth in your words that will compel the audience to think. Connection here does not mean just superficial networking. You should emotionally connect with the audience to make an impact on them. Making the common man feel that they matter a lot has an enormous influence that will help them accept you as their leader.
- Communication is a two way process. Therefore, listening is as important as what you say. Listen carefully to what others say, and if required, make a note of it so that you can refer to it later. It will also help you to learn what others think about a particular subject.
- It is said that the first impression is the best impression, and the saying has a lot of truth in it. Making a great first impression has an enormous impact on the listener.

- Choosing the right words is a vital factor in leadership communication skills. Carefully chosen words can make a huge impact. Powerful words have the potential to charge up people and motivate them, while irresponsible comments can make the whole crowd turn against you. So always remember to choose your words carefully and cautiously.
- Developing leadership charisma is another quality of a leader. Learn to maintain authority while communicating.
- While communicating with your subordinates or co-workers; try to be transparent, open, and above all show trust and respect.
- Have a clear point of view. Unless you don't have a direction, it is not possible to guide and show others the path.
- Along with good communication skills, a leader should also have expressive body language and good eye contact. The ability to make the listener feel that you understand them is also equally important.
- Speech delivery is also important to leadership communication skills. How you modulate your voice, how you deliver the speech and your overall presentation are important to take hold of the audience so that they listen to you with interest.
- Practice is the key to great communication. A lot of practice can only help you to master the art of great communication techniques. You may also take the help of a communication guide to learn the right body language while communicating in different circumstances.

HOW TO ACHIEVE GOALS

What does the term 'goal' really mean to you? Does it mean accomplishing something big in life, or just doing what you are supposed to do? Well, if you are a student, may be completing a particular part of your homework in a day is your goal, or scoring well in the term exam is your short term goal. If you are a professional, bagging a good job, owning the latest car, and filling your home with latest gadgets may be the only aim in life. Whatever it may be, it is essential to have goals in life in order to achieve success. If you do not have any goals in life, then you wouldn't know what to do with your life. You become aimless and purposeless. Therefore, it is of the essence to have goals. Nonetheless, just setting some goals is not enough. You should also know how to realise your goals as well. If you are looking for information on how to achieve goals, then here are some neat tips for you to mull over. Scroll down the following sections to learn more about them.

ACHIEVING GOALS

Set Goals

First list down all the goals that you want to accomplish. If you are not sure what you want in life, you are just bound to receive the unexpected. Nevertheless, bear in mind

that goals should always be sensible and should be accomplishable. Setting unrealistic goals are of no use. Write the most important goals at the top of the list and number them accordingly. This will help you to focus more precisely. You can strike off each goal once it is accomplished. Writing down your goals will also help you to realise your priorities.

Develop Strategies to Achieve Goals

Once you have listed your goals, you need to evaluate and develop strategies to complete your goals. For example, if your goal is to shed some extra pounds, your broad strategy should be dieting and exercises. Nothing can be achieved straightforwardly in life. So, you need a particular strategy and dedication to pull off your goals.

Have Definite Action Plans

Once your broad line of attack is determined, work on your definite action plans. For instance, if dieting and exercising are your broad strategies to your weight loss goal, then your action plan should consist of a healthy diet chart; a healthy way of life, and an appropriate workout routine.

Believe in Yourself

If you want to accomplish your goals and become successful in life, you have to believe in yourself. All successful men and women today are doing well because they believed in themselves and were confident about their capabilities. If you believe in yourself, then you can accomplish the goals you have set for yourself.

Review your Progress

Make sure you are making progress. Review your progress every week to analyse how far you have reached in accomplishing your goals. If you find you are lagging behind, hire a coach, look for help from family and friends, and above all, try to recognize why your goal is not being met. Find a solution to accomplish your goal.

Be Self Motivated

Self motivation is a must to achieve goals and success in life. Motivational books and CDs are great ways to keep you motivated and will help you to stay focused towards your goals. The more self motivated you are, the easier it is to work towards your objectives.

HOW TO LEARN TO LOVE YOURSELF

Remember Whitney Houston's popular song "learning to love yourself, it is the greatest love of all"? Very true, isn't it? There is, apparently, no relationship more real

and valuable in the world than the one you have with yourself. Love is an unconditional need demanded and required by each one of us. But how is it possible to find love in others when we can't love our own self? And when we are at our worst, we consider ourselves to be our own worst enemy, often called out by names, like "Stupid", "Jerk", or "Loser". However, you need to understand that this isn't the right way to treat yourself. Though it seems to be a very difficult task, learning to love yourself is not an impossible job. So, roll up your sleeves and sweep that guilt and hatred attitude away. Find ways to learn to love yourself by glancing through the tips listed herein. Take a look!

ACCEPT YOUR PERSONALITY

Your life has not ended yet. You still have plenty of years to live. Hence, it's never too late to improve or develop yourself throughout your life. However, it is best if you accept yourself for whom you are. Be happy and celebrate your unique qualities and characteristics. After all, you are a unique individual created from God's own hands.

BE HAPPY WITH YOUR BODY SIZE

Both men and women are often too conscious about their physical appearance, especially when they see a well-toned and figured person crossing their way. In case of women, some feel that their breasts are just too small, while there are others who feel they have heavy butt. Men, on the other hand, feel inferior to those who are well built or have a great muscular body. For all such gentlemen and ladies, remember that we are not produced from a single factory. Each one of us is different; hence, it is better if you accept, or rather love, your physical appearance.

BUILT CONFIDENCE

No person is born with natural confidence. It is the upbringing and your surroundings that help you develop poise and self-confidence. Children who are taught to become self independent from an early age have greater level of confidence than those who look up to their parents for every knick and knack. Start revealing a positive attitude and a feeling of self assurance and see how confidence comes natural to you in no time.

FIND OUT YOUR GOOD QUALITIES AND ACHIEVEMENTS

Looking out for some good qualities in yourself? Were you not able to find any? Does that make you hate yourself further? Why? Aren't you a homosapien? Just like every person has some negative attributes, so does he have positive characteristics as well. It is good to criticize your self but then do not be over critical. Accept your flaws and try to come over them. As for your positives, just keep on bettering them and who knows you might be able to love yourself all the more.

STOP REGRETTING ON YOUR MISTAKES

So, you have committed a mistake? So what? It's just a mistake. No one is going to beat or punish you to death. Making mistakes is natural to any human being. So stop beating or cursing yourself over and over again. Instead, sit down and analyse your mistakes. Take positive lessons from them and find out what different you can do next time to avoid these stupid and silly errors. Forget the past and plan the future.

DON'T LET OTHERS DOMINATE YOU

Sad but true, often people treat you like a doormat simply because you allow them to do so. It's your life and no one has the right to control or rule it, except you. So stop being too kind and generous when a friend constantly borrows money from you with no promises of repaying it back. Stand up and dump that guy who calls and looks up to you only for sex and nothing else. Remember, do not let anyone treat you badly because you deserve better than being only used or criticized.

HOW TO BECOME SMARTER

We all are inherited with a smart mind. But improving it a step forward towards a smarter mind is what we have to work on. For a mind not kept active will become less alert and lose its brilliance and intelligence in due course of time. Just like a broken arm, when freed from the sling after a couple of weeks, takes time to get back to its original functionality, the same is the case with your brain. The kind of exercise you provide to your physical body, your mind demands the same implementation and training. When left aside and idle for a while, your brain tends to become inactive and less energetic. Thus, to become smarter than the smart and the smartest, you have to pep up your mind in the right route. After all, it's not the same as wearing the best clothes or portraying a know-it-all kind of image. Find tips on how to become a smarter person by glancing through the tips listed herein.

EXERCISE YOUR BRAIN

Just like you workout to build and strengthen your muscles, your brain, too, requires proper exercises to sharpen itself. Often, it is assumed to be a useless body part, but this is not true. As such, whenever you are engaging yourself in some activities, you are exercising your brain. Consider practicing activities, such as puzzles, crafts, reading, painting, gardening, and other recreational activities that will refresh and rejuvenate you and your mind, in particular.

READ QUALITY BOOKS

Most of us love reading. But we often end up reading fiction, suspense, or romantic books. However, these books do not mentally stimulate us. So, if you really want to

improve your thinking and writing skills, pick up books that force you to really focus. Read a classic novel that changes your perspective towards this world and exposes you to precise, elegant English. Do not feel shy to pick up new words and find their meanings. This, in turn, will make you smarter with a more comprehensive vocabulary. Make reading fun as well as useful.

AVOID THE IDIOT BOX

What do we do after a long tiring working day? Pick up a bag of chips and a can of cola only to land up in front of the television. Though there is no problem with refreshing yourself while watching a reality or a talk show, it doesn't really put your mental capacity into use. Further, watching television continuously does not relax you, instead, it exhausts you. Hence, pick up a book or magazine when you want to relax. Or, switch off the idiot box when you have friends or acquaintances around and indulge in a conversation instead.

LEARN A FOREIGN LANGUAGE

Researches indicate that learning an unknown foreign language boosts brain power. Quite smart, indeed, right! Learning and understanding the foreign culture through the language induces your brain to implement its muscles.

IDENTIFY YOUR QUALITIES

All of us have had our share of several idols and dream jobs during childhood. A scientist, a social worker, an airhostess, a 40-wheel lorry driver, an astronaut, or even a rock star! But, in reality, how many of us are really able to convert our childhood dreams into a reality? Probably, just one out of hundred. That's because to move onto their paths, we need to understand the values, commitment, and endless efforts to meet the requirements and achieve our goals. However, this should not be mixed with our idols. For if we try to imitate our idols, we will only land up making a fool out of ourselves and not creating a niche amongst the rest. Hence, it is important to identify your qualities and be yourself rather than being others.

ROLE OF YOGA IN PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT

Human personality is a very complex topic by itself. There are many definitions of personality. For the sake of simplicity we can consider it as a collection of physical, mental and behavioural traits and patterns that we exhibit in our life.

Often personality development is either misunderstood or ignored. It is acknowledged mostly in professional fields. Companies conduct training programmes on communication skills, leadership skills, and creativity and so on. They collectively call these trainings as "Personality Development". Unfortunately they are talking about

only one side of the coin. No doubt that these traits are important but they are just “external”. These programmes miss the more important factor-body and mind. There are hundreds of books available in the market who are supposed to tell you “how to win” or “how to be happy” but how many really get benefited just by reading the books? Books will tell you to think positive but the poor individuals do not know how. Just by thinking that “I will think positive” you can not be positive. It requires practice and fine tuning of body and mind. Unless you have proper foundation of body and mind you simply can not build any superior personality infrastructure.

DO I NEED PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT?

Majority of people feel that they already have a developed personality and they don't need to enhance it further. After all they are working in professional and personal sector for years! But let me tell you that if you are thinking on the same lines then its time to introspect. The first step in personality development is to acknowledge that you need to improve your personality.

How do you know whether you need fine tuning of the personality?

Just sit peacefully and try to answer the following questions:

- Do you feel that you work hard but still don't get expected returns?
- Do you often feel that you deserved a promotion but somebody else grabbed it instead?
- Do you feel drained after your job hours?
- Do you feel stressed-physically and mentally?
- Does your job affect your health?
- How are your interpersonal relationships?
- Do you feel voidness in your life?
- Do you often feel unhappy (many times not knowing why)?
- Do you feel that you can not deliver 100% of your potential?

The answers to the above questions will tell you whether there is any friction within yourself.

THE YOGIC VIEW OF PERSONALITY

As per Yoga the human body consists of five sheaths or layers.

They are:

- Conscious physical sheath (Annayama Kosha)
- Subconscious physical sheath (Pranamaya Kosha)
- Mental sheath (Manomaya Kosha)
- Intellectual Sheath (Vigyanmaya Kosha)
- Blissful sheath (Anandamaya Kosha)

The Annamaya Kosha is related to our conscious physical deeds including walking, talking, viewing and other such functions. These are the functions that we perform

using our physical body deliberately. The Pranamaya Kosha deals with physical activities that we do in subconscious state. Digestion, movement of the heart and lungs fall in this category. We never do any deliberate efforts for these actions; still the body knows how to perform them.

The Maniomaya Kosha deals with mind, emotions and thoughts. All our gross thinking and emotions fall in this category. Intellect is that faculty that decides what is good and what is bad. It is the ability for rational thought or inference or discrimination. The Vigyanmaya Kosha helps us to identify true from false. We can choose the correct path in this “maya” filled world with the help of nourished Vigyanmaya Kosha.

Anandamaya Kosha or bliss is a pure state of happiness and joy which is beyond any material pleasure. Samadhi or deep meditation gives such a joy. The Anandamaya Kosha is the innermost sheath wrapped by other sheaths in succession. If you observe carefully you will realise that each sheath affects certain part of our personality.

Accordingly we can classify our personality as follows:

- Conscious physical personality
- Subconscious physical personality
- Mental personality
- Intellectual personality
- Spiritual personality

HOW YOGA CAN NOURISH THESE PERSONALITIES?

The conscious as well as subconscious physical personality can be greatly improved by Yoga postures. Yoga postures stretch your body and induce relaxation. They affect the vital force or Prana and cause it to flow in specific parts of the body. They are excellent remedy for back aches, digestion problems and heart problems. The modern life forces us to sit at a place without much physical activities. Yoga postures can strengthen the joints and various parts of the body.

The mental personality is greatly affected through Pranayama and concentration. Our mind remains focused at our work and in home enabling us to do the things with full dedication and interest. It naturally results in better personal and professional gains.

Meditation enriches the intellectual personality. Your mind becomes calm and clear. You can think with more care and affection for others. Maya can not delude you any more. Your decisions prove to be correct. Finally, the deep meditation or Samadhi brings you the ultimate bliss. The joy that is impossible to achieve through worldly enjoyments. This is the final aim for any Yogi. In summary practicing Yoga regularly nourishes all these five personalities and makes your life joyous, happy and healthy.

THE PERCEPTUAL APPROACH TO LEADERSHIP

One of the most important legacies of the emergent approach is the idea that a leader has successfully emerged from a group when the members of the group believe that

person to be the group's leader. Thus, the emergent approach emphasizes the notion that group members' perceptions about leadership are critical to the process of leader emergence.

The perceptual approach to leadership grows out of that notion. It is an attempt to understand how the average group member judges the leadership abilities of other members. Hence, it focuses on an important aspect of the leader emergence process.

The perspectives we have discussed differ mainly in only one point. This is in regard to which factors they claim are important. Respectively, we have seen approaches towards leadership that maintain that a leader's success is due to his or her traits, his or her style, or the situation of the group. Further, we have discussed viewpoints that claim that the most important factors affecting leadership are the behaviours of all group members or the interaction between a leader's traits and the situation of the group. Despite these differences, scientists who advocate these approaches are united in their belief that they can objectively define "leadership" as a variable. Advocates of the perceptual approach do not share this belief. They believe that leadership exists primarily within the mind of each group member. Thus they believe that the way to study leadership is to examine what group members think leadership is.

IMPRESSION FORMATION PROCESS

The perceptual approach views leadership as an "impression formation process." We discussed the process by which personality impressions are formed. Let's review it now. For example, Sue wants to form an impression of Charlie; so she watches how he behaves. Sue particularly notices attention-grabbing, or salient behaviour, on Charlie's part. Sue then decides whether his character is responsible for his behaviour or if he is just reacting to the situation. If she decides that Charlie is responsible for the way he acts, she forms an impression of him. This impression starts with a trait that describes the behaviour she has observed. The impression then builds, by adding other traits that Sue believes are associated with Charlie's first trait.

"Halo" and "Horns" Effects

If Sue observes something she believes is a "good" trait, she will tend to believe that Charlie has more "good" traits. Scientists call this tendency the "halo effect." If, on the other hand, Sue thinks Charlie has a "bad" initial trait, she will build up her impression by assigning more "bad" traits to him. This is the "horns effect." Finally, Sue will judge whether she likes Charlie based on her impression.

Biases enter into our impressions because of the halo and horns effects. As we have discussed, once we assign a trait to a person, we tend to further assign related traits. We can do this because we have a pre-existing idea of which traits are associated. Such a process of judgement often can be wrong. It is not always true that clumsy people are stupid, for example. We described how the halo effect often causes people to make

“good” judgements about persons who are physically attractive. People tend to say that attractive people are intelligent, mentally stable, and so on, without seeing any relevant evidence that this is true. Clearly, attractive people are not always “good” in all ways.

IMPRESSION FORMATION PROCESS AND LEADERSHIP

The way in which we form impressions and make judgements about the leadership ability of our fellow group members works in the same way as any impression formation process. First, we watch the other members of our group to see which leadership behaviours they generally exhibit. We are particularly attentive to the most salient of those behaviours. Next, we decide whether each person’s character is responsible for any leadership behaviours or whether the situation is responsible. If we decide that a person is responsible for his or her actions, we form an impression of the person as a leader. Our impression will include not only the behaviours we have actually observed but also the traits that we believe are associated with leadership.

For example, we see that Joan speaks her mind readily. We think that is what a leader should do. We then may come to believe that Joan also has integrity, spirit, organizational skills, and other traits that we think leaders should have, even if we do not see her exhibiting them. We may then decide that Joan is truly the leader of the group.

BEHAVIOURAL SALIENCE

We have noted that impression formation begins when an observer notices a particularly salient behaviour. Behavioural salience is an important part of the process by which group members come to judge one another’s leadership. In fact, some of the variables involved in leader emergence work the way they do because they make a person’s behaviour particularly salient.

Amount of communication. When someone is talking, we are likely to pay attention to them. Thus, the more a person talks during group discussion, the more attention they receive from the other members. Given this, it should not be surprising that talkative members are more likely to emerge as leaders than non-talkative members.

Further, anything that increases a talkative member’s salience would increase the likelihood of that member emerging as group leader. For example, consistently with the material on deviance and minority, a small subgroup within the larger group is likely to gain the attention of the entire group if they are deviating from the group consensus. Thus, the behaviour of a talkative member of that subgroup would be particularly salient to the rest of the group, and especially likely to emerge as a leader. In their review of literature about the relationship between amount of talk and leader emergence, Mullen *et al.* (1989) found research evidence for this effect.

Seating position. One of the reasons that the ends or head of a table are the “leadership seats” is that a person who sits at one of those positions becomes perceptually salient to the other members of the group. Perceptual salience can increase the odds that a member will become group leader for two reasons. First, they are more likely to be in the normal line of sight of other group members. The other group members are then more likely to direct their attention to them. Second, placing group members where they will receive the comments of other members is likely to lead them to talk frequently. As discussed, frequent talking will likely result in other group members judging them to be leaders.

Implicit Leadership Theories

As we have described, if an observer decides that a person is responsible for their behaviour, the observer begins to form an impression of the person. This impression begins with a trait that describes the observed behaviour, and then grows through the addition of other traits that the observer believes are associated with the first trait.

But where do these beliefs about the association among traits come from? They come from what researchers call implicit personality theories. An implicit personality theory is a person’s beliefs about what traits and behaviours go together. For example, people’s implicit personality theories usually associate “good” traits, such as intelligence and attractiveness, together. This is the reason why “halo effects” occur in impression formation. Similarly, implicit personality theories normally link “bad” traits, such as clumsiness and stupidity, with one another. This is the source of “horns effects” in impressions.

Research has shown that people have beliefs about the attributes that the “ideal leader” should possess. We can call these beliefs implicit leadership theories. Our own research (Pavitt and Sackaroff, 1990) has shown that implicit leadership theories tend to include traits such as “forceful” and “enthusiastic.” These theories also include behaviours such as “states the group’s procedure” and “encourages group member participation.” Thus, these are included in the list of attributes that most people feel that the “ideal leader” should exhibit.

Group members use these implicit leadership theories when they form impressions of one another’s leadership. For example, a group consists of Leon, Marvin, and Bram. Leon believes that an ideal leader who “encourages group member participation” is also “enthusiastic.” He saw those two attributes as “going together” in an ideal leader.

This judgement carries over into how Leon judges his fellow group members. For instance, if he were to think that Marvin exhibited a high level of “encouragement” behaviours, he would also judge Marvin as “enthusiastic.” If Leon made a negative judgement about someone, he would connect similar negative attributes. If Leon judged that Bram exhibited a low level of encouragement behaviours, he would also think that Bram had low levels of the trait of “enthusiasm.”

Leon is basing one judgement on another. He first observes Marvin and Bram and judges how much they encourage group members. As we have noted, Leon then believes that “encouragement” and “enthusiasm” go together in an “ideal leader.” Therefore, he uses this belief and his previous judgement to decide how to assign the trait of “enthusiasm” to Marvin and Bram.

Further, group members use their implicit leadership theories as a basis for evaluating one another’s leadership skills. If we form an impression of a group member that is similar to our preconceptions of the “ideal leader,” then we would judge that group member to be a good leader. Analogously, if our impression is very different from our implicit leadership theory, then we would evaluate that member to be a poor leader.

We can use our example of Leon, Marvin, and Bram again to show this. Leon thought that Marvin had high levels of “encouragement” and “enthusiasm” attributes. Thus, Marvin’s attributes were similar to those in Leon’s vision of an “ideal leader.” Hence, Leon evaluated Marvin as a good leader. In contrast, Leon thought that Bram had low levels of the attributes of “encouragement” and “enthusiasm.” Thus, Bram was unlike Leon’s vision of an “ideal leader.” Accordingly, Leon, judged Bram to be a poor leader.

METHOD FOR ASSUMING LEADERSHIP

They wanted to know whether there are differences between groups whose leaders get their position in different ways. Does it matter whether leaders are assigned from the outside, elected by the members, or allowed to emerge from group discussion? Contrasting hypotheses could be proposed concerning this issue. It could be that groups with assigned or elected leaders perform better than groups with emergent leaders because emergent-led groups begin discussion without knowing who is in charge. It also could be that groups with emergent or elected leaders perform better than groups with assigned leaders because assigned-leader groups are not involved in the choice of leader and as a consequence are less satisfied with their leadership. Several studies have been performed that are relevant to this issue.

Mortensen study. Mortensen (1966) analyzed the leadership emergence process in six groups that met three times. Three of the groups had assigned leaders, and three did not.

The three assigned leaders performed the most leadership actions during the first group meeting. However, by the third meeting, only one on the three was still leading his or her group. In the other two, the assigned leader had been supplanted by another member to whom the group had responded more positively.

Mortensen concluded that the group’s approval of an assigned leader is important. Assigned leadership can help a person quickly assume the leadership role, but only if the group approves of him or her. In contrast, assigning a leader can slow down a group and make it difficult for a leader to emerge if the group disapproves of the

assignment. In this case, leadership emergence would have been faster if there had been no leadership assignment. Goldman and Fraas study. Goldman and Fraas (1965) found that the way in which a group acquires its leaders is important to the group's performance. They assigned leaders to groups through four methods. One way was that the group elected a leader by vote. The second method was that the experimenters selected a leader based on the person's ability. The third way was that the scientists arbitrarily chose a leader, and the last method involved groups that had no assigned leader. The researchers then had the groups play "Twenty Questions." They compared the success rates of each group. The researchers found that groups with elected leaders performed the best. The performance of groups that had leaders appointed based on ability was close to the best success rate. Leaderless groups were a distant third. The groups with the worst scores were the ones with arbitrarily appointed leaders.

Hollander and Julian study. Hollander and Julian (1970) decided to compare the performance of elected and appointed leaders. The researchers told groups and the leaders of the groups that one of two criteria had determined leadership. They led their participants to believe that either the group had elected the leader or the experimenters had appointed him or her. In either case, the leader supposedly had important abilities for the position.

Hollander and Julian found that "elected" leaders had slightly more influence on their group's opinions than "appointed" leaders. They also were far more willing to deviate from their group's ideas. However, their position was far more precarious. Members lost confidence in "elected" leaders if they failed or if the group considered them incompetent at their task. In contrast, "appointed" leaders had to both fail and have the group consider them incompetent before the group would reject them.

Larson study. Larson (1971) compared nine groups whose members agreed on whom they felt had emerged as leader with five other groups whose members did not agree on who led the groups. Larson called the first nine groups "stable leadership" groups and the other five "unstable leadership" groups. The stable leadership groups spent more time on substantive issues and less time on procedural and irrelevant topics than the unstable groups. Further, the leader initiated the most substantive ideas in the stable groups. In addition, the stable groups spent more discussion time, per idea, on the topic that the leader had initiated, in comparison with topics the other members initiated. Thus, it appears that groups with stable leadership were more prepared to take on the their task than groups with unstable leadership.

Looking at these studies as a whole, it appears that competence and group acceptance are the most important factors in how a group will behave with a certain leader. It does not necessarily matter whether a leader is elected, emergent, or appointed. A group can behave well and be successful under any of these conditions. As long as the group accepts the leader and he or she is competent, the group can function well with the leader.

LEWIN'S RESEARCH

Methodology

In the late 1930s, Lewin and his students Lippitt and White performed a landmark study of the three leadership styles. They wanted to determine how each style would affect a group. The groups they chose to study were made up of 10-year-old boys. There were four groups with five members in each. The boys met to participate in arts and crafts activities or in similar hobbies. The groups experienced a succession of various adult leaders. These leaders were Lippitt, White, and two other coworkers. Each adult assumed a different leadership style. The study defined these styles in the following ways:

- Authoritarian leaders
 - These leaders determined all policies for the group members. They told the boys which projects to do.
 - They also dictated the methods and stages of goal attainment one step at a time. The adults would give instructions for a subsequent step only after the boys had completed the previous step. They did not give them all of the instructions at once at the beginning of a project. The researchers reasoned that the boys would have little understanding of the project as a whole if the leaders gave them instructions in this step-by-step manner. Without an understanding of the whole project, the boys would have little ability to make their own creative contributions to the assignment. This meant that the leader would have increased control over their activities. Remember that according to Lewin, the authoritarian leader wants group members to reach the leader's goals, not their own.
 - The authoritarian leaders also assigned work companions. They told the boys with whom they could work on their projects.
 - They further evaluated the boys individually. They did not judge the group as a whole. They expected that the approach would cause the boys to be concerned with their own tasks rather than with the work of the group as a whole.
- Democratic leaders
 - These leaders encouraged the group to make its own policy. They asked the boys which projects they wanted to do.
 - They also explained the stages of the project, along with the methods of goal attainment, in advance. This gave the boys the knowledge that they needed to take the initiative concerning how the group would perform its task. Remember that the democratic leader wants to help group members reach their own goals.

- They further allowed the boys to choose their own work companions.
- The democratic leaders evaluated the work of the group as a whole. They did not judge members separately. They expected that this method would influence the boys to be concerned with the whole group's efforts rather than with only their own work.
- Laissez faire leaders
 - Laissez faire leaders refused to help the group choose its policy.
 - They also never volunteered information on the stages and methods necessary to attain the group's goals.
 - Further, these leaders refused to help the boys choose their work companions.
 - They also did not evaluate any work. The laissez faire leaders only answered questions and provided work materials.

ADVANCE IN LEADERSHIP THEORY

As with the functional point of view, the emergent approach came to prominence in the late 1940s and early 1950s when the problems with the trait and style approaches became evident. As with the situational approach, advocates of the emergent perspective claim that the group's situation determines the group's leadership. However, whereas the situational approach is concerned with the style elected and assigned leaders should adopt in different situations, the emergent approach is concerned with predicting who will emerge as leader in a previously leaderless group and explaining why some people emerge rather than others.

Advocates of both the situational and emergent approaches understood that a situation consists of two parts. One part is the task that the group must perform. The other part includes the needs and desires of the group members themselves. Hence, they realized that group members themselves help to determine who their leader is. This concept was a significant advance over earlier approaches to the study of leadership. Both the trait and style approaches did see that leaders influence group members. However, both ignored the possibility that members may influence their leader in return. Scientists who held the emergent point of view came to an even further realization. They saw that even leaders with strong claims for power must receive their groups' approval in order to be effective. These claims for power include expertise, legitimacy, and the like. These realizations on the part of scientists who held the emergent viewpoint opened three new avenues of thought.

- Leader emergence. The trait and style approaches limited their enquiries to the ways in which appointed leaders affected group behaviour. In contrast, the emergent methodology shifted attention to the manner in which leaders emerge from previously leaderless groups. In other words, the researchers wanted to know the ways in which leaders gain influence over other group members.

- Method for assuming leadership. Research was performed to discover any differences between the behaviour of groups with assigned leaders, elected leaders, and emergent leaders.
- Deviance and leader acceptance. Theorists attempted to describe how a leader can still be accepted by a group after he or she has performed deviant actions. The research using the emergent approach involved all three of these issues.

LEADER EMERGENCE

The first research issue involved the ways in which leaders emerge from groups. To begin, it is clear that amount of communication is the most important factor in determining which group member will emerge. Most simply, the more a person communicates, the more likely it is that the person will emerge as leader. Reviews of literature by Stein and Heller (1983) and Mullen, Salas, and Driskell (1989) found that the amount that a person talks in a group correlates with group member judgements of task leadership in the range of .5 to .7. It should be noted that the correlation between amount of talk and maintenance leadership is far lower, at about .15. In the Bales groups discussed under the functional approach, the biggest talker was judged as “group leader” 50 per cent of the time.

However, it stands to reason that what a person says should have as much impact on other group members’ judgements of that person’s leadership as how much that person talks. Surprisingly, many studies have found that the content of a person’s talk has no effect on whether the person is judged to be a leader. However, most of these studies were performed in groups of students that were just formed into groups and were performing tasks that did not affect them, such as “Lost on the Moon” or a “human relations” problem. Other studies have been performed using groups that had existed for many weeks or months and were performing tasks that did affect them, such as groups of students who were working on a class project for which they would get graded. In these studies, not only how much a member talked but also the content of their talk was related to whether or not they emerged as a leader.

There is reason to believe that members are particularly likely to be viewed as leaders if they perform procedural functions during group discussion. Recall that in the Bales groups, the member judged as “guidance” specialist was also judged as “group leader” 78.6 per cent of the time. Two other studies support this idea.

Baker study. Baker (1990) studied the first hour of discussion of eight groups of students in the process of performing two class assignments. She related the content of those discussions to judgements made by group members of who emerged as group leaders, who did not emerge as leaders but maintained high status within the groups, and who did not emerge as either leaders or high-status members. Baker concluded that emergent leaders tended to be concerned with procedural matters during discussion. Sometimes they also contributed ideas to the group, but they tended to not offer their

opinions very often. In contrast, those who had high status but were not considered the group's leader concentrated on substantive issues; they contributed ideas and opinions. Finally, members who were neither leaders nor high in status concentrated on opinion giving. Ketrow study. Ketrow (1991) videotaped a three-member "group" trying to solve a problem about white-collar crime. Each member of the "group" had a pre-assigned role in performing their task. One member specialized in procedural work, one in substantive, and the third in maintenance. One hundred fifty research participants watched the videotape and then made judgements about the members of the "group." Of these participants, 128 chose the procedural specialist as the group leader. Although the substantive specialist was chosen as the most influential member by 95 participants, only 17 chose that person as the group leader.

Thus there is good reason to believe that verbal activity is related with emergent leadership. Of course, not every talkative person becomes a leader. As just described, the content of talk also has an impact on group member's judgements of one another's leadership. However, other factors may be involved. If verbal activity is associated with emergent leadership, perhaps non-verbal participation is too.

Baird study. Baird (1977) showed the plausibility of this proposal. He videotaped the interaction of 10 five-person groups. In doing so, he discovered that members' perceptions of leadership correlated with various non-verbal signals. With arm and shoulder gestures, the correlation coefficient was .45. In addition, the coefficient with vertical head movements was .27. There was a smaller correlation of .15 with shifts in posture, absence of horizontal or "no" head movements, and absence of frowns. Eye contact, smiles, and absence of hand or finger movement were also slightly related to leadership. These had a correlation of .09. Taken as a whole, it appears that groups judge people as leaders when their movement styles are active but not nervous. Also, group members believe that leaders give non-verbal signals that imply positive evaluations of the other group members.

Relevant Input Variables

The research we have discussed thus far shows that process (verbal and non-verbal communication) is related with output (leadership emergence). However, as we have discussed throughout this book, a valid theory of group discussion also needs to consider relevant input variables that affect group process. There are several input variables that can have an impact on the amount of leadership-relevant communication that occurs during group discussion. Next, we will consider three of these input variables; seating position, approval, and task-relevant knowledge.

Seating Position

Several studies have shown that seating position has an effect on emergent group leadership. For example, Strodbeck and Hook (1961) performed research using 69

twelve-person mock juries. Those sitting at the ends of the jury table were the most talkative members of the groups, and were most likely to be chosen to lead the mock juries. Research has shown that people sitting in those positions also receive the most communication from other group members. It is clear that the ends or the “head” of a table are considered to be the “leadership seats” for a group discussion.

Seating position also has effects on the order in which group members speak. Steinzor (1950) examined the order in which members of two 10-member groups sitting in a circle spoke to one another. He found that, when a particular group member made a statement, the next statement tended to come from a group member sitting on the opposite side of the circle. Thus, comments are likely to go back and forth across opposite seating positions in the group.

Howells and Becker study. Howells and Becker used this idea in a study published in 1962. They reasoned that they could set up a “power differential” by placing fewer people on one side of a table than on the other side. They reasoned, as Steinzor had found, that comments go back and forth across a table. If this happens, the people on the less populated side proportionally receive and make more comments than those on the other side. The scientists formed 20 five-person groups. Two members, or 40 per cent of the group, sat on one side of the table. Three participants, or 60 per cent, sat on the other side.

If all else is equal in such a situation, we would logically expect that the number of leaders from each side should match their percentage in the group. Thus, among the 20 groups, 8 leaders should emerge from the less populated side of the table, matching the 40 per cent. Similarly, 12 leaders, or 60 per cent, should emerge from the more populated side. Did this occur? No. Instead, only 6 leaders emerged from the more populated side. This was only 30 per cent. In contrast, 14 leaders came from the less populated side. This was 70 per cent, a great deal more than a logical prediction would have calculated.

Thus, the results supported the contention of Howells and Becker. They had been able to create a power differential. The less populated side did have participants who spoke more often than the other members. Consequently, the less populated side produced more leaders than a logical outcome would have predicted.

Thus, research has shown that certain seating positions can make it more likely that a group member will become a leader. Other studies, however, have shown that this effect is weak and can be canceled by more powerful factors. For example, Bass and Klubeck (1952) found that seating position had no effect on leadership judgements in discussion groups with pre-existing status differences among members.

Approval

A second factor that can affect emergent group leadership is whether or not a member receives approval for what she or he says. A study by Pepinsky, Hemphill, and Shevitz (1958) shows this impact.

Pepinsky, Hemphill, and Shevitz study. Pepinsky, Hemphill, and Shevitz conducted a study with four-person groups. The groups task was to build “products” out of tinkertoys that could be sold at a “buyer’s table.” The group had to purchase the tinkertoys, build the products and sell them at a profit at the buyer’s table.

Each group included two confederates who acted in either of two different ways. In one condition, the confederates waited until the real participants had taken some leadership actions and then disapproved of what they had done. For example, they would say that they did not like bossy people who told them what to do. In the second condition, the confederates showed approval of the real participants’ actions. For example they would say that they liked people who could get things going and come up with a good plan. The researchers found that the participants whose actions had received approval from the confederates performed many more subsequent leadership actions than the participants whose actions who had been rejected.

Task-Relevant Knowledge A third factor that affects emergent leadership is whether group members have knowledge relevant to the group’s task. Hemphill (1961) reported an unpublished study by Shevitz that demonstrated this effect. Shevitz organized three-member groups with two “experts” and a third, non-expert member. One of the experts was a member of the local Amateur Radio Association, and the other had experience in statistics courses. The group had two tasks; assembling the components of a circuit from a schematic diagram, and a statistics problem. The “radio” expert performed the most leadership acts during the first task, while the “statistics” expert did the most during the second.

THE STYLE APPROACH TO LEADERSHIP

The basic premise of the style approach to leadership is that a leader’s “style” determines his or her success. A style is the method of leading that a person uses.

Kurt Lewin was the theorist most responsible for this approach. We have discussed Lewin’s theoretical contributions to small-group research throughout this book. It is now time to discuss the man himself. His life affected how he viewed leadership. Lewin was a German Jew who gained an international reputation for his research on perception during the 1920s. During the 1930s, Lewin was able to escape the fate that the Nazis planned for the Jewish citizenry of Germany by immigrating to the United States. As a new American, Lewin was enamored with our democratic traditions and decided to research leadership. He wished to show that democratic leadership is better than the authoritarianism that Hitler was using in Germany at the time.

As we explained, he conceived of a life-space for every person and group. There are regions within this life-space. Forces attract people to or repel them from the various regions. As we have described, we can represent the group itself as an entity that moves around its own life-space.

Lewin believed that a leader has the ability to manipulate the group's life-space and direct its movement towards various goals. Thus, the leader has power over the group. Lewin decided that there are three styles of leadership. The styles are based on the relationship that the leader has with his or her group. A leader has a "democratic" style if he or she manipulates the life-space to help the group reach its own goals. A leader with an "authoritarian" style manipulates the group's life-space to force the group to reach the leader's goals. A leader with a "laissez faire" style does not manipulate the group's life-space at all.

FINDINGS

Lewin *et al.* performed a detailed analysis of the behaviour of the boys during their meetings. They also interviewed the boys concerning their feelings about the sessions. This work resulted in a mass of information from the study.

Maintenance output. First, the researchers found that the democratic leadership style led to greater satisfaction with the group experience than either the authoritarian or the laissez faire styles. The experimenters asked the 20 boys if they preferred the democratic or the authoritarian leaders. Nineteen of them said that they favoured the democratic leaders. The scientists then asked 10 of the boys to compare the democratic and the laissez faire-style leaders. Out of these 10, 7 said that they preferred the democratic leadership method.

Second, the groups that had the democratic-style leaders appeared to be the most cohesive. During the study, one of the methods that scientists used to measure levels of cohesiveness was to determine the ratio between how often the members used group-oriented pronouns, such as "we" and "us," and how often they used individual-oriented pronouns, such as "I" and "me." In addition, the researchers looked at other indicators of cohesiveness, including the levels of friendly statements, mutual praise, sharing of work materials, and playfulness. The democratic groups had the highest levels of these factors. The laissez faire groups were also fairly cohesive, perhaps in response to their "non-leading" leaders.

In contrast, the groups with leaders who used an authoritarian style were far less cohesive than the other groups. Observers compared the behaviour of the boys in the authoritarian-led groups with the behaviour of those in the democratic-led groups. They noted 30 times as many acts of hostility and 8 times as many acts of aggression in the authoritarian groups. In addition, authoritarian-led sessions had the highest levels of statements of discontent and the largest levels of absenteeism.

Task output. As for their work output, both the authoritarian and the democratic groups outpaced the laissez faire groups. The boys in the authoritarian groups worked 74 per cent of the time when their leaders were present. This compared with a work level of 50 per cent for boys in democratic groups and 33 per cent in the laissez faire groups. However, when the leaders left the room, these percentages changed. Groups

following a democratic leader continued to work at a 46 per cent level. In contrast, the work time for authoritarian groups fell drastically to only 29 per cent, implying that the members of the authoritarian groups had little desire to work. On the other hand, groups with leaders using a laissez faire style actually worked more when their leaders left the room. Their work time increased to 52 per cent. This result implies that these members remained motivated.

Finally, the researchers judged the work of democratic groups highly. They considered this work to be of higher quality and originality than the performance of authoritarian and laissez faire groups.

CONTINGENCY THEORY OF LEADERSHIP

The most popular and extensively researched situational theory of leadership was first proposed by Fred Fiedler during the 1960s. Fiedler's model claims that group performance depends on the interaction of the leader style and the favourableness of the situation. Fiedler's major contributions consist of (1) identifying the leadership orientation of the leader and developing a way to measure it, and (2) identifying three situational factors influencing leadership and developing a method of measuring them.

Leader orientation. Fiedler's definition of the leader's orientation emerged largely from earlier studies in which leaders were classified as either relationship-oriented or task-oriented. Relationship-oriented leaders look at others as coworkers and see close interpersonal relations as a requirement for accomplishing the task. Task-oriented leaders show a strong emotional reaction against people with whom they have difficulty working. If they are forced to make a choice between getting the job done or worrying about interpersonal relations, they choose the task first and worry about interpersonal relations later. Following earlier research, Fiedler suggested that individuals could be placed along one continuum characterized by two basic leader orientations: relationship-oriented versus task-oriented.

LPC scale. Leadership orientation is measured by the least preferred co-worker (LPC) scale, as illustrated in Exhibit 16.5. Individuals are asked to think of a person with whom they have worked who they least preferred as a co-worker, and describe this person using sixteen scales. When the responses are summed, an individual with a favourable description of the least preferred co-worker would have a high LPC score, suggesting a relationship-oriented leader. An unfavourable description of the least preferred coworker would result in a low score, suggesting a task-oriented leader.

Difficulty in interpreting the LPC scores has been a problem for Fiedler's contingency theory. The LPC scale is not related to any of the well-known personality measures. In spite of uncertainty about what exactly it measures, however, the evidence indicates that it is a reliable measure of something, and Fiedler concludes that "there can be little doubt that we are dealing with a very important aspect of personality." A review of 25 years of research using the LPC scale concluded that high LPC leaders are primarily

relationship-oriented while low LPC leaders are primarily task-oriented consistent with Fiedler's claims.' In general, a low LPC leader is more directive, more structuring, more goal-oriented, and more concerned with efficiency. A high LPC leader is more considerate, more human relations oriented, more participative, and more sensitive to the feelings of others.

Situational favourableness. Fiedler's model claims that whether a high LPC leader or low LPC leader will be more effective depends upon the favourableness of the situation. In some situations, a high LPC leader is most effective, while a unenthusiastic low LPC leader is more effective in other situations. Fiedler claimed that the favourableness of the situation is determined by three variables: (1) whether the relationships between the leader and the members are good or poor. (2) whether the task is relatively structured or unstructured, and (3) whether the power position of the leader is relatively strong or weak.

In studies testing the model, Fiedler and his colleagues developed instruments to measure each of these three situational variables." Of the three situational variables, the leader-member relations variable was considered to be the most important for determining the favourableness of the situation. Leader-member relations were measured using a simple questionnaire with ten scales on which the leader was asked to describe the group. This instrument was called a "group atmosphere scale" and two sample items are shown here.

The second most important situational variable was the task structure which was evaluated by judges who examined four aspects of the task structure.

- *Goal clarity*: the degree to which the requirements of the job are clearly stated and known by the people performing them,
- *Goal-path multiplicity*: the degree to which the problems encountered in the job can be solved by a variety of procedures.
- *Decision verifiability*: the degree to which the correctness of the solutions or decisions can be demonstrated and ascertained.
- *Decision specificity*: the degree to which there is generally more than one correct solution involved in performing the task.

In a highly structured task, goals are very clear, there is only one correct procedure for performing the task, the correctness of the decisions can be immediately verified, and there is only one correct solution. Obviously, a highly structured task does not require leaders to provide additional structure.

The third situational variable was the power position of the leader. This factor was measured by a series of questions asking whether the leaders could recommend rewards or promotions, whether they could assign tasks and evaluate performance, and whether they had been given official titles by the organization to differentiate them from subordinates. By determining whether a group is high or low on each of the three situational factors, Fiedler classified each group into one of eight categories, which

ranged along a scale from extremely favourable situations to extremely unfavourable situations for the leader. A highly favourable situation consisted of good leader-member relations, a highly structured task, and a strong power position, as illustrated in Exhibit 16.6. On the other hand, an extremely unfavourable situation existed when the leader-member relations were poor, the task was unstructured, and the leader possessed a weak power position.

Group effectiveness. Fiedler examined the relationship between the leaders' LPC score and the effectiveness of the group in a variety of situations. The results indicated that a high LPC leader was most effective when the situation was moderately favourable. If the situation was extremely favourable or unfavourable, however, the low LPC leaders tended to have the most effective groups. These relationships are illustrated in Exhibit 16.7.

Although these results may look rather complex and difficult to understand, they seem plausible after a brief consideration. Relationship-oriented leaders (high LPC) tend to excel in situations of intermediate favourableness where concern for the group members is apparently a necessary prerequisite for motivating them to perform well. In these situations, people want to have leaders who care about them. Task-oriented leaders (low LPC), however, are more effective when the situation is either very favourable or very unfavourable. In a highly favourable situation, the personal needs of members are apparently already satisfied and what is needed is a task-oriented leader to get the job done. In an extremely unfavourable situation, however, satisfying individual needs is probably impossible. A task-oriented leader who simply focuses on getting the work done is more effective than a relationship-oriented leader who spends time fruitlessly trying to build good relationships in an impossible situation.

Fiedler's theory has some interesting implications for the selection and training of leaders in organizations. Candidates for leadership positions should be evaluated to assess their basic orientations, and they should be placed in jobs consistent with their leadership orientation. The favourableness of a situation should be assessed before assigning a leader to that position. Leaders who are struggling may need to be placed in a different situation, or their current situation may need to be changed.

When leaders are not successful, it is tempting to suggest that they need to change their leadership orientation. Fiedler does not recommend this approach, however, and argues that the basic leadership orientation of an individual is a relatively stable personality characteristic that cannot be easily changed. Rather than changing the leader to fit the situation, Fiedler recommends changing the situation to fit the leader through what he calls job engineering. Job engineering consists of changing one of the situational factors to increase or decrease the favourability of the situation. For example, the task structure and power position can be effectively changed through job redesign programmes or changes in personnel policies. The validity of Fiedler's contingency theory has been examined in numerous studies. Although most of the studies have been

supportive, there have been enough contradictory findings for the model to remain somewhat controversial among leadership scholars. The most serious controversy about Fiedler's model concerns the LPC scale. Although the theory seems to predict leader effectiveness, the ambiguity over what the LPC score is actually measuring is disturbing.

Path-Goal Model

Another situational leadership theory is the path-goal model developed primarily by Robert House. This model is fairly well known because it is based upon a popular theory of motivation — expectancy theory. The path-goal model explains how leaders can facilitate task performance by showing subordinates how their performance can be instrumental in achieving desired rewards. Expectancy theory explains how an individual's attitudes and behaviour are influenced by the relationships between effort and performance (goal paths) and the valence of the rewards (goal attractiveness). Therefore, individuals are satisfied and productive when they see a strong relationship between their effort and performance and when their performance results in highly valued rewards. The path-goal model claims that the most effective leaders are those who help subordinates follow the path to receiving valued rewards.

Essentially, the model explains what leaders should do to influence the perceptions of subordinates about their work, the personal goals of subordinates, and the various paths to goal attainment. The model claims that leader behaviour is motivating and satisfying to the extent that it clarifies the paths to the goals and increases goal attainment, Leader behaviours. The path-goal model suggests that leadership consists of two basic functions. The first function is path clarification: the leader helps subordinates understand which behaviours are necessary to accomplish the tasks. The second function is to increase the number of rewards available to subordinates by being supportive and paying attention to their personal needs. To perform these functions, leaders may adopt a variety of leadership styles.

Four distinct leadership styles are explained in the model:

1. *Directive leadership*: tells subordinates what is expected of them and provides specific guidance, standards, and schedules of work.
2. *Supportive leadership*: treats subordinates as equals and shows concern for their well-being, status, and personal needs; attempts to develop pleasant interpersonal relationships among group members.
3. *Achievement-oriented leadership*: sets challenging goals expects subordinates to perform at their highest level, and continually seeks improvement in performance.
4. *Participative leadership*: consults with subordinates and uses their suggestions and ideas in decision making. Unlike Fiedler's model, which suggested that leadership style was resistant to change, the path-goal model suggests that these four styles can be performed by the same manager at different times and in

different situations. In other words, the path-goal theory suggests that if a directive leader discovers the situation has changed and now requires a participative leader, it is possible for the leader to change. The appropriate leadership style depends on the situation. Although the path-goal model does not explain how to identify the appropriate leadership style, the model does present a list of situational factors that need to be considered.

Situational factors. Two types of situational factors are proposed—the characteristics of the follower and environmental factors. Three characteristics of the followers have been identified as significant variables determining the appropriate leadership style:

- *Locus of control:* Locus of control refers to the individual's belief concerning the determinants of reward. Individuals with an internal locus of control believe their rewards are based on their own efforts, while those with an external locus of control believe their rewards are controlled by external forces. Internals prefer a participative leadership style while externals are generally more satisfied with a directive leadership style.
- *Authoritarianism:* Authoritarianism refers to an individual's willingness to accept the influence of others. High authoritarian followers tend to be less receptive to a participative leadership style and more responsive to directive leadership.
- *Abilities:* The ability and experience of the followers will influence whether they are able to work more successfully with an achievement-oriented leader who sets challenging goals and expects high performance, or a supportive leader who is willing to patiently encourage and instruct them. The path-goal model identifies three environmental factors moderating the effects of leadership styles: (1) the nature of the task, (2) the formal authority system within the organization, and (3) the group norms and dynamics. These environmental factors can influence the effectiveness of different leadership styles in a variety of ways. A highly structured task, for example, may reduce the need for a directive leader and even make a directive leader's attempt to provide additional structure seem unwarranted and unwanted. However, a directive leader would be more likely to succeed than a participative leader if the organization had a highly formal authority structure that followed a strict chain of command. Likewise, a concern for the personal needs of subordinates by a supportive leader may seem superficial and unnecessary in a highly cohesive work group. The basic elements of the path-goal model of leadership are illustrated in Exhibit 16J. This model shows how leadership styles interact with follower characteristics and environmental factors to influence the personal perceptions and motivation of the followers. The perceptions of the followers concerning the situation and the followers' level of motivation determine their job satisfaction, performance, and acceptance of the leader.

Some simplified applications of the path-goat model are shown in Exhibit 16.9. In the first two situations, subordinates have an ambiguous job or they feel insufficiently rewarded. Both situations call for a directive leader who explains the job and helps subordinates know how to get rewarded for performing it. The next two situations, boring work and a lack of self-confidence call for a support- leader. Repetitive jobs are not as boring if a supportive leader helps subordi-nates see that their work is meaningful and significant. Likewise, a supportive leader can help subordinates feel greater self-confidence by coaching them and praising their accomplishments. In situation 5, subordinates are not challenged by the task. An achievement-oriented leader will set high goals and emphasize the intrinsic and extrinsic rewards from more effort. Finally, situation 6 in-volves a task that is unstructured and poorly defined, calling for participative leadership. By participating in the decision making, subordinates help to create an effective solution to the problem and, as a result of their involvement, feel committed to making it work.

Research on the path-goal model. The relationships specified by the path-goal model have been examined in a modest number of empirical studies. This research has tested the theory's predictions concerning the moderators of lead-ership effectiveness to determine whether the situational variables interacted with the leadership styles in the predicted manner. The evidence seems to indicate that the model does quite well in predicting how the situational variables and leader styles combine to influence individual satisfaction and group morale? However, the model has not been-shown to be a good predictor of individual or group performance. Perhaps the greatest disadvantage in trying to' validate the model empirically is that it contains too many variables and tries to explain too much. An experiment testing the full pat-goal model is difficult because too many variables have not been clearly identified and instruments -have not been developed to measure them. Nevertheless, the available studies tend to support the model, although they suggest that it understates the com-plexity of the situation. Furthermore, the research suggests that other variables, such as conflict and structure, also need to be incorporated into it. Perhaps the major contribution of the path-goal model is that it provides a method for viewing leadership in terms of the rewards and punishments administered by the leader. The path-goal model explains why a particular style works best because of the reward contingencies determined by the environment and the leader's capacity to administer rewards and punishments. As more research accumulates, this type of explanation will have practical applications for those interested in the leadership process.

SIX IMPORTANT MANAGERIAL SKILLS FOR SUCCESSFUL LEADERSHIP

A mark of a good leader is to provide constant motivation to his team to maintain an excellence and quality in results. A good leader is always looking for ways to improve production and standards. Here are six skills you can develop in working to attain quality in the team.

OBSERVATION

This is an important aspect that often gets neglected due to the demands on a leader's time and schedule. Observation and regular visits to the work environment need to be scheduled into the calendar. Observing employees work procedures and the work flow is foundational to implementing adjustments to improve results. To have credibility, a leader needs to be seen and be known to be up to date with what is happening in the work place.

MONITOR EMPLOYEE PERFORMANCE

Employee performance needs to be monitored in mutually accepted ways. Policies and procedures need to be clear. Conferencing should be on a regular basis and not just when there is a problem. Assessments and evaluations should not be merely all formality or paperwork to be done. Individual and group conferencing should be undertaken with the expectation of on going professional development. There should be frequent encouragement and clear criteria for on going goals both for the group and individual.

IMPLEMENTATION OF PROFESSIONAL DEVELOPMENT PROGRAMMES

A good leader evaluates weaknesses and provides training and development strategies to strengthen the weaker skills in the team.

DEMONSTRATES WORKING KNOWLEDGE AND EXPERTISE

Good leadership comes from a place of strong knowledge and experience of the production and process leading to results. If a leader does not possess all the expertise and knowledge personally he should then hold regular consultations with experts. This is important in order to maintain an accurate and informed overall picture.

GOOD DECISION MAKING

Good leadership is characterized by the ability to make good decisions. A leader considers all the different factors before making a decision. A clear decision creates confidence in the leadership.

ABILITY TO CONDUCT AND EVALUATE RESEARCH

On going review and research is vital in order to keep on the cutting edge in business. While managing the present to ensure on going excellence in performance and product, a good leader is also able to look towards the future. Conducting and evaluating research is an important way of planning and being prepared for the future. Excellent leadership is always pro active rather than reactive. By developing these six managerial skills a good leader is on the journey to becoming a great leader.

12

CHAPTER

Personal Development in Counselling

Personal development is at the heart of our journey as counsellors and therapists. It is the core condition of recognising ourselves and one another as human beings and not human doings. Without it we are detached from the ideology of the meaning of human. What we are depends upon our lived experiences and feedback from others about how we impact on people with whom we come into contact and who we touch, emotionally and spiritually, and who touch us in a similar way. These are the fundamental core elements of our craft as therapists and counsellors.

This is what we are in the business of attempting to do-to teach our clients how to become more human through being in touch with others who have embarked on a journey of personal development. In order to know where we are it is important to have some idea of how we got there and it is our intention to attempt to illustrate this path by showing how our personality develops over a life-long period. What we become depends on multifarious forces that shape and mould our identity-some of which we have control over and others of which are completely out of our control.

The Chambers Dictionary defines ‘identity’ as, simply, “who or what a person is”, while the Open University D103 Glossary offers, “the characteristics by which individuals or groups are recognised by others and by themselves-who or what they are and where they belong in human society”. Both these definitions encompass class, gender, and ethnic origin, national and other identities. In order to see how identity changes through the process of personal self-development it seems necessary to compare how personal identity is seen by different perspectives.

Rogers (1961) emphasised how important it is to maintain one's own identity while grasping the client's world; Kelly (1955) suggests that, 'You are not the victim of your own autobiography, but you may become the victim of the way you interpret (it)', in his promotion of his personal construct theory; Satre (1934) from the viewpoint of the existentialist states, 'We are our choices, with the freedom to redesign our lives by those choices.

There are four different perspectives that are presented here, namely the phenomenological, the psychoanalytical, the biological and the social. It is worth considering in this case whether all are actually looking at the same thing but for the purpose of this article we shall only compare the phenomenological, Humanistic and the biological models as we see those as models fitting in to the development of the counsellor and which contrast most widely in their explanation of our identity and how it changes throughout life, particularly when experiencing personal reflection through the cycle of personal exploration.

The phenomenological perspective, (phenomenon of self), emphasises that we as human beings actively interpret and make sense of our lives and our worlds through symbolic thoughts, reflecting on our own feelings and actions and those of the world surrounding us. This reflective awareness can be described as, "the human capacity to be aware of one's self as being a particular person distinct from all others and to reflect on the experience of being that person and who that person is". (Stevens, 1985). This self-awareness generates other factors such as the importance of language and thought which enable us to transcend time and space, think about past and future and to use our imagination.

Also generated is an awareness of our own mortality, choice and the need for a meaning to our lives. This experience of personal identity depends not only on self-awareness but also on a sense of personal continuity and of agency, which is, having the power to produce an effect, for example, "I am going to cheer him up". Self-awareness and personal agency is not something which we are born with, however, in fact we acquire the sense of self-awareness and personal agency as we develop from infancy to adulthood. Erich Fromm (1960) calls this stage individuation and relates it to being a bit like a double edged sword, where the transition from autonomy out of childhood is replaced by realisation of independence but results in separateness and perhaps aloneness so our inner identity changes.

Everyone entering into the counselling contract as a client has the right to expect their counsellor to be capable of attending their needs; needs which can place great demands on the counsellors emotional resources. We as counsellors have needs of our own and those of us that are drawn into the 'helping professions' are often more comfortable giving than receiving. For this reason it is important to consider the reasons behind the career choice as clients should not be expected to fulfill the needs of the counsellor of being in control, virtuous and resourceful. The counselling setting is often

the place where feelings which seem too dangerous to be expressed anywhere else can emerge safely and through personal exploration of the self it can be established if the counsellor can cope well with feelings of anger, desperation, sadness and grief, hurt and rejection, not only in the client but in oneself.

The phenomenological perspective implies that we are able to self-create by actively participating in the building of our individual identities and this provides the main support of this particular theory. Glover (1988) reasoned that, “shaping ourselves is a more important aspect than is usually supposed. It should be given a central place in our thinking about social issues,” (Glover, 1988, p.110). He goes on to explain how simple everyday decisions give leverage to who we become. What needs to be taken into account here is the fact that our simple individual decisions are often influenced by social construction. By consciously adapting our personality to fit in with the expectations of family, friends, employers and, in relation to this topic, clients, for example, we may in fact be acting in response to our own unconscious expectations. It is not suggested that we should never be confused, frustrated or unhappy in our work as counsellors. Our work is to help clients locate in themselves the resources they need to exist creatively which should be reflected in our work with them. Counsellors do not accept things at face value, particularly when it comes to human resources but this can mean discovering painful truths about our clients and ourselves along the way. Glover (1988) argues that we create ourselves in the image of those expectations and by telling others what our self-created belief is we not only deceive them but also deceive ourselves.

It would appear that ideology puts blinkers on our eyes for to assume a personal style and express it as our own is failing to account for our private choices being influenced by public representations both locally and globally. If we were to develop within the counselling field in Salisbury, for example, our personal and professional identity would be very different from that if we had developed our real sense of self in London. Different regions help shape our personal and professional identities in different ways and changes of location might also alter our identity further. From a personal perspective we can see the value, for the furtherance of our career, of a move to London where we have only recently secured work as a senior counsellor in an all-male prison.

A further existential issue to the phenomenological perspective is the search for meaning. For some the way to understand the representations of our belief system sees them joining religious sects in their search for meaning, or, as Cottrell (1979) suggests, it is more common within modern United Kingdom for people to find meaning by, “creating everyday projects related to work and family”. Counsellors face uncertainty at many levels and the search through skills and theories often leaves us not knowing what brings about emotional healing. We work in a field where, as yet, no clear career path has been defined leaving us to compete for work which we can only take if it is within our own personal level of competence. Our work involves looking introspectively which creates some level of risk for us as counsellors and for our clients who may

present us with painful and difficult aspects of life: loss, relationship difficulties and all kinds of abuse. We also have to consider if the satisfaction of 'doing' the job is more important than the financial reward. This is not a career where you can get rich quick and much of one's earnings in the early stages of the counselling career are minimal, if there is any gain at all, and most of the time further training, personal therapy, supervision, insurance etc. has to be maintained to protect oneself and the client. It might be quite tempting to take on a client who was rich even if the counsellor were not the best person to deal with the issues presented.

So how actively do we participate in the making of our own identity and how much are we influenced by ideology within the phenomenological perspective? Bandura (1989) claimed that 'perceived self-efficacy', is the most relevant factor. Our individual differences depend on how capable we see ourselves of achieving what we want to do. This is linked to ideas that the more we want to change the more likely we are to try which is similar to the idea of self-fulfilling prophecy. Bandura believes in perceived self-efficacy and therefore in the idea that we can create our own identity changing to suit ourselves with perhaps an acceleration of the process with limitations of mortality.

The biological perspective sees personal identity and development from a different angle and has two aspects that will be looked at separately. Firstly, it is concerned with the body and sees it as an intrinsic part of identity and personality believing that it is through the ways that we relate to other people and to the world around us. How we relate to our clients is the core element of the work we do and we have to be ever vigilant about the way we sit, look, hold our hands, move and even dress. We often use body language and movements to express our feelings, (if only by fluttering our eyelashes to attract a mate) and these subtle moves also allow us to interact with others on a social level. If the ability to use our body is taken away then our ability to connect and develop is more restricted. Contact with others is through bodily actions and if the body is mistreated or hurt, for example, then the personal identity is too, according to the biological perspective and approach. We are aware of how our body feels, if it is tired or excited and we are aware how effective it is as an instrument. If our body hurts then we hurt too. We are also affected by our body image and how we appear to others knowing that our appearance affects their attitude which affects how we feel about ourselves and this may influence what we do to self-create. We learn to promote our best assets in order to maximise the most beneficial attention in the hope that others identify us as what we would like to be rather than what we really are. People who have often aged, for example, may often feel that they look younger than they do and this is often apparent in men like myself who are approaching mid-life.

Levinson's (1978) idea about the physical changes throughout the seasons of a man's life are particularly appropriate here where men, like myself, get older and see an gradual yet effective change in the body such as hair loss, memory loss, loss of faculties and in my case, the inability to retain information! How we are perceived by clients should

not get in the way of our work but often It has been found that wondering what a client thinks about me. This was an issue I needed to explore in supervision and realised that there was some erotic transference about in my session with the client. This biological transformation can be drastic, take for example one of my clients whose feelings about himself in both the public sphere and private domain were affected by others because of his disability after an horrific road traffic accident in which he lost mobility and now has to use a wheelchair.

Other influences such as chemical imbalances in the brain can affect our personality and sense of self and these can be brought about by abuse or misuse of alcohol and drugs used socially. A lot of my work has been in the addiction field working with people who cannot live without some mood altering chemical to get them through their pain. I too was an addict once and the importance placed upon working as a counsellor with several years clean time cannot be stressed highly enough. Depression often results from this type of imbalance and often the results can give false perceptions of ourselves by others, and ourselves. This theory was explored in depth by Hans Eysenck who believed that aspects of personality are inherited. He claimed to have identified underlying personal dimensions which provide a hierarchical model of personality and self which reveals patterns of surface traits as well as the continuity of identity.

Eysenck (1985) believed that the human personality is divided into two major traits which could be scientifically measured using psychometric testing to measure extraversion (E) and introversion (N) and he regarded environmental influences as of little importance. Intra version and extraversion were terms used to describe personality traits of impulsiveness, risk taking and stimulus seeking. Eysenck believed that they were physiologically based. The consequences of the physiological differences enabled Eysenck to categorise people into clusters or groups and based on his research he found that social people in general were impulsive. Another dimension Eysenck measured was that of neuroticism or stability. He believed that an average person would be placed centrally on his two dimension chart of E and N. If extraversion and introversion is biologically based then it is reasonable to argue that some aspects of identity are inherited and indeed physical characteristics are passed on from our parents in the form of genes.

Eysenck tested the theory of hereditary personality and self in a study of identical twins who were brought up separately but whose E and N scores correlated. Kamin (1974) argued that social factors may have played a part in the results claiming that children may have grown up in similar environments which relates back to the part of this essay dealing with social factors in the phenomenological approach and how the suggestion that the world environment helps determine personality.

Secondly, the socio-biological approach is based on the belief that social behaviour is determined by inherited pre-disposition characteristics of humans. The outcome of natural and sexual selection also focuses on the evolutionary origins of the behavioural patterns arguing that the origins of consciousness, and a sense of individual identity,

may develop because of the value in understanding, relating to and co-operating with others. It goes on to say that some differences in identity and behaviour may originate in the reproductive strategies which are considered optimal for our male and female ancestors.

Humanistic development took place in the 1950's largely as a reaction to behaviourism and psychoanalyses, fitting well with the social and political emancipation of the 1960's. It concentrates more on the orientation to psychology than on a coherent set of ideas and theories, assuming that subjective experience is primary to personal growth, and is phenomenological rather than behaviourist as a perspective and that all people possess a capacity for personal growth and personal agency having some choice and responsibility for what they become. It suggests that each individual is a whole and takes into account the many aspects of feelings, thoughts and bodily awareness which make up our experience of being a person.

The existentialist theory sees people as being directly responsible for their own life choices, placing strong emphasis on the ability to say "no" and accept the consequences, maintaining that people are responsible for their own actions. Acknowledgement of the constraints on our lives is an important part of existentialism and our culture widely accepts that we are unable to control certain things in our lives, for example, our own mortality, which our parents are and our language. By taking responsibility for our own actions we act authentically but allowing others to make choices for us is seen as acting unauthentically. Many people are afraid of their own freedom of choice and behave in conventional ways avoiding the act of self-actualisation. I remember working with a client who was so desperate to please me that he would say what he thought I wanted to hear rather than what was really going on for him. Through my own personal journey which identified me as a 'Yes-man', I was able to recognise the pattern and avoid falling into that trap. It might have been so easy to allow this behaviour to continue because it made me feel good rather than become increasingly aware and willing to share when we don't really know what is going on for us, or when we are afraid to speak, or do not feel comfortable in another's presence. To reveal ourselves is to take a risk and that is so for our clients. We can, however, create an atmosphere in which we can make the client feel safe enough to explore these feelings because we have experienced them ourselves in our own therapy and supervision.

Victor Frankl (1959) highlighted significant ways that we develop purposive intrinsic selves through action, in particular creative activity, experience, love and attitude. A criticism here is that Frankl's ideas failed to take into account the social context in which we live where in reality individuality is influenced by society where change and progress is synonymous with autonomy.

Continuing on from Frankl's idea of personal agency bringing about change was the work of Abraham Maslow and Carl Rogers. Maslow's idea was that certain needs require meeting before self-actualisation can be realised. Maslow's theory of motivation (1954/

1987) suggested that in order to become what one is capable of becoming needs have to be met. His hierarchy of needs theory suggests that a physical need is related to survival and consists of basic requirements for food, drink, warmth, sleep and sex, and is the first step to self-actualisation. This is followed by the need for safety being met, safety in this case being physical, economic and psychological security. If these needs are met then a need for love, belonging and affection through intimacy is the next step followed by the need for self esteem which is a requirement for competency, adequacy, self-respect and respect from others. Once these needs are met self-actualisation is reached. Maslow indicated that needs are not always defined and an analysis of self-actualisation was conducted by him with a sample of people most of whom were over sixty years old. From this he deduced that self-actualisation develops with maturity and concluded that the potential for personal growth comes from making a choice rather than remaining with the safe option thereby realising the possibility of peak experiences.

Carl Rogers has been the most significant figure in humanistic psychology and he developed his theory of personality using three main concepts. He refers to the term “organism” as an organised, whole individual, emphasising concepts of drive and motivation. The phenomenological field, referred to earlier, Rogers refers to as a person’s life experiences including those which are unconscious. He stressed that self-awareness of the person on a conscious level is the most important and best way to work in understanding behaviour by making reference to the internal framework. The third concept is that of the self, when there is a development of the I and the Me. The self develops from childhood experiences of what we can or cannot do, does or does not like and what is enjoyed or disliked doing and by evaluation of the self by other’s who are significant in one’s life, for example parents and teachers, employers and counsellors. Positive regard by these significant others is often conditional except in the case of counsellor. Rogers indicated that it is more appropriate to help one realise that it is okay to have feelings of anger and jealousy but it is not okay to act on those feelings because of the resultant damage that behaviour might cause.

Maslow and Rogers both believed that self-actualisation is the core to development of the self and that restoring a person to his full potential requires a form of non-directive counselling which enables the person to realise and bring out feelings repressed from childhood. By offering a safe environment and unconditional positive regard the person can develop their real sense of self thus enabling them to move on. This form of personal change Rogers calls person-centred. It is experiential, allowing the person to get in touch with their true feelings. Personal change is therefore seen as the result of being given therapeutic space where repressed feelings are allowed out into the open. Unconditional positive regard enables the person to move on and get in touch with their real feelings.

It can be seen that the phenomenological perspective is approached in the form of a philosophical investigation and is not measured but described in terms of meaning

through introspection, reflection and ‘thought experiments’ while the biological approach uses statistical analysis as a method to measure behaviour in order to identify personality changes and a change of one’s self. The phenomenological perspective presents the strongest support for this essay strongly arguing that self-awareness, self-motivation, choice and the capacity to consider alternatives are intrinsic to the human condition of identity and change while the biological perspective submits that people’s identities are largely determined by their personality type and dependent on inherited biological characteristics. We should not overlook the fact that all perspectives have something in common: the biological, social and psychoanalytical stress factors beyond our individual control while the phenomenological emphasises agency and choice.

I believe that all four perspectives can help to account for change and play a part in forming, shaping and reshaping our identities and that, as individuals, we each react differently to the influences placed upon us. All approaches to therapy and counselling have a vocabulary of their own and all theoretical models have explanations and agreed forms of contact, speaking and being which are based on these fundamental values and conventions regulating our social and professional conduct. These do differ between each orientation, school, organisation and individual but this is what makes for the richness of our profession.

The invitation is to participate fully in a frank observation over a lifelong period about our differences in attitudes, beliefs, intentions and actions as our modesty, fearfulness, confusion, need for and fear of recognition and belonging allow. When we embark on a career as a counsellor we embark on the risky journey into our own dark interior and agree to do so in the company of men and women who have also promised to travel alongside in a shared adventure (!) of personal discovery filled with trials and tribulations leading to new and unknown pastures green.

We cannot know in advance who we will become but can only give of ourselves allowing the process of growth to unfold revealing our own unique qualities of strengths and shortcomings. The difference by this time is that we can accept the criticism or praise and work with it rather than against it. Throughout this we continue to be tied up in our own personal webs of the responsibility of jobs, relationships, families, partnerships or communities and we need to ensure our financial and material survival.

Our challenge as counsellors should be to find a workable compromise between attaining the freedom to discover who we are and a secure means of living at the same time placing responsibility on us all to continue working on establishing our personal identity through self-reflection and support of each other along the way.

Our learning through our peers, trainers, tutors, and supervisors will help us identify our own strengths and manage or change our shortcomings. To realise that to give your best requires an inward journey instead of an outward search shows that you possess greater wisdom than most in this day and age. Sometimes, on journeys inward, people run into roadblocks or personal turmoil and where in the past this would have been

seen as self-defeating behaviour, with courage and perseverance, a counsellor embarking on this trip of self-discovery will see it as an opportunity to learn more about themselves which in turn will benefit the client.

BASIC PERSPECTIVE OF PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT

We humans have the power and ability to shape our personalities however we wish. When we develop ourselves to be all that we can be, we contribute to our own, as well as the happiness of others.

The eight perspective of personality psychology can be understood as a framework for observing and measuring various personality responses or patterns. Each perspective offers a different context of a component assumed to contribute to the personality makeup. This text of personality psychologies uses these eight perspectives to help define the uniqueness of each person through attempts to untangle the web of uncertainty that comes with personality approaches. Psychoanalytic perspectives assume that our personality development is influenced by a series or system of unconscious impulses and reactions to equally unconscious drives or desires. There is a heavy sexual element to this perspective. For example, Freud's Oedipus or Electra complex.

Neo-Analytic/Ego perspectives suggest an influence on personality development through internal expectations or masteries (although conscious) that define our behaviours.

Biological perspectives describe the biological components that make us a person as are active in influencing the person's personality. These biological influences are considered to be inherent and individually unique.

Behaviourist perspectives explain the influence of personality through the behavioural reactions to environmental stimulus. A person is conditioned through a series of events that reinforce certain behaviours more than others.

Cognitive perspectives attempt to capture the individual's thoughts and cognitive processes as they react to their world. This perspective uses the human thought as a measure of personality.

Trait perspectives assume that each person is individually constructed of unique sets of skills, traits, and predispositions that create a unique personality.

Humanistic/Existential perspectives use spiritual foundations to understand the need for human's to seek meaning for their life existence. This perspective assumes the posture that human personality needs to purpose their life by defining their meaning in a spiritual capacity.

Interactionist perspectives take an approach to the ongoing dynamics between a person and their environment. This perspective targets the reactions chosen in response to the environment they are a part of.

While each perspective highlights a different and unique approach to understanding the human personality, combining each system can help to more completely understand and describe the multitude of personality potentials. This system offers an array of options for any single personality to develop. Taking into considerations these eight perspectives, a personality psychologist has many areas to observe and measure.

SELF AWARENESS

Self awareness, in the simplest terms, is the discovery of one's own personality. It allows us to discover ourselves; our likes and dislikes, strengths and weaknesses, and our own individuality. John Locke wrote on his much discussed publication entitled "An Essay Concerning Human Understanding," conceptualized consciousness, which according to him determines self identity.

If you want to develop a better personality, one that will help you succeed in life, the first step is to be able to know yourself. If you are conscious about your positive and negative behaviours and traits, you can easily sift through these, and keep the good ones, while getting rid of anything that will hinder you from having the personality you want.

WHAT COMPRISES SELF AWARENESS?

If you want to build a high self esteem and become more confident, you should have a sufficient level of self awareness.

This means you should know these things:

- Your goals in life
- The things and events that make you happy, as well as those that make you sad
- Your strengths and weaknesses
- Your values and beliefs
- Your philosophy in life
- Your achievements and how you attained them
- Your failures and what caused those, as well as what can be done to prevent them
- Your way of relating with others
- Your way of dealing with people, events, and things
- How you see yourself and others

There is a huge difference between being self aware and being selfish. While the latter is all about thinking only of yourself and being greedy, the former is positive because by developing and knowing yourself, you can give more of yourself to other people, which will result in establishing stronger relationships, and at the same time, building your confidence and self esteem.

IMPORTANCE OF SELF AWARENESS

Knowing yourself is essential if you want to change your life for the better. Know where you are good at, and where you need to improve on. With self awareness, it will be easy for you to seek a career in which you can excel in; you can enrich your life because you know in which direction you should go to; you will know what you want, and because of this awareness, you will be a happier person, living the life you want for yourself.

HOW TO DEVELOP SELF AWARENESS

Self awareness can be enhanced through our experiences. We learn from our own mistakes, or even from other people's mistakes. But if you want to get ahead of the game, there are other outlets by which you can develop self awareness. Among these are:

ADHERING TO GOOD VALUES

There are certain values that will help you become more self-aware and these are: humility, honesty, and ambition. If you are humble enough, it will be easier for you to accept your faults and be more willing to accept criticisms and corrections. Honesty allows a person to focus on the things that need to be changed because he is true to himself. Ambition, on the other hand, motivates a person to change because he has high expectations of himself and understands that to meet those expectations; he has to do what needs to be done, including pinpointing his strengths and weaknesses.

USING SELF-HELP BOOKS

You will find a lot of literatures on the Internet which will teach you various ways to be self-aware. In these self-help books are techniques which you can apply to help you be observant of yourself and build insight.

GETTING A LIFE COACH.

There are people who make a living by becoming a mentor to those who need guidance and help to improve self. These professionals know that change and improvement starts with becoming self-aware.

If you are committed enough, and you have the means to hire a life coach, then go ahead. You can only change what you know, and what you do not know, you cannot change.

With this in mind, it is only proper to say that if you want to engage in personality development, you need to start by increasing your self-awareness. This does not happen overnight; in fact, it is a continuous process that you need to go through for as long as necessary.

THE ART OF PERSUASION: 7 TIPS TO SUCCESSFULLY PERSUADE ANYONE

The saying “No man is an island” is an undeniable truth. We need the support and cooperation of other people to help us in reaching our goals. Successful people know that one of the most important abilities to possess is the ability to persuade and influence others.

Here are some hot tips to do this effectively:

- *Enter their world:* Try to put yourself in the other’s shoes and understand the situation from their point of view. Set aside your personal interests and concentrate on them. Ask yourself if you are them, what would you do? What would be your opinion? Then take the appropriate action that would be beneficial to them.
- *Mirror their body language:* People feel comfortable with those who are like them. Copy the person you are trying to create a connection with. Observe how they act, how they speak, and how they think. If they rub their forehead while they think, act like them. If they speak at a clear and slow pace, try to do the same thing. This is called mirroring. In due time, the people you’re mirroring will subconsciously feel more comfortable with you. It’s as if they see themselves in you. Proceed with caution, however. Do not let them be aware that you are copying them. They might interpret it as mockery and you’ll just get into trouble.
- *Be cheerful and nice:* Did your mother tell you to be nice to people? She was right. People like others who brighten up their day. Make a sincere compliment to raise their spirits. Little things like these go a long way to breaking the ice and setting the relationship off to a good start.
- *Be sincere and trustworthy:* Make them feel that whenever they need help or just someone to look up to, you’ll always be there to lend a hand. People tend to be more receptive to those they trust. If you have a boss or client you are trying to please, over deliver and exceed their expectations. Soon, they will notice your efforts and will be more than glad to grant your request.
- *Provide them with compelling evidence:* Explain to them how your ideas or suggestions could be the most effective techniques to implement. Show them undeniable proof that you have the best product by way of testimonials, before and after scenarios, and detailed comparisons against your competitors. Just make sure that all your claims are true and verifiable. Always maintain a good reputation.
- *Show them “what’s in it for them”:* This is the most important thing to remember when persuading anyone. People are self-centred. They always put their own well-being before others. No matter how close you are to becoming like them or how overwhelming your evidence is, if it does not satisfy the “What’s In It

For Me?” test, your persuasion efforts will not produce satisfactory results. If you can prove that your proposal will provide more advantageous benefits to them than to you, they are more likely to accept it.

- *Genuinely care for them:* Focus more on their interests, desires, needs, and expectations, so you can satisfy their craving for attention, and establish mutual trust and respect. It also shows that you really care about them and that will make them more likely to trust you and want to work with you.

LIVING IN THE MOMENT

To live in the moment, or now, means being conscious, aware and in the present with all of your senses. It means not dwelling on the past, nor being anxious or worrying about the future. When we concentrate our attention on the present we focus on the task at hand. We give our full attention to what we are doing and we let go of outcomes.

Seizing each moment in life allows us to prolong its value and make it more meaningful. Rather than seeking quantity of time, when we live in the moment we enjoy and savor every minute. We don't sacrifice quality for quantity. Of course, this doesn't mean we don't need to plan, set goals or prepare for the future. We can do all of these things and still enjoy each moment as it unfolds.

For instance, if we have set a goal to exercise each day, we would carry on with it while enjoying the actual process, or moment, of exercising (or at least be *in* the moment of it). When we train ourselves to live in each moment, we immerse ourselves in it and begin to discover its beauty and wonder. We learn focus and how to manage our energy. Professional athletes understand and employ this kind of focus very well. They know that accomplishment and success are a result of the skillful management and balancing of energy. To make every moment count we must embrace it. Everything we do and every person we come in contact with deserves our full attention. Even when resting we should savor the moment. It gives us the opportunity to recharge, renew and gain clarity. Quite often we put huge expectations on ourselves and our lives. We rush to do this, hurry up with that, without actually enjoying the process. What's the rush? Where do we think we're going?

If we don't stop and think about where we're at, we're probably missing the point. Instead, when we appreciate each moment and garner the lessons from it, we live consciously, purposefully and responsibly. Likewise, when we live in the past and don't let go of painful experiences, perceived wrongs, or difficult times, we condemn ourselves to a present and future of the same. We cannot change the past. We can, however, come to terms with it, know that it's over, and move on. Living in the moment means letting go of the past and trusting in the future. When we are positive and optimistic in the present, we open the possibility of a positive and promising future. We owe it to ourselves to make every moment count-now!

TIPS FOR LIVING IN THE MOMENT

- Train your mind to focus on the current activity.
- Engage in, and feel what you are doing. Enjoy the process.
- Learn relaxation techniques in order to be present in each moment.
- Take notice of your surroundings-sights, sounds, smells, and ambiance.
- Listen attentively to the conversation of others, music, even silence.
- Savor your food and drink. Taste each morsel.

BENEFITS OF LIVING IN THE MOMENT

- You become more connected with your thoughts and feelings
- Are more connected to others
- Feel more gratitude and enjoyment of life
- If you live in the moment, it won't pass you by
- Feel more focused, peaceful and alive
- Feel less anxious and fearful

Like all skills, training yourself to enjoy and live in the moment takes time and practice. Begin now and see life from a fresh, new perspective. *Carpe diem!*

ONLINE COUNSELLING

Internet has been a boon especially to offer seamless technology benefits. This is effective to make communication ongoing, reachable and above all improve accessibility. Simple surfing on the net helps us in exploring a plethora of opportunities in lifestyle, education and ideas. There are several forums and communities that conduct online counseling and this is a great relief for people who are faced with a problem of time.

Marriage counseling is also done online with the help of an expert person who also gives you an opportunity in expressing your expectations in matrimony. Education online counseling is available for covering various views. A simple registration allows you to login into the site and seek newsletters, views, new areas and specific courses that is recommended by the counselors. You can also express your concerns to receive an opinion from the education counselor with the association.

NGO's and other charitable associations also help in solving problems that seem social in nature. This can be conflicts within a family, marriage counseling, abuse ending or also overcoming addictions. Other associations also offer counseling free of charge in the online category to solve depression, loneliness and other confusing conflicts.

Several diet management companies also suggest weight loss therapy that enhances your confidence. The advice given online has to be communicated with your personal doctor and family to seek a confident vote. This is imperative before embarking on a diet programme. Online workshops and games also boost the confidence and personality of a person that helps a person link himself with the counselor to seek an unprejudiced

opinion. Online counseling courses are also available for people who are already in jobs or who wish to acquire additional diplomas or degrees. A choice can be made to decide the stream of counseling which are economical and cost effective. There are online sessions, theoretical applications and ready references which are also guided by the educational counselor online.

We all jump at the opportunity to ride the roller coaster at the park. Similarly life is much about achievements, partnerships and above all maintaining relationships. All things in life are subject to change and yes change is the only thing that remains constant. Gradual changes in our personality is totally because of our lifestyle and shift in focus. Similarly people around also adjust to change which we imbibe as their shift in attitude.

Relationship counseling is gaining importance everywhere. We marry for love and companionship and yet there are some differences with our spouse which we fail to understand. Most of the relationship problems are owing to difference of opinion or overlooking the other person's objectives in life. Increasing pressure to perform well at work and other social needs builds stress and a counselor gives us an impartial view to help us overcome even minor relationship stress factors.

Benign wounds usually crop up as irritation in a marriage. The quality of any relationship is based on making time and building a good rapport with the other person. Before the stage of irreconcilable differences is reached, counselors help us cope with the destructive behaviour mostly taken up by couples. Recognizing the problem, elaborating the corrective procedure is a part of the therapy.

A counselor is a professional and though there are differences or blame game associated in relations they have an impartial view wherein they refuse to take sides. Constant reinforcement of the presence of love, kindness and the need to retain effective communication is the service of the counselor. Often people approach the counselor for minor miscommunication whereas certain couples have acute problems related to illness, depression and other personal relationship problems. Narrowing down the difference is the joint effort of the counselor and couples. Several communities and religions offer free counseling to guide relationships towards better communication.

PACKAGING PERSONALITY: ERA OF PACKAGING

A packaged personality contains charming appearance, good dress sense, attractive hair dressing, appealing gait, nice hand shake, confident look, fine style of speaking, informative conversation etc. A packaged personality is your strongest winning edge in career-building. Modern corporate world revolves round packaged personalities in this era of packaging. Even the quality products with bad packaging disappear from the market fast. Although too much emphasis is being given to packaging in modern world (many times you see that packaging seems costlier than the actual product) yet preference to better packaging is not a new phenomenon.

HUMAN PSYCHOLOGY

Packaging is important whatever it is: a product or a human being. It is human psychology to get under the influence of visual images. And we often see humans through the spectacles of images. When a person sees two girls—one beautiful and other ugly, his mind wants to prefer the beautiful one and look out for more characteristic traits in her. At first our mind wants to ignore the ugly one even if she has better characteristic traits. That is the only reason that most of the people run for charming brides. It is also a fact that ultimately traits win over beauty. But first impression of a packaged personality has an impact that can't be ignored. Food served by a good-looking girl is always tasted better.

RESEARCH PROVES IT TOO

Many researches have been conducted on its influence on employers, interview boards or other people. And they all affirm the great value of a packaged personality. In a recent study conducted by International College of Business Solutions it was found that almost 85% recruitments are finalised under the influence of packaged personality of the candidates. It doesn't mean that interview boards neglect skills. But a packaged personality is the first visual impact and skills are filtered through this impact. Only in 15% cases job skills are given more value than the personality; and that is mainly in high level jobs of management or administration.

WHAT TO DO

What can you do to improve your personality? An attractively packaged personality will increase your chances of success by almost 500%. Incredible. Then what are you thinking? Go for it.

- Keep a large sized mirror at home to see your outlook now and then. See plus and minus points of your personality (everybody has minus points so don't take them seriously or get any inferiority complex). First see if any change in your hairstyle can enhance your attraction. You can even support a moustache or beard if needed. A youngman Upendra, from a rural area, wanted to get job in the city. His improvement was slow. He was advised by his trainer to stand at the gate of a big company for 15 minutes for three days at the time of office break-up, and study the hair-styles and wearing of young employees. After a few tries and instructions he got the look of a modern city youngman, to supplement whatever intellect he had. Every body in the institute was amazed to see a transformed Upendra. After a few months he got job in a good company.
- Good dress sense has huge value for a person who wants to write a new success story. Success consultants have written large chapters to show it. A good dress not only improves your personality but it also boosts your confidence. Therefore give extra care to your wearing.

- Bathe daily with a good quality soap so that your body smells nicely. Pare your nails regularly. Your clothes should be wrinkle-less, and shoes polished. Women should use matching footwear and other accessories they require according to the demand of the job.
- See yourself in a big mirror: how you look while walking. Take the assistance of your friends too if required to improve your gait. Especially ladies do need to give attention to it. Their fine gait always leaves an impact.
- Whenever you shake hand with someone show a friendly warmth. A handshake should never be too loose or too firm. A loose handshake means you are not interested. If it is too firm it is repelling. And do not try to shake hand with your employers or the members of interview boards. A handshake is friendly while employers and interview board members like to keep a healthy distance. In case they themselves extend the hand then it is OK. But go for only a soft and respectful handshake.
- Confidence building is the most important aspect of personality development. It is like the spark-plug of a vehicle or the light in a well-furnished but dark room. Confidence enlightens your personality. It oozes out of your appearance and engulfs other people. To give it a strong boost improve your self-image, use affirmations and shine your skills.
- Good speaking and writing ability plays a very important role in giving an impetus to your personality. Some people acquire it naturally from a supportive family atmosphere and academic education. Others have to join a good institute to learn the art of effective writing and fluent speaking.
- Lack of general knowledge is also considered a serious handicap on your way to a successful career-building. While talking to others if you show a 'know-nothing' attitude you will ruin the initial good impression. So get a good basic general knowledge of the important things in life. Your good source can be newspapers and TV (if used in moderation).

Packaged to kill, a personality can do wonders-watch it happening. Good luck !!

“Personality is to a man what perfume is to a flower.”

- Charles M. Schwab

IMPORTANCE OF PERSONAL DEVELOPMENT

Personal development can never lose its charm till there is human race on this earth. It is a highly competitive world and without learning the art of personal development we may lag behind. It becomes very difficult to make much progress in life. Read biography or autobiography of any successful person you will find that desire for personal development is behind every success story. Without shining the traits of your personality you can't achieve much in any field.

Many persons ignore the importance of personal development, thus they are unable to compete positively and successfully. Luck is made only by those persons who read on personal development regularly and always try their best to improve themselves. You know the techniques and the art that can help you progress faster than others, or your competitors.

SET GOALS

It is the first step towards personal development for success. It has been found that only 1% of the people set goals, and most of them are small or short-term. Percentage of people setting big or long term goal is very low. So as soon as you set your goals (whatever they may be) you come in the top 1% who have more chances of success in life.

ACTION PLAN

Setting a goal won't help you much till you decide to take action and write-down a plan to achieve them. Then move ahead with small steps, one action at a time. You will definitely move towards the achievement of your goals.

BE READY TO WORK HARD

Achievement demands hard work in discipline according to your plan. You should be ready to sacrifice some other pleasures, like gossiping, too much watching of TV, indulging in unnecessary SMS or social networking etc. Hard work with an eye on your goals is an essential element.

GET INFORMATION

Develop a hunger for information. Read and watch for getting information that can help you develop further and achieve your goal faster. Be the master of your field.

RIGHT CIRCLE OF PEOPLE

You need to surround yourself with the people who boost your passion for personal development and progress. Start keeping a distance with those persons who drag you down or sap your emotional energy. They will never allow you to move faster or develop concentration.

TIME FOR PERSONAL DEVELOPMENT ARTICLES

How much time do you really need to read on personal development? It depends on the goals of a person. The more ambitious you are the more you need to study personal development. You need at least half an hour everyday or one hour thrice a week. Although every human needs to work on personal development yet the persons having a desire for big success need it more.

PASSION, COMFORT ZONE AND ACHIEVING GOALS

ACTION PLAN

Life is great if you are ready to live it the way it comes. But it should be definitely aligned with your life goal. If you fail to do it and lack discipline the life may be a failure for you and it may be boring most of the times.

DISCIPLINE

Army discipline is necessary in case your goals are big and they demand a lot of innovation, delegation and hard work. Without it you won't be able to achieve your goals.

PASSION

Passion plays an important role in achieving goals. When the passion engulfs you don't even need discipline because you are already working day and night and constantly thinking how to work faster and better according to your passion. Still, passion needs to be guided with discipline. Now and then it may be beneficial to break the regimen of discipline and go with the flow of your passion, but, to perform and achieve quickly you need strict discipline too (most of the times). Otherwise, sheer passion may mislead you many times and you won't be able to do urgent works without which goals achievement may not be possible.

COMFORT ZONE

Slavery of passion can also lead you into the prison of comfort zone. Till you adopt out of the box approach you can not find new ways to progress. You need to be hard with yourself, to come out of your slavery with small steps. People become addicted to their comfort zones, thus fail to compete hard or achieve much in life. Such people are neither successful business managers nor successful political leaders. It is also necessary to work in your comfort zone now and then to pacify your child personality. But be adventurous, take calculated risk and jump out of it often. It will sharpen your mental faculties as well as fighting skills.

BE A FIGHTER

You need to be a vigorous fighter to pave your way to hit the target. People or your own relations may not like you to be very successful. It hurts their ego. They would like to drag you down as much they are able to. But you need to be very tough and learn to fight the opposition with a merciless heart. Ultimately, when you become a winner, you are feared and loved. And victory rarely comes without working hard for it-shrewdly, diplomatically and hard-heartedly.

PERSONAL GROOMING AND SOCIAL ETIQUETTE-IMPROVING PERSONAL IMAGE AND DEVELOPING SELF CONFIDENCE

In today's world of globalization and highly competitive business world, success is not just about academic accomplishments, technical skills and experience. Your self confidence in expressing your attitude, competence, credibility, professionalism and status together with a good self esteem and self image of yourself is extremely vital in giving you that extra edge when it matters most. Therefore, developing your self confidence and self esteem by improving your personal image through good personal grooming and social etiquette can help you compete successful in this highly competitive environment.

You will be pleasantly surprised how much you will be able to improve your self confidence and self esteem simply by projecting a good personal image and social etiquette.

Consequently, you will find yourself better able to successfully influence other people's perceptions of you.

It will certainly help your cause to project the right visual image and behavioural etiquette by adopting the following advice:

- Always look well groomed as this is the first thing that people will notice. For men, you should avoid the unshaven look and for the ladies, appropriate make-up to enhance your look will make a world of difference.
- Do dress well to project your personality and professionalism. You should invest in better quality clothes that you can afford which look and feel better. Do bear in mind that price is not always an indication of quality. Instead check on the craftsmanship and the fabric used. Image consultant have also emphasize that the colour of your clothing should match your make-up and accessories to enhance your appearance.
- The right hairstyle to suit your face and lifestyle is just as important to give you that polished and positive professional look. Do avoid the greasy and messy hairstyle.
- Pick up and educate yourself on good manners and the right etiquette. Acceptable behaviours are essential soft skills that you need to acquired in the social and business setting.
- The right body language is another soft skill that you must educate yourself. The right positive body language can effectively make you appear more approachable, confident and professional.
- Lastly, and needless to say, do not forget to smile. A sincere and genuine smile can help to break the ice and barrier when meeting and greeting someone for the first time.

It may require you to make a small investment of your money and time in developing your personal image through proper grooming and social etiquette especially if you require the services and advice of an image consultant. Your investment will also include changing your wardrobe and hairstyle, but remember that the end result may be well worth the effort. The projection of well groomed and well mannered personality will not only help you in the advancement of your business career but also help in improving your self confidence and self esteem that is so important in your daily social and working life.

COUNSELLING SERVICES AND PSYCHOLOGICAL COUNSELLING OF PERSONALITY

More and more people are emotional, stress, anxiety problems, or the face of marriage, parenting and family issues, wish to seek professional counseling assistance, but often found in the search process to provide guidance counselling services of the institutions are not high charges, it is necessary for a long time waiting, not sure that a therapist can meet their own needs, so that those who need counseling deterred. In the past few years, the purpose of serving the centre recognized the general public, the use of the increasing number of the centre, we have now increased to 15 therapists with different expertise, including clinical psychologists, counselors, marriage and family therapists, children's play therapist, psychotherapist, and we will continue to expand the scope of services to meet the needs of different clients, and to ensure that service users receive psychological counseling as soon as possible Counselling Services.

Psychological counselling services include: Children and emotional therapy, marriage and family counseling, clinical supervision, psychological and personality assessments, intelligence (IQ) assessment, forensic assessment, workshops-mainly as for parents, business executives and education workers, personal development coach, group therapy. 1. Individual psychotherapy: post-traumatic stress disorder, social phobia, generalized anxiety disorder, personality disorders, mood disorders such as depression, panic fear, etc., personal growth, the shadow of childhood, family harmony, pre-marital counseling and more.

Psychological counselling services to deal with issues such as emotional and psychological distress, depression, anxiety, addiction, sexual problems; love, marriage, and family problems, premarital fear, young people rebel, mid-life crisis, empty nest difficult-laws problems, beset the elderly; violence, abuse, career and family change, natural disasters related to traumatic stress, work stress and interpersonal problems... and so on.

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Index

A

Accomplish 114, 115, 301, 302, 303, 339, 346
Aggression 180, 196, 262, 263
Alderfer's 157
Ambivalence 250, 251, 252, 253
Analysis 159, 160, 164, 168, 222, 223, 230, 231, 239, 240, 241, 242, 244, 308, 323
Approachable 276, 346
Archiving Knowledge 39
Associative Learning 70
Assumption 100, 108, 111, 114, 208, 210, 211
Assumptions 100, 108, 111, 201, 206, 208, 211, 285, 287

B

Barriers 106, 111, 115, 116
Biopsychological 168
Bipolarity 247
Boredom 182, 183
Brilliance 304

C

Call 103
Certifying Accuracy – Truth vs. Untruth 38
Changing Revenue Streams 45

Cognitive 79, 153, 154, 155, 156, 165, 166, 233, 238, 239, 240, 243, 245, 249, 250, 251, 252, 253, 254, 256, 257, 258, 259, 283, 284, 285, 286, 287, 288

Cognitive Load 133

Communication 117, 118, 119, 120, 121, 122, 123, 124, 125, 126, 127, 128, 129, 130, 172, 173, 177, 178, 179, 191, 197, 198, 199, 219, 220, 225, 226, 227

Communication Competence 117, 118, 119, 120, 121, 122, 123, 124, 125, 126, 127, 128, 129, 130

Compatible 287

Conceptualizing Communication 117

Confidence-Based Learning 39

Congruent 176, 177, 196

D

Data Analysis 122

Defining the New, New Era in Learning 39

Deliberate 177, 178, 183, 196

Deliberately 102, 103

Democratic 313, 314, 318, 319, 320

Domains 232, 234, 240, 241, 242, 257

Domains of Learning 74

Dominant 179, 186, 187, 188, 192, 195

Dyslexia 284

E

E-learning and Augmented Learning 72

Eight Driving Forces 29

Embarrassing 200, 205

Epistemological 284

Etiquette 346, 347

Evolutionary 170, 238

Exaggerated 181, 192

Expanding Gulf Between Literates and Super-Literat 33

Expectancy 150

Exploit 223

Exponential Growth of Information 31

Extrinsic 150, 154, 157

F

Facilitate 287

Flexibility 208, 299

Formal Learning 73
Further Analysis 123

G

Gaze 177, 180, 182, 188, 190, 194
Genetic 160, 161, 165, 168, 169, 170, 173, 230, 247
Gestures 173, 176, 181, 191, 193, 194, 195, 196, 197, 200
Gradual 284
Grooming 208, 346, 347

H

Habituation 70, 71
Herzberg's 149, 157
Hierarchy 149, 156, 157
Hiring Decisions 224
Hypotheses 225, 226

I

Indigenous 78, 80, 81
Individual 319, 320, 322, 325
Influence 51, 54, 59, 178, 199, 200
Informal Learning 73
Intellectual 51, 159, 230
Interactions 119, 127, 129
Interpersonal Skills 130, 131, 132, 133
Interpretations 176
Interrogation 197, 206
Intrinsic 151, 285, 286, 288

J

Jeopardize 154
Job-finding Success 226

L

Laziness 206
Learning Camps 44
Learning Drivers 34
Learning Outcomes 133
Lessons from the Ancient World 28
Linguistics 222, 223

M

Mass Communication 225, 227
Meager 230, 235
Mediated 154
Metacognition 288
Methodology 313, 314
Mnemonics 286
Model presentation 133
Modeling Training 131, 132
Motivation 231, 236, 237, 240, 245, 246
Motivation Theory 139
Motivational 153, 154, 156
Multimedia Learning 72
Mumbling 204

N

Necessity 73
Neuroticism 331
Non-formal Learning 73
Non-formal Learning and Combined Approaches 73
Nonverbal Communication 48

O

Observational Learning 72
Organizational Characteristics 119, 120, 125
Orientations 320, 322

P

Parallel 176, 177, 191
Paraphrasing 182
Personal Identity 141
Perspective 154, 156, 314
Persuading 184, 185
Persuasion 109, 338, 339
Presentation Formats 133
Priming the Pump 43
Psychology 159, 164, 165, 166, 167, 168, 170, 218, 219, 229, 230, 231, 237, 239, 245, 248, 249
Public Speaking 118
Pupil 194, 196, 197

Q

Questionnaire 321
Questionnaires 120, 121, 122, 130, 227

R

Rebellious 202
Recognition 219
Reinforcing 154
Research Questions 119, 225, 226
Retrieved 286
Rote Learning 73
Rubbing 173, 189

S

Scale Development 120
Sensitization 70, 71
Simple Non-associative Learning 70
Skills Training 130, 131, 132, 133
Soft Skills 130
Subordinates 103, 187, 203
Subsequently 286
Sudbury 148, 149
Sufficiency 242
Superiority 187, 188
Supplicating 191

T

Tangential 74
Tangential Learning 74
Territorial 174, 175, 186, 187
Thai Societal 127
The After Effects 44
Training Program 132, 133
Traits 158, 159, 160, 161, 165, 167, 169, 170, 229, 230, 231, 232, 233, 234, 235, 236, 237, 238, 242, 259

U

Understanding the System Entry-Point 42
Unlimited Shelf Space 37

V

Versus 161, 241, 243, 245, 246, 247, 256, 257, 259

Vocabulary 112, 305, 334

Vulnerability 185, 195

Vulnerable 195

W

Westernized 148